

WHY ELECTORAL INTEGRITY MATTERS

PIPPA NORRIS





Digitized by the Internet Archive
in 2021 with funding from
Kahle/Austin Foundation

Why Electoral Integrity Matters

This book is the first in a planned trilogy by Pippa Norris on Challenges of Electoral Integrity to be published by Cambridge University Press.

Unfortunately, too often elections around the globe are deeply flawed or even fail. Why does this matter? It is widely suspected that such contests will undermine confidence in elected authorities, damage voting turnout, trigger protests, exacerbate conflict, and occasionally lead to regime change. Well-run elections, by themselves, are insufficient for successful transitions to democracy. But flawed, or even failed, contests are thought to wreck fragile progress. Is there good evidence for these claims? Under what circumstances do failed elections undermine legitimacy? With a global perspective, using new sources of data for mass and elite evidence, this book provides fresh insights into these major issues.

Pippa Norris is the McGuire Lecturer in Comparative Politics at the John F. Kennedy School of Government, Harvard University, and Laureate Fellow and Professor of Government and International Relations at the University of Sydney. She directs the Electoral Integrity Project (www.electoralintegrityproject.com). Her work compares democracy and democratization, elections and public opinion, gender politics, and political communications. Recent companion volumes by this award-winning author, also published by Cambridge University Press, include *Driving Democracy* (2008), *Cosmopolitan Communications* (2009), *Democratic Deficit* (2011), and *Making Democratic Governance Work* (2012). In 2011, she was awarded the Skytte Prize and the Kathleen Fitzpatrick Australian Laureate. In 2014, she was awarded the IPSA 2014 Karl Deutsch Award.

Also from Cambridge University Press by the Author

Political Recruitment: Gender, Race and Class in the British Parliament, Pippa Norris and Joni Lovenduski (1995)

Passages to Power: Legislative Recruitment in Advanced Democracies, Pippa Norris, Ed. (1997)

A Virtuous Circle: Political Communications in Post-Industrial Democracies, Pippa Norris (2000) (awarded the 2006 Doris Graber award by APSA's political communications section)

Digital Divide: Civic Engagement, Information Poverty, and the Internet Worldwide, Pippa Norris (2001)

Democratic Phoenix: Reinventing Political Activism, Pippa Norris (2002)

Rising Tide: Gender Equality and Cultural Change around the World, Ronald Inglehart and Pippa Norris (2003)

Sacred and Secular: Politics and Religion Worldwide, Pippa Norris and Ronald Inglehart (2004) (awarded the 2005 Virginia A. Hodgkinson prize by the Independent Sector)

Electoral Engineering: Voting Rules and Political Behavior, Pippa Norris (2004)

Radical Right: Voters and Parties in the Electoral Market, Pippa Norris (2005)

Driving Democracy: Do Power-Sharing Institutions Work? Pippa Norris (2008)

Cosmopolitan Communications: Cultural Diversity in a Globalized World, Pippa Norris and Ronald Inglehart (2009)

Sacred and Secular: Politics and Religion Worldwide, 2nd edition, Pippa Norris and Ronald Inglehart (2011)

Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited, Pippa Norris (2011)

Making Democratic Governance Work: How Regimes Shape Prosperity, Welfare, and Peace, Pippa Norris (2012)

Why Electoral Integrity Matters

PIPPA NORRIS

Harvard University and University of Sydney



CAMBRIDGE
UNIVERSITY PRESS

CAMBRIDGE
UNIVERSITY PRESS

32 Avenue of the Americas, New York, NY 10013-2473, USA

Cambridge University Press is part of the University of Cambridge.

It furthers the University's mission by disseminating knowledge in the pursuit of education, learning, and research at the highest international levels of excellence.

www.cambridge.org

Information on this title: www.cambridge.org/9781107684706

© Pippa Norris 2014

This publication is in copyright. Subject to statutory exception and to the provisions of relevant collective licensing agreements, no reproduction of any part may take place without the written permission of Cambridge University Press.

First published 2014

Printed in the United States of America

A catalog record for this publication is available from the British Library.

Library of Congress Cataloging in Publication data

Norris, Pippa.

Why electoral integrity matters / Pippa Norris, Harvard University and University of Sydney.
pages cm

Includes bibliographical references and index.

ISBN 978-1-107-05280-2 (hardback) – ISBN 978-1-107-68470-6 (paperback)

1. Elections – Management. 2. Elections – Corrupt practices. 3. Election monitoring. 4. Legitimacy of governments. 5. Representative government and representation. I. Title.

JF1001.N673 2014

324.6–dc23 2014002251

ISBN 978-1-107-05280-2 Hardback

ISBN 978-1-107-68470-6 Paperback

Cambridge University Press has no responsibility for the persistence or accuracy of URLs for external or third-party Internet Web sites referred to in this publication and does not guarantee that any content on such Web sites is, or will remain, accurate or appropriate.

Contents

<i>List of Figures</i>	page vii
<i>List of Tables</i>	ix
<i>Preface and Acknowledgments</i>	xi
PART I INTRODUCTION	
1. Theories Why Electoral Integrity Matters	3
2. The Concept of Electoral Integrity	21
3. Evidence	40
PART II THE PROBLEM OF FLAWED ELECTIONS	
4. International Concern about Electoral Malpractices	75
5. Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity	91
PART III THE CONSEQUENCES OF ELECTORAL INTEGRITY	
6. For Legitimacy	113
7. For Political Behavior	133
8. For Conflict and Security	145
9. For Regimes	169
PART IV CONCLUSIONS	
10. Conclusions: Strengthening Electoral Integrity	191
<i>Technical Appendix A: Description of Variables and Scale Construction</i>	207
<i>Technical Appendix B: Questions in the Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity</i>	213

<i>Technical Appendix C: Electoral Context and Background in the Selected Cases</i>	215
<i>Notes</i>	225
<i>Select Bibliography</i>	267
<i>Index</i>	289

Figures

1.1. The core model of electoral integrity	<i>page</i> 11
2.1. The three stages of global norm diffusion	27
2.2. The electoral cycle	34
3.1. The congruence of expert evaluations of elections in the early 2000s	58
3.2. The congruence of expert evaluations of elections and democracy	59
3.3. The WVS survey items measuring components in the cycle of electoral integrity	65
4.1. Rising news headlines about electoral fraud, major world publications, 1990–2012	77
4.2. The growing number of elected national legislatures, 1815–2007	79
4.3. The growing number of elected national executives, 1815–2007	80
4.4. Incidence of electoral malpractices	83
5.1. Public and expert evaluations of electoral integrity	101
5.2. Correlations of public perceptions of electoral integrity with liberal democracy	102
5.3. Congruence of public and expert perceptions of electoral integrity	107
5.4. The importance of honest elections	109
6.1. Electoral integrity strengthens confidence in elected institutions	122
6.2. Electoral integrity increases satisfaction with the performance of democracy	123
6.3. Electoral malpractices decrease voluntary legal compliance	124
6.4. The winners–losers gap in perceptions of electoral malpractice	128
7.1. Electoral integrity strengthens voting participation	138
7.2. Electoral malpractices strengthen protest activism	139

8.1. Trends in electoral violence, 1945–2010	158
8.2. World map of electoral violence	160
8.3. The regional distribution of electoral violence	161
8.4. Electoral malpractices and electoral violence	161
8.5. Election violence by levels of autocracy and democracy	162
9.1. Comparing electoral integrity in the United States and the Netherlands	178
9.2. Comparing electoral integrity in Ukraine and Georgia	187
10.1. The menu of policy options strengthening electoral integrity	201
10.2. The growing role of the international community in electoral observer missions	201

Tables

2.1. Extract from the UN General Assembly Resolution 63/163 on Democratization and Elections	<i>page 25</i>
3.1. Expert Indices Monitoring the Quality of Elections in Cross- National Projects	43
3.2. Assessing the Strengths and Weaknesses of Alternative Expert Indicators of Electoral Integrity	47
3.3. Congruence Among the Expert Indices of Electoral Integrity, Cross-National Data	57
3.4. Congruence Among the Expert Indices of Electoral Integrity, Cross-National Time-Series Data	60
3.5. Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity Measured in Cross- National Social Surveys	62
3.6. Dimensions of Survey Items	67
3.7. Correlations Among Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity	67
4.1. Problems of Electoral Integrity	84
5.1. Congruence Among Public and Expert Perceptions of Electoral Integrity	99
5.2. Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity and Malpractice	105
5.3. Factors Contributing to Accurate Awareness of Electoral Integrity	108
6.1. Electoral Integrity Strengthens Political Legitimacy	125
6.2. Components of Electoral Integrity and System Support	129
7.1. Electoral Integrity Strengthens Voting Participation	140
7.2. Electoral Malpractices Strengthen Protest Activism	142
7.3. Components of Electoral Integrity and Political Activism	143
8.1. Malpractices Associated with Electoral Violence	164

Preface and Acknowledgments

This book is the first of a planned trilogy on the challenges of electoral integrity around the world, including why it matters, why electoral integrity fails, and what can be done to address these problems. The study is part of the Electoral Integrity Project (EIP), a six-year research project generously funded by the Australian Research Council's Laureate Award as well as the support of many other agencies and partners. Work on the project started in June 2012, with the official launch workshop held in Madrid, in conjunction with the International Political Science Association World Congress.

The EIP project is located in the Department of Government and International Relations at the University of Sydney. I am deeply indebted to Graeme Gill, Duncan Ivison, Allan McConnell, Michael Spence, and Simon Tormey for facilitating the arrangement and generously hosting the project, as well as to all colleagues in the department. The book would not have been possible without the research team at Sydney, who have played an essential role in stimulating ideas, providing critical feedback and advice, generating related publications, and organizing events, especially developing the Perception of Electoral Integrity (PEI) dataset. I owe an immense debt to Dr. Richard W. Frank, the project manager and research Fellow; Dr. Ferran Martinez I Coma, research Fellow and manager of PEI; and Max Grömping and Sandra Urquiza who helped with research on the project as they pursued their doctoral studies.

My research has also been deeply influenced by discussions with many colleagues at the University of Sydney's Department of Government and International Relations and at Harvard's John F. Kennedy School of Government. As always, this book also owes immense debts to many friends and colleagues. In addition to the award of the Kathleen Fitzpatrick Australian Laureate from the Australian Research Council, the project has been supported by grants from International IDEA, and at Harvard by the Weatherhead Center for International Affairs, the Roy and Lila Ash Center for Democratic Governance

and Innovation, and the Australian Studies Committee. The book also draws heavily on the work of the World Values Survey Association, including the sixth release of the data, and I am particularly grateful to Ronald Inglehart and all members of the Executive Committee who facilitated inclusion of the electoral integrity battery in the sixth wave survey. The book has also been shaped by many students who have taken my Harvard classes over the years, where we discuss challenges of electoral integrity, theories of democratization and measures of the quality of democratic governance, and the most effective policy reforms that address these issues.

The intellectual foundations for this study build on my previous research. Earlier books for Cambridge University Press have compared electoral institutions, voting behavior, political culture, and processes of policy reform, including studies about electoral rules (*Electoral Engineering*), value change and societal modernization, public support for democratic principles and practices (*Critical Citizens, Democratic Deficit*), patterns of political engagement and activism (*Democratic Phoenix*), the distribution of religious and secular values (*Sacred and Secular*), women's representation and gender equality (*Rising Tide*), the impact of political communications and new digital technologies (*A Virtuous Circle, Digital Divide, Cosmopolitan Communications*), and the design of power-sharing constitutions (*Driving Democracy*). As the next step, it seems timely and important to turn from analyzing multiple dimensions of elections to addressing some of the potential problems.

This work also arose, as with previous volumes, from experience in directing the work of the democratic governance practice within the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP), which confronted me with the practical challenges of democratic development. I learned a tremendous amount from discussions with UNDP colleagues, and also from collaboration and talks with many other international development agencies on the Electoral Integrity Project, including the Carter Center, the International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES), International IDEA, the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe, the Organization of American States, the Kofi Annan Commission, Global Integrity, the Sunlight Foundation, the National Democratic Institute, USAID, and the UK Electoral Commission.

Part of the original stimulus for developing the project was my awareness and frustration with a growing disconnect between the standard scholarship on elections and voting behavior, nurtured in the conventional comparative laboratory of Western democracies, and the way the world around us has transformed electoral practices during recent decades. While students of democratization, authoritarian regimes, and comparative politics had picked up on new research themes, which challenges conventional thinking, the subfield of elections and voting behavior was lagging behind developments.

Contemporary headlines around the world have reinforced the importance of understanding the issues considered in this book, not least the unfolding back-and-forth developments of the Arab uprisings. These events, like the

transformation of postcommunist Central and Eastern Europe in the early 1990s, were often carried out in the name of promoting democratic elections, although early hopes have been dashed by bloodshed and instability. Elsewhere the outcome of elections that generated street protests in places as diverse as Harare, Moscow, Caracas, Bangkok, and Kuala Lumpur reinforced the notion that we need to understand the source of public discontent and what could be done to address these concerns.

I also appreciate all colleagues and friends who provided encouraging comments about this project during its gestation, including Sarah Birch, David Carroll, Ivor Crewe, Larry Diamond, Jorge Dominguez, Jörgen Elklit, David Ellwood, Graeme Gill, Ben Goldsmith, Thad Hall, Carolien Van Ham, Susan Hyde, John Keane, Alex Keyssar, Larry LeDuc, Margaret Levy, Jane Mansbridge, Ian McAllister, Marc Plattner, Lily Rahim, Ben Reilly, Andy Reynolds, Sidney Verba, and Chad Vickery. I received invaluable feedback from presentations of draft chapters and from the comments of discussants at several international workshops and meetings, including the Madrid pre-IPSA Workshop on Electoral Integrity in June 2012, the Harvard Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity at the Weatherhead Center for International Affairs in June 2013, the American Political Science Association meeting and workshop in Chicago in 2013, and from faculty seminars every semester at Harvard's Kennedy School and the University of Sydney's Department of Government and International Relations annual research retreat. Finally, as always, the support of Cambridge University Press has proved invaluable, particularly the patience, efficient assistance, and continuous enthusiasm of my editor, Lew Bateman, as well as the helpful comments of the reviewers.

PART I

INTRODUCTION

Theories Why Electoral Integrity Matters

Ideally, when elections work well, they can select officeholders and governments, determine policy priorities, link citizens (as principals) with representatives (as agents), generate inclusive legislatures, confer legitimacy on elected authorities, hold leaders to account, and provide the main opportunity for most ordinary people to participate in politics.¹ Unfortunately, too often elections around the globe fail to meet these ideals. In some contests, opponents are excluded from the ballot. Districts are gerrymandered. Campaigns provide a skewed playing field for parties. Independent media are muzzled. Citizens are ill-informed. Electors are threatened by violence. Ballot boxes are stuffed. Vote counts are fiddled. Opposition movements organize boycotts. Incumbents disregard the people's choice. Post-election protests signal public dissatisfaction. Partisan officials abuse state resources. Electoral registers are out of date. Candidates distribute largesse and buy votes. Airwaves favor incumbents. Campaigns are awash with money. Incompetent local officials simply run out of ballot papers. Voting machines break. Lines lengthen. Ballot box seals break. "Secure" ink washes off fingers. Courts fail to resolve complaints impartially. Well-run elections by themselves are insufficient for successful transitions to democracy. But flawed or even failed contests can undoubtedly wreck fragile progress.

In the light of these problems, most attention has often focused on regimes stranded somewhere in the grey middle zone, falling neither into the category of absolute autocracies nor into that of established democracies. In this book, they are designated *electoral autocracies*, although they have also been termed hybrid regimes (Diamond), competitive authoritarian (Levitsky and Way), and electoral authoritarian (Schedler).² Whatever their precise nomenclature, the characteristic feature of this type of regime is that, unlike traditional absolute monarchies, one-party states, military juntas, or personal dictatorships, national legislative offices are filled through multiparty elections. But the rules of the game are

heavily tilted in favor of the incumbents. Flawed contests are exemplified by the Russian State Duma elections in 2007 and 2011, discussed later in Chapter 9, with the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) observer mission reporting numerous irregularities, including ballot stuffing, misuse of state resources, carousel voting, media bias, and lack of impartiality by the election commission, attracting mass protests at home and international headlines abroad.³ Electoral disputes can escalate into major outbreaks of conflict and instability, the focus of Chapter 8, as happened during the second-round 2008 presidential contest in Zimbabwe, when the major opposition leader, Morgan Tsvangirai pulled out, claiming intimidation, vote rigging, and escalating violence by ZANU-PDF and security forces directed against his supporters.⁴ In the most repressive regimes, dissent is brutally suppressed; in Kazakhstan, President Nazarbayev was reelected in April 2011, reportedly with 95 percent of the vote and 90 percent turnout, triggering public protests, clashes with security forces, and the deaths and torture of demonstrators.⁵ Flawed and clumsy attempts at manipulation are also observed; in Azerbaijan's October 2013 presidential election, a full day before voting started, the Central Election Commission's official smartphone app sent out a vote count showing President Ilham Aliyev winning by a landslide (75 percent of the vote).⁶ In the light of such overt violations of human rights, a growing body of research has sought to explain how, when, and why ruling elites in electoral autocracies use repressive acts, fraudulent manipulation, abuse of state resources, and restrictions on party competition to deter rival leaders, reduce domestic threats, and deflect international pressures.⁷

Although much attention has focused on the worst violations occurring in electoral autocracies, a broader perspective quickly recognizes that failed and flawed contests are found around the world under many types of regime. Electoral malpractices can and do occur in newer and in established democracies, with irregularities arising from deliberate acts, from lack of technical capacity and resources, or simply from happenstance. Hence, when he launched the Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security, former UN Secretary General and current Chairman of the Global Commission Kofi Annan stressed that contests can fail for many different reasons:

Building democracy is a complex process. Elections are only a starting point but if their integrity is compromised, so is the legitimacy of democracy. ... Most countries have agreed to principles that would, if respected, lead to credible electoral processes, but too often these principles are ignored because of lack of political commitment, insufficient technical knowledge or inadequate international support⁸

Even democracies with centuries of practice are not immune from serious irregularities. In the United States, this issue is exemplified by the notorious hanging chads in Florida in 2000 and more recent accusations of voter suppression through overzealous identification requirements during the Obama-Romney contest. As discussed later in Chapter 9, during the last decade, Republican-dominated states have sought to implement more restrictive voter registration

requirements.⁹ In 2012, Floridian voters waited for hours to cast their vote – a fact mentioned as an aside in Obama’s victory speech (“By the way, we have to fix that.”) – resulting in a blue-ribbon presidential commission.¹⁰ American campaigns are dominated by money; the Center for Responsive Politics estimates that the 2012 U.S. electoral cycle cost around \$6.3 billion in total, doubling levels of spending since 2000.¹¹ U.S. election spending has been rising by approximately \$1 billion every presidential electoral cycle, far more than the rate of inflation.¹² Despite this, the Supreme Court has supported the deregulation of campaign finance, potentially opening the floodgates of even higher spending. The *Citizen’s United* decision in 2010, which allowed corporations to spend unlimited amounts of money on elections, energized groups seeking to get the Court to overrule state-level public finance laws, soft-money restrictions, and limits on individual contributions.¹³

Among the established democracies, however, the United States is far from alone in experiencing problems of maintaining electoral integrity; to the north, the 2006 Canadian general election saw official investigations of the “In and Out” election spending scandal, and the 2011 contests saw alleged misleading “robocalls” and dirty tricks.¹⁴ In Spain, the Gürtel scandal centers on alleged bribery, money laundering, and tax evasion by the Popular Party over two decades, with accusations of sleaze in party finance infecting several regional governments and the monarchy.¹⁵ In the United Kingdom, despite centuries of experience, reports have documented security vulnerabilities in mail ballots, poor design of ballot papers, occasional miscounts in local elections leading to the wrong declaration of the winner, sporadic fraud by local councilors, failure of electronic voting machines, and lost ballot boxes.¹⁶ Far from benefiting from new technologies and more professional administration, over the last fifty years more and more UK citizens are AWOL from the electoral register.¹⁷ In France, former president Nicholas Sarkozy was under investigation for many months over allegedly receiving illegal contributions from the heiress to the L’Oréal fortune to his 2007 campaign, before these charges were eventually dropped in October 2013.¹⁸ In Germany, scholars have detected systematic irregularities in vote counts for Bundestag elections, especially in states with dominant party control.¹⁹ European countries face new problems pushing at the boundaries of electoral integrity, including contemporary debates about the most appropriate regulation of campaign finance and party funding, the rules governing political broadcasting on television and radio in the era of social media, and potential security flaws associated with the deployment of digital technologies for election administration and internet voting.²⁰

Why Might Flawed Elections Matter?

There is no question that electoral malpractices are widely regarded as *intrinsically* important where they violate obligations, commitments, and principles of democratic elections in universal and regional human rights instruments, as

discussed in Chapter 2. Article 21 in the 1948 Universal Declaration of Human Rights declares that “the will of the people shall be the basis of the authority of government; this will be expressed in periodic and genuine elections which shall be by universal and equal suffrage and shall be held by secret vote or by equivalent free voting procedures,” guaranteeing everyone “the right to take part in the government of his country, directly or through freely chosen representatives.”²¹ These principles have been elaborated and endorsed in a long series of subsequent international treaties and instruments, notably the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights and the International Covenant on Economic, Social and Cultural Rights, which entered into force in 1976.²² Regional instruments recognizing electoral rights include Article 13 of the African Charter on Human and Peoples’ Rights of 1981, Article 23 of the American Convention on Human Rights of 1969, and the 1991 Harare Commonwealth Declaration. The 2002 Venice Commission’s Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters supplements these documents.²³

Through endorsing binding human rights treaties and other instruments, governments have committed themselves to observe a series of legal obligations about the conduct of elections. Nation-states are accountable for implementing and enforcing international treaty obligations, safeguarding standards, and deterring abuse. The detailed legal interpretation of these obligations leaves considerable room for debate in the courts. But few would dispute that fundamental principles of human rights are violated in obvious cases where regular contests are postponed or suspended (e.g., in October 2006, as a result of a military coup in Thailand), the names of opposition candidates are struck from the ballot (such as in the run-up to the 2012 Egyptian presidential election), minority parties are banned (for example, outlawing the Kurdish People’s Democracy Party in 2003 in Turkey),²⁴ or party thugs threaten citizens (as in Zimbabwe in 2008). International development organizations, official monitoring agencies, courts, and transnational networks of civic activists demand an end to first-order abuses of basic electoral rights.

But what are the *instrumental* consequences of electoral integrity? If contests continue to be seriously flawed, or even failed, important problems are suspected to follow for the legitimacy of elected authorities. Despite the ubiquity of this common assumption, the systematic evidence supporting this claim has not been clearly investigated across a range of countries, let alone established. In long-standing democracies such as the United States, Britain, and Canada, it is commonly believed that malpractices and irregularities are likely to corrode citizens’ trust in the electoral process and confidence in democracy, depress voter turnout and civic engagement, and thereby distort political representation.²⁵ These claims have reinforced calls for institutional reforms and better performance standards to strengthen democratic legitimacy.²⁶ Elections can be problematic even in established democracies with centuries of experience. Elsewhere around the world, however, elections are now attempted under highly challenging circumstances, as exemplified by contests in Afghanistan,

the Democratic Republic of Congo, and Myanmar. Elections occur in fragile states where regimes lack deep reservoirs of popular legitimacy, as a routine part of the peacebuilding process restoring states in many war-torn nations, in poor, ethnically diverse and illiterate societies with weak state capacity, and in countries with little or even no collective memories of democratic elections. In these sorts of challenging contexts, flaws – or even failures in elections – are widely believed to have a serious impact, potentially fueling social instability, riots, and violence, undermining fragile gains in democratization, and triggering popular uprisings seeking regime change.²⁷

Whether or not flawed or failed contests do indeed produce these sorts of instrumental consequences needs to be demonstrated with systematic evidence, however, rather than simply assumed *carte blanche*, or patched together based on limited support derived from selected case studies that fit the pattern. Even though this claim reflects the conventional wisdom, the core assumptions are open to challenge on at least two grounds.

First, many scholars adhering to “thicker” and richer notions of democracy have cautioned against overemphasizing competitive elections as both necessary and sufficient conditions for democratization, a process dubbed the “fallacy of electoralism.”²⁸ The strongest and most fundamental critique questions the importance of elections alone, compared with many other institutions of liberal democracy. The emphasis on competitive elections is found among adherents to “thin” Schumpeterian conceptions of democracy, such as the procedure that Alvarez, Cheibub, Limongi, and Przeworski use for classifying democratic and autocratic regimes.²⁹ The notion that competitive elections equal democracy is common not only among scholars; it is also ubiquitous in popular commentary. When journalists reported the overthrow of the Mubarak regime in Egypt, for example, it was often assumed that elections leading to the government of President Morsi were sufficient for the country to become a democracy almost overnight. Elections are indeed essential for democratization, providing opportunities for participation, competition, accountability, and legitimate self-government. Yet the first critique emphasizes that, although a necessary condition, elections alone are insufficient by themselves for successful processes of democratization if other democratic institutions remain poorly consolidated.

Second, a weaker but still important critique questions the importance of electoral *integrity* for processes of democratization. An influential study by Staffan Lindberg argues that, at least in sub-Saharan Africa, it is the *repeated* experience of elections that matters for strengthening processes of democratization and civil liberties, not the *quality* of these contests, measured by whether they are “free and fair.”³⁰ A self-reinforcing mechanism is claimed to work where democratization is reinforced and improved by holding an uninterrupted series of elections, even if they are flawed. If this pattern holds as a robust finding in other global regions, then at least some of the instrumental concerns about the potentially damaging impact of problematic contests may be exaggerated.

Moreover, these critiques have implications for effective policies seeking to strengthen democratic governance. If electoral integrity – or even elections themselves – are not fundamental for strengthening democratization, then it follows that the international community can seek to reallocate some of the resources invested in strengthening electoral integrity for other urgent priorities, including building the capacity of more effective and inclusive independent legislatures with the power to check the executive, independent courts to strengthen rule of law, government agencies to deliver more effective public goods and services, and civil society organizations connecting citizens and the state.

The Concept of Electoral Integrity

To understand why flawed or failed elections matters, we can turn to the notion of *electoral integrity*, a concept advanced in this book and gradually gaining in popular usage as an all-encompassing way to conceptualize many related issues.³¹ Similar notions include negative phrases such as “electoral malpractice,” “flawed elections,” “misconduct,” “manipulated contests,” “rigged” or “stolen” elections, and the popular notion of “electoral fraud.” A parallel range of positive terms are also commonly deployed in diplomatic language, election observer reports, and scholarly studies, where contests are described as “competitive,” “credible,” “acceptable,” “genuine,” “clean,” “democratic,” reflecting the “will of the people” or the standard diplomatic rhetoric of “free and fair.”³²

Some language proves particularly slippery; for instance, Simpson emphasizes problems associated with electoral “manipulation,” using this term to refer to “unacceptable” practices that are intentionally designed to distort the results, exemplified by vote buying, intimidation, and ballot fraud.³³ Strictly speaking, however, every elections is “manipulated,” even in the most democratic states, in the sense that all contain legal mechanisms, vote thresholds, and formula that translate votes into seats, determining winners and losers. What makes some types of manipulation arguably either unacceptable (such as vote buying) or acceptable (such as legal gender quotas) requires a broader normative theory. This is not self-evident. Moreover, many studies concentrate narrowly on blatant acts of fraud occurring on polling day, such as ballot stuffing, false returns, or inaccurate electoral registration. They are all clearly problems, but it is not obvious that these practices are necessarily more serious flaws than more complex issues, such as, for example, systematic imbalance in the campaign airwaves, the abuse of campaign finance regulations to benefit incumbents, legally sanctioned partisan gerrymandering of district boundaries, or restrictive ballot access requirements. Overly narrow definitions of polling day fraud are like so-called crackdowns on crime focusing on nabbing an occasional pickpocket, petty shoplifter, or pot-head smoking dope while turning a blind eye to multimillion-dollar corporate tax evasion and international drug cartels. As discussed in the next chapter, the plethora of concepts in

our language has unfortunately facilitated common misunderstandings, poor measurement, and sloppy thinking.

In this study, as discussed in detail in the next chapter, it is proposed to ground the overarching concept of electoral integrity broadly in terms of international commitments and global norms, endorsed in a series of authoritative conventions, treaties, protocols, and guidelines. These universal standards apply to all countries worldwide throughout the electoral cycle, including during the pre-electoral period, the campaign, on polling day, and in its aftermath. Conversely, the term “electoral malpractice” is used throughout the book to refer to violations of electoral integrity. The electoral cycle is understood as a sequential process broken down into eleven components, ranging from the election laws, electoral procedures, and boundary delimitation to the voting process, vote count, and declaration of results. Like complex links in a chain, violating international standards in any one of the sequential steps undermines principles of electoral integrity.³⁴

But how do we know with any certainty when the chain weakens or even breaks? Contentious elections involve many claims and counterclaims by protagonists, some genuine, others just crying wolf. Sore losers have an incentive to claim fraud, especially in close contests or where they need an excuse for a poor performance.

Observer reports by international missions provide an important source of information for scholars and practitioners. Previous studies have coded these reports to generate systematic indicators comparing the quality of elections around the world.³⁵ As the number of observer organizations has expanded and diversified during the last decade, however, published reports nowadays differ in their evaluations of the same contest, providing little consensus about the outcome.³⁶ In Azerbaijan’s 2013 presidential election, for example, President Ilham Aliyev won a third five-year term by securing a reported 84.6 percent of the vote, while the nearest challenger, Jamil Hasanli, won a miserable 5.5 percent. The observer mission from the OSCE reported blatant irregularities:

The 9 October election was undermined by limitations on the freedoms of expression, assembly, and association that did not guarantee a level playing field for candidates. Continued allegations of candidate and voter intimidation and a restrictive media environment marred the campaign. Significant problems were observed throughout all stages of election-day processes and underscored the serious nature of the shortcomings that need to be addressed in order for Azerbaijan to fully meet its OSCE commitments for genuine and democratic elections.³⁷

Criticism was blunted, however, by the delegation of former members from the U.S. House of Representatives (one remarking that, unlike Florida, there were no hanging chads) and observers from the Council of Europe and the European Parliament, who blithely declared that the contests was “free, fair and transparent.”³⁸

Thus, given mixed and divergent judgments by the growing number of electoral observer missions, more systematic and reliable scientific evidence is needed to help sort out the wheat from the chaff. The study draws on new, specially designed survey evidence gathered in a wide range of countries around the world. Like corruption, much electoral malpractice involves clandestine acts. Therefore, like corruption, we can use perceptions data as one way to monitor integrity. Even if inaccurate or even false, perceptions are important aspects of the social construction of reality in their own right. Evaluations about perceptions of electoral integrity throughout the electoral cycle are gathered both from election experts (derived from PEI, or the Perception of Electoral Integrity dataset) and from ordinary citizens (with a new battery of questions contained in the WVS – the World Values Survey sixth wave).

The intended trilogy, of which this book is the first volume, explores many issues concerning issues of electoral integrity, with successive volumes focusing on three main questions: What happens when elections violate international standards of electoral integrity? Why do elections fail? And what can be done to mitigate these problems? To address these questions, the trilogy draws on the Electoral Integrity Project.³⁹ This aims to sharpen our theories, concepts, and measures of electoral integrity; to understand why integrity matters for democratic legitimacy, civic activism, political representation, security, and processes of democratization; to analyze the underlying conditions facilitating electoral malpractices; and finally to evaluate the most effective policy interventions and “what works” to strengthen electoral standards. This volume focuses on why integrity matters. This chapter summarizes the core theory and plan of this book and points the way forward to successive chapters.

The Theory of Electoral Integrity

During recent decades, following the global spread of elections, a growing body of research by scholars and applied policy analysts has started to unpack why many elections fail.⁴⁰ Normative arguments expressing concern about these developments can rest on claims of human rights: fundamental freedoms are undermined by violations of international conventions that have been agreed on ever since the 1948 Universal Declaration of Human Rights. Human rights arguments founded in international laws are powerful and compelling normative standards. But many human rights principles are highly abstract and broad, as well as silent on certain important issues, such as the appropriate regulation of campaign finance, leaving considerable room for interpreting what counts as violations in practice. In the United States, for example, heated debate surrounds Supreme Court decisions on whether limits on campaign contributions to independent nonprofit organizations (namely political action committees, or PACs) and to individual candidates are violations of the constitutional First Amendment principle of free speech, or whether regulation is essential to guard against the potential dangers of political corruption and to facilitate a more

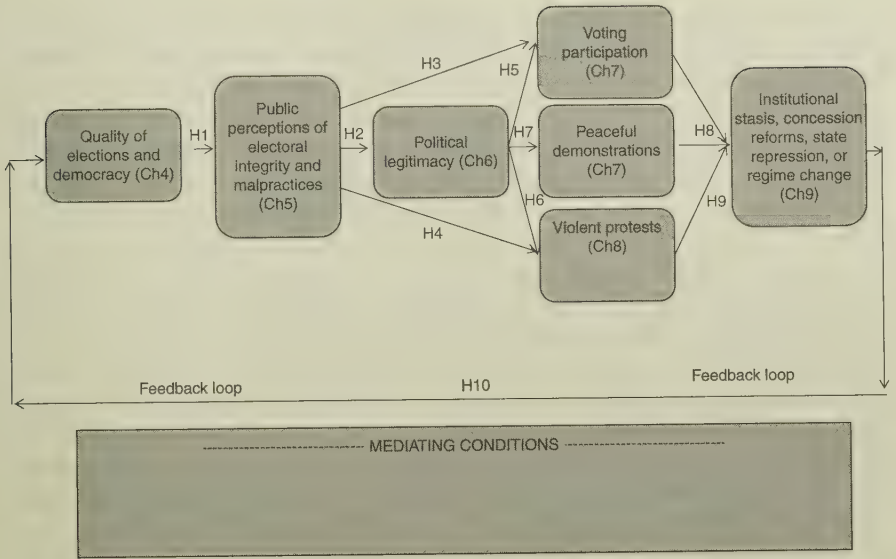


FIGURE 1.1. The core model of electoral integrity.

level playing field among contenders for public office.⁴¹ There is no easy way to settle such debates, which appeal to alternative normative principles and rights.

It is therefore also important to examine empirical evidence for the *instrumental* impact of flawed contests. Comparative research analyzing these issues is still somewhat scattered and underdeveloped, however, with many anecdotal examples drawn from the headlines in specific countries experiencing particularly contentious or blatantly fraudulent contests, but few systematic cross-national studies drawing evidence from multiple global regions and types of regimes. Although existing research provides some clues, it has not yet been clearly demonstrated whether and when violations of electoral integrity become matters of widespread public concern and, if so, like concentric ripples spreading in a pond, whether and under what conditions any public dissatisfaction with the electoral process has the capacity to generate significant consequences for mass politics and the regime.

The central theory advanced in this book predicts that electoral integrity and malpractices will have several instrumental consequences, at micro and macro levels. These predictions are tested systematically against new sources of empirical evidence in subsequent chapters, with the overall findings summarized in the book's Conclusions. Figure 1.1 depicts the positive effects expected to flow from electoral integrity in the study's core theoretical model, with the converse relationships predicted to arise from electoral malpractices.

The model at the heart of this book presents a sequential model of a chain reaction process, like a set of toppling dominoes, which starts from the premise

that in recent decades the international community has become increasingly engaged in seeking to strengthen electoral integrity. Concern has risen because of a confluence of events, notably the dramatic proliferation of multiparty contests in nearly all countries around the world, combined with the persistent appearance of many common electoral malpractices. The first proposition flowing from this premise suggests that where contests fail to meet international standards of electoral integrity (according to evidence from independent indicators), *ordinary citizens are expected to perceive electoral flaws*. In turn, mass perceptions of electoral integrity are expected to matter for *political legitimacy*, by strengthening public confidence in electoral institutions, a sense of external political efficacy, and satisfaction with the performance of democracy. The third proposition in the sequential model suggests that public perceptions of electoral integrity (and feelings of political legitimacy) also matter for *political activism*, by reinforcing voter turnout while dampening the propensity to engage in protest actions and violent conflict. In particular, by accommodating all groups through electoral channels, integrity is expected to reduce the underlying grievances that trigger intercommunal violence, popular uprisings, and civil wars. Conversely, electoral malpractices are predicted to have negative consequences in all these regards.

In turn, according to this theory, this process is expected to have macro-level consequences for the willingness of regimes to respond to mass discontent, but the type of response is contingent upon several contextual circumstances, however, and it is by no means straightforward or automatic. In some cases, mass protests over electoral malpractices may simply fade away over time if other more pressing issues arise on the public agenda. If protests are sustained and widespread, however, several alternative outcomes may occur. In some circumstances, especially in more democratic states, public concern about electoral malpractices such as financial scandals or ballot box fraud is expected to strengthen pressures on the government to offer political concessions, typically institutional and procedural reforms. Alternatively, more authoritarian regimes may respond to persistent displays of public disaffection by further acts of state repression, typified by armed crackdowns on protest rallies, seeking to silence critics and opposition forces. Or alternatively, in exceptional circumstances, deep public disaffection with elections may fuel occasional popular uprisings that have the power to catalyze regime transitions.

All these complex relationships, however, are expected to be mediated by several intervening conditions at macro- and micro-levels, although the type of conditions is expected to vary according to the types of dependent variables. At the individual level, in particular, two important factors are posited to condition these relationships: support for winning or losing parties and also levels of political awareness (measured by factors such as political interest, education, attention to the news media, and socioeconomic status). To develop these arguments further, Chapter 2 discusses the key concepts at the heart of this study, and Chapter 3 considers the research design, indicators, and alternative

sources of new evidence. Chapter 4 describes the reasons why the international community and democratic reformers have become more engaged in seeking to strengthen electoral integrity during recent decades and the most common challenges they face. Before proceeding to discuss these issues, however, let us analyze the underlying reasoning behind these theoretical arguments and the plan of the book in more detail.

For Public Perceptions

The first step in the model (H^1) suggests that *events in the real world shape public perceptions*. In particular, through the feedback learning loop, malpractices that come to light before, during, or after any election, as well as broader flaws in the workings of democratic institutions and processes, provide a rational basis for public perceptions that electoral processes are fraudulent, dishonest, or unfair.

This proposition is not as straightforward as it might appear: ever since early studies based on American surveys, the public has usually been regarded as being poorly informed in general about public affairs, with most ordinary citizens typically lacking a detailed grasp of public policies, political institutions, and events in their own country and abroad.⁴² The conventional wisdom developed based on empirical evidence through early survey research which demonstrated failing scores for many Americans based on tests of civic and political knowledge. Thus, practices such as restrictive legal regulations governing ballot access and campaign finance, or partisan gerrymandering when drawing district boundaries, may be obscure technical procedures too far from the public eye to cause widespread interest and concern.

Nevertheless, the standard view of an ill-informed public has been challenged by experimental economists and behavioral cognitive psychologists who emphasize the role of heuristic shortcuts as a mechanism allowing ordinary people to make rational decisions based on limited information. From this perspective, even if the public suffers a collective fit of amnesia, so that many citizens fail to recall the exact number of members of the U.S. House of Representatives or the name of the Secretary of State for Education, they may still be aware of fundamental violations of voting rights if the names of citizens are missing from electoral rolls, if campaigns are awash with cash, or if security forces threaten voters at the polls. One reason why ordinary people may be relatively well-informed about electoral flaws is that, unlike many other types of political institutions, popular elections provide unique opportunities to engage all citizens, allowing informed judgments to be made on the basis of direct experience at the ballot box. Elections are also high-profile events receiving widespread coverage in the media. When commenting on the campaign and results, candidates and party leaders also provide supporters with cues about the fairness and legitimacy of contests. Agenda-setting and priming theories of political communications suggest that, just like other political attitudes, public perceptions of electoral

malpractices are derived from direct experience and also from commentary provided by the independent news media, opposition political parties, watchdog NGOs, independent election management bodies, and the international community.⁴³ Electoral flaws may therefore be widely perceived by many citizens; in Nigeria, for example, according to Afro-barometer estimates, one out of five Nigerians reported being personally exposed to vote buying and around one in ten experienced threats of electoral violence.⁴⁴ It follows that the public can be expected to offer more informed and accurate perceptions about the quality of elections than other more abstract and far-removed political institutions and procedures, such as understanding the judicial processes in the courts or policy debates and committee work in the legislature.

Nevertheless, certain conditions are likely to affect public understanding of electoral malpractices. Abuses of power, corruption, and malfeasance fail to be reported by the media in the most repressive regimes, where tight control of state broadcasts and censorship techniques suppress press criticism. Thus, any effects of electoral flaws on public concern are expected to be conditioned by access to independent media, both electronic broadcasts and the printed press, as well as social media and the Internet. Public concern about the electoral process is also expected to be heightened by a long series of abuses occurring over successive contests, reflecting the democratic history in any country. To examine the evidence, Chapter 5 tests the accuracy of citizen's perceptions about electoral integrity and malpractices, comparing public assessments in each country against independence evaluations.

For Political Legitimacy

Moreover, the second proposition (H^2) in the sequential model predicts that, in turn, *public perceptions of electoral integrity will influence broader feelings of political legitimacy*. Theorists have long suggested that political legitimacy is the foundation of democratic governance. The concept represents acceptance of the underlying "rules of the game," so that all actors, even electoral losers, willingly consent to rule by the regime without the sanction of force and coercion. Legitimacy, in Seymour Martin Lipset's words, "involves the capacity of a political system to engender and maintain the belief that existing political institutions are the most appropriate and proper ones for the society."⁴⁵ For this reason alone, citizens' feelings of political legitimacy can be regarded as a critical indicator of the quality of democracy.

The theory advanced in this study posits that at the most direct level, perceptions of electoral integrity are expected to strengthen citizen's feelings about the legitimacy of elected officeholders, confidence in state institutions, evaluations of the overall performance of the regime, and support for the constitutional arrangements and rules of the game, which constitute regime principles. Following in the footsteps of David Easton, and as argued in previous works, the concept of "system support" should be understood as a

multidimensional phenomenon that needs to be broken down into its separate parts.⁴⁶ This includes five components:

- (1) The most general and fundamental feelings of citizens toward *belonging to the national community*, exemplified by feelings of national pride and identity
- (2) *Support for general regime principles*, including approval of democratic and autocratic attitudes and values
- (3) *Evaluations of the overall performance of the regime*, exemplified by satisfaction with the workings of democracy
- (4) *Confidence in state institutions*, notably government, parliaments, parties, the civil service, the courts, and the security forces
- (5) *Trust in elected and appointed officeholders*, including politicians and leaders

Thus, electoral integrity is predicted to be especially important for the popular acceptance of the outcome of the contest as well as the authority of elected officials and the government; conversely, electoral malpractices are predicted to undermine feelings of political legitimacy, eroding citizen's confidence in the electoral process and electoral authorities.⁴⁷ Tom Tyler argues that a sense of procedural fairness in decision-making processes has important consequences for psychological feelings of legitimacy, compliance, and cooperation, including allegiance to authorities, willingness to obey the law, and respect for court judgments.⁴⁸ After Florida in 2000, for example, many Democrats continued to question the legitimacy of President George W. Bush as a result of the way that he ascended to power, following a close result and the battle of the lawyers, with the outcome determined by the decision of the Supreme Court.⁴⁹ Perceptions that elections are won fair and square, by contrast, should also strengthen confidence and trust in regime institutions, especially those that are most closely related to these contests, such as political parties, parliaments, and elected presidents, with weaker effects on other nonelected state institutions, such as the judiciary, civil service, and military. Moreover, the effects on system support may be even more diffuse; in Russia, for example, Rose and Mishler found that perceiving the Duma elections as unfair made people feel less proud of their country, as well as reducing trust in state institutions such as parties, parliament, and the army, and it also made them less likely to endorse the regime.⁵⁰ Similarly, McAllister and White found that perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia proved significant predictors of satisfaction with democracy and a sense that the system is responsive to citizen's concerns (external political efficacy).⁵¹ These accounts assume that rational citizens have the capacity to judge quite accurately how elections work in their own country; it follows that public satisfaction should reflect the perceived quality of electoral integrity existing in different countries.

On the other hand, many more factors than election procedures may be expected to play a stronger role in shaping trust in government and regime

support.⁵² Performance theories emphasize the importance of the policy record of the government and their capacity to deliver public goods and services, especially to manage bread-and-butter economic issues like growth, jobs, and prices.⁵³ Regime support, in this account, reflects concrete policy performance more than evaluations of the procedural fairness of elections. Alternative modernization theories suggest that citizens' orientations toward elections have evolved over a long period of time, with rising aspirations and demands for new forms of participation, such as consumer activism and mass demonstrations. These developments are thought to be fuelled by social structural changes, notably the spread of education in post-industrial societies, and thus, rising levels of cognitive and civic skills, as well as changes in cultural values and orientations toward authority.⁵⁴ Value changes are believed to have occurred in response to long-term processes of societal modernization, human development, and generational change. To consider the evidence, Chapter 6 uses multilevel models to examine the impact of expert and public perceptions of electoral integrity on several indicators of legitimacy, including public confidence in state institutions, feelings of external political efficacy, and satisfaction with the performance of democracy.

Civic Activism

Through changing cultural attitudes, public perceptions of electoral flaws can also be expected to affect political behavior and civic activism. Attitudes such as a sense that the political system is responsive to citizens' concerns (that is, external political efficacy) have long been established as strong predictors of political participation.⁵⁵ Where the contest is seen as rigged, corrupt, or unfair, this is likely to depress levels of voter participation, especially among opposition supporters backing losing parties; citizens calculate that there is little or no point in casting a "wasted" ballot. From a rational choice perspective, the decision to vote is conceptualized as the result of a personal cost-benefit calculation in which the expected benefits of voting should outweigh its costs.⁵⁶ Several studies support the claim that integrity shapes turnout; for example, McCann and Dominguez examined a series of public opinion polls in Mexico in the mid-1980s to the mid-1990s, during the time of the predominance of the Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI) and prior to more competitive and cleaner contests. They found that citizens expecting electoral fraud were more likely to stay home on election day, and this group was also more likely to support the opposition.⁵⁷ Birch's cross-national study, utilizing data from Module I of the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems in thirty-one societies, confirmed that perceptions of electoral integrity are generally linked to patterns of voter turnout.⁵⁸

By the same logic, other forms of conventional participation may likewise be influenced by perceptions of integrity, including activism within opposing political parties and, to a lesser extent, this may have a spillover effect by

depressing participation within other types of community organizations and civic associations. Most importantly for understanding “bottom-up” theories of the role of ordinary citizens in regime transitions, feeling that the election outcome was fraudulent, rigged, or manipulated can also be expected to encourage direct actions by opposition movements and dissident forces, including mass demonstrations protesting against the process and results.⁵⁹ Numerous recent examples can be cited. In Russia, for instance, the December 2011 state Duma and March 2012 presidential elections triggered massive demonstrations protesting alleged vote stealing and ballot stuffing,⁶⁰ following flaws repeatedly observed in a series of Russian contests.⁶¹ In response to the outcry, the Duma passed more restrictive laws cracking down on public protests. In Mexico City, as well, following the July 2012 presidential elections, tens of thousands marched through the streets following allegations that the PRI distribution of grocery pre-paid gift cards bought millions of ballots. The long history of PRI electoral fraud bequeathed a legacy of deep mistrust in the electoral process.⁶² Similar movements were evident in the so-called “colored revolutions” in Eastern Europe, where mass mobilization reportedly led to the reversal of the results of several fraudulent elections.⁶³ Tucker argues that cases of major electoral fraud provide an obvious rallying point for collective actions by opposition forces.⁶⁴ Thus, opposition forces and parties of the left and right can be divided ideologically on multiple issues, or from different ethnic groups, but they may come together in seeking to kick out ruling parties. Mass protests surrounding recent contentious elections in Thailand and Cambodia further illustrate the phenomenon. Accordingly, Chapter 7 expands on the multilevel models to examine the direct impact of perceptions of electoral integrity, and the indirect effect of political legitimacy, on several indicators of mass behavior, including voter turnout and the propensity to engage in demonstrations.

Security: Grievances, Electoral Violence, and Civil War

Long-established democracies are expected to be sufficiently resilient to overcome minor flaws in electoral integrity in a specific contest, such as Floridian “hanging chads” during the 2000 U.S. presidential contest, or overly restrictive voter registration laws passed in many U.S. states. Similarly, British democracy survived major financial scandals at Westminster, and Italian democracy continues despite reported cases of malfeasance among the Chamber of Deputies and the Berlusconi administration. These events are expected to deepen public cynicism with politicians and state institutions, but Western democracies with experience of elections over decades or even centuries have accumulated deep reservoirs of regime legitimacy and adherence to democratic values.⁶⁵ They have also developed robust institutional mechanisms for legal appeals and the redress of grievances. Even if one particular election is flawed by a specific financial scandal or voting malpractice, this is not expected to undermine confidence in electoral processes as a whole. It is widely feared that in the absence

of these conditions – for instance, in states such as Afghanistan, Sierra Leone, Liberia, and the Democratic Republic of Congo that are holding founding elections as part of the peace-building process without such a deep reservoir of public trust – even minor issues of maladministration and flawed contests may heighten the dangers of instability, violence, and the renewal of civil war.⁶⁶

This danger can be illustrated by the Kenyan presidential elections in December 2007.⁶⁷ The electoral management body declared President Mwai Kibaki, leader of the Party of National Unity, as the winner, but international observers noted major electoral irregularities. The opposition leader, Raila Odinga, refused to accept the result, accusing the incumbent party of vote rigging. The dispute triggered months of urban riots and intercommunal conflict; the UN High Commissioner for Human Rights estimated that after this contest, more than 1,200 were killed and thousands injured, including cases of sexual violence, and about 42,000 houses and many businesses were looted or destroyed, with more than 300,000 people displaced, costing the country more than one billion dollars and deterring potential investors.⁶⁸ The conflict was settled eventually by a brokered power-sharing deal among the two main protagonists, but the communal violence is likely to have undermined public confidence in the electoral process and in the coalition government. Another example comes from Nigeria, where elections have often proved deeply flawed, including cases of corruption and bribery that have sparked violence and instability.⁶⁹ On April 16, 2011, Nigerians went to the polls to elect their president. The incumbent, Goodluck Jonathan from the governing People's Democratic Party (PDP), was declared the winner with an unassailable lead of 57 percent of the vote. The conduct of the election was deemed to be credible and transparent by the African Union observer mission, thereby meeting international standards and representing a marked improvement over previous contests.⁷⁰ Nevertheless, the result triggered bitter inter-communal violence. Three days of riots, protesting alleged vote rigging, left 65,000 people displaced and 800 dead.⁷¹ Elections are repeated games. A long history of malpractices over successive elections leaves a legacy of mistrust in the impartiality of electoral authorities and processes, even if a specific contest meets international standards.

Reports suggest that these problems are far from isolated or sporadic; deadly riots erupting during or immediately after elections afflicted about one-fifth of contests in Sub-Saharan Africa, such as in Cote d'Ivoire, as well as in many Asian countries such as the Philippines, Thailand, Cambodia, Bangladesh, and Pakistan.⁷² Electoral violence remains a serious threat in many fragile states, but debate continues about the exact reasons for this phenomenon. Conflict may be triggered by agents of the governing party using techniques of state repression to violate human rights; losing parties and supporters refusing to accept the legitimacy of the process and outcome by mobilizing violent uprisings, inter-communal conflict, and riots; or reciprocal coercion sparked by rivals retaliating on all sides of an electoral contest. Evidence from data on conflict trends suggest that the post-Cold War era has seen the decline of wars between

nation-states, so that internal violence has become the most common cause of conflict.⁷³ In recent decades, the international community has expanded peace-keeping operations seeking to contain and prevent conflict.⁷⁴ Interventions have broadened in scope well beyond the provision of blue-helmet security to cover complex challenges of overcoming human suffering and humanitarian crises, economic and social reconstruction, and securing agreement for new constitutional settlements and regime transitions.

As part of a peace-building process, and in the transition from autocracy, the international community has sought to assist transitional authorities holding founding elections for several reasons. Firstly, it is argued that unelected rulers will fail to be regarded as legitimate by citizens, thus fostering enduring grievances, suppressing but not mitigating the deeper causes of conflict. Multiparty contests provide participatory outlets for the expression of discontent, which is believed to reduce the causes of grievances. Democratic elections are also thought to limit state repression in the acts that rulers use against their own citizens, ranging from the curtailment of fundamental freedoms and the imprisonment of dissidents to outright violence and even genocide.⁷⁵ The “domestic peace” argument by Christian Davenport suggests that, at minimum, democratic regimes founded on elections constrain governments from repressive acts against their own citizens and thus reduce the causes of home-grown conflict.⁷⁶ Elections are believed to curtail repression where governments can be voted out of office, checking executive power. Lastly, beyond the beneficial consequences for reducing the causes of internal conflict, it is also claimed that important indirect benefits follow for interstate relations. The well-known “democratic peace” proposition maintains that democratic states have never, or rarely, fought each other. Bruce Russett suggests that the spread of the democratic peace developed toward the end of the nineteenth century, and this pattern has been enduring ever since.⁷⁷

At the same time, other voices warn that the timing of elections as part of any peace-building process is critical, as states should not rush into elections prematurely.⁷⁸ Scholars suggest that countries afflicted with deep-rooted conflict need first to establish the foundations of a well-functioning state, rebuilding the fabric of society, the economic infrastructure, and restoring intercommunal trust before rushing headlong into elections and democracy. In an extensive series of publications, Mansfield and Snyder warn that elections held after peace settlements in states transitioning from autocracy have the capacity to trigger further conflict, rather than strengthening the peace process.⁷⁹ They argue that the need for political parties and leaders to mobilize electoral support and compete for votes provide incentives for political polarization, nationalist rhetoric, and tribal appeals. Moreover, the end of absolute autocracy entails uncertain shifts in power that can increase the perceived threats facing out-groups who fail to gain representation. Mansfield and Snyder warn that elections are particularly dangerous if held early in any transition process, before the mechanisms of political accountability, institutional checks and balances, and a democratic

culture have had time to consolidate.⁸⁰ Although the timing of elections has been studied, far less attention has been paid to the quality of popular contests and, in particular, how far elections meet international standards of integrity. It seems plausible that severe malpractices such as vote rigging and fraud play an important part in triggering any post-election violence, whereas by contrast, elections that meet international standards should generate more stable and peaceful outcomes. Yet many other factors may trigger deadly conflict, especially in divided societies with a recent history of civil war. Chapter 8, therefore, examines the evidence to see how important electoral integrity is to the peace-building process – and its failure.

Democratization and Regimes

In many ways, the most critical and complex question at macro-level remains: What are the consequences of electoral integrity and malpractices for regimes, whether by catalyzing institutional reforms, for successful transitions from autocracy, and for the consolidation of democratic regimes? The theory developed in this study predicts that persistent and prolonged public disaffection with electoral malpractices may generate several alternative outcomes, contingent upon the depth and duration of public anger and the type of regime, whether institutional stasis (no change, if discontent quickly fades), reform concessions (and thus pro-democratic institutional change), state repression (and crackdown on dissent), or regime transitions (fuelled by popular uprisings and opposition mobilization). Chapter 9 considers how far and under what conditions electoral integrity contributes toward processes of institutional reform, democratization, and regime transitions, drawing from illustrative case studies.

In conclusion, Chapter 10 summarizes the key findings from the study and support for the core propositions in the theoretical framework. The conclusions also consider the broader lessons of the book for understanding why elections fail and what the international community and domestic reformers can do most effectively to strengthen electoral integrity, mapping alternative policy interventions, the central themes developed in depth in subsequent volumes. The first issue is to establish the conceptual foundations, a task tackled in the next chapter.

The Concept of Electoral Integrity

What, if anything, do seemingly disparate problems of electoral integrity have in common – whether flaws and irregularities in electoral registers in long-established democracies such as the United States and the UK, malpractices restricting party competition in states such as Kazakhstan or Belarus, pervasive electoral fraud and corruption in Afghanistan, or outbreaks of deadly violence in Kenya in 2007 or Zimbabwe in 2008? The overarching concept of electoral integrity provides insights into all these seemingly diverse phenomena. When electoral observers assess elections positively, echoing the language of the 1948 Universal Declaration of Human Rights as mentioned in Chapter 1, they commonly describe the outcome as “reflecting the genuine will of the people,” “credible and transparent,” or more simply and conventionally as “free and fair.” By contrast, when problems arise, elections are often described by a bewildering plethora of adjectives such as fraudulent, stolen, malpractices, manipulated, limited, unclean, undemocratic, or violations of human rights. Soft and foggy rhetoric such as “reflecting the genuine will of the people” or the clichés of “free and fair” can serve diplomatic purposes by avoiding hard and sharp criticism. For this very reason, however, fuzzy concepts fail to provide sufficient conceptual clarity and precision for scholars seeking to operationalize and analyze the phenomenon.¹

As conceptualized and defined by this volume, the overarching notion of *electoral integrity* refers to agreed upon international conventions and universal standards about elections reflecting global norms applying to all countries worldwide throughout the electoral cycle, including during the pre-electoral period, the campaign, on polling day, and its aftermath.² Conversely, the concept of *electoral malpractice* is used to refer to violations of these principles. Let us discuss these core concepts and consider the strengths and weaknesses of the proposed approach compared with rival definitions in the literature.

International Conventions and Universal Standards of Electoral Integrity

In general, the idea of “social norms” can be understood to represent shared understandings about appropriate values, attitudes, and behavior. They reflect cultural beliefs about how states, markets, communities, and people *should* act. How should elections ideally work? Within each society, certain social norms are learned as the informal standards guiding approved behavior. Once internalized through the socialization process, social norms indicate appropriate actions and determine violations of acceptable standards of behavior, where informal pressures to conform are backed by the formal sanction of written rules and legal statutes. By extension, “global norms” can be understood as shared standards and internationally accepted principles which reflect a broad consensus governing the appropriate behavior of states and political actors around the world.³

Several important theoretical questions continue to be debated about the role of global norms in international affairs and domestic politics. Realists are deeply skeptical about the fundamental claim that lofty and idealistic principles, such as ideas or beliefs about democracy or human rights, serve as a guide to state action or that global norms matter for cooperation. From a realist perspective, nation-states pursue their own self-interests: security, material goods, and power. Yet the end of the Cold War era saw a substantial expansion in international laws covering more and more issues that were once regarded as within the domestic jurisdiction of states. Global treaties such as the Chemical Weapons Convention, the Convention of the Prohibition of Anti-Personnel Mines, and the Maastricht Treaty serve as standards used to judge state actions.

Another line of criticism arises from those who question whether global norms are indeed truly universal in diverse cultures around the world, or whether they serve as a smokescreen to disguise Western values and interests. It is true that global norms continue to be powerfully shaped by prominent world powers. Nevertheless, broader endorsements by the agencies of the international community, notably by member states in the United Nations (UN) General Assembly and equivalent regional bodies – such as the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE), Organization of American States (OAS), and African Union (AU) – avoid the charge of applying purely culturally bound (“Western” or “American”) values and norms, which do not translate as legitimate and authoritative standards in regions and societies with different historical, political traditions, or public philosophies. Over time, if the language and principles of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights have gradually become widely accepted and internalized worldwide, these can function as the appropriate yardsticks to judge the quality of electoral procedures.

The extent to which the world shares common normative beliefs and values is an empirical question, however, which can be measured at state level through how far governments have officially endorsed international and regional human

rights conventions, formal treaties and procedural guidelines designed to guide the appropriate standards for behavior; in this case, for the process and outcome of elections. States, as signatories for international obligations, are the primary duty bearers obliged to uphold these normative standards. Endorsement also implies that governments are obliged to ensure that other domestic actors, such as political parties and election management bodies, should also meet these principles. Electoral contests are evaluated as legitimate, according to this notion, if they respect international and regional conventions, principles, and treaties that governments have endorsed. The Carter Center has developed a systematic database documenting the specific obligations of international laws worldwide.⁴ These standards provide the international legal mandate for electoral activities by intergovernmental organizations, including the deployment of observer missions evaluating the quality of elections, as well as the guiding framework for UN agencies and international nongovernmental organizations (NGOs) when providing electoral assistance for member states. Whether states not only endorse but also respect and comply with international law concerning electoral integrity is a question open to empirical investigation by comparing the gap between official consent to treaties and expert evaluations about the quality of elections. Evidence from public opinion polls can also be used to examine how far the general public shares common values when judging elections in diverse cultures and contexts, suggesting the diffusion and internalization of global norms.

The Scope and Limits of Global Norms

What do international conventions specify as the basic international standards of electoral integrity? The foundation rests on Article 21(3) in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (1948). This specifies that “[t]he will of the people shall be the basis of the authority of government; this will shall be expressed in periodic and genuine elections which shall be by universal and equal suffrage and shall be held by secret vote or by equivalent free voting procedures.” Although the language remains abstract and imprecise, especially the phrase “will of the people,” certain rights and principles are unambiguous in this statement, notably that government authority should flow from elections held at periodic intervals, where people have universal and equal suffrage, and where ballots are confidential and secure. Agreement about the global norms that should govern the conduct of elections were further specified in Article 25 of the UN International Covenant for Civil and Political Rights (ICCPR of 1966), namely the need for

- periodic elections at regular intervals;
- universal suffrage that includes all sectors of society;
- equal suffrage, in the idea of one-person, one-vote;
- the right to stand for public office and contest elections;

- the rights of all eligible electors to vote;
- the use of a secret ballot process;
- genuine elections;
- elections that reflect the free expression of the will of the people.⁵

These standards can also be understood as embodying rights to “self-determination,” after Article 1(1). Since the ICCPR came into force in 1976, it has created pressure of compliance for the 167 member states that endorsed the treaty, including countries where many electoral rights are lacking, such as China, Russia, Cuba, Togo, Equatorial Guinea, Iran, Syria, and Tajikistan. There are also moral, if not legal, obligations for states that have not yet endorsed the treaty, including Singapore, Saudi Arabia, United Arab Emirates (UAE), and Myanmar.⁶

In subsequent decades, global norms have been hammered out by the international community and expanded in a series of human rights instruments, conventions, legal documents, and more-detailed working standards.⁷ For example, the 1990 Copenhagen Document of the Conference on Security and Cooperation in Europe (CSCE) made commitments that included free elections at regular intervals; the popular election of all seats in at least one chamber; universal and equal suffrage; the right to establish political parties and their clear separation from the state; campaigning in a free and fair atmosphere; unimpeded access to media; secret ballots, with counting and reporting conducted honestly and the results reported publicly; and the due winners being installed and allowed to serve their full terms. The 2002 Venice Commission’s Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters spells out in detail what is meant by principles such as the universal, equal, free, secret, and direct suffrage.⁸ Some of the most authoritative and detailed international standards to evaluate electoral integrity have been operationalized in the practical guidelines issued to electoral observers by regional intergovernmental organizations, exemplified by the OSCE *Election Observation Handbook*.⁹ Similar principles have been adopted in the guidelines developed by the AU, EU and OAS.¹⁰

Perhaps the clearest statement of these norms is provided in the UN General Assembly resolution 63/163 (April 12, 2012): “Strengthening the role of the United Nations in enhancing periodic and genuine elections and the promotion of democratization.” The language in this version (see Table 2.1) reflects and extends a series of similar statements of principle endorsed regularly by the United Nations since 1991. Resolution 63/163 reaffirms that “democracy is a universal value based on the freely expressed will of the people to determine their own political, economic, social and cultural systems and their full participation in all aspects of their lives.” Thus, democratic principles are explicitly endorsed by the United Nations General Assembly, along with a commitment to “the importance of fair, periodic and genuine elections” as the primary mechanism that allows citizens “to express their will.” This does not imply, however, that the United

TABLE 2.1. *Extract from the UN General Assembly Resolution 63/163 on Democratization and Elections*

-
- “Recalling the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, adopted on 10 December 1948, in particular the principle that the will of the people, as expressed through periodic and genuine elections, shall be the basis of government authority, as well as the right freely to choose representatives through periodic and genuine elections, which shall be by universal and equal suffrage and shall be held by secret vote or by equivalent free voting procedures,
- Reaffirming the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, the Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination against Women and the International Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Racial Discrimination, in particular that citizens, without distinction of any kind, have the right and the opportunity to take part in the conduct of public affairs, directly or through freely chosen representatives, and to vote and to be elected in genuine periodic elections which shall be by universal and equal suffrage and shall be held by secret ballot, guaranteeing the free expression of the will of the electors,
- Stressing the importance, generally and in the context of promoting fair and free elections, of respect for the freedom to seek, receive and impart information, in accordance with the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, and noting in particular the fundamental importance of access to information and media freedom,
- Recognizing the need for strengthening democratic processes, electoral institutions and national capacity-building in requesting countries, including the capacity to administer fair elections, promote the participation of women on equal terms with men, increase citizen participation and provide civic education in requesting countries in order to consolidate and regularize the achievements of previous elections and support subsequent elections,
- Noting the importance of ensuring orderly, open, fair and transparent democratic processes that preserve the right of peaceful assembly,
- Noting also that the international community can contribute to creating conditions which could foster stability and security throughout the pre-election, election and post-election periods in transitional and post-conflict situations,
- Reiterating that transparency is a fundamental basis for free and fair elections, which contribute to the accountability of Governments to their citizens, which, in turn, is an underpinning of democratic societies,
- Acknowledging, in this regard, the importance of international election observation for the promotion of free and fair elections and its contribution to enhancing the integrity of election processes in requesting countries, to promoting public confidence and electoral participation and to mitigating the potential for election-related disturbances,
- Acknowledging also that extending invitations regarding international electoral assistance and/or observation is the sovereign right of Member States, and welcoming the decisions of those States that have requested such assistance and/or observation,

(continued)

TABLE 2.1 (*continued*)

Welcoming the support provided by Member States to the electoral assistance activities of the United Nations, inter alia, through the provision of electoral experts, including electoral commission staff, and observers, as well as through contributions to the United Nations Trust Fund for Electoral Assistance, the Democratic Governance Thematic Trust Fund of the United Nations Development Programme and the United Nations Democracy Fund.”

Source: UN General Assembly resolution 63/163 (April 12, 2012) “Strengthening the role of the United Nations in enhancing periodic and genuine elections and the promotion of democratization.” (Extract) <http://www.un.org/wcm/webdav/site/undpa/shared/undpa/pdf/N1146860.pdf>

Nations endorses any specific institutional design or constitutional mechanisms that can best achieve global norms, leaving this as a matter for national sovereignty. The resolution recognizes the responsibility of member states “for ensuring free and fair elections, free of intimidation, coercion and tampering of vote counts, and that all such acts are sanctioned accordingly.” The United Nations’ role (especially through the Electoral Assistance Division of the Department of Political Affairs and the United Nations Development Programme [UNDP]) is seen as one of providing electoral assistance and support for the promotion of democratization, but only at the specific request of the member state.

The Evolution of Global Norms

As evident from successive conventions, however, global norms are not static. To understand the continuous evolution and diffusion of global norms – including those concerning the most appropriate standards of electoral integrity – it is helpful to draw from Finnemore and Sikkink’s widely cited constructivist theory.¹¹ This suggests that norms gradually spread worldwide through a three-stage life cycle or a series of sequential steps, as illustrated schematically in Figure 2.1.

The first stage concerns the process of *norm advocacy* as a transnational coalition and network of leading states, human rights groups, NGOs, activists, and social movements seek to build an agenda within the international community to address emerging concerns by promoting certain standards of appropriate behavior. Challenges in world politics where leading actors have advocated several emerging norms, but where divisions remain among states and publics within the international community, including the issues of climate change and global warming, the right to protect through humanitarian intervention, and the rights of migrant populations.¹² At this first stage of the process, the legitimacy of the many proposed human rights principles and norms around these issues remain deeply contested. Leading advocates who have played a central role in promoting issues of electoral integrity, and seeking to foster a consensus among official bodies within the international community, include NGOs such as International IDEA, the Carter Center, Freedom House,



FIGURE 2.1. The three stages of global norm diffusion.

and the International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES), along with related human rights issues championed by organizations such as Amnesty International, the Index on Censorship, Human Rights Watch, and Reporters without Borders.

The second step of the diffusion process, Finnemore and Sikkink suggest, is a *norm cascade* whereby acceptance of standards and principles gradually spread far more widely among states and organizations, and become institutionalized through both international and domestic law. With issues of electoral integrity, this stage has engaged the United Nations (mainly through the Department of Political Affairs and the United Nations Development Programme [UNDP]), major regional organizations (including the OSCE, OAS, the EU, the Council of Europe, the Commonwealth Secretariat, and the AU), and bilateral donors, such as US Agency for International Development [US-AID], the Canadian International Development Aid (CIDA) and the UK Department for International Development (DFID). International bodies that have sought to strengthen links among professional networks of electoral management bodies have also played an important part in technical assistance and the implementation of standards, including the Global Electoral Organization (GEO), the Association of European Election Officials, the European Network of Election Monitoring Organizations, the Asian Network for Free Elections (ANDFREL), and the ACE Electoral Knowledge Network.

Lastly, a process of *local internalization* occurs at the final stage of the cycle once a certain critical threshold of the world's states conform with the new norms, which then become accepted as appropriate and legitimate standards for

evaluation by domestic actors and within local cultures. Local pro-democracy activists and NGOs are seen as playing a central role in this step. Citizens come to accept international standards as appropriate yardsticks, for example, to compare and evaluate the performance of their own elections with contests in other states.

The three-stage life-cycle theory of global norms can be applied to understand the evolution of many policy domains related to electoral integrity – as well as the limits of this process.

The Spread of Elections for Political Office

The clearest illustration of the diffusion of global norms comes from the rapid expansion of elections for legislative and executive office. As demonstrated in Chapter 4, multiparty competitive elections were once confined to Western democracies; elsewhere, rulers ascended to power through their family inheritance, religious authority, military rank, or personal charisma. Today, however, in nearly all nations around the world, the legitimacy of political leaders derives from the ballot box; the number of countries with directly elected parliaments has quadrupled since the mid-twentieth century.¹³ Too many elections remain deeply flawed, or even failed, but nevertheless, most states now have adopted multiparty contests to fill major political offices. The end of the era of absolute autocracies – governed by one-party states, personal dictatorships, monarchies, and military juntas – is striking evidence of the rapid transformation of global norms during our lifetime.

The Growth of Electoral Observing Missions

Another example of evolving norms comes from the growing practice of inviting observer missions to monitor electoral standards.¹⁴ This practice started during the 1960s by several leading agencies (the UN, the OAS, and the Commonwealth Secretariat), before diffusing rapidly during the 1980s. International observer missions has now become widely accepted as a universal norm in elections, Hyde argues, so that the few states that fail to comply, by banning access to international observers, are signaling in advance that contests will be stolen, manipulated, or fraudulent without a fig leaf of legitimacy.¹⁵ Electoral monitoring is thought to have become widely internalized during these decades because of the international spread of human rights conventions and processes of democratization, along with weakening prohibitions on external engagement in the domestic affairs of nation-states. As a result, international missions observed more than eight out of ten elections in non-established democracies during the last decade.¹⁶

The Expansion of Women's Voting Rights and Gender Equality in Elected Office

Finally the life-cycle model is also exemplified by the long-term evolution of women's political rights. Advocacy of the voting suffrage for women started

with the first-stage women's movement mobilized in several Western countries, with activists battling for equal rights for more than eighty years, from 1848–1930. This era was followed during the next two decades by the tipping point, as voting rights for women were quickly adopted in almost fifty countries. Today, only a few exceptional Arab monarchies with deeply traditional cultures, such as Saudi Arabia, continue to restrict women's right to vote and stand for office, and the Gulf region has also seen recent progress. A more recent development has been the idea that states should take positive action to prevent discrimination against women and to ensure gender equality in elected office. The roots of this demand extend back to the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, adopted in 1948, which enshrines "the equal rights of men and women," including the right to participate in government.¹⁷ A series of other documents signed by United Nations (UN) member states over the years – including the World Plan of Action in Mexico City in 1975,¹⁸ the Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women in 1979,¹⁹ and the Nairobi Forward-Looking Strategies in 1985²⁰ – resulted in a landmark commitment in the 1995 Beijing Platform for Action, signed by all member states at the UN's Fourth World Conference on Women, to a specific target of 30 percent women in decision-making positions.²¹ In 2000, the world's governments again endorsed gender equality and women's empowerment in the UN Millennium Development Goals. To achieve these goals, more than 100 countries around the globe have sought to implement equal opportunity policies and positive-action strategies in elected office, with different degrees of success, notably through the widespread use of legally binding gender quotas and reserved seats.²² The long-term process is therefore understood as cyclical rather than static, as the widespread acceptance of certain norms at any one period (such as the principles of women's suffrage) leads the next generation of advocates to push the boundaries further by building support for emerging issues on the agenda (such as the adoption of gender quotas for elected office).

These illustrations suggest that the life-cycle model is a useful way to study the gradual diffusion of several international norms concerning the adoption of elections, the deployment of electoral observers, and political rights for women. Empirical evidence can be compared among election experts and the general public in diverse societies to explore how far norms of electoral integrity are internalized within local cultures or whether they are in the process of being adopted by governments in a transition phase, or whether certain standards and norms continue to be under debate among both proponents and critics. At the same time, it should be acknowledged that many global norms, which are widely endorsed by many countries at the level of abstract principles, have not yet been translated and codified into practical standards within international law. Norm advocates – human rights NGOs, regional organizations, and reform movements – continue to press to extend the boundaries of international agreements. One weakness of relying on the yardstick of global norms

is that this provides a minimalist definition and many important challenges of electoral integrity, including issues surrounding money and media, have not yet achieved a broad consensus.

Political Finance Regulations

Political finance illustrates the limits of contemporary global norms. This issue has generated considerable scholarly interest in recent years, especially comparisons of financial regulations in the United States and other long-established Western democracies.²³ An international consensus has developed about the need to prevent corruption in general, including stamping out electoral bribery, as well as the values of transparency and accountability for good governance, and the necessity for effective enforcement mechanisms. Thus, the United Nations has established an agreement about certain minimal provisions governing political finance standards. In particular, Article 7(3) in the UN Convention against Corruption adopted in 2003 specifies the need for transparency, in accordance with domestic law, in funding candidates for elected public office and funding political parties.²⁴ The Council of Europe and OSCE have gone further in securing agreement on these matters among its member states. Similarly, the OAS has proposed detailed guidelines for establishing standards of party finance and election campaigns.²⁵ Several prominent NGOs – including IFES, International IDEA, and Global Integrity – have collected information about national legal regulations and enforcement mechanisms for the disclosure, spending limits, and party subsidies governing political finance.²⁶ Nevertheless, the international community and the United Nations have not yet reached the stage of endorsing broader global norms and more detailed working standards. Hence, despite the obvious importance of money in politics for standards of electoral integrity, and despite the widespread concern about corruption, it remains difficult to establish a legitimate international yardstick to evaluate financial practices on issues such as party and candidate contribution and spending limits.

Campaign Communications

Similarly, existing global norms also remain minimalist in terms of agreements about the most appropriate regulation of campaign communications and equitable access to broadcast media. International agreement is clearest about negative rights, including the basic principles of freedom of expression and information, reflected in Article 19 of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (1948). The worst transgressions, through state censorship, the intimidation or imprisonment of reporters, and restrictions on the independence of newspapers and broadcasters, are widely regarded as violating fundamental human rights. At a more practical level, however, global norms provide minimal guidance to evaluate positive rights, including regulations access to campaign communications and the most appropriate role of public service broadcasting during elections. Democratic and competitive elections require a

reasonably level playing field in information about all parties and candidates so that citizens learn about alternatives. Both mass and social media clearly play vital roles in political communications in contemporary elections, and domestic legal regulations determine campaign coverage in many countries.

However, no internationally approved conventions specify more positive principles for media coverage; for example, requiring that campaign news provided by public service broadcasters should provide balanced, inclusive, impartial, and equitable coverage of all parties and candidates, or regulating paid political advertising on TV and radio. Again, leading norm advocates are seeking to expand the standards in this area. Observer missions by the OSCE and others commonly monitor the role of the news media during campaigns, and the OAS has developed principles and methods that their observers use for this purpose.²⁷ UNESCO's *Media Development Indicators* (2008) provide another broad normative framework endorsing the general principles of media pluralism and access. Nevertheless, as yet no international conventions or protocols have outlined the principles that should govern legal regulation of the conduct of the mass and social media during election campaigns. Different practices and standards exist in different Western nations, notably in the regulatory framework and commercial structure of broadcasting in the United States compared with public service media in Europe, weakening any international consensus. Thus, global norms are powerful mechanisms for exerting international and domestic pressure, yet existing agreements about electoral integrity set only *minimalist* standards. Moreover, the abstract diplomatic language used in international human rights conventions also allows considerable room for interpretation about the more specific mechanisms that are most effective for strengthening electoral integrity.

The Global Comparative Framework

The conceptualization used in this study understands global norms of electoral integrity as universally applicable, where violations of shared principles and standards have the capacity to undermine the quality of elections in *every* society, including long-established democracies. The most egregious violators of electoral rights in places such as Belarus, Afghanistan, and Ukraine are commonly highlighted by dramatic news headlines. Yet our understanding is too narrow and partial if scholars simply focus on the worst “first-order” cases of overt malpractices involving repression in electoral autocracies. Severe malpractices in autocratic states generate widespread international concern. But second-order challenges of electoral integrity reflect universal problems that may damage the legitimacy of electoral contests in *any* country – including in Anglo-American democracies such as the United States, Britain, and Canada.²⁸ Malpractices, from this perspective, may be manipulated or accidental, legally sanctioned or illicit, arising from violations of democratic rights or from lack of technical capacity, or indeed “all of the above.”

An important reason for adopting this broader conceptualization is a historical perspective: Issues of electoral integrity have long been of concern in Western democracies, exemplified by problems of endemic bribery and treating during nineteenth-century Britain,²⁹ progressive attempts to clean up machine politics in Tammany Hall³⁰ and fraud at the ballot box,³¹ restrictions on the electoral franchise for women and the working class in Europe,³² practices of voter suppression and racial discrimination in the United States,³³ and the introduction of compulsory voting and the secret ballot in Australia.³⁴ Nor are these issues simply historical curiosities in established democracies; contemporary challenges in American elections are exemplified by the notorious problem of faulty voting machines in Florida, the substitution of votes for dollars by Political Action Committees (super-PACs), and increasingly restrictive voter registration laws and identification requirements.³⁵ Even where many basic conditions are met, expectations of electoral integrity are not frozen in time; instead, new challenges continue to arise. A broad consensus surrounds many of the basic nuts-and-bolts conditions required to achieve minimal standards of electoral integrity, such as the requirements of an inclusive adult franchise, honest and accurate vote tabulations, and the use of secret ballots. But debate continues about the most appropriate response to complex new challenges, including growing demands for gender equality and minority representation, the deployment of digital voting technologies and online balloting, demands for “convenience” polling, and the appropriate regulatory framework governing political finance, campaign broadcasting, and political advertising.

Problems of electoral integrity can arise anywhere, although the consequences are expected to be most serious in states lacking lengthy historical experiences of competitive electoral processes. Long-established democracies are expected to have a deep reservoir of diffuse support for democratic principles and practices accumulated from experience acquired over many decades or even centuries. Many, although not all, established democracies have developed independent election-management bodies capable of administering contests according to professional standards of impartiality, efficiency, and transparency.³⁶ Legal channels resolve disputes peacefully through the courts. The consequences of any second-order electoral irregularities can be expected to prove more corrosive of regime legitimacy, and thus potentially destabilizing, in countries lacking these conditions. In particular, citizens living in deeply divided societies with recent experience of deep-rooted conflict can be expected to display minimal trust and confidence in state authorities, legal institutions, and electoral processes, and to have low reservoirs of social trust and tolerance. In this situation, the potential dangers of electoral violations are also expected to be heightened by winner-take-all contests that raise the stakes, such as the 2011 presidential elections in the Democratic Republic of Congo in 2011 and the 2010 presidential contests in Afghanistan. In this context, second-order problems of popular unrest and violence may be triggered or reignited where losing parties seize on even minor technical infringements, such as the lack

of official ballot papers in a few polling stations or some clerical errors in electoral registration lists, to challenge the legitimacy of the outcome.³⁷

The Electoral Cycle

Lastly, much attention in the news media and in the research literature has focused on the problem of fraudulent ballots and vote count malpractices, acts that occur at the end of the electoral process. Hence, the U.S. heated debate about voter fraud versus voter suppression on polling day,³⁸ with less attention paid to the deeper structural problems of American elections such as the role of campaigns flooded with money or the state restrictions on ballot access for third-party candidates. However, the international community has moved toward understanding that electoral assistance and electoral observation should not be focused purely on election day, or even on the short-term period of the official campaign. Instead, elections should be seen as a sequential process or cycle involving a long series of steps.³⁹ As the ACE project suggests, the cycle involves all stages in the process of elections: “from the design and drafting of legislation, the recruitment and training of electoral staff, electoral planning, voter registration, the registration of political parties, the nomination of parties and candidates, [and] the electoral campaign [to] polling, counting, the tabulation of results, the declaration of results, the resolution of electoral disputes, reporting, auditing and archiving. After the end of one electoral process, it is desirable for work on the next to begin: the whole process can be described as the electoral cycle.”⁴⁰

Figure 2.2 illustrates eleven main stages in this electoral cycle. The most visible types of electoral malpractice involve illegal acts on polling day or immediately afterward, such as vote tabulation fraud, carousel voting, or ballot stuffing. In fact, however, problems can occur at any stage in the electoral cycle. As emphasized by Birch, the more technical and subtle forms of malpractice, through the strategic manipulation of the legal framework governing elections, occur well in advance of polling day, and these may also be the least visible to observers.⁴¹ This can include designing overly restrictive or cumbersome nomination requirements for gaining ballot access, patronage appointments eroding the independence of broadcasting regulatory bodies, and the management of state-controlled television channels, the partisan gerrymandering of constituency boundaries to favor incumbents, or the passage of restrictive voter registration laws, discouraging turnout. These types of legal strategies are also less likely to incur critical media headlines, international condemnation, and domestic protests than more overt forms of intimidation and corruption at the ballot box on polling day. The idea of an electoral cycle is also similar to the way that Andreas Schedler understands the notion, as he suggests that problems of democratic elections involve a “menu of manipulation” that ranges sequentially from restrictions on the range of electoral offices through the formation and expression of preferences to the consequences of voting choices.⁴²

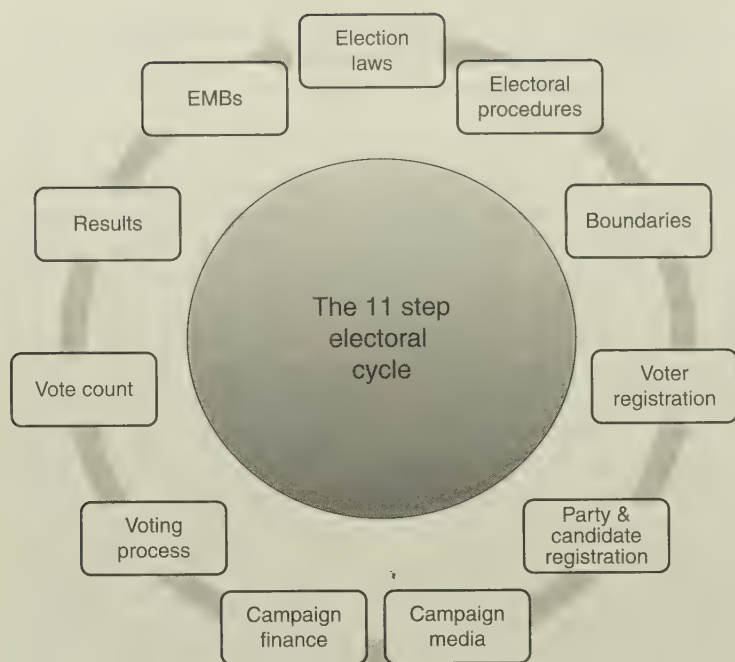


FIGURE 2.2. The electoral cycle.

If conceived in this way, breaking any single link in the chain is capable of undermining the legitimacy of elections.

Moreover, the cyclical notion also emphasizes that multiple actors may engage in malpractices – problems are not simply confined to manipulation or fraudulent practices committed by autocratic leaders and governing elites. Hence, the initial stages of setting the constitutional framework and legal arrangements determine many aspects of party competition and ballot access, a process where the executive, legislative, and judiciary bodies usually play a critical role. The role of the electoral authorities is also important, including their autonomy, powers, and resources for managing electoral processes. The role of parties, the media, and financial contributors contributes toward the quality of the campaign, whereas the security forces, the electoral authorities, citizens, and the courts are the key actors during the later stages of voting and the results. Thus, many studies emphasize problems of electoral fraud, referring to acts intended to distort popular choice, often through illegal means. Understood more broadly, however, electoral malpractices can be seen to arise from varied challenges, some involving intentional manipulation (such as the misuse of state resources by the ruling elite), others unintentional happenstance, lack of governance capacity, and human error (such as running out of ballot papers at polling stations).

Alternative Conceptualizations

At the same time, it should be acknowledged that several disciplines offer alternative approaches to conceptualizing the idea of electoral integrity, including those based on domestic laws, administrative criteria, and democratic values. Each of these perspectives suffers from important limitations, however, making them less suitable than a more comprehensive overarching framework developed in this study.

Legal Conceptions of Electoral Fraud

Perhaps the most common legalistic approach to integrity has focused on electoral *fraud*, implying illegal acts, especially those associated with the final act of casting and counting ballots.⁴³ This framing is particularly popular with activist groups claiming widespread criminal fraud, such as “True the Vote” in the United States.⁴⁴ In its strict usage, fraud refers to interference with the electoral process that violates domestic laws, usually perpetrated intentionally by governments, incumbent office holders, electoral officials, party workers, or citizens. Fraud can be defined as attempts at wrongdoing, exemplified by voter intimidation, bribery, and ballot stuffing.⁴⁵ A legalistic and culturally bound definition of integrity focuses on those acts that are in accordance with domestic statutes and judicial rulings within each state. Where actors clearly transgress against domestic electoral laws and regulations in each country, this can have serious repercussions for integrity. Legal texts, procedural regulations, and court cases in common law have the virtue of providing a concrete national standard that is open to interpretations by lawyers and the judiciary. A legalistic approach is grounded in the interpretation of specific legal provisions, and this is attractive as a practical and concrete yardstick for election management bodies seeking to stamp out blatantly illegal acts, such as forging voter cards, vote buying, or ballot stuffing.

Yet this approach is ultimately far too limited to prove satisfactory; elections can be administratively efficient and perfectly legal, and still violate many broader moral principles and widely endorsed normative standards. Hence, acts that were once widely tolerated are universally condemned today, such as practices of bribery and treating (plying electors with food, drink, or entertainment) in eighteenth-century British rotten boroughs,⁴⁶ or the systematic discrimination experienced by black voters until the 1965 Civil Rights Act in the United States.⁴⁷ Similarly, as illustrated with the case of Singapore, electoral systems can be perfectly legal and yet can also violate basic conditions essential for democratic contests, for example, by incorporating excessively high vote thresholds to qualify for seats, by gerrymandering constituency boundaries, or by creating excessively difficult hurdles, thereby discouraging ballot access for third party or opposition candidates.⁴⁸ Electoral laws and regulations also vary over time and from one society to another, including among states, provinces, and regions within countries. It is therefore problematic to try to use domestic

laws as the basis to compare integrity across nations on a consistent basis. Indeed, countries with stricter cultural norms could be expected to generate more rigorous legal standards and more active prosecutions of electoral malpractice, whereas societies with greater tolerance of corruption, *baksheesh*, and clientalistic politics could demonstrate a more lax legal record. Thus, violations of domestic legal standards, albeit one form of malpractice, are too narrow and relativistic to provide a consistent measure of electoral integrity for comparative analysis.

Electoral Maladministration

For those concerned with public-sector management, problems at the polls can also be framed as electoral *maladministration*, a term conventionally referring to more routine flaws and unintended mishaps by election officials. These problems may be caused by managerial failures, inefficiency, incompetence, and failure of bureaucratic capacity, exemplified by the existence of excessively long lines at polling stations, inaccurate or dated electoral registers, the lack of security ink, the insufficient provision of ballot papers, the misplacement of ballot boxes, the breakdown or technical inaccuracy of electronic voting machines, or mathematical errors during the vote count. This term described many common problems exemplified by the decentralized and highly partisan nature of American electoral administration, where local officials are responsible for many aspects of the registration and voting process. The poor and confusing design of ballot papers in Broward County, Florida in 2000 was widely attributed to incompetency and human error by local officials, for example, rather than the intention to defraud electors of their rights, although clearly these problems were rooted in larger structural flaws, such as the decentralized and partisan nature of American electoral management bodies.⁴⁹

Nevertheless, the concept of maladministration is also relatively narrow and it cannot be stretched to apply to first-order problems of electoral malpractice, such as those occurring under authoritarian states with the imprisonment of dissidents or opposition leaders, disqualifications for ballot access for presidential candidates, or the systematic disenfranchisement of major groups of citizens. Maladministration also assigns primary responsibility for any problems with electoral officials rather than other actors, such as the leaders of political parties or community groups who use heightened rhetoric and claims of fraud triggering electoral violence, private corporations that bribe politicians or provide one-sided TV broadcasts, or repressive acts conducted by the security forces. Moreover, in many cases it remains difficult to distinguish between genuine human error and intentionally fraudulent acts, for example, where certain names are missing from electoral registries, or where the use of insecure absentee ballots facilitates duplicate names. Most importantly, perhaps, there are no international standards of maladministration that would allow the quality of elections to be benchmarked, compared, and evaluated. Thus, while some election management bodies prefer paper ballots on the grounds of

efficiency, transparency, and security, others prefer electronic voting machines, advancing the same reasons.⁵⁰ International IDEA assumes that the independence of election management bodies from executive agencies is important for their impartiality, but Birch suggests that pluralistic partisan composition can be equally effective.⁵¹ Performance standards are starting to be developed and implemented by national electoral management bodies, but these have not yet been standardized as international instruments.

Democratic Values and Principles

Lastly, perhaps the strongest challenge to the conceptualization of electoral integrity offered in this study arises from political philosophy and from alternative definitions derived from theories and principles of liberal democracy. Thus, elections that fail to reflect the values of transparency, inclusiveness, and participation can be seen as lacking integrity. The most ambitious approach has been proposed by Birch, who defines electoral malpractices as the manipulation of electoral processes and outcomes so that personal or partisan benefits are substituted for the public interest.⁵² Birch develops a comprehensive theoretical framework that proposes that elections meet democratic principles where they are inclusive, facilitating policy-directed voting, and allowing effective aggregation. Contests involving malpractices are understood by Birch to violate these principles through the manipulation of *institutions* (such as gerrymandered electoral laws biased toward incumbents), *vote choice* (such as through limiting campaign activities and information), and the *voting act* (such as through ballot-box stuffing).

The framework provides perhaps the most sophisticated theory that has attempted to root the concept of electoral malpractice in core values of liberal democracy. The approach is attractive by providing a far broader and more coherent framework than the minimalist criteria endorsed by global norms and international conventions. Nevertheless, this general approach suffers from several limitations. In particular, there is no single canonical source for interpreting democratic theory; where classical philosophers discussed detailed principles and aspects of electoral integrity and malpractice, they often differed sharply in their understanding of these matters. During the contemporary era, Dahl's notion of polyarchy provides the overarching framework used to understand conventional notions of liberal democracy, covering many abstract general principles. But the core principles of polyarchy provide only limited guidance when it comes to interpreting the legitimacy of many detailed standards of electoral integrity and malpractices. Moreover, Birch favors the classic "mandate" theory of democratic elections, whereby political parties should offer voters clear policy platforms and programs, avoiding more clientelistic appeals based on the delivery of material benefits to groups of supporters.⁵³ In many countries, however, clientelism and patronage can also be regarded as another legitimate form of political representation, where elected officials deliver public goods and services to local areas and constituents.⁵⁴ Thus, scholars do not

agree on a single understanding of democratic principles and values that could provide a common or universal standard for evaluating the quality of elections around the world. In addition, even if scholars could hammer out a cohesive and comprehensive theoretical framework, rooted in contemporary democratic principles and values, this still would not be regarded as imposing legitimate, authoritative, or binding obligations by the international community. International law requires rights and obligations that are discussed, coded, and endorsed by governments in member states through multilateral conventions and regional organization guidelines, not philosophical principles.

Conclusions

Therefore, this study seeks to sharpen and reframe core concepts. Alternative concepts are common in the academic literature. Hence, legal scholars commonly emphasize *fraudulent* practices involving intentional violations of domestic laws and regulations, especially by ruling parties and electoral officials, but also by government and opposition politicians, party activists, and by ordinary citizens.⁵⁵ Fraudulent acts involve a host of crimes and misdemeanors including inaccurate ballot counts, impersonation and multiple voting, perjury, voter registration scams, forgery, counterfeiting, bribery, treating, and other criminal offenses related to the electoral process. Laws provide concrete benchmarks, yet acts may be perfectly legal despite violating international standards. Another strand of the literature, common among scholars of public-sector management, draws from the language and theories of public administration.⁵⁶ The core values for evaluating the performance of public-sector official bodies, from this perspective, are those such as whether procedures meet the goals of efficiency, effectiveness, value for money, accuracy, fairness, access, transparency, and satisfaction. This perspective stresses electoral irregularities arising from organizational inefficiencies, unintentional administrative flaws, and performance failures. Many administrative problems arise from the lack of human, financial, and technical capacities of official electoral agencies, government ministries, and local public sector bodies with the primary responsibility for managing elections. The focus of electoral governance is particularly common within established democracies, although a growing body of work is examining the roles and responsibilities of electoral management bodies elsewhere in the world.⁵⁷ By contrast, comparative studies commonly focus on the failure of contests to meet certain normative values and principles derived from democratic theory, including contestation, accountability, inclusiveness, impartiality, rule of law, and transparency.⁵⁸ From this perspective, the focus is less about administrative capacity and more about preventing or condemning intentional violations of democratic principles, mainly used by incumbents to maintain power.

These problems – of illegal fraud, administrative irregularities, and violations of democratic principles – can all be seen as related components of this

complex phenomenon, but each dimension alone remains too circumscribed, providing an incomplete and partial understanding of the concept of electoral integrity.

To recapitulate the argument, the central notion of “electoral integrity” adopted in this book emphasizes shared international principles and standards of elections, applying universally to all countries worldwide throughout all stages in the electoral cycle, including during the pre-electoral period, the campaign, on polling day, and its aftermath. Conversely, electoral “malpractices” violate international standards of electoral integrity, a process that may be intended or the product of happenstance, which may be in accordance with domestic laws or illegal in a particular country, and which can be based on a failure of democratic rights or a failure of administrative capacity. In practice, the most legitimate and authoritative standards of electoral integrity are derived from multilateral agreements, international conventions, treaties, and international laws. The basic approach is therefore broader than alternative conceptualizations emphasizing the legitimacy of standards arising from the framework of domestic laws, the principles of liberal democracy, or the values of public sector management. Far from being static, however, global norms continue to evolve over time; a life-cycle model identifies several distinct stages, involving norm emergence and advocacy, international and regional diffusion, and local internalization within domestic cultures. The broadest agreement surrounds certain fundamental rights and freedoms that have been established and endorsed in international law for more than six decades, starting with the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (1948). Nevertheless, the most appropriate standards governing many contemporary concerns about electoral integrity continue to be debated within the international community, including emerging norms concerning the most appropriate regulation of campaign finance, without yet reaching sufficient consensus for ratification of a new UN convention or treaty. Finally, the core concept of integrity can be understood to involve *an electoral cycle* where a range of malpractices can arise at any stage in a sequential process from the constitutional and legal arrangements to the appointment of the electoral authorities, the conduct of the campaign, the process of voting, and the final results (not only fraud occurring on polling day and its immediate aftermath). Given this understanding, Chapter 3 considers how the concept can be measured and what empirical evidence is available to compare and analyze problems of electoral malpractices.

Evidence

The research design used in this book builds on the conceptualization and the theoretical framework discussed in previous chapters and describes several primary sources of evidence. As mentioned in the introduction, attempts to measure electoral integrity quickly encounter major challenges, similar to those facing attempts to monitor equally complex but hidden phenomenon, such as corruption. Many contests end with cries of fraud by losing parties or candidates. These may reflect genuine violations of electoral rights – or merely sour-grape attempts to stoke malcontent, deter leadership challenges by excusing a bad electoral performance, and/or undermine the rightful winners. Acts of electoral fraud involve clandestine attempts to fiddle with the ballots, which are inherently difficult to detect. Legal records can be scrutinized, such as prosecutions for violations of electoral law, voter registration fraud, or disqualified candidates struck off the ballot. But these cases may only skim the surface of the problem, particularly where petty bribery is accepted as a routine part of the culture, the state itself is the main perpetrator of malpractices or, indeed, violations of international standards are legally condoned. The courts, police, and electoral authorities may also be in the pocket of the ruling party. Media reports also evaluate the quality of an election. But do these sources provide reliable evidence? Journalists may be biased by partisan leanings and by headlines focused on negative news about election disputes and political scandals. Some of the most repressive regimes muzzle critical coverage. Statistical techniques of electoral forensics are designed to detect voting irregularities, but as yet there is no consensus about the most appropriate and reliable statistical indicators.¹ Even if determined, these techniques are confined to detecting problems occurring at the ballot box and count, rather than throughout the electoral cycle. In-depth case studies and well-designed and rigorous, randomized field and natural experiments provide important insights, but the results remain highly contextual, suffering from limited generalizability. The impact on fraud arising

from the deployment of electoral observers to a randomized selection of polling stations in say, Armenia, may differ from the effects in, say, Afghanistan.²

Several previous datasets have been constructed from coding election observer mission and human rights reports.³ These publications provide a widely respected source of independent evidence. Observers from regional bodies provide a systematic and authoritative assessment of the quality of elections, including the Organization of American States (OAS), the African Union (AU), the European Union (EU), the Carter Center, and the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE).⁴ *The Declaration of Principles for International Election Observation* – a statement seeking to establish agreed standards and norms for credible observation activities – was endorsed at the United Nations almost a decade ago.⁵ Nevertheless, the number of observer organizations has proliferated in recent years, and many do not adhere strictly to international standards when assessing elections. A growing number of contests have generated sharp disagreements in observer assessments of the outcome and electoral autocracies are increasingly inviting observer organizations calculated as likely to produce favorable assessments.⁶ “Experts” employed as international observers, as well as U.S. Department of State officials and Western journalists, may also employ evaluative standards drawing from their own experiences, but which diverge sharply from the perceptions of elites and ordinary citizens living within each country.

The wisest strategy to overcome these challenges is to use robustness tests comparing the consistency of the results of analyzing multiple sources of evidence. Accordingly, Part I in this chapter compares several datasets evaluating the quality of elections around the world. This book presents the first results of a new expert survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI), to establish where elections succeed and fail. This is compared against estimates of the quality of elections and measures of democracy and autocracy developed in previous studies. In addition, to test the first step in the core theoretical model, even if flawed elections occur, we need to establish whether the general public is aware of these problems, as theorized. Part II of the chapter describes the mass surveys that are available, presenting the first results of a new measure of perceptions of electoral integrity, derived from a nine-item battery of questions contained in the sixth wave of the World Values Survey (WVS) 2010–2014. Lastly, given the inevitable limitations of seeking to determine the direction of causality from cross-national data, selected case studies help to trace processes of recent changes in the quality of elections within particular states. Part III discusses the selection of historical case studies covering a series of elections since the early 1990s, focused on the impact of both progress and regress in electoral integrity, to identify cases of both success and failure.

I. Expert Evaluations

The first requirement for testing the book’s core theory is the need for systematic empirical evidence about standards of elections across the globe. Fortunately,

drawing from slightly different conceptualizations, sources of evidence, and time periods, several alternative datasets have recently become available for this purpose (see Table 3.1). This includes the first results of a new PEI dataset, based on an expert survey produced by Norris, Frank, and Martinez i Coma.⁷ This is designed to provide a valid measure reflecting the multidimensional concept of electoral integrity proposed in Chapter 2. Elections can be compared using a single summary 100-point PEI index constructed from the dataset, as well as through detailed measures for each of the eleven steps in the electoral cycle already identified, or across specific items, for even more fine-grained detail. The PEI aims to evaluate all national presidential and parliamentary elections for all countries worldwide except for microstates (with a population greater than 100,000), thereby providing far more comprehensive global coverage than datasets restricted to coding electoral observer mission reports. The PEI survey is being rolled out annually within a few months after each national parliamentary and presidential election to capture assessments by election experts, thereby generating a cumulative global dataset of all elections worldwide. Data gathering from national elections starting in mid-2012, however, limiting the number of countries and elections currently available for analysis.⁸ This design also means that the PEI data cannot be used to compare long-term trends in past patterns of electoral integrity from earlier decades. Also, as a new dataset, the validity and scientific reliability of the PEI index need to be compared against alternative independent sources of evidence.

For this purpose, and to examine global and longitudinal trends, other evidence is utilized in this book, as summarized in Tables 3.1 and 3.2. The dataset on *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA), developed by Susan Hyde and Nicholas Marinov, provides a comprehensive comparison of electoral competition worldwide – an important aspect of electoral integrity – and it also monitors trends from 1945–2010.⁹ In addition, the Index of Electoral Malpractice (IEM) produced by Sarah Birch provides a multidimensional dataset covering a range of problematic electoral practices, although comparing a smaller range of countries and a shorter time period (1995–2007).¹⁰ The Quality of Elections Data (QED), developed by Judith Kelley, provides another comparative resource, covering 172 countries, based on reports of human rights practices from the U.S. State Department.¹¹ Finally, Freedom House provides an annual measure of *electoral* democracies in countries worldwide since 1989.¹² There is no perfect measure; instead, each approach has certain potential strengths and weaknesses, as summarized in Table 3.2.

Most previous studies of standards of the quality of elections have usually relied exclusively on a single election or country-level assessment, and indeed often a single simple summary “pass/fail” dichotomous measure.¹³ Some indices use ordinal scales that have a limited range, such as the Cingranelli and Richards project that codes human rights from 0 (bad protection) to 2 (good protection).¹⁴ Similarly, based on coding U.S. State Department reports, Judith Kelley provides a summary ordinal scale of “overall election quality” coded

TABLE 3.1. *Expert Indices Monitoring the Quality of Elections in Cross-National Projects*

Project	Principle Investigators	Period	N. Nations	N. Elections	Data Sources	Core Concept and Measures
Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI)	Norris, Frank, and Martinez I Coma	July 1, 2012 – December 31, 2013	66	75	Expert survey	Evaluations of electoral integrity based on an expert survey conducted after national parliamentary and presidential elections. The survey contains 49 substantive items divided into eleven stages in the electoral cycle. The overall Perceptions of Electoral Integrity index sums all the items to generate a standardized 100-point scale. www.electoralintegrityproject.com
National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)	Susan Hyde and Nikolay Marinov (Yale University)	1945–2010	162	2,948	Various; including news media archives, election data handbooks, and online election guides	The NELDA dataset measures “electoral competition” in national constituent assembly, presidential, and legislative contests. The NELDA electoral integrity index was constructed by combining four items from the dataset: Nelda 11 “Before elections, are there significant concerns that elections will not be free and fair?”; Nelda 13 “Were opposition leaders prevented from running?”; Nelda 15 “Is there evidence that the government harassed the opposition?”; and Nelda

(continued)

TABLE 3.1 (*continued*)

Project	Principle Investigators	Period	N. Nations	N. Elections Data Sources	Core Concept and Measures
Quality of Elections Data (QED)	Judith Kelley (Duke University)	1977-2004	172	1206	16 "In the run-up to the election, were there allegations of media bias in favor of the incumbent?" These items were summed for the aggregate index and the combined scores were reversed and standardized. http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/ The QED dataset codes multiple aspects of the "quality of elections." The QED electoral integrity index was constructed by using SA1 "Overall electoral quality" (coded [0] acceptable, [1] ambiguous, and [2] unacceptable) combined with SA2 "The extent of problems" (coded as [0] no problems, [1] minor problems only, [2] moderate problems, and [3] major problems). These items were summed for the aggregate index and the combined scores were reversed and standardized. http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/

Index of Electoral Malpractice (IEM)	Sarah Birch (Essex University)	1995-2007	61	161	Observer mission reports by the EU, OAS, and OSCE	The IEM dataset focuses on measuring “electoral malpractice,” defined by Birch as “the manipulation of electoral processes and outcomes so as to substitute personal or partisan benefit for the public interest.” The dataset codes: (1) the legal framework, (2) campaign practices, and (3) electoral administration. The Index of Electoral Malpractice (IEM) was constructed from fourteen items, each measured on a 5-point scale, monitoring the legal framework, the independence of the electoral authorities, candidate contestation, voter registration, polling arrangements, voting processes, vote counting, the role of observers, balanced coverage by the media, regulation of campaign resources, vote buying, voter intimidation, and candidate intimidation. Missing data was replaced by mean substitution to avoid dropping cases. The overall score was then standardized. http://www.essex.ac.uk/ government/electoralmalpractice/index. htm
---	--------------------------------------	-----------	----	-----	---	--

(continued)

TABLE 3.1 (continued)

Project	Principle Investigators	Period	N. Nations	N. Elections	Data Sources	Core Concept and Measures
Freedom House (FH) Electoral Democracies	Freedom House	1989–present	192		Freedom House	Freedom House classifies all countries worldwide into “electoral democracies” based on three political rights questions: (1) Is the head of government or other chief national authority elected through free and fair elections? (2) Are the national legislative representatives elected through free and fair elections? (3) Are the electoral laws and framework fair? States also need to score at least 20/40 for all ten political rights questions. www.freedomhouse.org

Notes: see Technical Appendix A for details.

TABLE 3.2. *Assessing the Strengths and Weaknesses of Alternative Expert Indicators of Electoral Integrity*

Project	Principle Investigators	Strengths	Weaknesses
Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI)	Norris, Frank, and Martinez I Coma	Provides 49 measures of “electoral integrity” disaggregated into eleven sequential stages during the electoral cycle Provides a continuous summary PEI 100-point index of the overall level of electoral integrity in any contest Provides comprehensive scope across 162 countries worldwide and annual observations from 1945–2010 Draws from multiple sources of evidence	Currently available only for contemporary elections
National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)	Susan Hyde and Nikolay Marinov (Yale University)		The minimalist definition of “electoral competition” omits many dimensions of the broader concept of electoral integrity Skewed toward measuring electoral competition in electoral autocracies
Quality of Elections Data (QED)	Judith Kelley (Duke University)	Provides a moderately broad selection of indicators for the “quality of elections” during the pre-election campaign and post-election periods	The core notion of the “quality of elections” is poorly conceptualized May suffer from measurement error, potential systematic bias, and lack of legitimacy arising from reliance on the U.S. State Department human rights reports
Index of Electoral Malpractice (IEM)	Sarah Birch (Essex University)	Provides a multidimensional definition of the concept of “electoral malpractice” and a comprehensive selection of systematic indicators that are measured using ordinal scales	Limited scope across 61 countries and 12 years Measurement error and systematic bias may arise from inclusion of only the countries covered by election observer reports
Freedom House (FH) Electoral Democracies	Freedom House	Provides a simple binary classification of “electoral democracies” covering 192 independent nation-states worldwide with annual observations since 1989	The measurement of “free and fair” elections is not transparent The binary classification may miss gradual shifts in electoral integrity

Notes: see the Technical Appendix A for details.

0 (acceptable), 1 (ambiguous), and 2 (unacceptable). The advantage of utilizing alternative multidimensional datasets that monitor many dimensions of the electoral cycle, however, is that specific problems can be scrutinized in more detail and the composite parts can be compared with each other and also with standardized indicators of democracy derived from Freedom House's index of political rights and civil liberties and the Polity IV Autocracy-Democracy scale.¹⁵ If the estimates produced from several independent studies are consistently correlated, despite different research projects, concepts, and sources, this increases confidence in the reliability and robustness of our measures and findings. If inconsistent results are apparent, moreover, this can also provide important clues into some of the reasons why estimates may differ because of alternative conceptualizations, sources, or measures.

The Electoral Integrity Project's Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI)

Expert surveys have become increasingly popular as a technique for evaluating many standards of democratic governance that are hard to observe directly through other means, such as perceived levels of corruption, rule of law, the quality of bureaucracy, and media freedom.¹⁶ Widely used expert surveys in political science include Transparency International's expert survey of perceptions of corruption, the Varieties of Democracy Project under development by the Institute for the Quality of Government, and several expert surveys of political party ideologies and policy positions.¹⁷ More generally, expert judgments have also commonly been used for many decades in engineering, science, and commerce, for example, to assess the risks arising from nuclear reactor accidents, investment decisions, or military conflict.¹⁸ In the literature, expert judgments are also called "expert opinions," "expert forecasts," and "expert knowledge." The technique is often employed when many other standard approaches to measurement or direct observation are lacking. In general, expert judgments rely on cognitive reasoning drawing from information and skills acquired through specialized training, technical knowledge, and experience. Judgments reflect the contemporary elite consensus on any topic although they need to be adjusted in the light of new information. Nevertheless, any expert judgments and perceptions are open to the charge of bias arising from many sources, such as their cultural values, normative assumptions, sources of evidence, and levels of knowledge. The external validity and accuracy of any estimates, therefore, need to be examined against independent evidence, wherever available.

Building on this approach, the PEI study developed by Norris, Frank, and Martinez selects a cross-section of electoral experts to participate in the survey, including both domestic and international respondents. The survey asks approximately forty electoral experts about each contest, generating a mean response rate of around 30 percent across the survey. *Electoral experts* are defined in the PEI study as political scientists (or scholars in related social science disciplines,

such as law, history, political economy, or political sociology) who are knowledgeable about one or more of the following topics: elections, electoral systems, electoral administration, voting behavior, public opinion, campaigns, political communications, mass media, democracy and democratization, political parties and party systems, human rights, and national politics. All of these topics touch on different dimensions of the underlying concept of electoral integrity. *Expertise* is defined by publication of scholarly articles, books, and conference papers or teaching at university level on these topics, and/or by membership and participation in professional research groups, disciplinary networks, and organized sections on the aforementioned topics with organizations such as the International Political Science Association.

The instrument used for the expert survey was developed and conducted in conjunction with Andrew Reynolds and Jørgen Elklit.¹⁹ The survey relies on multiple questions, not simply an overall “pass/fail” summary judgment. Social-psychological research suggests that breaking estimates into their components parts, or greater granularity, usually generates more accurate answers.²⁰ The forty-nine items about electoral integrity contained in the questionnaire are designed to capture expert judgments about whether specific national elections meet internationally recognized principles and standards of elections. Details are provided in this book’s Technical Appendix B. Respondents are not asked to report their own direct experience of elections, or to provide information about legal or factual technical matters in each country – such as the level of the vote threshold required to qualify for parliamentary seats or the proportion of the eligible electorate registered to vote – that can be gathered more accurately from alternative sources, including electoral laws and official statistics. Instead, respondents are asked to evaluate the quality of a wide range of electoral integrity and malpractice items in a specific national election within each country. The items are derived from a series of common and universally accepted global norms and values, reflecting the conceptual framework discussed in Chapter 2, such as the value of fairness, equality, inclusiveness, honesty, and efficiency in all the sequential steps of the electoral cycle.

One of the chief questions when trying to gauge electoral integrity is where to draw the boundaries when it comes to deciding which items are most relevant to electoral integrity? To reflect the conceptualization used in this book, it is important to go beyond polling day and the vote count, to include the broad determinants of electoral integrity throughout the electoral cycle. Hence, many aspects of elections are monitored in PEI well before or immediately after polling day. Close attention is paid to each step in the electoral cycle. As with all survey work, experts are not cued by the questionnaire about the meaning of these items; instead, they are asked to make their own judgments based on their own perceptions. One of the advantages of the PEI dataset is that the disaggregated score is available for each of the items, allowing analysts to pinpoint the issues that are of most concern – for

example, the fairness of the Electoral Management Body (EMB), the process of campaigning, or the aftermath of the results – as well as facilitating the process of aggregating the data flexibly so that analysts can fit alternative theoretical concepts.

Another issue raised by this process is how to gauge the responses if respondents from different cultures, countries, or groups employ different standards, or if they understand the meaning of questions in divergent ways. Cultural biases are only to be expected; for example, experts living in long-established democracies may prove more critical of electoral fraud and inaccuracies in voter registers than those living in newer democracies. The PEI dataset was tested to see whether evaluations of electoral integrity varied systematically based on an expert's social and demographic background (age, education, sex), country of birth, their length of time living in the country of the election, and their ideological views on a left-right scale. The analysis showed that the length of residence in the country of an election proved important; long-time residents were more positive in their evaluations. Familiarity, it appears, may breed content. Equally important, however, was the discovery that nationality and citizenship were, perhaps surprisingly, not significant for electoral evaluations, suggesting that international and domestic experts shared largely similar assessments. Moreover, political ideology (across the left-right scale) was also unimportant, as was age and education.²¹

Individual items in the survey were recoded in a consistently positive direction and scored consistently on a 0–5 ordinal scale, with “0” representing the most negative evaluations and “5” the most positive. Individual scores were also averaged for the country as a whole. Where the standard deviation of the mean in any country proved higher than average, the individual scores were further examined. The items were then summed to 100-points to generate the standardized PEI Index. Using similar procedures, for more accurate and detailed diagnosis, standardized 100-point indices were also generated for each of the eleven sub-dimensions in the electoral cycle.

The main advantage of the PEI dataset is that it furnishes analysts with a multidimensional assessment of electoral integrity, reflecting the core concept developed in this book, which can be broken down into its component parts. The results show a high degree of external and internal validity with other indices. The PEI dataset used in this book covers all independent nation-states around the world (with a population of more than 100,000) that held national presidential or parliamentary elections during the eighteen-month period from July 1, 2012 to December 31, 2013. The survey covers diverse types of societies and types of regimes, ranging from the United States, Japan, and the Netherlands, on the one hand, to Burkina Faso, Sierra Leone, and Belarus, on the other hand. The survey covers seventy-five elections held in sixty-six countries (out of 195 independent nation-states) or around one-third of all countries worldwide. The elections included in the survey include the universe of all

contests held during this period and thus provide a representative cross-section of all elections worldwide (with the exclusion of micro-states, where it is difficult to identify a suitable number of experts).

National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)

For longitudinal comparisons of trends and time series data, indicators about the quality of elections are drawn from other sources. One major dataset used for this purpose is Susan Hyde and Nikolay Marinov's coding of *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA).²² This project has the advantage of providing the most comprehensive coverage that is currently available by monitoring the quality of 2,948 national legislative and presidential elections held from 1945 to 2010 in all independent nation-states worldwide, excluding smaller nation-states with populations less than half a million. NELDA uses an extensive list of secondary sources, including academic election handbooks, online resources, news media, and official reports. The NELDA project codes multiple components of electoral integrity and it focuses on measures of electoral competition.

The conceptual framework builds on Alvarez, Cheibub, Limogi, and Przeworski (ACLP), who developed a dichotomous or binary classification of all regimes as either democracies or autocracies based on competitive elections.²³ The dichotomous approach has been extended by other scholars, yet there are several alternative meanings of contestation. For example, opposition candidates are murdered, imprisoned, or forced into exile in some states, while in others, incumbents have a significant advantage through disproportionate access to money and media, and in yet others, minor parties failing to collect sufficient valid signatures are excluded from the ballot. Hyde and Marinov reason that the minimal structural conditions for competition are present in any contest if opposition is allowed, multiple parties are permitted, and more than one candidate appears on the ballot, but this remains more appropriate as a way to demarcate the most repressive regimes from those that are slightly more liberal rather than a comprehensive measure of all aspects of electoral competition. The NELDA dataset seeks to code the conduct of national legislative and presidential election events to measure these conditions according to a series of standardized and transparent procedures. The resulting measure is useful for "precising" binary regime classifications, and thus for analyzing regime transitions and processes of democratization. Yet electoral competition provides only an incomplete indicator of the broader concept of electoral integrity, excluding many important conditions. For example, even if the names of major opposition parties and candidates are formally listed on the ballot, competition can nevertheless be heavily skewed toward incumbents through the legal framework, campaign media coverage, and sources of party funding.

Therefore, to create an index capturing several elements of electoral malpractice for this study, a standardized scale was constructed by combining four

items contained in the NELDA dataset that are most relevant to the idea of electoral integrity:

- “Before elections, are there significant concerns that elections will not be free and fair?” (Nelda 11)
- “Were opposition leaders prevented from running?” (Nelda 13)
- “Is there evidence that the government harassed the opposition?” (Nelda 15)
- “In the run-up to the election, were there allegations of media bias in favor of the incumbent?” (Nelda 16)

These particular items do not by any means provide a comprehensive measure of all dimensions of the broader concepts of electoral integrity and malpractices. They do, however, monitor several common problems, especially those observed in many electoral autocracies. The selected items were tested using principal component factor analysis with varimax rotation. They were found to form a single dimensional (see Technical Appendix A for more details). Reliability checks further confirmed that the four items formed a consistent scale (Cronbach’s Alpha 0.756). Accordingly, the items were summed into a single NELDA index and the score was standardized for ease of comparison.

Index of Electoral Malpractice (IEM)

Another alternative estimate is provided by the electoral malpractice dataset, developed by Sarah Birch, which classifies a series of 161 elections in 61 states from 1997 to 2007. The project recoded information derived from election observer mission reports published by regional organizations, including the OSCE, AU, and OAS. Codes were checked for inter-coder reliability. Birch divides the notion of electoral malpractice into three subcategories according to the legal framework, campaign practices, and electoral administration.²⁴ This index therefore seeks to be comprehensive and multidimensional, covering all stages in the electoral cycle. Electoral malpractice is measured using fourteen separate items that reflect these categories, coding information about each election according to 5-point scales, such as the process of voter registration, vote counting, and media coverage. Scores in each election are then aggregated, with equal weight given to each item to construct the overall summary IEM. The index used in this study followed similar practices, summing all fourteen items and creating a standardized 100-point score for ease of interpretation and comparison.

Evidence derived from international observer mission reports provides a rich source of information, but nevertheless, reliance on this single source may generate a systematic measurement bias, as only certain countries allow and attract observer missions. As mentioned earlier, prior to deployment, needs assessment exercises by international agencies determine whether conditions are deemed appropriate for missions. Hence, the OSCE guidelines recommend not sending observers to places with severe security threats.²⁵ Moreover, not all countries allow international observers to visit, and powerful autocratic states

with the most blatant disregard for human rights are most likely to prevent any mission.²⁶ On the other hand, given limited budgets and personnel, international observer missions are also not sent to countries where there are believed to be few or no major problems of electoral integrity. Thus, both “floor” and “ceiling” effects determine the types of contests included in observer reports, and how far we can generalize from these cases.

The Quality of Elections Data (QED)

The fourth source used for comparison is the QED developed by Judith Kelley. This draws from the U.S. State Department official reports as the source of evidence, comparing 1,206 elections from 1978–2004. In one variable (SA1), the dataset summarizes the overall election quality of any contest using an ordinal scale according to whether the U.S. State Department reported that a contest was acceptable (0), ambiguous (1), or unacceptable (2) in representing the will of the people. In the other variable (SA2), the extent of the problem is coded using the same reports on an ordinal scale from good (0), low (1), moderate (2), and high (3). These two summary items measuring the overall election quality (SA1) and the extent of problems (SA2) were added, reversed, and standardized in a 100-point quality of elections scale (see the Technical Appendix A). Further items monitor many specific components throughout the election cycle (based on recoded official state department reports), including the quality of the legal framework, campaign environment, electoral administrative capacity, election violence, and polling-day fraud. The main limitation for the index is that U.S. State Department reports can be influenced by U.S. foreign policy priorities and cultural values rather than independent or scholarly concerns, so systematic measurement bias may well arise from reliance on this resource.²⁷

Freedom House’s Classification of Electoral Democracies

Freedom House’s general methodology monitoring political rights and civil liberties is widely familiar to most scholars. The organization rates countries worldwide on an annual basis using a standard instrument with evaluations gathered from expert assessments. A binary (0/1) classification is used by Freedom House to classify a country as an “electoral democracy” if it scores seven points or more in total (out of a possible twelve) for three political-rights subcategory questions on electoral process: (1) Is the head of government or other chief national authority elected through free and fair elections? (2) Are the national legislative representatives elected through free and fair elections? (3) Are the electoral laws and framework fair? Electoral democracies also need to score a total of twenty points or more (out of a possible forty) for all ten political rights questions monitored by this organization. All other countries are deemed to be autocratic. Freedom House provides the broadest geographic coverage worldwide, including micro-states and even dependent territories, with the annual ratings of electoral democracies published since 1989. The

comprehensive coverage is important because there is a well-known tendency for smaller countries to be more democratic, so it is important not to exclude them systematically from the analysis.²⁸

Finally, all these estimates of electoral quality can also be compared with the two standard indices most widely used in the social sciences to monitor levels of democratization. One measure is provided by Freedom House that publishes an annual index used to monitor a range of political rights and civil liberties. This can be converted into a 100-point standardized scale of liberal democracy. Estimates can also be compared with the Polity V dataset, notably the 20-point Autocracy-Democracy scale, which can also be standardized to 100-points for ease of comparison.²⁹ Both provide a long-time series of observations for many countries around the world.

Evaluating Expert Evaluations

How can the alternative indices of the quality of elections be assessed? As with similar measures of complex political phenomena such as human rights, democracy, or corruption, evidence in scientific and applied research should meet acceptable standards for scholars and practitioners, striking a careful balance across several competing criteria.³⁰ Table 3.2 highlights some of the potential strengths and weaknesses of each of the datasets.

Ideally the selected indicators should be *conceptually valid*, meaning that the attributes relate logically and consistently to the overall concept of electoral integrity that is being operationalized. If extraneous attributes are included, this generates a muddy measure that is not properly delimited. For example, it would be inappropriate to use Polity IV index of democracy and autocracy as a proxy for electoral integrity, since this measure is constructed based on many features of executive office and institutional checks and balances well beyond elections per se. In addition, as observed with problems of electoral integrity in the United States, Britain, and Canada, democracy is no guarantee of well-run elections. The contrary danger is if certain core attributes are excluded from indicators, as this provides an incomplete measure; for example, if electoral integrity is measured only by incidents of fraud on polling day, or by the legal opportunities for opposition candidates to gain ballot access.

When seeking to assess electoral integrity, other potential problems can arise from systematic sources of *measurement error*. Some of these can be attributed to the choice of data sources; for example, analysis of media reports of irregularities in campaign finance may reflect the independence of the press, the regulatory environment, and freedom of information laws in any society more than actual incidents. Similarly, collecting data on legal prosecutions of voter fraud or vote buying will probably reflect the role of the courts and the influence of partisan politics rather than the frequency of these problems. Other problems with Kelley's QED arise from secondary analyses of human rights

reports issued from the U.S. State Department since these reports are likely to reflect American foreign policy interests and culturally bound interpretations of human rights rather than international assessments. Other attempts to monitor the quality of elections, such as Birch's IEM have extracted data by coding information contained in international observer mission reports. Yet the countries included in the dataset through this method may be systematically biased toward the worst cases, thereby limiting generalizability; agencies use needs-assessment missions prior to deployment and observers are not sent to countries seen as meeting international election standards, generating a systematic bias toward more problematic contests. Measurement error can be reduced, although not wholly eliminated, by using multiple sources to extract data; for example, by comparing observer reports issued by different organizations evaluating the same contests, although this can also complicate the analysis if these reports disagree sharply in their assessments. Measurement errors can also be reduced by using cross-checks to confirm the external validity of measures.

The *scope* of the coverage provided by any dataset is important: the broader the range of countries and time periods included in datasets, the more comprehensive their generalizability. A broad scope allows measures to be used in diverse contexts, allowing comparisons across global regions rather than being idiosyncratic and highly contextual. The capacity to generalize is strengthened by indicators that can be applied consistently to monitor elections held within and across diverse cultural regions, under different types of regimes, and during alternative time periods. On the other hand, several indicators are only available for one global region, such as Staffan Lindberg's evaluation of free and fair elections in sub-Saharan Africa.³¹ Some subtle systematic biases can arise from seemingly innocuous decisions; for example, the NELDA dataset follows the practices used by the Polity IV dataset by excluding smaller countries (with a population less than 500,000). Because smaller countries tend to be more democratic than average,³² the cross-national coverage of cases included in NELDA may overestimate problems of electoral malpractices around the world.

Measurement levels, which can be at nominal, ordinal, or interval scales, need sufficient precision to allow analysts to identify the specific source and gravity of any violations of electoral integrity, and thus determine suitable remedies, rather than being so abstract and general that they prove too blunt for accurate diagnosis. For example, binary pass/fail judgments about the quality of elections (or even restricted ordinal categories) cannot identify the source of any flaws. At the same time, measures need to avoid spurious precision, which can arise from asking coders to make impossibly fine-grained distinctions between categories.

Any measures should be *reliable*, so that independent studies are likely to arrive at similar interpretations of the evidence, meaning, in practice, that alternative indices constructed by different scholars are highly intercorrelated. To aid replication, methods used for gathering data and then constructing any

summary indices should ideally be transparent, with detailed notes available about procedures, coding practices, and rules of aggregation so that evidence can be subject to scrutiny and tests by independent scholars, using standard techniques. For example, evaluations whether elections are “free and fair,” or judgments about whether the media provided a level playing field for contestants, require systematic procedural rules and tests of inter-coder reliability.

Finally, to provide guidance for practitioners, indices of electoral integrity should also be *legitimate*, *credible*, and *intuitively understandable*, so that they come to be regarded as authoritative and usable by the international community and domestic stakeholders. What counts as legitimate, however, is difficult to determine with any certainty, since scientific and political legitimacy may not coincide. Measures that reflect global norms and official statistics, however, are more likely to prove widely acceptable and authoritative to the international community than specific indicators developed by think tanks or NGOs seeking to further their own agendas.

Each of the available expert indicators that could be used to monitor levels of electoral integrity therefore has different advantages and disadvantages. One way to examine the robustness of the expert indices is to compare the correlations across these estimates. Given their different construction, measurement, conceptualization, country coverage, and sources of information, it might be expected that the estimates would diverge sharply. If the measures are robust, however, then we would expect to observe significant intercorrelations.

In fact, the comparison presented in Table 3.3, using the cross-national data, reveals a remarkably strong and statistically significant correlation across all the expert indices of electoral integrity and democracy. The strength of the simple Pearson correlations (R) between pairs of indices ranges from moderate to very strong. Thus, despite important differences in their conceptualization, construction, and measurement, it appears that the NELDA, QED, IEM, PEI, Polity IV, and two Freedom House measures share a broad consensus. The pattern is illustrated in Figure 3.1 by comparing the ratings in Sarah Birch's IEM and Judith Kelley's Quality of Democracy data for elections held during the early 2000s. Figure 3.1 shows that both measures gave exceptionally poor assessments of contests in Zimbabwe, Haiti, Uganda, and Azerbaijan. By contrast, elections in many post-Communist states – including Estonia, the Czech Republic, Slovakia, and Hungary – were ranked highly by both measures, along with several Latin American contests. Thus, although measures were independently constructed, both scholars arrived at similar evaluations of many contests.

A similar pattern can be observed in Figure 3.2 that compares the congruence between the Perception of Electoral Integrity Index and Freedom House's standardized measure of liberal democracy. A strong correlation can be observed, with states such as Equatorial Guinea, Djibouti, Belarus, Swaziland, and Cambodia all rated poorly in the lower left-hand quadrant by both measures; these are all authoritarian states that were dominated by strong ruling

TABLE 3.3. *Congruence Among the Expert Indices of Electoral Integrity, Cross-National Data*

	PEI Perceptions of Electoral Integrity Index	NELDA (Hyde and Marinov) 2000-10	QED Quality of Elections (Kelley) 2000-04	IEM Index of Electoral Malpractice (Birch) 2000-06	FH Electoral Democracy Classification o/1 (FH) 2000-10	FH Liberal Democracy Scale 100 pts (FH) 2000-10
NELDA (Hyde and Marinov)	R Sig. N	.596** .000 50				
QED Quality of Elections (Kelley)	R Sig. N	.716** .000 49	.670** .000 117			
IEM Index of Electoral Malpractice (Birch)	R Sig. N	-.592** .005 21	-.686** .000 52	-.790** .000 47		
FH Electoral Democracy Classification o/1 (FH)	R Sig. N	.692** .000 58	.611** .000 146	-.646** .000 134		
FH Liberal Democracy Scale 100 pts (FH)	R Sig. N	.764** .000 59	.675** .000 146	-.753** .000 135	.808** .000 191	
Polity IV Autocracy- Democracy Scale 100 pts (Polity IV)	R Sig. N	.593** .001 54	.617** .000 139	.584** .000 115	.842** .000 151	.836** .000 151

Note: For the expert indices, see Table 3.1 and the Technical Appendix A for details about their construction and sources. The figures represent the simple Pearson correlations, the statistical significance, and the number of national cases for comparison, with each indicator matched by country. All Pearson correlation coefficients (R) are statistically significant (**) at the 0.01 level (2-tailed).

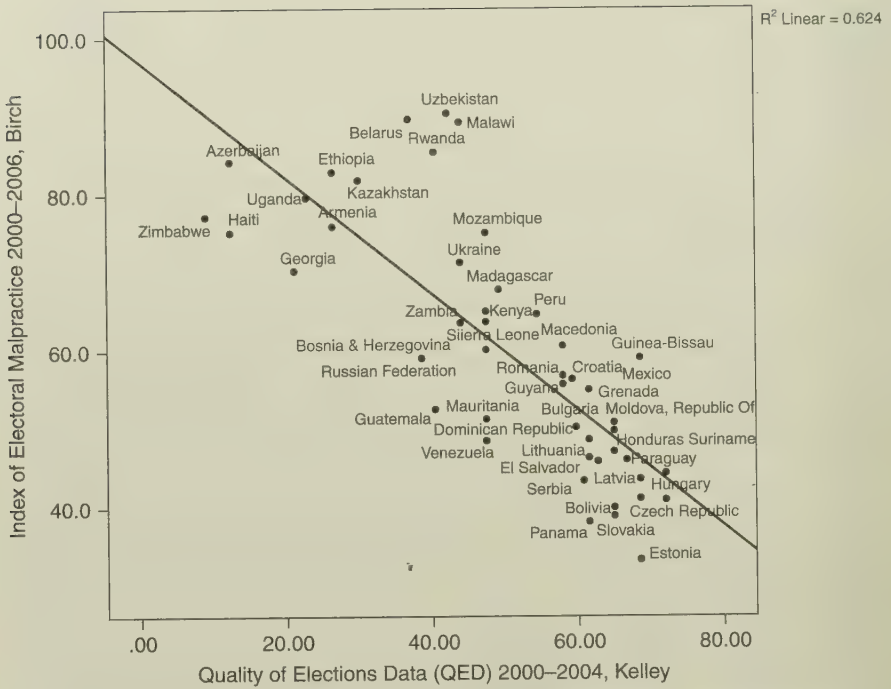


FIGURE 3.1. The congruence of expert evaluations of elections in the early 2000s.
Notes: Standardized Index of Electoral Malpractice (Sarah Birch) and the Quality of Elections Data (Judith Kenney). For details, see Table 3.1.
Sources: IEM, <http://www.essex.ac.uk/government/electoralmalpractice/index.htm>; QED <http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/>.

parties for many decades. By contrast, countries that are rated well by both indices include long-established democracies such as The Netherlands and Iceland, but also newer democracies such as Lithuania, the Republic of Korea, and the Czech Republic. A perfect correlation would not be expected, given that elections are only one part of liberal democracy, which also requires many other institutions such as effective legislatures, strong rule of law, an independent judiciary, and freedom of speech and the press. Nevertheless, the strong relationship between the overall PEI index estimating electoral integrity and the Freedom House ratings increases confidence in the external validity of both these measures.

It remains possible that all these indices could be suffering from a potential systematic bias if, for example, they were all constructed from similar “Western” sources such as international election observer and human rights reports. In fact, however, several of the datasets draw from independent sources. It appears that the available indices share a remarkably similar evaluation of the quality of elections in the countries under comparison. The correlations also suggest

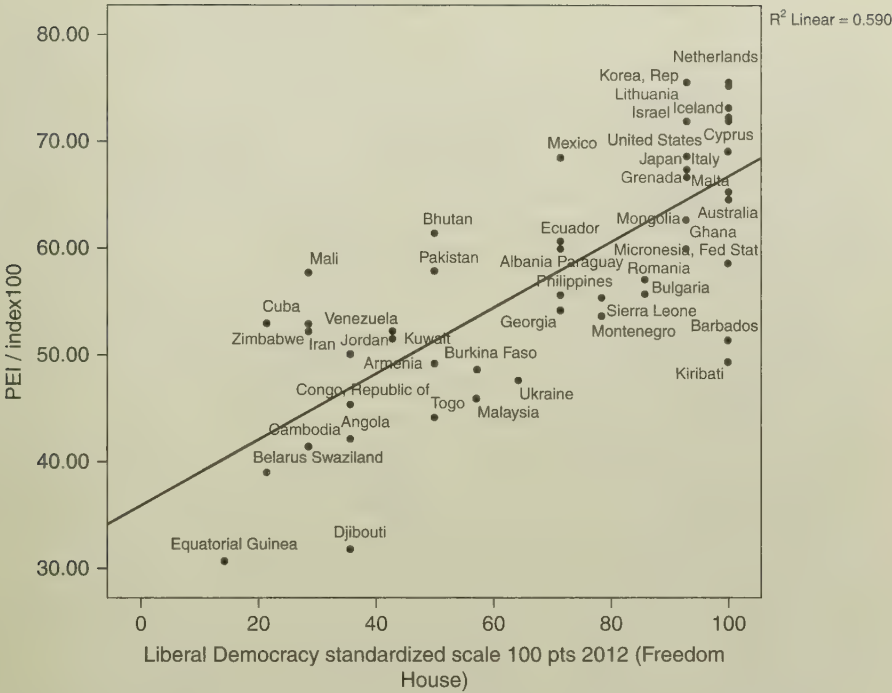


FIGURE 3.2. The congruence of expert evaluations of elections and democracy. Sources: Perceptions of Electoral Integrity Index 2012–13 and Freedom House Liberal Democracy standardized scale 2012. For details, see Table 3.1 and visit <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>; <http://www.freedomhouse.org>.

that some of the simpler measures, such as Freedom House’s binary classification of electoral democracies, may serve as accurate proxies at a national level for more elaborately constructed indices of electoral integrity and malpractice. Nevertheless, the richer and more detailed multidimensional PEI index is essential to determine the precise cause of any problems of electoral integrity occurring throughout the electoral cycle, and thus to identify suitable policy interventions. Moreover, the PEI summary index is strongly and significantly correlated with all the available previous measures, strengthening confidence in the reliability of the new measure.

Further comparisons can be drawn using the cross-national time series data, where observations are matched to country-year. This also dramatically expands the number of cases under comparison, although PEI is dropped, since at present this source only provides a cross-national comparison. Table 3.4 confirms that the time-series datasets monitoring the quality of elections are significantly correlated with each other, although any relationships are far from perfect because of differences in their conceptualization and measurement.

TABLE 3.4. *Congruence Among the Expert Indices of Electoral Integrity, Cross-National Time-Series Data*

		NELDA (Hyde and Marinov)	QED Quality of Elections (Kelley)	IEM Index of Electoral Malpractice (Birch)	FH Electoral Democracy Classification o/1 (FH)	FH Liberal Democracy Scale 100 pts (Freedom House)
		1945-2010	1977-2004	1995-2007	1989-2010	1972-2010
QED Quality of Elections (Kelley)	R	.508**				
	Sig. N	.000 484				
IEM Index of Electoral Malpractice (Birch)	R	-.735**	-.772**			
	Sig. N	.000 81	.000 60			
FH Electoral Democracy Classification o/1 (FH)	R	.573**	.581**	-.664**		
	Sig. N	.000 741	.000 458	.000 101		
FH Liberal Democracy Scale 100 pts (FH)	R	.680**	.687**	-.776**	.834**	
	Sig. N	.000 1147	.000 620	.000 101	.000 3551	
Polity IV Autocracy- Democracy Scale 100 pts (Polity IV)	R	.675**	.573**	-.750**	.873**	.904**
	Sig. N	.000 1055	.000 547	.000 91	.000 2653	.000 4836

Note: For the expert indices, see Table 3.1 and the Technical Appendix A for details about their construction and sources. The figures represent the simple Pearson correlations (R), the statistical significance, and the number of national cases for comparison (N), with each indicator matched by country-year. All Pearson correlation coefficients (R) are statistically significant (**) at the 0.01 level (2-tailed).

II. Monitoring Public Opinion

Expert-based indices therefore provide a reliable source of independent evidence of the quality of elections. Whereas NELDA provides a minimalist indicator covering many different countries and time periods, PEI provides multidimensional evidence across a wide range of problems monitored throughout sequential steps during the entire electoral cycle. The agenda-setting model outlined in the introduction also needs evidence of public opinion, however, to see whether the public is aware of problems of electoral integrity and, if so, to analyze whether this matters for feelings of political legitimacy and activism. Detailed surveys have also been conducted within specific countries. For example, campaign tracking and post-election surveys of public opinion have been used by the International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES) to monitor citizens' perceptions of democracy, opinions about elections, and assessments of the overall situation in Indonesia, Kosovo, Egypt, and Ukraine. These are invaluable for within country assessments, although the lack of a standardized questionnaire in the IFES surveys hinders their use for cross-national comparisons. As summarized in Table 3.5, several cross-national mass surveys have sought to gauge several components of the quality of elections, although nearly all of these surveys are restricted to a single item each. This includes items carried in the sixth wave of the WVS (2010–14), the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems Module 1 (1996–2002), the Integrated Global Barometer (2003–06), Gallup International's Voice of the People Survey (2005–07), and World Poll (2008–11).

Cross-national surveys vary in the questions and coding practices used when measuring how people see the quality of elections. Typically in mass surveys, respondents are asked about their perceptions of violations of electoral integrity or their reported experiences, as well as their broader attitudes toward political institutions and democratic governance, such as trust in electoral authorities and confidence in the responsiveness of elected officials. Social surveys use a standardized questionnaire to gather data from a representative sample of the adult population within each nation. Inferences are then drawn about the general population within each country. Most surveys use just one or two simple proxy or summary measures of electoral integrity, such as asking respondents about their perceptions of the fairness of the contests (see Table 3.3). For example, the 2011 Gallup International World Poll asked citizens about their confidence in the honesty of elections in 122 countries around the globe. The survey reported that public opinion was divided between those who believed that elections in their own country are honest (46 percent) and those who do not (50 percent).³³ There was considerable cross-national variation, however, with more than eight out of ten citizens endorsing the honesty of elections in the Netherlands, Canada, and Sweden, compared with less than two out of ten citizens living in Haiti, Mongolia, and Armenia. Thus, general concern about the quality of elections appears to be fairly widespread among the general public,

TABLE 3.5. *Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity Measured in Cross-National Social Surveys*

Mass Survey	Period	N. Nations	Measures
World Values Survey Sixth Wave	2010–14		“In your view, how often do the following things occur in this country’s elections? 1. Votes are counted fairly. 2. Opposition candidates are prevented from running. 3. TV news favors the governing party. 4. Voters are bribed. 5. Journalists provide fair coverage of elections. 6. Election officials are fair. 7. Rich people buy elections. 8. Voters are threatened with violence at the polls. 9. Voters are offered a genuine choice at the ballot box.” Responses to each item were coded from “Very often” (1) to “Not at all often” (4) http://www.worldvaluessurvey.org/
Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (CSES) Module I	1996–2002	30	“In some countries, people believe their elections are conducted fairly. In other countries, people believe that their elections are conducted unfairly. Thinking of the last election in [country], where would you place it on this scale of one to five where ONE means that the last election was conducted fairly and FIVE means that the last election was conducted unfairly?” Responses were coded from “fairly” (1) to “unfairly” (5) http://cses.org/

Mass Survey	Period	N. Nations	Measures
Global- Barometers Round I	2003–06	37	“On the whole, how would you rate the freeness and fairness of the last national election, held in [country name]? Was it: ... 1. Completely free and fair; 2. Free and fair, but with minor problems; 3. Free and fair, with major problems; 4. Not free or fair; 8. Can’t choose; 9. Decline to answer.” “Please look at this card and tell me how much confidence you have in each of the following groups, institutions or persons mentioned on the list: a lot, some, a little or no confidence?... The electoral commission.” www.globalbarometers.org/
Gallup International Voice of the People Survey	2005–07	65	“Do you feel that elections in your country are free and fair?” Coded: Yes/No “Would you say that your country is governed by the will of the people?” Coded: Yes/No http://www.voice-of-the-people.net/
Gallup World Poll	2008–11	120	“In [country], do you have confidence in each of the following, or not? How about ... Honesty of elections?” Responses were coded: Yes/No https://worldview.gallup.com/

according to the Gallup survey. The Gallup World Poll is an invaluable resource for comparing a wide range of countries. Unfortunately, it is insufficient by itself because evidence derived from single-item survey questions cannot pinpoint the exact cause of any perceived problem, such as whether the public was most concerned about the fairness of electoral officials, the role of the news media, fraud at the ballot box, or outbreaks of violence after polling day. Gallup International also amended the questions used to gauge perceptions of electoral integrity in the Voice of the People surveys and the subsequent annual World Poll, preventing comparison of a consistent annual time series.

The WVS Perception of Electoral Integrity and Malpractice Scales

Building on the mass survey approach, this study presents the results of a new battery of nine items contained in the sixth wave of the WVS. For the first time, multidimensional aspects of electoral integrity are monitored to provide a far more comprehensive picture of a range of electoral malpractices, moving beyond reliance on single items. Fieldwork for the sixth wave was conducted from 2010–2014, and the results can be analyzed to compare public opinion in a range of diverse countries.

The case where the battery was included in this survey includes varied types of regimes, as well as countries in sub-Saharan Africa, post-communist Europe, and Latin America. This includes electoral autocracies holding contests that are seriously flawed for different reasons, as exemplified by violent intimidation and state repression of opposition activists in Zimbabwe and noncompetitive contests in Kazakhstan, where President Nursultan Nazarbayev won an estimated 95.5 percent of the vote. Elections are also analyzed where less-serious violations are reported, including in Nigeria, which experienced post-election intercommunal violence; Ukraine, where opposition parties allegedly conducted electoral fraud; and Kyrgyzstan, which discovered administrative irregularities in recent contests. Public perceptions are also compared with liberal democracies – including Australia, Ghana, Estonia, and Uruguay – in which observers agree to display higher standards of electoral integrity that function as a control. Technical Appendix C in this book provides background information about the election to the lower house of the national legislature or the presidential election that occurred immediately prior to the date of the survey fieldwork in each country.

When constructing indicators, it is important that they meet the requirements of measurement validity, thereby reflecting the underlying concepts. The items selected for the WVS reflect widely accepted international principles and standards: votes should be fairly tabulated, opposition candidates should have the freedom to run for elected office, and voters should not experience intimidation or violence at the polling station. These basic and minimal requirements are firmly grounded in international conventions on universal human rights. Questions where international agreement has not yet been established were avoided, such as asking about the regulation of campaign spending or funding contributions.

The electoral cycle approach adopted in this study (discussed in Chapter 2) assumes that the most overt techniques that are intentionally designed to distort the genuine will of the people arise from ballot stuffing, vote rigging, and fraud on polling day and its aftermath. But many more subtle and legal techniques that also violate international standards are often employed well away from the public spotlight to limit party and candidate competition before a single ballot is cast – during the pre-election and campaigns periods – such as through overly restrictive voter registration processes, ballot access requirements, and electoral thresholds. The items were therefore designed to

reflect different stages in the electoral cycle, not simply problems occurring on polling day.

The conceptualization also assumes that no country is wholly immune from problems of electoral administration and challenges of human rights. To reflect this understanding, the questions reflect universal issues that can potentially undermine electoral integrity in every country. Thus, although electoral violence and bribery of voters are exceptional today in long-established democracies, the fairness of election officials and pro-government bias in TV news are common challenges for the quality of elections in every country. To monitor public attitudes, the sixth wave of the WVS asked respondents the following questions:

In your view, how often do the following things occur in this country's elections?

- V228A. Votes are counted fairly
- V228B. Opposition candidates are prevented from running
- V228C. TV news favors the governing party
- V228D. Voters are bribed
- V228E. Journalists provide fair coverage of elections
- V228F. Election officials are fair
- V228G. Rich people buy elections
- V228H. Voters are threatened with violence at the polls
- V228I. Voters are offered a genuine choice in the elections

Respondents were asked to respond using a 4-point scale ranging from “very often” to “not at all often” (see Figure 3.3). These items were designed to reflect

Pre-electoral period	Campaign period	Polling day and its aftermath
Opposition candidates are prevented from running	TV news favors the governing party	Voters are threatened with violence at the polls
Rich people buy elections	Journalists provide unfair coverage of elections	Voters are bribed
Election officials are unfair	Voters are not offered a genuine choice in the elections	Votes are counted unfairly

FIGURE 3.3. The WVS survey items measuring components in the cycle of electoral integrity.
Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010–14.

common issues in elections, described in everyday language, avoiding more technical matters that may be poorly understood, such as attitudes toward specific laws, regulations, or electoral procedures. The questions also ask respondents about their *perceptions*, rather than their direct experiences. One reason is that respondents may be reluctant to acknowledge first-hand involvement in some problems, such as bribery or violence, owing to fear of retribution, legal penalties, or moral norms. The significance and severity of any violations for electoral integrity also varies across the items, as does their meaning and interpretation in different contexts, for example, in judging what counts as “genuine choice” or pro-government bias in TV news. The list was ordered to intersperse positive questions about integrity and negative questions about malpractice in order to encourage respondents to consider each item separately. The questions were also framed to capture perceptions of “this country’s elections” in general, at whatever level, rather than to gauge reactions to a specific contest for local, legislative, or executive office. Clearly, controversial results in recent high-profile contests may have been at the forefront of respondents’ minds when answering, but we also sought to monitor perceptions of the usual quality of elections in each country over successive contests.

Careful measurement is also important. Indices of electoral integrity are often coded using binary categories or ordinal-level measures using limited scales, denoting summary “pass/fail” judgments. But continuous or internal-level measures are arguably preferable, providing finer-grained responses, as perceived problems arise with different degrees of severity. Responses for each of the survey item were gauged on a four-point ordinal scale, ranging from “not at all often” to “very often.” Principal Component Factor Analysis with varimax rotation, shown in Table 3.6, confirmed that the items fell into two distinct dimensions, measuring positive and negative evaluations. The individual items can be examined separately to identify specific problems. For an overview, the Perceptions of Electoral Integrity scale and the Perceptions of Electoral Malpractice scale were both constructed by summing the separate positive and negative item responses, each with equal weight, and standardizing the scale to 100 points for ease of comparison with the expert indices.

The Robustness of Survey Indices

As with the expert indices, the evidence from the mass surveys can also be checked to see whether indicators are robust or whether they display technical and methodological differences among the companies administering the surveys, or conceptual and measurement differences. The results in Table 3.5 present the correlations among the five surveys monitoring public perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices. The cross-national comparisons demonstrate that out of the twenty-one cells, almost half prove to be significantly correlated, although differing by strength. Thus, a strong correlation

TABLE 3.6. *Dimensions of Survey Items*

How Often in This Country's Elections ...:	Electoral Malpractice	Electoral Integrity
Voters are bribed	.814	
Rich people buy elections	.792	
Voters are threatened with violence at the polls	.738	
TV news favors the governing party	.601	
Opposition candidates are prevented from running	.593	
Election officials are fair		.774
Journalists provide fair coverage of elections		.685
Voters are offered a genuine choice in the elections		.675
Votes are counted fairly		.669

Notes: Extraction Method: Principal Component Factor Analysis. Rotation Method: Varimax with Kaiser Normalization.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave, 2010–14.

TABLE 3.7. *Correlations Among Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*

		Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity Scale WVS 2010–14	Public Perceptions of Electoral Malpractice Scale WVS 2010–14	Honest Elections, (Gallup World Poll 2011)	Fair Elections (CSES Module 1)
Public perceptions of electoral malpractice scale WVS 2010–13	R	-.466*			
	Sig.	.029			
	N	22			
Honest elections (Gallup World Poll 2011)	R	.672**	-.657**		
	Sig.	.001	.001		
	N	21	21		
Fair elections (CSES module 1)	R	.867**	-.421	.514**	
	Sig.	.005	.299	.006	
	N	8	8	27	
Free and fair elections (Gallup International VoP 2007)	R	.441*	-.812**	.719**	.467**
	Sig.	.040	.000	.000	.009
	N	22	22	105	30

* Correlation is significant at the 0.05 level (2-tailed).

** Correlation is significant at the 0.01 level (2-tailed).

Note: For the indices, see Table 3.3. The figures represent the simple Pearson correlations, the statistical significance, and the number of national cases for comparison. ** Pearson correlation (R) is significant at the 0.01 level (2-tailed) * Pearson correlation (R) is significant at the 0.05 level (2-tailed).

($R = .632^{**}$) can be observed between the measure of free and fair election reported in the Global Barometers and a similar measure carried in the Gallup Voice of the People (VoP) Survey. Similarly, the measures of the honesty of elections in the Gallup World Poll and their free and fairness assessed in the Gallup VoP poll are strongly correlated ($R = .719$). The variations in the observed relationships are partly a product of years of the survey and the number of national cases because those surveys with the broadest cross-national coverage usually converge with strong and significant correlations in Table 3.7. Even with a limited number of cases, however, the WVS electoral integrity scale proves to be strongly correlated with the two Gallup international polls. Overall, the results suggest a fairly remarkable degree of congruence across the measures of public assessment of electoral integrity.

III. Selected Case Studies

Expert indices provide evidence of electoral integrity and malpractices, whereas mass surveys allow us to compare public assessments of the quality of elections in several countries. But how do regimes react to any signs of public disaffection? This represents the final step in the theory at the heart of this book, tackled in Chapter 9. Here the most effective strategy is to turn to select cases, particularly elections in the United States in 2000 (as an established democracy with contestation following the Florida vote), in Ukraine in 2004 (as a transitional regime during the Orange revolution), and in Russia in 2011–12 (as an electoral autocracy), all of which were followed by widespread major outbreaks of electoral protests. There are many attempts to measure incidents of electoral protests, demonstrations, riots, and violence. In this study, elections around the world are classified based on incidents of riots or protests after polling day, drawing from the NELDA dataset. This source estimates that from 1945–2010, around 14 percent of national elections held worldwide were followed by riots or protests. Some of these may well prove sporadic outbreaks that quickly peter out. Several possible types of outcome are expected to follow major and sustained outbreaks of public protests over rigged, manipulated, or stolen elections, although the response is likely to be conditioned by the type of regime in power. Hence, in democratic states, sustained and widespread public protests or demonstrations about the integrity of elections are most likely to strengthen *reform debates*, where concern about procedural electoral reforms rise in priority on the public policy agenda. Whether reforms are actually passed into law and implemented by electoral officials, however, and whether the outcome actually strengthens integrity, depends on many intervening conditions, including pacts between the governing and opposition parties.¹⁴ The U.S. case illustrates this process. Alternatively, widespread and sustained public protests over stolen elections may be met in more autocratic states by further acts of *state repression*. This situation occurs where the security forces and party supporters are deployed to restore order, laws on public security

and rallies crackdown on protestors, opposition parties and the independent media are closed down, and dissidents are killed, incarcerated, or forced to flee abroad. The Russian elections to the Duma and presidency illustrate this outcome. Lastly, *regime transitions* happen where protests force the election results to be nullified and rerun, and in these contests the ruling party is successfully replaced by opposition forces. The Ukrainian color revolution exemplifies this process.

Examining the frequency of these outcomes helps to analyze the general patterns, while selected in-depth studies following the consequences of electoral protests provide rich insights into the underlying processes.³⁵ Previous single-country case studies in the literature have drawn from archival records, ethnographic work, media reports, memoirs, and analysis of formal complaints and legal cases. Using qualitative sources, selected case studies help to deepen our understanding of how far public concern about violations of electoral processes have the capacity to trigger either political concessions, further acts of state repression, or regime change in particular countries.

Alternative Methods and Techniques

In addition to the methods of mass surveys, expert indices, and case studies utilized in this study, as mentioned earlier, many other approaches have been deployed to analyze problems of electoral integrity. The most effective strategies blend and combine different methods and datasets, triangulating the strengths of alternative analytical techniques. The body of literature includes qualitative case studies, randomized field experiments, the statistical analysis of electoral forensics, participant observation and elite interviews, performance indices from public-sector management,³⁶ game theoretical models, event analysis of electoral violence or protests,³⁷ and analysis of Big Data derived from social media, crowdsourcing, and platforms such as Twitter feeds, Google searches, and similar networking sites.³⁸ Each of the mainstream approaches can provide further insights into the analysis of electoral integrity, although they are less suitable for the specific questions addressed in this volume.

Natural and Field Experiments

One difficulty with cross-national comparisons concerns potential problems of endogeneity in complex relationships. Thus, public disaffection with electoral procedures may well be expected to stoke pressures for regimes to respond. But on the other hand, the way that regimes react to electoral malpractices in any particular contest (at t^1) can be expected to shape subsequent patterns of public opinion (at t^2 , depicted schematically via the “feedback” loop in the agenda-setting model in Chapter 1). Thus, if a regime introduces widespread reforms that clean up malpractices such as corruption, irregularities, and intimidation in an election, this should strengthen public confidence in the electoral process. If they respond by using further repression, however, such as by passing new

laws regulating public expressions of dissent and limiting opposition rallies, this could be expected to heighten public disaffection. Demonstrating such interactive effects with cross-national time-series observational data remains difficult, however, even with the use of rigorous lagged time-series models. And most evidence-measuring perceptions of electoral integrity are limited to cross-national surveys conducted at only a single point in time.

Natural and field experimental research designs have the capacity to help rule out problems of endogeneity.³⁹ This approach thereby determines causal effects with a considerable degree of confidence. Natural and field experimental designs take advantage of randomized or “as-if” randomized treatments – for example, across regions or polling districts within countries – to allow analysts to draw plausible inferences about the effect of policy interventions within specific contexts. Illustrations include studies of the effects of international election monitoring on electoral fraud in polling station results within Armenia, Indonesia, and Ghana.⁴⁰ For example, Hyde examined whether the presence of international observers during the 2003 Armenian presidential elections reduced the share of the vote for incumbent candidates (suggesting election-day fraud), where observers were assigned to polling stations using a method that approximates to randomization. The study concluded that the effect of international observers cut election-day fraud by around 6 percent in the first-round elections.⁴¹

Nevertheless, it remains hazardous to generalize from individual cases using natural and field experiments in single cases where the analyst has limited control over the treatment and conditions. Florida in 2000, for example, was not Minnesota, Georgia, or Oregon. Kenya is not the Democratic Republic of the Congo (DRC). Afghanistan is not Iraq, and so on. The effects of the deployment of electoral observers in the context of Armenian polling districts may well be expected to differ from, say, their impacts in Ukraine, Moldova, or Russia. Indeed, a three-nation experimental study comparing observer effects in polling places in Azerbaijan, Georgia, and Kyrgyzstan suggests that the effects of domestic monitoring on blatant forms of vote miscounting differed in each of these cases. The contrasts were attributed to the type of regime, with minimal effects on curbing fraud in the most autocratic regime under comparison (Azerbaijan).⁴² Experiments hold constant a certain set of conditions. Yet in natural or field experiments about observer effects on fraud, other differences from one context to another may be expected to arise from multiple factors, such as the capacity and resources of different domestic and international monitoring organizations; the specific type, transparency, severity, and timing of the fraudulent practices that undermine electoral integrity (vote buying during the campaign, for example, differs from voter intimidation or ballot-box stuffing on polling day); the training and capacity of electoral officials and security forces manning polling places; the culture tolerating electoral malpractices; and so on. Experiments therefore help to determine whether a treatment in one particular context (the as-if random

allocation of observers) has the effect of reducing ballot-box fraud, compared with polling places where observers were not present in the same society. But this does not mean that the observed results are necessarily generalizable to other contexts and countries.

Electoral Forensics

Another body of literature has tackled the thorny issue of detecting fraudulent voting returns within countries, including applying the methods and techniques of electoral “forensics.”⁴³ Statisticians have sought to identify outliers or mathematical irregularities in the declared district or constituency-level aggregate election results, including in the United States and Russia.⁴⁴ Similar to medical autopsies conducted after suspicious deaths, statistical techniques can be used to analyze election returns reported in local wards, polling districts, or constituencies.⁴⁵ Analysts hope to detect unusual patterns of the distribution of election results, such as in voter registration, voting turnout, vote shares cast for the incumbent, the number of blank or invalid ballots cast, or other anomalies in the official results. Where outliers cannot be explained satisfactorily by other factors, these appear to indicate cases of irregularities arising from practices such as electoral fraud, ballot stuffing, malpractice, bribery, or vote tampering. These techniques are most effective for capturing any problems in voter administration occurring on or just after polling day. This is a valuable way to detect the most obvious types of voting anomalies that suggest illegal practices, irregularities, and fraudulent manipulation of the outcome. They are more persuasive when statistical analysis is combined with other types of evidence, including the reports of observer missions, election-watch NGOs, or journalist accounts. The techniques are less useful for various types of malpractice occurring earlier during the electoral cycle, however, such as those arising from systematic bias in media campaign coverage, electoral laws, partisan redistricting, and restrictions on party registration or ballot access. Scholars also continue to debate the most effective statistical techniques used to detect mathematical anomalies.⁴⁶

Conclusions

Both experiments and electoral forensics, along with related approaches, can provide important insights into the general phenomenon of electoral integrity. These useful techniques are employed in other volumes in the trilogy. Nevertheless, these methods are less valuable for understanding the steps in the agenda-setting model, which is at the theoretical core of this study. Thus, expert indices, mass surveys, and selected cases provide the triangulated methods adopted here. To go further, the next chapter seeks to document what the evidence suggests are the growing challenges of electoral integrity. On this basis, we can then test the first hypothesis in the agenda-setting model to analyze how far most citizens are aware of problems of electoral malpractices,

and thus explore the links between the actual quality of elections (measured by expert indices) and public opinion (measured by mass surveys). If this link fails – for example, if the public is poorly informed about problems, if they fail to pay attention to procedural flaws, or if they take their cues from the frames provided by the leaders of governing parties – then the rest of the sequential model becomes far less persuasive. If the public is concerned about electoral malpractices occurring in their own country, however, then this provides a more solid foundation for subsequent steps in the agenda-setting theory.

PART II

THE PROBLEM OF FLAWED ELECTIONS

International Concern about Electoral Malpractices

The post-Cold War decades have seen an increased international community role in providing technical assistance to help build credible and sustainable national electoral processes and procedures, thereby strengthening the integrity of elections and democratic governance.¹ This activity has engaged a diverse array of actors, including UN agencies, NGOs, bilateral donors, and regional organizations. Hence, since 1991, the United Nations estimates that the majority of countries (more than 100 nations) have requested and received UN electoral assistance.² Technical assistance by the UN Department of Political Affairs, the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP), the Department of Peacekeeping Operations, and the Office of the High Commissioner for Human Rights covers many areas such as electoral administration and planning, review of electoral laws and regulations, electoral dispute resolution, boundary delimitation, voter registration, election budgeting, logistics, procurement of election materials, use of technologies, training of election officials, voter and civic education, voting and counting operations, election security, and the coordination of international donor assistance. The UNDP alone manages election projects in some thirty to forty countries every year, with electoral assistance accounted for approximately 18 percent of total UNDP expenditure in democratic governance between 2005 and 2008.³ Related initiatives involving the institutional capacity building of electoral management bodies, electoral observation, and knowledge sharing has also risen among many other international agencies, notably the International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES), International IDEA, the Carter Center, the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE), and OAS, as well as among bilateral donors.

The engagement of the international community in electoral assistance is grounded in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights and the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, which affirm that the will of the people is the basis of government authority, and that every eligible citizen has the

right to take part in the government of her or his country. Credible, regular, and inclusive elections are seen to confer the essential political legitimacy that underpins stable states and provides the mandates for governments to tackle the tough challenges of sustainable development. In their strategic plan, the ultimate UNDP goal is to “deepen democracy and accelerate sustainable human development by giving all people the ability to participate in the decisions that affect their lives.”⁴

The expanding role of the international community during the post-Cold War era reflects growing concern about flawed, or even failed, elections and problems of fraudulent, stolen, or rigged contests occurring in many countries. This can be illustrated most clearly by an indirect proxy, namely trends in the attention of the world’s media headlines to news stories focusing on problems of electoral integrity, typically reporting about scandals involving the misuse of campaign funds, outbreaks of protests, and conflict following the vote count, and alleged problems of electoral fraud or voter suppression. The attention of the world’s press can be calculated through keyword searches from the online LexisNexis Academic database of major world publications.⁵ This source contains 540 full-text news sources from around the world, including the world’s major newspapers, magazines, and trade publications. Several related terms can be searched, such as “electoral malpractices” or “vote rigging,” but the term “electoral fraud” is probably the most popular and general in journalistic coverage. Figure 4.1 shows that attention to stories about electoral fraud rose gradually during the 1990s. In 2000, disputes during the Gore v. Bush presidential election generated a sharp but short-lived spike of media attention. The following decade saw a long-term growth in news stories about electoral fraud, peaking with 1,200 stories around the globe in 2008, a six-fold increase since 1990. Concern about particular contests drive fluctuations in subsequent years before attention falls back, but it remains at a relatively high level today. When the results are broken down by global region, the greatest growth in reporting about problems of electoral fraud during the early twenty-first century occurs in sub-Saharan Africa, with increases also registered in Asia, Europe, and the Middle East. Thus, alleged flaws and irregularities in electoral processes and procedures have focused attention on this problem – and similar trends can be observed in the research community, as illustrated by the surge of books and articles published on electoral integrity since the mid-1990s.⁶

What has driven this development? Before analyzing the consequences of this phenomenon, it is useful to delineate the reasons driving growing concern and the efforts to strengthen electoral integrity among both the international community and domestic stakeholders. This chapter argues that rising concern can be attributed to a conflux of factors generating a “perfect storm.” Factors include: (1) the “electoral revolution,” reflecting the dramatic growth in the number and frequency of competitive multiparty elections since the mid-twentieth century; (2) the massive logistical challenges of managing these operations, especially in challenging peace-building operations and in some of the



FIGURE 4.1. Rising news headlines about electoral fraud, major world publications, 1990–2012.

Notes: Count of news stories about electoral fraud calculated from the online LexisNexis Academic Major World Publications group using a keyword search of [(elec*) and (fraud)] by year 1990–2012. The Major World Publications group file, MWP, contains 540 full-text news sources from around the world that are held in high esteem for their content reliability. This includes the world's major newspapers, magazines, and trade publications that are relied on for the accuracy and integrity of their reporting.

Source: Calculated from LexisNexis.

world's poorest societies; (3) the persistence of common electoral malpractices, including violence and lack of a level playing field in access to political resources; and (4) the “second generation” challenges facing long-established democracies, including regulation of campaign money, the deployment of new information and communication technologies, and demands for “convenience” polling facilities. All of these developments have expanded the role of the international community – including UN agencies, regional organizations, and NGOs – in seeking to strengthen elections, as part of democratic governance and human rights. The good news about these developments is that nationwide popular multiparty elections for legislative office have become almost universally adopted in constitutions around the world, with the demise of many absolute autocracies, personal dictatorships, military juntas, and one-party states. Alas, the bad news is that today, many contemporary contests persistently fail to meet international standards. Building on this argument, Chapter 5 goes on to examine whether concern about flawed elections is mainly confined to human rights organizations, democracy promotion organizations, and UN agencies within the international community, as well leaders and stakeholders in democratic states, or whether the general public in many countries is also troubled

about malpractices occurring at home and abroad. Let us analyze some of the main factors driving these developments.

The Electoral Revolution

One of the most striking and dramatic revolutionary developments during the twentieth century concerns the rise of direct elections as the main mechanism for leadership succession and the legitimate allocation of legislative offices. During the nineteenth century, multiparty legislative contests based on direct elections with the universal male franchise that eliminated property and literacy qualifications were gradually adopted throughout Western European and Anglo-American societies, but such contests were relatively uncommon throughout the remainder of the world.⁷ By contrast today, the route to national executive and legislative office lies through the ballot box in most countries. Since 2000, all but eleven countries worldwide have held national elections, and only a handful has never had directly elected parliament.⁸

The constitutional transformation can be illustrated from the Cross-National Time-Series (CNTS) dataset, produced by Databanks International and originally developed by Arthur S. Banks.⁹ This widely used source in comparative politics provides a long-time series of annual observations from 1815–2011. The dataset classifies national parliaments for all independent nation-states worldwide (excluding dependent territories lacking sovereignty) into three categories. In *elected parliaments*, a majority of legislators (or members of the lower house in a bicameral system) are selected by means of popular election, meaning that recruitment is determined directly by the votes cast by the mass electorate.¹⁰ In *non-elected parliaments*, a majority of legislators are recruited through other methods, such as hereditary lineage, ascription, or appointment. Lastly, some states lack any *functioning national legislature*. This category includes nation-states headed by hereditary absolute monarchs, personal dictators, strongman rulers, or military juntas without a counterbalancing functioning parliamentary assembly, including those where parliaments have been temporarily suspended.

The number of nation-states with elected legislatures, illustrated in Figure 4.2, shows a modest and steady climb during the nineteenth and early twentieth century, as the absolute power of hereditary monarchies in Europe was gradually curbed. In Western Europe and Scandinavia, many ruling monarchies lost power through incremental processes that strengthened the role and independence of the cabinet (led by the prime minister) and some legislature. Most European democracies evolved into parliamentary monarchies based on a universal male franchise, exemplified by developments in Britain, the Netherlands, Belgium, Norway, and Sweden. Elsewhere in Europe, where monarchies failed to adapt to pressures for reform, revolutions overthrew royal dynasties and replaced them with republics, notably in France and Russia. The greatest shift in the roles of parliaments worldwide, however, occurred following the end

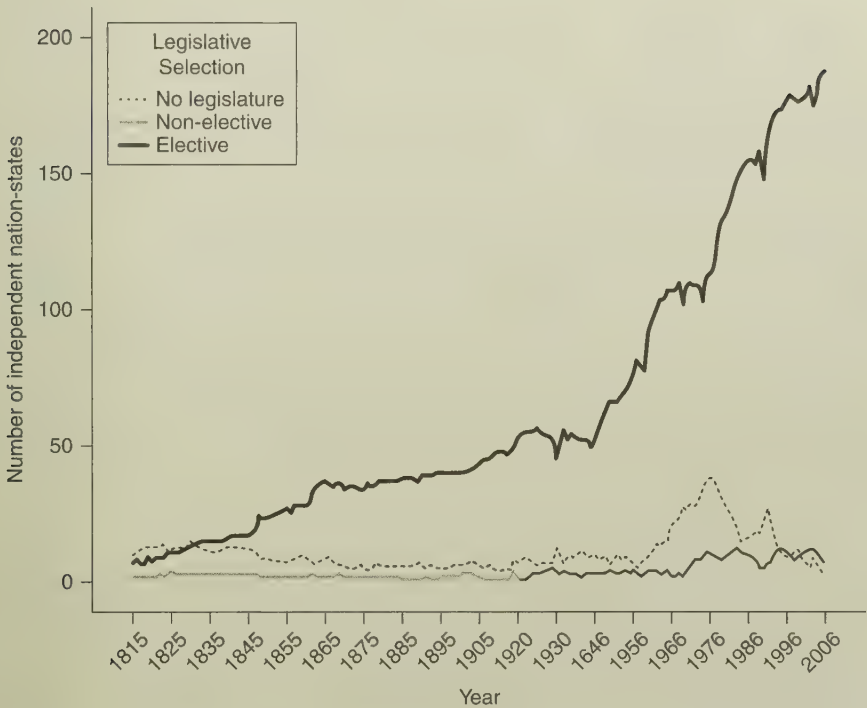


FIGURE 4.2. The growing number of elected national legislatures, 1815–2007.
 Source: Arthur Banks Cross-National Time-Series Dataset 1815–2007.

of the Second World War; Banks estimates that by 1946, approximately fifty independent nation-states had a popularly elected legislature. By the end of the period under comparison, six decades later, this number had roughly quadrupled, to 188 out of 199 nation-states worldwide. The process of decolonization established many more independent nation-states with founding constitutions that included an elected assembly. Some of these newborn legislatures proved short-lived on foreign soil, falling to military coups in Latin America or undermined by strongman dictators in sub-Saharan Africa, whereas others persisted. Today, popularly elected parliaments are now almost universal; only a handful of contemporary absolute monarchies such as Saudi Arabia and Brunei lack elective national assemblies.

The proliferation of popular elections for parliament has also been reflected, although to a lesser extent, in the expansion of contests for executive office (see Figure 4.3). The Cross-National Time-Series Dataset developed by Banks classifies the selection of the effective executive into three categories: *direct election*, where presidents are selected by a popular vote; *indirect election*, where the leader of the largest parliamentary party or party coalition is usually selected as prime minister by an elected assembly; and *non-elected*, where

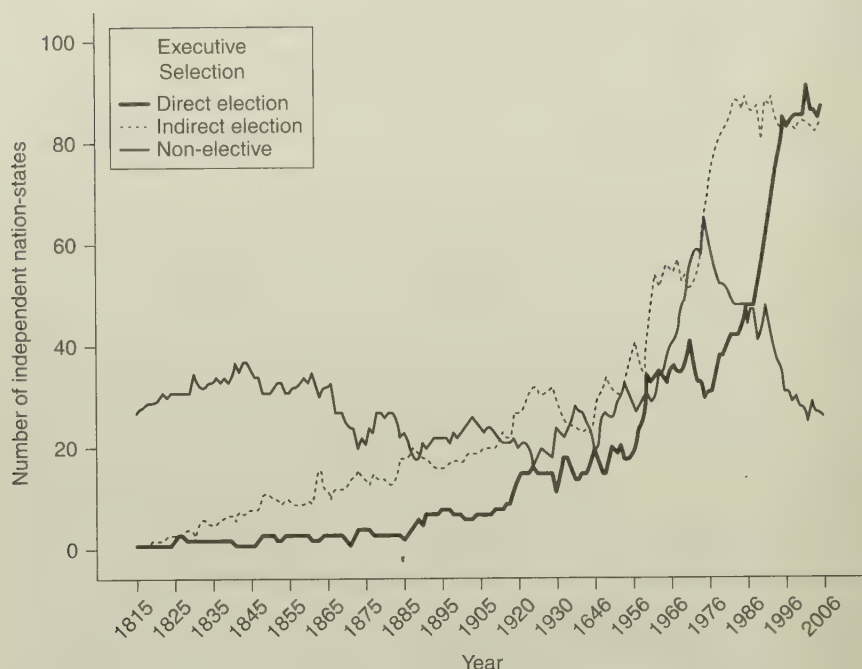


FIGURE 4.3. The growing number of elected national executives, 1815–2007.
 Source: Arthur Banks Cross-National Time-Series Dataset 1815–2007.

leaders hold office through the backing of the military, appointment by party elites, through hereditary authority, or by self-nomination without any mandate from the electorate.

As illustrated by Figure 4.3, most heads of state during the nineteenth century were non-elected. Traditionally during this era, most countries were ruled by hereditary monarchies, including emperors, sovereign princes, sultans, emirs, and tribal chiefs who claimed legitimacy and power by right of descent. This type of regime – characterized by a unitary executive, dynastic accession, and lifetime tenure – concentrated absolute power in the hands of the ruling monarch, the royal family, and their entourage of courtiers and advisors.¹¹ The monarch ruled as both the head of state and the head of government. This tradition has gradually faded away in most countries. Today, only thirteen states continue to be governed by ruling monarchies; half of these are in the Gulf, with the remainder scattered across many continents, including the King of Bahrain, the Sultan of Oman, the Emir of Qatar, the King of Swaziland, the King or Queen of Tonga, the Sovereign Prince of Monaco, and the Sultanate of Brunei Darussalam.

The number of military regimes has also dwindled sharply in modern times, a process exemplified by the Burmese military junta that launched a civilian government in 2011 and allowed the leader of the opposition National League

for Democracy party, Aung San Suu Kyi, to stand for parliament in more open multiparty elections. At the same time, as the Egyptian uprising illustrates so vividly, security forces can still play an important role in some cases. Revolution in Tahrir Square dismantled Mubarak's presidency, although the military's power was demonstrated when the Supreme Council for the Armed Forces (SCAF) dissolved a popularly elected parliament, rushed through a new constitution, and then in due course toppled President Morsi through a coup d'état. The number of closed one-party states, where leadership succession within elites is arranged through internal processes without even the fig leaf of plebiscitary contests, sharply diminished following the fall of the Soviet Union, although a few remain, including Cuba, Vietnam, North Korea, and China. Until recently, the Middle East and North Africa remained the region most resilient to tides of reform. The Arab uprisings have seen sudden pressures toward the adoption of multiparty elections, exemplified by peaceful national contests for a Tunisian Constituent Assembly in 2011, although developments continue to unfold with reactions and counterreactions experienced in Egypt, Bahrain, Yemen, and Syria.

The net impact of constitutional developments has transformed the role of elections for both legislative and executive offices. Immediately after the end of the Second World War, for example, only nineteen nation-states had directly elected presidencies, mainly emulating the U.S. Constitution. By the end of the period under comparison, this number rose to eighty-seven states, with only twenty-six states having nonelective executives; most of the remainder are parliamentary democracies with indirectly elected prime-ministerial heads of government, and only a few have appointed or hereditary heads of government.

The Persistence of Common Electoral Malpractices

During the early-1990s, following the fall of the Berlin Wall and the collapse of the USSR, there was a mood of heady optimism about the inevitable spread of democracy through elections, symbolizing the "end of history."¹² Countries that had experienced the demise of absolute autocracy, but which had not yet "consolidated," were widely regarded as "transitioning toward" eventually becoming liberal democracies. It was optimistically assumed that the rest would eventually follow the West, in a Whig version of progressive history. A decade later, however, a more realistic and hard-headed perspective developed that suggested that earlier assessments were far too rosy.¹³ The spread of direct elections worldwide has been accompanied by growing concern about the unevenness of their quality. Observer missions report that flawed contests around the world are commonly marred by malpractices, both minor and more substantial, exemplified by restrictive ballot access for opposition parties, pro-government media bias, inaccurate voter registers, insecurity in polling stations, maladministration at the count, and court decisions overturning the results.

Even though it is relatively straightforward to document the number of popular elections that have been held, and there are plentiful case studies reporting problems affecting elections in specific countries, it is far more tricky to measure the quality of elections on a systematic basis and thus to monitor trends and assess the extent of electoral malpractices.

For a global long-term perspective, data is available from Susan Hyde and Nikolay Marinov's coding of *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA).¹⁴ As discussed in Chapter 3, NELDA uses an extensive list of secondary sources to classify several dimensions of electoral malpractice, including academic election handbooks, online resources, news media, and official reports. The dataset covers all national legislative and presidential election events in independent nation-states with populations of more than half a million during the period 1945–2010.

If we compare elections held in just the most recent decade, Figure 4.4 shows that relatively few contemporary elections during the last decade violated basic human rights by banning opposition parties outright. Under the Soviet Constitution, a long series of direct elections was organized with a universal suffrage and secret ballot, but where only the Communist Party and affiliated organizations had the right to nominate candidates. Ringing endorsements of ruling parties in elections without choice serve symbolically to mobilize public support, to communicate with citizens, to provide a peaceful channel of leadership succession, and to reinforce the legitimacy of the governing elite, thereby deterring critics at home and abroad.¹⁵ But many elections today that allow candidates from more than one party to compete formally at the ballot box still do not provide a level playing field because of a pro-incumbency bias at a series of stages during the electoral cycle. Such flaws remain widespread; for example, NELDA estimated that in national contests held worldwide during the last decade, problems of pro-incumbency media bias occurred in roughly one quarter of all elections. Similarly, almost one in five contests during the last decade was damaged by problems of significant electoral violence involving civilian deaths, harassment of opponents, or riots and protests after the election. Problems from opposition boycotts occurred in roughly one in ten contests and a similar proportion of contests saw some limits on opposition leaders.

The NELDA estimates provide a global perspective over a long time period. But what are the most common flaws in electoral integrity in contemporary contests? And when do these occur? The underlying problems can be expected to prove far from uniform; for example, outbreaks of electoral violence in fragile states with a recent history of civil war can be expected to differ sharply from flaws caused by the repression of opposition parties and human rights in Central Asia, or incidents of vote buying or media bias reported in many Latin American democracies. Similarly, to understand any electoral malpractices, it is important to distinguish those that occur well before polling day – for example, gerrymandering practices in drawing up district boundaries or laws with high thresholds for ballot access – from problems during the campaign or the immediate aftermath. Any precise diagnosis has to dig beneath the simple blanket

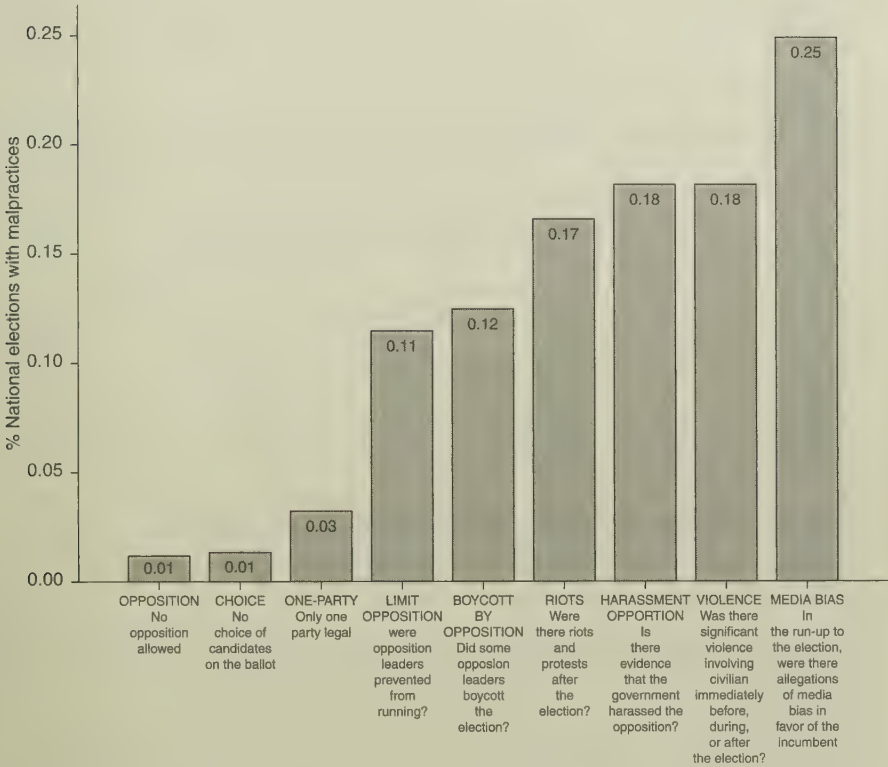


FIGURE 4.4. Incidence of electoral malpractices.

Note: The proportion of national election events held worldwide during the decade from 2000–2010 in all independent countries with a population above half a million where any of these malpractices were reported. Note that this count includes all types of national elections (presidential, parliamentary, and constituent assemblies) and all rounds of these contests.

Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)* by Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

judgments that are prevalent in news headlines. For a more fine-grained analysis of the nature of problems experienced throughout the electoral cycle, we can turn to the expert survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI), where data is available for contemporary elections in a more restricted range of countries. The main advantage of the PEI index is that it allows detailed scrutiny, either of the eleven dimensions of electoral integrity or of almost fifty specific survey items. As shown by Table 4.1, the elections included in PEI display a wide variety of problems throughout the electoral cycle and the comparison also shows the most common malpractices across these states.

Table 4.1 summarizes the comparisons across each of the 100-point standardized scales. The analysis shows that issues of campaign finance were

TABLE 4.1. *Problems of Electoral Integrity*

Nation	PEI Index	Electoral Laws	Electoral Procedures	District Boundaries	Voter Registration	Party and Candidate Registration	Media Coverage	Campaign Finance	Voting Process	Vote Count	Results	Electoral Authorities
Korea, Rep	76	68	91	75	94	83	67	75	80	98	85	87
Lithuania	76	89	75	88	85	88	70	62	75	87	76	78
Netherlands	75	93	92	84	84	81	67	67	82	89	91	90
Iceland	73	75	96	64	93	84	70	68	84	95	91	82
Czech Rep	72	83	86	79	94	85	65	72	73	94	86	85
Slovenia	72	74	90	67	94	83	56	66	85	100	65	89
Israel	72	83	95	77	90	80	72	67	68	95	90	90
Cyprus	72	87	89	71	81	75	62	64	72	89	91	85
United States	69	51	76	33	52	81	72	55	73	86	87	80
Japan	69	63	90	60	82	72	60	64	73	86	79	79
Mexico	68	67	80	78	82	68	65	53	64	88	59	74
Italy	67	59	88	71	81	76	63	58	74	82	81	86
Grenada	67	81	98	71	75	84	60	43	60	93	100	93
Malta	65	64	89	61	72	76	58	43	69	95	76	82
Australia	65	74	90	70	69	74	55	64	83	100	78	91
Mongolia	63	65	83	71	77	75	51	53	73	90	78	79
Bhutan	61	59	77	70	57	57	69	61	60	69	71	82
Ecuador	60	54	71	49	68	68	49	52	69	76	74	62
Paraguay	60	70	75	73	53	64	51	39	61	81	84	66
Ghana	60	84	73	67	58	80	62	41	53	84	56	70
Albania	60	61	72	64	67	59	55	41	60	80	83	65
Micronesia	59	83	76	84	58	82	68	47	68	77	75	72
Pakistan	58	76	66	62	68	50	68	49	51	71	55	67
Mali	58	75	79	69	43	66	73	44	63	88	75	76
Romania	57	56	67	47	43	66	46	47	59	74	74	60
Bulgaria	56	61	61	57	47	68	56	47	57	74	52	63

Philippines	56	69	68	61	40	70	62	40	47	71	60	64
Sierra Leone	55	73	80		76	76	44	44	63	76	70	78
Georgia	54	71	73	67	67	65	50	41	59	81	72	68
Montenegro	54	66	65	66	47	66	52	39	59	64	58	54
Cuba	53	53	95	63	87	74	68	80		80	88	65
Zimbabwe	53	54	51	59	40	67	49	45	54	59	62	47
Venezuela	52	52	58	49	53	71	46	35	48	57	60	50
Iran	52	43	83	58	63	35	54	56	59	74	82	66
Kuwait	52	50	77	56	71	66	57	37	67	83	54	70
Barbados	51	73	65	73	60	52	64	38		100	83	75
Jordan	50	37	63	33	48	61	55	41	51	63	56	68
Kiribati	49	75	44	62	37	67	67	37	48	60	64	45
Armenia	49	63	60	55	38	59	61	45	46	65	44	53
Burkina Faso	49	62	65	36	56	61	80	27		68	52	58
Ukraine	48	50	54	51	45	53	51	39	58	51	52	51
Malaysia	46	31	54	28	35	56	38	36	62	52	54	43
Congo, Rep.	45	42	50	53	33	47	41	27	56	41	60	38
Togo	44	40	51	43	33	52	60	40	63	54	50	68
Angola	42	41	49	45	38	57	46	39	51	49	52	48
Cambodia	42	47	51	38	29	50	45	34	36	65	39	43
Swaziland	41	20	60	20	60	20	36	40	38	48	55	50
Belarus	39	29	46	42	57	40	39	32	58	40	63	33
Djibouti	32	35	28	56	33	36	45	42		20	43	38
Equat. Guinea	31	30	38	38	22	45	28	33	28	37	55	31
Total	57	62	71	60	61	66	57	48	62	74	69	67

Notes: Each dimension is scored on 100-point scales.

Source: Pippa Norris, Ferran Martínez i Coma, and Richard W. Frank. 2013. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*, October 2013. <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>.

regarded as the most problematic issue across many countries, with more than half of the elections performing poorly. This included questions about whether parties and candidates had equitable access to public subsidies and political donations, whether transparent accounts were published by parties and candidates, whether state resources were improperly used for campaigning, and whether, most simply, “the rich buy elections.” The problem of regulating political finance has, perhaps, seen the least progress in establishing minimal international standards, although several regional organizations have sought to develop practical guidelines.

Similarly, campaign coverage by the news media was highlighted by experts as another area of concern; for example, respondents were asked whether newspapers provided balanced coverage, whether television news favored the governing party, and whether parties and candidates had fair access to political broadcasts and advertising. Again, this is an area where the international community has sought to improve standards – for example, by building the capacity of media professionals when reporting elections, expanding Internet access, and strengthening access to information laws – but, like campaign finance, this is also an issue where regulatory frameworks to insure equitable access have lagged behind.

The results also highlight specific problems occurring in particular countries, notably the partisan and decentralized nature of gerrymandering district boundaries in the United States (an area where the United States achieved its lowest score), problems of the voting process in Venezuela, and challenges of fair and equitable media coverage and campaign finance in Romania. Thus, the PEI index and dimensional scores help to highlight particular problems in each country that experts suggest deserve special attention by domestic stakeholders and the international community. Where flaws are diagnosed, further work is needed to establish their precise causes and learn from best practices to remedy the situations in the next contest.

Challenging Logistics in Developing Societies and Peace-Building States

Although popular multiparty contests for legislative and executive offices have diffused around the world, the quality of these contests often remains problematic. One reason is that contests are now organized in many of the world’s poorest societies, such as Afghanistan, where electoral officials face massive logistical, administrative, security, and political challenges. Elections are complex events requiring substantial capacity, financial and technical resources, strategic planning, and the organization, training, and manpower to deploy, coordinate, and manage a temporary army of electoral officials and security staff dispersed throughout local polling stations. Many countries (125 nations) administer national elections through independent electoral management bodies (EMBs).¹⁶ These agencies typically employ permanent officials and temporary staff, and they are accountable to legislative, executive, or

judicial branches. A minority of countries (forty-eight) locate administrative responsibility for national elections within government ministries, while others use a mixed model. Some electoral management bodies are highly decentralized, notably in the United States, where 13,000 local election agencies are responsible for voter registration, polling, and ballot counts. Elsewhere, however, control and regulation is more closely coordinated by regional or national agencies. Election management bodies require organizational capacity, regulatory procedures, and the human and technical resources to manage elections effectively and efficiently.

India illustrates the sheer scale of these logistical challenges.¹⁷ For example, during the 2004 general elections for the Lok Sabha (the lower house of parliament), around 700,000 polling places were dispersed from the mountains in the Himalayas and the deserts of the Rajasthan to the sparsely populated islands in the Indian Ocean. The electoral commission employed four million officials to run the contest. Polling was carried out over successive days, at the total cost of around \$300 million. Since the early-1990s, all voters in India have been issued free photo identification cards that are matched against computerized voter registers. Out of a total electorate of some 670 million, around 390 million citizens voted by pushing a blue button beside the party symbol of the candidate they supported, using more than a million battery-operated electronic voting machines. With a simple plurality vote system (first past the post) and some ten candidates on average per constituency, returning officers declare the winner based on the candidate with the largest number of ballots in each seat.

The complex operation of Indian contests is truly exceptional, owing to the massive size of the electorate, a large and diverse multilingual population, instability and ethnic tensions, and poor literacy in rural villages. Nevertheless, on a smaller scale, in all countries, electoral authorities face complex challenges in maintaining standards of security, transparency, inclusiveness, and efficiency. Elections are also commonly organized in fragile states to replace autocratic leaders, in a context where communications and transportation services are disrupted and public-sector bureaucracies remain in disarray. These circumstances are exemplified by the series of legislative and presidential contests held in Egypt during 2012, following the revolutionary overthrow of President Hosni Mubarak, or elections held in July 2012 for the General National Congress in Libya, after the bloody civil war deposed Colonel Gaddafi. Since the early 1990s, elections have become a standard part of the international community's peace-building strategy in deeply divided societies that remain highly vulnerable to renewed internal conflict, exemplified by contests held in Cambodia, Timor-Leste, Burundi, Sri Lanka, Sierra Leone, Democratic Republic of Congo (DRC), Nepal, Liberia, and Sudan.¹⁸ Democratic elections are regarded as one important way to tackle some of the root causes of many of the world's violent conflicts by providing participatory outlets that accommodate social and economic grievances, promote legitimate and accountable

authorities, curb the worst forms of state repression against their own citizens, and strengthen “the democratic peace” among nations.¹⁹ Elections are routinely organized now in some of the world’s poorest and least-developed societies, such as in Afghanistan, with poor communications and infrastructure, low levels of literacy, endemic corruption, and weakly institutionalized political parties among peoples who have lived under autocracy for decades. Contests are also attempted under even the most inhospitable conditions, such as in Haiti in November 2010, following the social disruption triggered by a devastating earthquake and humanitarian crisis.

New Challenges of Money, Technology, and Media

The contemporary wave of concern about electoral malpractices is nothing new; after all, a historical perspective suggests that problems have been around as long as there have been popular contests, including cases of bribery, treating, vote buying, nepotism, patronage, cronyism, malfeasance, fraud, manipulation, dirty tricks, intimidation, and gerrymandering.²⁰ A glance at the series of etchings by William Hogarth in “An Election Entertainment,” depicting rotten boroughs in eighteenth-century Britain, brings home how far these sins were rife. They were eventually stamped out in Britain more than a century later by the gradual expansion of the franchise (increasing costs), the 1883 Corrupt and Illegal Practices Act, the professionalization of the civil service and military appointments (reducing patronage), and the introduction of the Australian secret ballot (reinforcing the confidentiality of the polling booth).²¹

In all countries, even in long-established democracies, several issues about money, new technologies, and media have become growing concerns in recent years. This includes the most appropriate regulation of election broadcasts and political advertising, especially determining if frameworks developed in Western democracies during the era of public service broadcasting remain relevant in the contemporary age of multichannel broadcasting and social media.²² Major debates also surround the most appropriate legal framework governing campaign finance regulations, given the rising costs of postmodern campaigning, the loss of traditional revenues that came from fee-paying mass membership parties and from trade union affiliates, and increasing demands for greater transparency surrounding the donations made to candidates, elected officials, and political parties. There is no international consensus regarding the most appropriate standards and procedures for regulating political finances, even within Europe, as some countries regulate campaign donations while others seek to cap spending, and state funding and subsidies of political parties has also risen.²³ The challenge involving political finance is not simply about crude practices of treating and vote buying through petty gifts, practices apparently common in many poorer countries such as Uganda, Thailand, and Bangladesh.²⁴ Instead, as the U.S. Supreme Court’s decision in *Citizens’ United* has highlighted, far more complex issues are involved in the

regulation of campaign finance, including rules for transparency and disclosure requirements, spending caps, public funding, and free airtime.²⁵

Other developments that EMBs have sought to address include renewed demands that the social composition of parliaments should reflect the diverse societies from which they are drawn, with the inclusion of more women and ethnic minority members. EMBs have also played a role in monitoring the implementation of constitutional and legal candidate quotas and reserved seats for women and minorities, as well as capacity development programs and other positive-action strategies designed to encourage gender equality in elected office and the representation of ethnic minorities.²⁶ Given perceptions of persistently low or declining electoral turnout, election management bodies have also sought to develop effective outreach programs designed to strengthen voter education and citizen participation, especially programs targeting the poor, the younger generation, women, and minorities.

In addition, EMBs also confront a series of emerging challenges concerning the adoption and security of registration and voting technologies, from casting a ballot via the mail, Internet, mobile phones, and text messaging to the deployment of electronic voting machines located in traditional polling stations. The use of computerized voter registries and electronic vote tabulations are also increasingly common. The introduction of convenience polling facilities for electors – including the use of absentee, early, postal, proxy, or online ballots – can generate additional headaches for officials charged with preserving the security and confidentiality of balloting.²⁷ Thus, the expansion of postal voting facilities in the attempt to “modernize” British elections led the Council of Europe to question the vulnerability of ballots to fraud and lack of secrecy.²⁸ In all these regards, although the basic nuts and bolts of voting are now centuries old, nevertheless, standards are far from static and official agencies need to adapt and respond to contemporary developments in postmodern election campaigning.

Conclusions

Several factors came together during the post-Cold War era that increased efforts by international and regional organizations, UN agencies, NGOs, and global activists to strengthen electoral integrity. One major catalyst arose from the sheer growth in the number and frequency of popular elections since the mid-twentieth century, including competitive multiparty contests, raising hopes for progressive democratization. By the turn of the twenty-first century, however, it was increasingly apparent to many observers that many of these contests, instead of decisively strengthening human rights and democracy, consistently fell short of international standards and global norms. In too many cases, the introduction of multiparty elections raised popular hopes, but failed to transition further toward democracy. The international community has sought to provide technical assistance and aid to overcome the challenging logistics of

mounting these operations as part of peace-building efforts in some of the world's most troubled hotspots, including in Afghanistan, the Democratic Republic of Congo, and Iraq, with varied success. Moreover, countries – even long-established democracies – have also been confronted by a series of new challenges, notably how to make more effective use of electronic technologies and how to regulate money and media in a changing campaign landscape. In short, expectations for elections have risen in recent decades, and there has definitely been sustained progress in many states, but the pace of change has proved ragged, uneven, and lagging behind expectations. There are also clear cases of deterioration, notable in Russia and Venezuela, as well as advances. Given this context, the question arises about whether concern about flawed election is merely confined to international and regional organizations, UN agencies, and global human rights activists seeking to strengthen democratic governance and human development in conjunction with national partners and local stakeholders committed to democracy, or whether the general public is also concerned about malpractices occurring within their own country. It is to this issue that we now turn.

Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity

Is the public aware of electoral malpractices? In particular – the key question addressed in this chapter – do ordinary citizens have informed and rational perceptions about problems of electoral integrity when they occur? The first proposition in the agenda-setting model theorizes that we should observe a link (depicted as H^1) between the *actual quality* of elections in any country and *public perceptions* of electoral integrity and malpractices. Of course, even if mass perceptions are erroneous – for example, the opposition incorrectly claims that the official results are fraudulent or elections are stolen – they can still matter, potentially triggering street protests and even violent riots. And even if citizens lack firsthand information about clandestine or illicit electoral problems, they can still use heuristic cues such as media headlines to arrive at correct judgments about these practices. Nevertheless, in contrast to traditional views in social psychology, this study theorizes that the general public – individually and collectively – is capable of making fairly accurate assessments about the quality of elections occurring in their own country and that awareness is strengthened by access to the independent media, the cognitive skills and knowledge provided by formal education, and party leadership cues.

To establish this argument, the first part of this chapter sets out the long-standing theoretical debate concerning the public's capacity for making informed political judgments; the second part considers the evidence. Most tests of political knowledge compare public opinions with factual textbook answers, such as correctly identifying the number of members of the U.S. Senate or the name of the UN Secretary General. It is less straightforward to establish a factual yardstick that is true or false when it comes to perceptions of electoral integrity. Was the media biased? Did money determine the outcome? Were the rules fair? There is no straightforward way to assess the truth or falsity of such claims. One way to test the core claims, however, is to see whether public perceptions of the quality of elections in their own country are congruent with independent assessments.

To follow this strategy, the study examines mass perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices, using cross-national survey evidence derived from many sources, including the sixth wave of the World Values Survey (WVS), conducted in a diverse range of countries. Public perceptions in the WVS can be compared with assessments of elections derived from the Perception of Electoral Integrity (PEI) dataset, where several identical questions were asked of experts, as discussed earlier. If mass perceptions are largely similar to expert assessments, this strengthens confidence in the accuracy of public opinions. The study also analyzes whether the accuracy of public perceptions of electoral flaws are strengthened by access to the independent media and formal education, and shaped by partisan support for winners and losers. Finally, *perceptions* of electoral flaws are one thing; this does not necessarily mean that ordinary people are deeply *concerned* about such problems, compared with many other urgent issues on the policy agenda. The third part of this chapter therefore analyzes the social profile of perceptions of electoral integrity and whether concern over malpractices is confined to well-educated elites in affluent societies or whether it is more widely dispersed among ordinary citizens.

Theoretical Debates about the Rational Public

A Poorly Informed Public?

There are several reasons why the public may be poorly informed about electoral malpractices. One argument derives from postwar theories of social psychology, focusing on the general level of political knowledge acquired by most individuals. Normative ideals of representative democracy in classical-liberal thought make strong claims about the capacity of ordinary citizens to be well informed, to participate actively in civic life, and to hold elected officials accountable for their actions. Rational-choice theories are also built on the assumption that comprehensive information is essential to calculate decisions that serve to maximize self-interest.¹ By contrast to these ideals, the conventional wisdom in cognitive social psychology, based on early national surveys of the American electorate during the late 1950s and early 1960s, claimed that in fact, most ordinary citizens are usually unaware about many political facts – and usually disinterested and disengaged as well.² *The American Voter* established the framework for understanding American voting behavior for decades. For more than half a century, a subsequent series of U.S. surveys have tested the public's textbook grasp of basic civics. These have repeatedly found the American public to be poorly informed about government mechanics (such as textbook knowledge about political parties, leaders, and public policies, and the workings of political institutions) and about current events occurring in their own country and abroad.³ Delli Carpini and Keeter provided the most comprehensive analysis of the so-called civics test approach toward political knowledge, concerning the basic institutional arrangements in the American political system (typified by being able to identify the name of

the U.S. Vice President or which party controls the US Congress), differences in the policy platforms of the major parties (regarding taxes and spending), and some familiarity with the government's record.⁴ Based on these sorts of items, Delli Carpini and Keeter report that many Americans unfortunately achieve an "F" grade (fewer than half of all factual questions about institutions and processes could be answered correctly by most Americans), although there was no simple pattern about the range of political knowledge and ignorance demonstrated by the general public. During the postwar era, America experienced dramatic growth in the proportion of the U.S. adult population who completed high school or college. Despite this, the study was unable to detect significant improvement in civic awareness over time.⁵

Similar conclusions about political knowledge have been drawn by comparative studies in Western democracies based on testing awareness of diverse facts about domestic and international political institutions and processes, political leaders, domestic and foreign affairs, as well as "practical knowledge" about everyday life. Comparative evidence has been derived from knowledge items carried in cross-national surveys, such as those conducted by the Pew Center, the Euro-Barometer, and the European Elections Surveys. The conclusions suggest that levels of civic knowledge vary by country, in part reflecting the richness of information available in the news media environment in each society.⁶

Fewer studies have compared political knowledge elsewhere in the world, in part because of the scarcity of cross-nationally equivalent knowledge-survey items. The most comprehensive research is available from the International Association for Evaluation of Educational Achievement (IEA), which has conducted several cross-national surveys measuring cognitive aspects of civic and citizenship education among late adolescents (14–18 year olds). The latest IEA survey (in 2009) documented considerable variations in civic knowledge across thirty-eight societies worldwide; students in several Scandinavian and European societies generally proved most knowledgeable about civics, with the top marks in Finland and Denmark. Lower rankings were usually observed among students in many poorer developing countries, such as Thailand, Indonesia, Guatemala, Paraguay, and the Dominican Republic, although a society's level of human development was not the only determinant.⁷

According to traditional social-psychological theories, therefore, we would expect many individuals to be largely unaware of any electoral flaws that occur, especially any technical problems concerning abstruse electoral laws and administrative regulations. People still have the capacity to express what John Zaller terms "top of the head" opinions and beliefs when asked in public opinion polls about the quality of elections – for example, whether they believe that contests in their country are free and fair, or whether they are confident about the honesty of electoral procedures or electoral officials.⁸ Nevertheless, perceptions about the quality of elections expressed by the average person in the street should not be regarded as a reliable guide to the reality of electoral conditions. The public may say that they have great faith in elections, or

they may prove cynical, but ordinary people in general are not thought to be well-informed about whether elections are actually flawed by widespread corruption, whether there are blatant irregularities at the vote count, or whether there is maladministration in the electoral register.

Another more practical reason why public insights into electoral integrity may be expected to be particularly faulty concerns the limited observable information available about fraudulent acts and the contentious nature of claims dividing partisan elites. Many widespread malpractices involve bending the rules for complex and technical electoral procedures, exemplified by processes of artificially gerrymandering district boundaries to limit electoral competition, officials putting a thumb on the scale to fiddle the vote count, or trumped-up legal charges imprisoning opposition leaders well before the formal campaign starts. By definition, fraudulent acts are illicit and clandestine, designed to be hidden from public gaze. In place of direct observation, people may have to rely on other information, especially party cues. Nevertheless, partisan experts (and the partisan media) provide divided cues about electoral malpractices – not an expert consensus – and this process is likely to increase public uncertainty. For example, in Africa, losing parties commonly claimed doctored electoral registers, biased administrative officials, lack of access to state media, or lack of independent oversight of the polling process.⁹ In the absence of other trustworthy sources of information, party supporters may believe these claims. Some evidence supporting this argument comes from recent studies of U.S. perceptions of voter fraud, where citizens have been found to be deeply divided along party lines, with citizens taking their cues mainly from Republican and Democratic Party elites.¹⁰ Partisan media commentary is likely to reinforce the messages from sore losers.

The skeptical perspective therefore provides several arguments, both theoretical and practical, for why citizen's perceptions should not be taken at face value as reliable evidence about the quality of their elections, even concerning incidents of explicit malpractices in well-educated societies with dense communications. By extension, people may know even less in societies with minimal schooling and literacy such as populations living in Port-Au-Prince, Kigali, and Kabul; in cultures lacking historical familiarity derived from a long series of democratic contests; and in places with restricted access to information from the independent media.

Or a Rational Assessment of Common Electoral Malpractices?

This perspective has been strongly challenged more recently by alternative theories suggesting that citizens can use heuristic shortcuts and informational cues from elites to arrive at reasonably accurate decisions, without requiring comprehensive textbook knowledge of “How You Vote” or “How a Bill becomes Law” civics. Experimental economists and political psychologists have articulated the importance of heuristics as guides to action in a broad

range of decision-making situations.¹¹ According to this line of reasoning, in fact, the general public will prove fairly well-informed about flawed contests. Knowledge of how a spark plug or catalytic converter works is not necessary to make an informed choice between, say, a Ford and a Mazda. Similarly, citizens do not need encyclopedic information about abstruse voting regulations and processes of redistricting to make reasoned decisions, if cognitive shortcuts can aid rational assessments.¹² Citizens in Moscow, Caracas, or Harare may lack the right answers to typical textbook questions – such as how many members are elected to the national parliament, the age that citizens are entitled to vote, or the name of their elected representative – but they still have the capacity to judge with some accuracy whether their elections are free and fair. Problems are expected to become apparent to ordinary citizens either through direct experience of irregularities at the ballot box or indirectly, from correct information cues derived from news headlines and from political-party elites.

Direct Experience

Popular elections are the main opportunity for most citizens to participate in politics. As such, citizens are likely to observe or experience any pervasive irregularities visible during the campaign and at the ballot box: crude attempts at vote buying by candidates, blatant pro-government propaganda during campaigns, threats from security forces, inaccurate electoral rolls missing names, or ballot stuffing in polling places. The most overt cases of electoral abuses violating international standards involve imprisoning dissidents, harassing adversaries, coercing voters, vote-rigging counts, and finally, if losing, disregarding the people's choice. These are all fairly blatant flaws. Second-order problems may be more subtle, such as maladministration or technical irregularities in electoral procedures and processes, errors in electoral registers, and long lines at polling stations, but these can also often be observed by citizens. Indeed, on balance, the public is likely to have more direct experience with elections than exposure to secondhand information used to evaluate other political institutions regarding the effectiveness of the legislature or fairness of the courts. Experimental research suggests that public awareness of problems of procedural fairness are more accurate when cases are clear cut.¹³ By contrast, when the fairness of a process is more ambiguous, people are more likely to use other prior cues and attitudes to guide their judgments.

Scholars have started to examine survey evidence to determine whether experience of certain types of electoral malpractice influence citizens' perceptions of the quality of their elections. The results provide partial and mixed support for this claim.¹⁴ For example, Kerr analyzed African perceptions of whether elections were regarded as free and fair, finding that incidents of electoral violence (but not electoral fraud) reduced citizens' confidence in the quality of their elections.¹⁵ Similarly, in Latin America it has been found that the effects of vote buying on turnout differ from those surrounding a lack of trust in the process.¹⁶ This suggests that the need to examine systematic evidence

linking many different types of electoral flaws with citizens' perceptions, since the effects may well differ.

The Role of the Political Communications

Citizens also acquire information from interpersonal, group, and mediated communications. The "virtuous circle" thesis theorizes that habitual use of the news media, social learning, and civic engagement are complementary and mutually reinforcing interactive processes.¹⁷ This includes acquiring political information from the main channels of the traditional news outlets and the newer social media available within each country, as well as via cosmopolitan communications flowing from abroad. An extensive body of empirical work suggests that news consumption reinforces political knowledge, although learning effects are conditioned by the various factors, including the type of media system;¹⁸ the media source (including radio and television news and entertainment, as well as tabloid and broadsheet newspapers, Internet websites and online social networks, and interpersonal discussion);¹⁹ the amount, duration, and prominence of news coverage; the type and complexity of topics (such as awareness of local, domestic, or international issues); and the measure of knowledge (ascertained through closed or open-ended questions) employed in the research design.²⁰

National election campaigns are high-profile events attracting extensive coverage in traditional and social media. In countries where the public has widespread access to independent media, and the press is not restricted by the state, citizens are therefore likely to be exposed to information from reporters who serve as watchdogs, calling attention to electoral abuses such as political corruption and vote-rigging scandals, as well as from social media networks.²¹ Agenda-setting theories have long emphasized that stories given extensive coverage in the news media headlines are likely to be regarded as important by the public.²² Moreover, related theories of framing and priming also suggest that the news media influence the standards that people use to evaluate performance.²³ If so, then journalistic and social media commentary critical of electoral abuses, such as investigative reports of vote buying or threats, as well as the press coverage of international observer-mission reports, can provide benchmarks that the general public uses to assess electoral malpractices. Similarly, however, citizens living in autocracies without a pluralistic free press may also take their cues about the fairness of elections from state-controlled domestic media, thereby discounting critical commentary by opposition leaders, independent pro-liberal media, and the reports issued by international monitors.

Formal Education

Formal education is also likely to strengthen the accuracy of perceptions of electoral integrity, for obvious reasons. Schooling deepens literacy, numeracy, and the reservoir of cognitive, analytic, and abstract reasoning skills;

provides prior contextual knowledge that helps to make sense of additional new information; provides civics classes, and broader insights into politics and society arising from the study of history, geography, social studies, and related fields; and facilitates network discussions and deliberative learning.²⁴ For all these reasons, the well educated are expected to prove better informed about public affairs in general, including the quality of elections.

Partisan Cues

Partisan cues from winners and losers in any contest can also shape public opinion toward the fairness of contests, although whether these cues will increase the accuracy of informed citizens is an open question. Research certainly suggests that the supporters of “winners” and “losers” of any election are likely to feel differently about the overall fairness of the contest. Thus, Anderson and colleagues found that voters who backed the governing party (or parties in coalition cabinets) were generally more satisfied with democracy and more trusting of political institutions.²⁵ By contrast, those who supported the opposition that lost in the previous contest were more frustrated by the outcome, and this spilled over into stronger general disaffection, ranging from specific institutional evaluations to more diffuse aspects concerning democratic principles and procedures. Subsequent studies have largely confirmed these findings and expanded the countries under comparison.²⁶ Losing parties are also commonly the loudest to complain about electoral malpractices, holding press conferences, mobilizing protest rallies, and organizing electoral boycotts.

Studies in the United States have also found that perceptions of fraud are strongly shaped by party support.²⁷ Ever since the controversy over counting ballots in Florida during the 2000 presidential elections, and the Supreme Court *Bush v. Gore* decision, U.S. elections have become increasingly litigious, with many predominately Republican states passing new laws designed to reduce perceived problems of voter fraud, and the federal courts seeing a growing number of lawsuits over questions of voter identification, challenges to voter eligibility, and long lines at polling places.²⁸ Thorough research suggests that the actual problem of voter fraud in recent U.S. elections is probably miniscule.²⁹ Some legislation has been acknowledged by elected officials to be motivated purely by calculations of partisan self-interest rather than genuine concern.³⁰ Nevertheless, Republican suspicions of voter fraud and Democratic qualms about voter suppression have been strengthened by partisan divisions during the decade since Florida. Supporters of winning and losing parties can therefore be expected to take their cues about the fairness of elections from party leaders and spokespersons. These effects will differ in direction, however, with supporters of the winning party providing more positive evaluations of the electoral process, whereas losers will display more critical judgments. Whether this generates more accurate judgments, however, remains an open question.

To recapitulate, therefore: The first proposition of the agenda-setting model (depicted as H¹) theorizes that the *actual quality* of elections in any country will affect *public perceptions* of electoral integrity and malpractices. Moreover, the core model in this book suggests that access to independent media, formal education, and support for winning/losing parties is all likely to mediate the relationship between the actual quality of elections and public perceptions of electoral integrity. Thus, in societies such as Afghanistan that combine the conditions of little or no prior electoral experience with restricted access to mass communications and social media – as well as low levels of formal education and literacy, and poorly institutionalized party systems – ordinary people are expected to lack the capacity to evaluate appropriate standards of electoral conduct with any degree of accuracy, even while international observers have been sharply critical of manipulated and corrupt presidential contests in this country.

Is the General Public Aware of Electoral Malpractices?

What evidence is available to analyze the accuracy of public perceptions of electoral malpractices? To measure mass perceptions, this chapter compares many surveys of public opinion, including the new battery of nine items about electoral integrity and malpractices contained in the sixth wave of the WVS, as discussed in Chapter 3. The WVS monitors multidimensional aspects of electoral integrity to provide a far more comprehensive and richer picture than previous surveys, moving beyond reliance on one or two items. Three tests of the core propositions are analyzed in this chapter: (1) a comparison of mass and elite congruence based on summary measures at national level, (2) a comparison of public perceptions of disaggregated electoral problems compared with international observer reports in several cases, and (3) multivariate analysis at micro-level.

Mass-Elite Congruence at National Level?

The first proposition in the agenda-setting model is that where elections fail, ordinary citizens will perceive these problems. If this claim is correct, then we should be able to observe a strong correlation at macro-level between public perceptions of electoral integrity in each country, monitored by mass surveys, and independent benchmarks of the quality of elections in the same societies. Congruence would suggest evidence of collective rationality among the mass public.

As a first step, therefore, public perceptions in several surveys are compared at macro-level with expert evaluations of the recent quality of elections in each society, as monitored independent evidence. The comparisons listed in Table 5.1 include public perceptions of electoral integrity from several different public opinion surveys, including the Global-Barometers, the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems, and the Gallup World Poll. The results demonstrate that mass assessments were indeed significantly and positively correlated with

TABLE 5.1. Congruence Among Public and Expert Perceptions of Electoral Integrity

		NELDA Electoral Integrity Scale 2000–10 (Hyde and Marinev)	QED Quality of Elections Scale 2000–04 (Kelley)
Trust in the Electoral Commission (Global–Barometer)	R	.449*	.503**
	Sig.	.019	.006
	N	27	28
Free and Fair Elections (Global–Barometer)	R	.469**	.545**
	Sig.	.006	.001
	N	33	34
Fair Elections (CSES Module 1)	R	.430*	.397*
	Sig.	.020	.040
	N	29	27
Honest Elections (Gallup World Poll 2011)	R	.213*	.310**
	Sig.	.022	.002
	N	115	101
Free and Fair Elections (Gallup International VoP 2007)	R	.165	.424**
	Sig.	.079	.000
	N	114	103
Electoral Integrity Scale, WVS 2010–14	R	.560**	.629**
	Sig.	.008	.003
	N	21	20
Electoral Malpractice Scale, WVS 2010–14	R	-.173	-.402
	Sig.	.452	.079
	N	21	20

Note: For the indices, see Chapter 3 and the Technical Appendix A for details about their construction. The figures represent the simple Pearson correlations, the statistical significance, and the number of national cases for comparison. ** Pearson correlation (R) is significant at the 0.01 level (2-tailed). * Pearson correlation (R) is significant at the 0.05 level (2-tailed).

the NELDA and the QED expert assessments. The Electoral Integrity scale from the WVS was also correlated with the NELDA and QED scales. The WVS Electoral Malpractice scale is also negatively related to the NELDA and QED measures, as expected, although this fails to approach statistical significance, in part because of the limited number of observations. Thus, in contests condemned or praised by international experts, the mass public usually arrives at broadly similar conclusions. The strength of the correlations is all the more remarkable given the imprecise match by time periods, contrasts in the underlying concepts, and differences in measurement. This congruence provides initial support to the claim that ordinary people living around the world are capable of identifying flawed contests where these problems occur. Collective perceptions in each society are largely congruent with proxy measures about the quality of elections by experts.

As a further step, to identify and understand the underlying reason for any outliers, scatter plots presented in Figure 5.1 compare the public's perceptions of electoral integrity in the countries covered by the sixth wave of the WVS with the NELDA and QED expert indices. The correlations demonstrate a moderately strong and significant correlation across the mass views of electoral integrity and expert assessments. Thus, contests in Australia, the Netherlands, Poland, Uruguay, Estonia, and Chile are regarded positively both by ordinary citizens and by international experts. At the opposite pole, major problems about elections in Zimbabwe and Pakistan are apparent to both citizens and experts.

There are also certain clear outliers in the middle of the distribution; in particular, the Philippines and Malaysian elections are seen more positively by publics living in these societies than by the international expert assessments coded by NELDA and QED. By contrast, both the Ukrainian and Peruvian elections are regarded as far worse by citizens than by international experts. The most plausible explanation for these outliers is that certain specific features of particular contests, especially controversies in each of these countries, may have colored these evaluations.

Matching Disaggregated Judgments

Of course, skeptics could suggest that summary measures of the overall quality of elections could actually be tapping into broader orientations; for example, satisfaction with the performance of democracy. If so, then the correlations between mass and elite could always prove spurious. In partial support of this potential criticism, citizens' perceptions of electoral integrity are indeed strongly correlated at macro-level with standard measures of liberal democracy from Freedom House. Figure 5.2 shows the relationship; countries such as Australia, the Netherlands, Poland, Estonia, Chile, and Uruguay scored highly in public evaluations of how well elections work in their own country, as well as the Freedom House estimates of the liberal democracy ratings of political rights and civil liberties. By contrast, at the bottom of the rankings, public criticisms of elections in Zimbabwe, Rwanda, and Azerbaijan largely coincide with Freedom House's evaluation of the quality of liberal democracy in these societies. Again, however, the fit is not perfect, with the public proving more critical of elections in Ukraine and Peru than judgments about the regimes' performance by Freedom House experts, while proving more forgiving of the quality of elections in Malaysia and the Philippines. Clearly, many more institutions can weaken the quality of democracy than simply electoral processes – for example, if elections work well, but human rights are undermined by lack of judicial independence or weak checks and balances on the executive – so any fit is likely to prove imperfect.

To go further, therefore, we need to examine disaggregated indicators to establish whether the public has the capacity to distinguish different problems in each contest, rather than just an overall blanket “pass/fail” grade. Public assessments of electoral integrity and malpractices can be broken down into

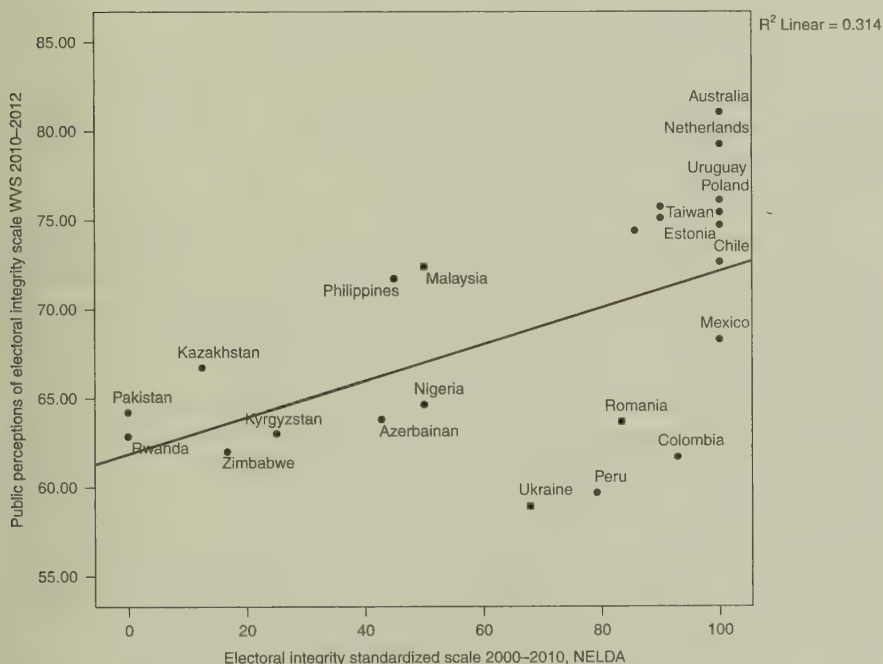
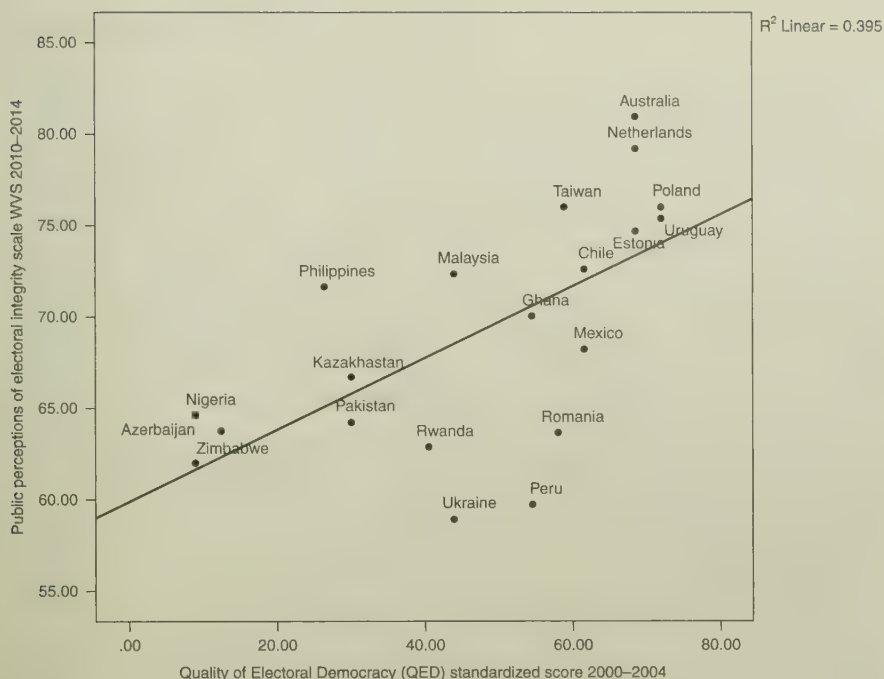


FIGURE 5.1. Public and expert evaluations of electoral integrity.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010-12; *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA) by Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>; World Values Survey sixth wave 2010-14.

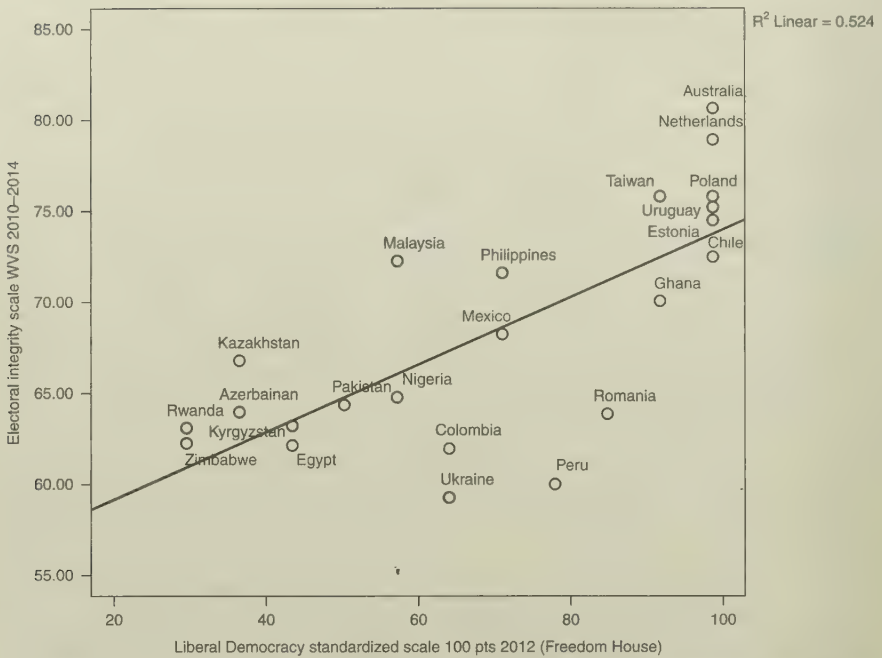


FIGURE 5.2. Correlations of public perceptions of electoral integrity with liberal democracy.

Note: For the construction of the electoral integrity scale, see Table 3.4 and Technical Appendix B.

Source: World Values Survey 2010-14.

more detailed components using the WVS data, for example, when evaluating whether votes are counted fairly, voters are offered a genuine choice, or whether voter bribery is widespread. The results of the analysis summarized in Table 5.1 suggest that the public does indeed identify certain specific problems in each of the elections under comparison. Moreover, these concerns are not random; instead, they can be related quite plausibly to each country's political background and electoral experiences. The particular problems emphasized by the public in each society are also those commonly highlighted by international observer mission reports. Several cases illustrate this process.

In Zimbabwe and Niger, for example, citizens highlight the problem of electoral violence, a topic that has aroused considerable concern in the region.³¹ In Zimbabwe, during the first-round presidential elections in March 2008, the opposition leader, Morgan Tsvangirai (MDC) gained more votes than President Robert Mugabe (ZANU-PF), although no candidate was declared to have achieved the 50 percent threshold required for victory. A second-round runoff election was held in June, but Mr. Tsvangirai subsequently withdrew following numerous reports of systematic attacks against MDC activists, including

killings and abductions. Citizens were coerced to vote in the one-candidate second ballot. The Secretary General of the UN criticized the violence and intimidation surrounding the elections. The violence only ceased following a brokered and uneasy power-sharing agreement between the major leaders.

In the case of Nigeria, the April 2001 presidential and parliamentary elections were deemed credible and largely successful by African Union observers, with high turnout and with praise for the role of the Independent National Electoral Commission. After voting ended, the public could observe the vote count in each polling station. President Goodluck Johnson from the governing People's Democratic Party (PDP) was declared the winner with 57 percent of the vote, avoiding the need for a runoff second ballot. Yet his victory was quickly followed by major outbreaks of post-election intercommunal violence between Muslim and Christian communities in several northern cities. Thousands of people have died over the past few years in communal rivalry and separatist aspirations have been growing, with the north lagging behind in education, infrastructure, and poverty. The results of the WVS show that a bare majority of Nigerians thought that elections were fair, but nevertheless, they expressed considerable concern about electoral violence.

By contrast, in the cases of Ukraine and Kyrgyzstan, the public expressed highlighted problems of bribery and corruption, as well as pro-government bias in broadcasting, and lack of fairness in electoral administration. This, again, largely reflects the reports of electoral observers from the international community. Thus, in Kyrgyzstan, following the 2011 presidential elections, the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) observer mission report noted problems in the integrity of voting, counting, and tabulation caused by cases of ballot-box stuffing, multiple and family voting, vote-buying, and bussing of voters.³² In the case of the Ukrainian 2010 elections, the country's first presidential contest since the 2004 Orange Revolution, the OSCE observer mission reported that elections largely met international standards, the process was transparent, and voters were offered a genuine choice of candidates, although the legal framework was deficient and unsubstantiated allegations of electoral fraud negatively affected the election atmosphere and voter confidence in the process. The opposition leader, Tymoshenko, who lost with 45 percent of the vote in the second round, alleged "large-scale fraud," before subsequently withdrawing her charges, and then being sentenced to seven years imprisonment for abuse of office. It appears that these accusations were widely believed, since the survey showed exceptionally widespread perceptions of electoral malpractices in Ukraine, largely through problems of corruption rather than violence.

Lastly, by contrast, Ghana exemplifies a case where the general public expressed relatively positive perceptions of electoral integrity, which largely reflects expert assessments. Among West African nations, Ghana is widely regarded today as one of the most successful contemporary democracies on the continent. During the late 1980s, the country began to move toward economic

stability and democracy. In April 1992, a constitution allowing a multi-party system was approved in a referendum, ushering in a sustained period of democracy under the fourth republic. Since then, Ghana has experienced periodic multiparty contests that international observers have regarded as free and fair.³³ In the presidential elections in December 2008, the results of which were extremely close – less than 0.5 percent of the vote separated the top two presidential candidates – but nevertheless, the outcome was largely peaceful. The European Union (EU) was among a host of institutions observing these contests, including the Carter Center, ECOWAS, African Union, and more than 4,000 representatives from the Coalition of Domestic Observers (CODEO). The EU reported that the electoral commission who administered the contests proved impartial, professional, and independent, ensuring the transparency of the process. Electoral observers and party agents were able to observe all stages of polling, vote counting, and aggregation. There were clear legal channels for complaints and appeals challenging the results, and the commission worked to ensure conciliation and acceptance of the process among the major stakeholders. There were some minor administrative irregularities experienced on polling day, but the electoral commission apologized for these and sought to rectify the situations. Disputes followed the second round of presidential voting, and tensions rose in the tight contest with some slight delays in announcing the vote, but these were eventually resolved without conflict. The perceptions of electoral integrity items show that most people in Ghana believe that their elections are fair, and that there is free competition for opposition candidates. Nevertheless, they remain more critical of voter bribery and suspicious of the power of rich people to buy elections.

Micro-Level Analysis of Factors Strengthening Awareness of Integrity

The overall correlations between societal perceptions and professional assessments, as well as analyses of specific problems during particular electoral cycles, suggest that the mass public holds well-informed views about electoral integrity. The analyses of both the overall summary indicators and the disaggregated problems point in a similar direction. But what is the relationship at an individual level and what drives the accuracy of citizens' assessments?

It is not possible to determine factual evidence of electoral integrity because many of the core challenges involve subtle judgments rather than objective data (e.g., Are election officials fair? Are the media biased?). The most reliable evidence that is available can be derived from expert assessments of the quality of elections, using the PEI dataset discussed in previous chapters. Through this process, public perceptions of the severity of problems occurring in each election, monitored by a nine-item battery of questions carried in the WVS, can be compared against PEI expert judgments using the identical items (see Table 5.2). Thus, this process assumes that experts provide an appropriate proxy yardstick for accurate knowledge, so that *the greater the distance* from expert assessments, *the less accurate* the estimates made by individual citizens.

TABLE 5.2. *Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity and Malpractice*

Nation	Electoral Integrity				Electoral Malpractice					Index
	Votes Are Often Counted Fairly	Journalists Often Provide Fair Coverage of Elections	Election Officials Are Often Fair	Voters Are Often Offered a Genuine Choice in the Elections	Opposition Candidates Are Often Prevented from Running	TV News Often Favors the Governing Party	Voters Are Often Bribed	Rich People Often Buy Elections	Voters Are Often Threatened with Violence at the Polls	
Australia	95	63	88	86	13	43	20	28	3	80
Netherlands	96	77	77	75	10	20	6	6	2	79
Poland	85	67	89	66	15	62	24	29	3	76
Taiwan	92	58	71	88	58	84	77	84	33	76
Estonia	81	62	71	78	44	61	41	35	5	75
Uruguay	91	73	81	66	62	41	15	24	4	75
Chile	89	67	75	51	21	41	16	27	9	73
Malaysia	80	64	71	69	24	55	36	25	17	72
Philippines	63	75	52	85	42	57	79	78	67	72
Ghana	61	65	64	72	23	47	67	60	49	70
Mexico	52	69	50	72	49	64	75	72	54	68
Kazakhstan	62	60	47	63	31	61	29	39	10	66
Nigeria	54	62	49	53	53	65	72	70	66	65
Pakistan	64	59	50	54	67	61	62	65	56	65
Zimbabwe	52	47	53	54	38	68	47	52	54	64
Azerbaijan	51	58	50	62	26	43	13	14	6	63
Kyrgyzstan	53	56	34	61	56	70	68	63	36	63
Romania	43	44	43	74	26	53	56	61	19	63
Rwanda	77	49	38	54	19	15	10	11	13	63
Colombia	42	54	40	48	43	61	72	80	46	62
Egypt	50	53	51	51	40	39	50	49	35	62
Peru	41	49	36	51	33	68	46	58	23	60
Ukraine	38	56	25	47	59	72	71	79	19	59
Total	65	61	56	65	38	55	49	52	30	68

Notes: Q: "In your view, how often do the following things occur in this country's elections?" The above gives the proportion in each nation responding "Very often" and "Fairly often." The electoral integrity and electoral malpractice scales provide a mean score across the items.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010–14.

The dependent variable is a standardized scale estimated by the distance between independent judgments of the overall quality of an election in a country (measured by a standardized scale derived from four items in the expert Perceptions of Electoral Integrity index) and equivalent evaluations of the quality of the election in the same country made by individual citizens (measured by a standardized scale based on the *identical* four questions carried in the World Values Survey Electoral Integrity Index). The four items that are summed and standardized into 100-point scales are agree/disagree statements (using a 5-point scale) concerning: "Election officials were fair," "Votes were counted fairly," "Journalists provided fair coverage of the elections," and "Voters were offered a genuine choice at the ballot box." Multivariate regression analysis allows us to see whether the accuracy of citizens' perceptions are influenced at an individual level by access to political communication sources of information, formal education, and support for losing and winning parties, controlling for several common social factors that could shape political knowledge.

At present, only ten countries overlap in the coverage of both the sixth wave WVS and the PEI Index. Nevertheless, the societies that overlap in both studies contain diverse types of elections, regimes, and levels of human development. In general, as illustrated in Figure 5.3, a strong correlation can be observed at macro-level between expert and public assessments in these countries. The individual-level models also include standard controls that could be expected to influence attitudes and knowledge, including political interest, sex, age, and immigration status. Variables include individual-level interest in politics (using a 4-point scale), sex (male = 1), age (logged in years), education (the 9-point scale of formal educational qualifications), whether the respondent was an immigrant (0/1), voting support for winning and losing parties, and frequency of using TV news, newspapers, radio news, and mobile phones as information sources.

The regression model in Table 5.3 confirms the effects of several conditions that affect the accuracy of public perceptions. All the factors proved statistically significant in the model. At individual level, this includes individual frequency of different types of communications, with newspaper readership displaying the strongest effect on awareness of electoral integrity. Many other studies have commonly reported that newspaper readership, the most demanding form of access to current affairs, has the strongest effects on political knowledge.³⁴ But watching TV news and listening to radio news, and using a mobile phone, were also positively related to political awareness. As expected, formal educational qualifications were also associated with greater awareness of electoral integrity, although the effects across all the societies under comparison proved surprisingly weak. This suggests that formal education may strengthen civic knowledge, but this effect is not necessarily apparent for adult assessments of electoral malpractices. Lastly, voting support for the ruling party also had a strong and significant effect on awareness. The social controls of interest and age further

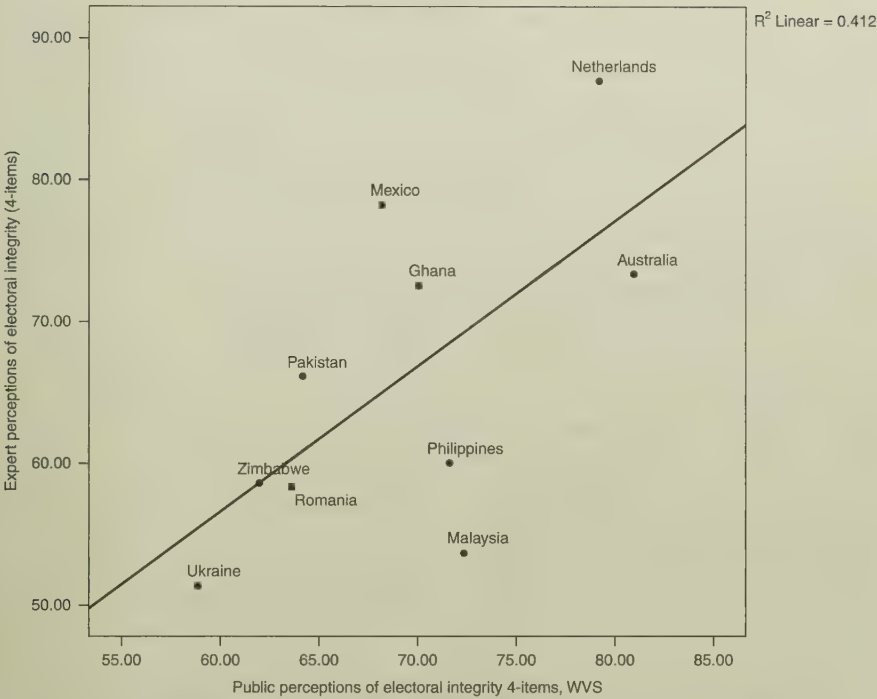


FIGURE 5.3. Congruence of public and expert perceptions of electoral integrity.

Note: The expert perceptions of electoral integrity 4-item scale is an aggregate standardized 100-point scale constructed by summing four items contained in the expert survey on Perceptions of Electoral Integrity. The public perception of electoral integrity is calculated by summing the *identical* four items in the sixth wave of the World Values Survey. The items are “Election officials were fair,” “Votes were counted fairly,” “Journalists provided fair coverage of the elections,” and “Voters were offered a genuine choice at the ballot box.”

Source: Pippa Norris, Ferran Martínez i Coma, and Richard W. Frank. 2013. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*, October 2013: www.electoralintegrityproject.com; The World Values Survey sixth wave, www.worldvaluessurvey.org.

reinforced knowledge; as expected, both factors proved significant. Finally, male sex and immigrant status were negatively associated with awareness.

Public Concern

The overall evidence from these different types of tests all point consistently toward a relatively informed public, contrary to the conventional wisdom in early U.S. studies. Nevertheless, even where the public is consciously aware of integrity or malpractices, collectively or individually, they may still prove

TABLE 5.3. *Factors Contributing to Accurate Awareness of Electoral Integrity*

	Unstandardized Coefficients		Standardized Coefficients	Sig.
	B	Std. Error	Beta	
(Constant)	-19.57	2.147		.000
Educational qualifications	.04	.101	.005	.048
Political communications				
Views TV news	.48	.219	.028	.026
Listens to radio news	.73	.140	.064	.000
Uses mobile telephone	.79	.127	.078	.000
Reads newspaper	1.59	.154	.137	.000
Voted for the ruling party	8.33	.426	.228	.000
CONTROLS				
Political interest	.441	.230	.023	.055
Age in years (logged)	1.05	.536	.024	.050
Sex (male)	-2.17	.428	-.060	.000
Immigrant to country	-4.10	1.369	-.035	.003
Adjusted R ²	.10			
N. countries	8			
N. respondents	6,657			

Note: OLS regression models where the dependent variable is the distance between the expert assessment of levels of electoral integrity in a country (monitored by the PEI expert survey) and citizens' assessments.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010-14.

indifferent toward these issues. For example, Rose and Mischler found that perceptions of electoral fairness by Russians differed sharply from reports by international observer missions. The main reason, the study found, was that many ordinary Russians prioritized the government's policy performance over any procedural irregularities.³⁵ Even if public perceptions coincide largely with expert judgments, do ordinary people care about problems of electoral integrity? After all, the world's poorest societies face multiple challenges, including conflict and civil wars, HIV-AIDS, poverty, illiteracy, child mortality, environmental degradation, and lack of sanitation. Compared with these grave threats to well-being and human security, it is possible that elections may seem far-less important in many developing societies, or even a Western "luxury" to be pursued once basic material needs are fulfilled.

To monitor whether the public thought that this issue was important, the WVS asked people: "Some people think that having honest elections makes a lot of difference in their lives; other people think that it does not. How important are elections in your view?" Far from proving irrelevant, the results presented in Figure 5.4 show that elections are overwhelmingly regarded as "very"



FIGURE 5.4. The importance of honest elections.
Note: Percentage who agree that “having honest elections makes a lot of difference in their lives” is “very” or “rather” important.
Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

or “rather” important by ordinary people, a statement endorsed on average by nine out of ten respondents living in diverse societies. Moreover, the proportions agreeing with this statement was highest in several societies that have experienced a recent history of persistent problems of severe malpractices, such as intimidation in Zimbabwe, violence and corruption in Nigeria, and one-party predominance by the ruling party in Malaysia. Instead of appearing to be a Western luxury unrelated to people’s everyday lives, citizens living in places such as Rwanda, Ghana, and Mexico emphasized the value of honest elections.

Conclusions

To summarize, the evidence analyzed in this chapter suggests three main findings. Firstly, public evaluations are strongly correlated with independent expert indices of electoral quality in each country. Secondly, the fact that public evaluations are not simply a blanket “thumbs up/thumbs down” judgment, as demonstrated by citizens in each country who identified several specific problems that occurred during the electoral cycle, further increases confidence in the

rational basis of these assessments. Finally, the individual evidence suggests that political communications, education, and party cues strengthen the accuracy of citizens' assessments.

Thus, the different strands of evidence examined in this chapter provide plausible support for the first proposition (H^1) in the overall model, suggesting that the quality of elections in each society do shape public concern about integrity. How does this process work? Hyde and Marinov argue that there is a more direct link between elites and mass judgments, as international observer reports provide a credible cue to citizens about the quality of elections, especially where other reliable sources of domestic information are unavailable, and critical reports help to trigger popular protests.³⁶ It is difficult to establish a direct linkage with any systematic evidence, however, and this chapter is not claiming that the reports by international monitors directly influenced public judgments, as we simply do not know. Irrespective of whether the source of information is direct experience, domestic cues, or international observers, specific problems occurring during any contest, as predicted, strengthen mass perception that contests are flawed; a process expected, in turn, to undermine public confidence in the electoral process and institutions.

The collective public appears capable of making fairly rational and accurate assessments about the quality of elections held in their own country. Why does this view differ from the standard one presented in early theories of cognitive psychology and from many comparisons using the "civics" test? Many regime institutions, including the executive and legislature, are far removed from ordinary people's daily lives and concerns, making it difficult for citizens to judge how well they are working. Learning about detailed public policies or civic institutions is far removed from many people's lives and experiences. But popular elections differ by providing unique opportunities to engage every citizen. Moreover, the evidence suggests that the public does not just make blanket "yes/no" judgments about the quality of these contests; instead, different problems with elections are distinguished by people living in each country; for example, highlighting the problems of electoral violence in Nigeria and Zimbabwe, lack of fairness among electoral officials in Kyrgyzstan and Ukraine, and the role of money politics in Ghana and Mexico. These more-nuanced evaluations suggest that the public has the capacity to identify several specific problems of elections, reflecting critical commentary in international observer mission reports. Collective judgments are not simply reflecting broader satisfaction about the performance of democracy or human rights in general. Based on this foundation, like falling dominoes, the second proposition in the sequential agenda-setting model suggests that public confidence in electoral integrity will, in turn, influence broader feelings of political legitimacy. Chapter 6 goes on to examine evidence to evaluate this proposition.

PART III

THE CONSEQUENCES OF ELECTORAL
INTEGRITY

For Legitimacy

This chapter seeks to determine whether, and under what conditions, electoral integrity reinforces feelings of legitimacy. The agenda-setting model advanced in the Introduction to this book postulates that the general public judges the quality of contests, with citizens responding to real world conditions. Chapter 5 provides evidence confirming this claim: Contests that are unfair, corrupt, or flawed strengthen public awareness of electoral malpractices. In the model, this process, in turn, is predicted to undermine broader feelings of political legitimacy, including confidence in elected officials and institutions, satisfaction with the performance of democracy and the record of human rights, and voluntary legal compliance. In turn, weakened feelings of electoral legitimacy are expected to have behavioral consequences, thereby deterring voter turnout and fuelling protest politics, the topic of Chapter 7. By contrast, where elections meet international standards, this should strengthen citizens' feelings of political legitimacy, as expressed through confidence in elected political parties and parliaments, the propensity to obey the law, as well as satisfaction with the state of democracy and human rights in their own country.

To buttress this argument, the first part of this chapter expands on the theoretical framework and the core propositions. Following previous research, this section defines the concept of legitimacy as a multidimensional phenomenon and the reasons why incidence of electoral malpractices are expected to weaken feelings of legitimacy, as well as considering alternative performance, cultural, and communication theories.¹ The second part of this chapter outlines the evidence measuring attitudinal indicators of political legitimacy, derived from the sixth wave of the World Values Survey 2010–14 (WVS). This survey facilitates comparison of public opinion for citizens experiencing diverse elections in states ranging from Uruguay, Estonia, and Mexico to Zimbabwe, Azerbaijan, and Kazakhstan. As a multidimensional concept, the study compares multiple indicators of legitimacy. The third part of this chapter presents

the results of the cross-national comparisons. Even after applying the standard batteries of social controls, perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractice are observed to be significantly and consistently related to confidence in elected institutions (parties, parliaments, and governments), as well as overall satisfaction with the performance of democracy, respect for human rights, and voluntary legal compliance.

The fourth part of this chapter tackles the thorny challenges associated with interpreting the direction of causality in this relationship. This difficulty of “what causes what” arises in studies analyzing cross-national observational data concerning a bundle of closely related attitudes and values monitored at a single point in time. On the one hand, a plausible case can be constructed that practices such as electoral fraud, ballot-box stuffing, or vote buying are likely to corrode ordinary people’s faith in the broader dimensions of how democracy works in their own country, encouraging cynicism about the legitimacy of elected officials, political parties, or the government in power. On the other hand, it also remains possible that citizens who are critical about the quality of democratic governance and the human-rights record in their state are also likely to be skeptical, or even cynical, about the honesty and credibility of elections. One way to help unravel causality is to examine quasi-experimental conditions occurring in specific cases where the quality of electoral integrity altered significantly across two successive elections. In these types of contexts, time-series and within-state comparisons using survey data allow us to unravel feelings of legitimacy before and after events, to help nail down the direction of causality. The fourth section of this chapter analyzes the empirical evidence for the core propositions through this process. The chapter’s conclusion summarizes the key findings and considers their broader implications. Where electoral malpractices erode feelings of legitimacy, this process is likely to have behavioral consequences, although it remains to be determined in subsequent chapters whether feelings of political legitimacy are related to political participation, as commonly assumed, including the propensity to engage in protest activism and to vote.

Theoretical Framework

The general concept of “legitimacy” represents acceptance of the underlying rules of the game, so that all actors willingly consent to authority of the regime, without the sanction of force. Legitimacy, in Seymour Martin Lipset’s words, “involves the capacity of a political system to engender and maintain the belief that existing political institutions are the most appropriate and proper ones for the society.”² For this reason alone, citizens’ feelings of political legitimacy should be regarded as a critical indicator of the underlying stability of the regime. Legitimacy has both attitudinal and cultural dimensions. When the public feels that state authority is exercised legitimately, this should encourage voluntary acquiescence with rulers without penalty of legal or physical

sanctions, even when people disagree with specific decisions or laws. Poorly legitimized regimes lack the capacity to ensure that citizens comply voluntarily with the law and pay due taxes, whereas failed states, such as Somalia, are unable to maintain security against rebels within national boundaries. If the authority of the government is challenged, this is likely to engender protest demonstrations, opposition boycotts, and court battles challenging election results, and in extreme cases, it may even end in revolutionary coups. Ultimately, an extreme lack of legitimacy may fuel grievances that can spark violent conflict and destabilize regimes. Governing parties can exert their rule through many other mechanisms, including repressive means, if they maintain control of the security forces, the courts, and the state bureaucracy. In his classic typology, Weber emphasized that regimes can govern through traditional sources of authority, derived from appeals to religion (in theocracies) or birthright (in ruling monarchies). Authoritarian regimes may rely on tribalism, nationalism, and populism (for charismatic leaders), appeals to party loyalties (in one-party states), as well as deploying patronage and clientalism (where state resources and jobs are dispersed to loyal supporters).³ Nevertheless, following the global diffusion of elections in the late twentieth century, legitimacy flowing from the ballot box is one of the most effective and efficient mechanisms to ensure that citizens comply voluntarily with the authority of elected rulers, in both democratic and autocratic states. Even in electoral autocracies, a decisive victory at the ballot box that is perceived as legitimate can serve to deter rival contenders for the leadership, within or outside a ruling party.

Why Elections Contribute toward Legitimate Authority

The belief that authority arises from legitimate elections is thought important in democratic theory for several reasons. One is acceptance of the rules of the game; legitimate authority through elections means that all actors go along with the procedures for determining winning candidates and parties, including the contest losers who accept defeat.⁴ In contests regarded as legitimate, it is widely believed that even the losers will still regard selection procedures as fair and just, acknowledging the legal authority of elected officials and the government. In these circumstances, unsuccessful parties and candidates are likely to consent to the outcome, or they will appeal irregularities through peaceful legal channels, in the belief that they can win subsequent contests through fair-and-square means. Citizens are also more likely to accept the results as procedurally fair because they have the right to participate in selecting their leaders. By contrast, if political legitimacy is undermined through electoral malpractices, this is expected to weaken acceptance of the basic electoral rules of the game by opposition parties. If these feelings are shared by their supporters, or by minorities excluded from the vote, these conditions may exacerbate ethnic tensions and intercommunal conflict. Opposition claims of electoral fraud, in combination with long-standing grievances about access to land, are thought to have fanned the flames of communal conflict in the 2007 presidential elections in

Kenya.⁵ Lack of legitimacy is also likely to undermine the authority of elected officials, with particularly severe problems for stability and maintaining rule of law in the world's most fragile states. Without authority derived from the ballot box, rulers may need to resort to other mechanisms of enforcement, such as deploying the military. Lack of legitimate elections may also have international repercussions, for example, where major violations of human rights – such as military coups – trigger cuts in development aid and trade sanctions, and if economic instability arising from electoral violence deters international investment.

Rival Theories of the Origins of Political Legitimacy

Nevertheless, the claim that electoral integrity is essential for democratic legitimacy has been challenged and the drivers of legitimacy continue to be debated in the literature. If citizens have little faith in their leadership, then is this caused by the procedural fairness of how representatives were selected for democratic office, the effectiveness of government policies, political coverage in mass communications, or broader cultural values? The main alternative theoretical perspectives have focused on each of these factors. Hence, accounts by political economists have emphasized the role of the government's delivery of collective goods and services. From this perspective, people accept the political authority of leaders primarily because they are satisfied with the performance on the "output" side of the policy process, such as the quality of living standards and economic growth, health care, schools, and security, rather than the "input" side of democratic representation. The most forceful recent statement of this claim, by Bo Rothstein, argues that electoral democracy is highly overrated when it comes to creating legitimacy: "Political legitimacy depends on the quality of government, not the quality of elections or political representation."⁶ This argument builds on traditional theories of political economy, suggesting that the failure of political institutions to perform according to people's expectations erodes the public's faith in government, particularly if the government is seen as incompetent when managing the economy.⁷ Popular commentary often assumes that this process underlies outbreaks of angry anti-government protests and challenges to elected leaders, such as those in Greece, Spain, and Cyprus following the 2008 financial crisis, deep unemployment, threats to bank savings, and the weakness of the Euro.

Alternative studies in mass political communications, however, have commonly emphasized the importance of negative news for the presumed erosion of government legitimacy, especially the supposedly damaging effects of television news coverage about major political scandals, such as the role of Watergate or the Monica Lewinsky scandal in U.S. politics. For many decades, a series of scholars have emphasized that a growing diet of negative television news in the race to the bottom of tabloid journalism has fueled a rising tide of political disenchantment.⁸ Theories of political communications are related to an extensive body of historical research seeking to explain the eroding trust

and confidence in U.S. government as a consequence of specific U.S. events that are unrelated to elections *per se* – such as the roles of Watergate, Vietnam, urban riots, and culture wars during the late 1960s and early 1970s.⁹

Finally, cultural theories suggest that many societies have experienced a loss of legitimacy, thus weakening many traditional sources of authority, including governments, churches, and special-interest organizations; a process that Ronald Inglehart suggests has been driven by long-term generational changes in social values.¹⁰ Thus, trust in government and satisfaction with democracy are attributed to processes of human development, especially growing levels of literacy, education, and cognitive skills, leading toward emancipative values demanding more of governments.¹¹ For Inglehart, “[t]he emergence of post-industrial society is conducive to rising emphasis on self-expression, which in turn brings rising mass demands for democracy.”¹² Likewise, accounts based on Putnam’s theory of social capital predict that a long-term erosion of social trust and community networks undermines faith in democratic governance.¹³ In short, there is no shortage of theories debating the roots of any contemporary public disaffection with the way that democratic governance works and thus a supposed erosion of political legitimacy. Therefore, the role of electoral integrity in generating legitimate authorities, although widely regarded as important in popular commentary, may be only one piece of a broader and more complex puzzle about the underlying drivers of political legitimacy.

Attitudinal Evidence of Political Legitimacy

The core idea of political legitimacy refers to the general sense that citizens accept the authority of their political leaders. Nevertheless, ever since the early work of David Easton, it is widely recognized that political legitimacy is a multidimensional concept depending on the object of support.¹⁴ Thus, ordinary Americans may well have confidence in their locally elected member of the House of Representatives or support their local mayor, but still prove cynical about shenanigans in Congress or Washington politics in general. Or they may respect the decisions of the Supreme Court and have patriotic pride in the U.S. Constitution, but continue to harbor grave doubts about the specific administration in the White House. The complexity of this multidimensional concept makes it difficult to measure directly in empirical research.¹⁵

Bo Rothstein suggests that the most obvious signal of a breakdown of regime legitimacy comes from macro-level historical cases of armed rebellion and the disintegration of former nation-states.¹⁶ Recent examples include the 2012 Taureg insurgency in northern Mali or the civil war in Syria, and autonomous regions seeking to secede from the constitutional authority of the nation-state, such as the division of the former states of Czechoslovakia or Sudan. These are extreme cases, however, and regime legitimacy can weaken and become frayed without such dramatic consequences; for example, if rulers such as President Bashar al-Assad cling to power through repressive means. Conversely, rulers

commanding widespread popular support among their own peoples can fall from power owing to external forces, notably military defeat. Arguably, other macro-level event indicators could also potentially be employed to monitor a breakdown of electoral legitimacy, such as contests boycotted by opposition parties, legal irregularities adjudicated by the courts, or outbreaks of violent riots after polling closes. Nevertheless, each of these types of actions may arise from purely strategic considerations, such as opposition calculations, as much as from genuine doubts about the procedural fairness of these contests. In the case of the 2007 presidential elections in Kenya, for example, there is evidence that the intercommunal riots were planned by leaders well before the campaign actually started.¹⁷

Several alternative proxy indicators of the latent concept of legitimacy are available from survey data, including attitudinal and behavioral measures among individual citizens, and these have been widely employed in previous research.¹⁸ This study therefore examines survey evidence to see whether perceptions of the quality of elections exert a strong and consistent impact on attitudinal indicators of legitimacy, including feelings of satisfaction with the overall performance of democracy, evaluations of the state's record of human rights, confidence in elected institutions, and willingness to comply with the law. As discussed in the Introduction, the agenda-setting theory predicts that public confidence in electoral integrity will influence broader feelings of political legitimacy (H^2). The traditional foundation for understanding how citizens orient themselves toward the nation-state, its agencies and actors rest on the idea of "system support," originally developed by David Easton in the 1960s.¹⁹ Subsequent work in *Critical Citizens* expanded the Eastonian conceptual framework to distinguish five dimensions of system support and survey evidence demonstrates that these distinctions continue to prove robust.²⁰ This includes the following components, ranging from diffuse to specific levels:

- (1) The most general and fundamental feelings of citizens toward *belonging to the national community*, exemplified by feelings of national pride and identity
- (2) *Support for general regime principles*, including approval of democratic and autocratic attitudes and values
- (3) *Evaluations of the overall performance of the regime*, exemplified by satisfaction with the workings of democracy
- (4) *Confidence in state institutions*, notably government, parliaments, parties, the civil service, the courts, and the security forces
- (5) Trust in elected and appointed officeholders, including politicians and leaders

Confidence in electoral integrity is expected to be closely related at the most specific levels to popular acceptance of the outcome and thus trust in the legitimate authority of elected officials and elected institutions. By contrast, public perceptions of electoral fraud, vote stealing, or administrative

malpractices (whether based on true or false claims) are likely to weaken confidence in elected authorities. Feelings that electoral contests reflect international standards of integrity should thereby strengthen confidence in political parties, parliaments, and elected presidents, with a weaker and more indirect impact on the judiciary, civil service, and military. There may also be long-term consequences at more diffuse levels; an extended series of flawed and fraudulent contests may also be expected to corrode general satisfaction with the performance of democracy and the record of human rights in each country.²¹ Since stronger feelings of legitimacy are associated with the propensity to obey the law voluntarily (even where statutes are regarded as unfair or unjust), greater electoral integrity is also predicted to be displayed through legal compliance.

Some empirical evidence from previous studies supports these propositions. A growing body of studies suggest that in Africa, ordinary people who express confidence in the quality of their elections are also more likely to have positive evaluations of democratic performance and to believe in the legitimacy of their regime.²² Survey data suggests that many Africans consider elections to be the best means of forming a government and they judge the quality of democracy accordingly.²³ Elections with integrity in the region are found to strengthen feelings of legitimacy. In Russia, as well, those who thought that the Duma elections were unfair were also less proud of their country, as well as mistrusting of parties and parliament, and less likely to endorse the regime.²⁴ In Western Europe, studies have found that perceptions of bribery and corruption depressed trust in political institutions.²⁵ Moreover, in one of my last books that compared countries worldwide based on the fifth wave of the WVS (2005–07), citizen satisfaction with democracy in each society proved to be closely related to the *procedural* performance of democratic governance. This was measured at macro-level by objective macro-level indices for levels of democratization, good governance, and human rights in each society. By contrast, satisfaction with democracy was usually unrelated to most macro-level indicators of *policy* performance, reflecting the capacity of governments to manage the delivery of basic public goods and services, such as levels of economic growth, human development, and social welfare. It is often believed that the general public has little awareness of many basic political facts, when using conventional “civics” tests where citizens are asked about their understanding of the numbers of members of Congress or the names of public leaders. The evidence from the WVS suggests, however, that the public is capable of making fairly rational and accurate evaluations about the performance of democracy, based on how well democratic procedures actually work. This relationship strengthened with each country’s historical experience of liberal democracy, suggesting a learning process in each society. Moreover, as mentioned earlier, when people were asked in the WVS about how they understood the notion of democracy, a procedural conceptualization also proved by far the most common in every type of society. Thus, eight

out of ten people saw free elections in which “people chose their leaders” as an essential characteristic of democracy.²⁶

Winners and Losers

In addition to these considerations, research suggests that the “winners” and “losers” of any election are also likely to feel differently about the fairness of the process and procedures. Thus, Anderson and colleagues found that those who backed the governing party or parties in coalition cabinets in the previous election were generally more satisfied with democracy and more trusting of political institutions.²⁷ By contrast, those who had supported the opposition that lost in the previous contest were more frustrated by the outcome, and this spilled over into stronger general disaffection ranging from specific institutional evaluations to more diffuse aspects concerning democratic principles and procedures. Subsequent studies have largely confirmed and refined these findings and expanded the countries under comparison.²⁸ For all these reasons, the theory posits a three-step process: poor quality elections that fail to meet international standards are expected to shape public perceptions (as demonstrated in Chapter 5) and, in turn, citizen’s evaluations are predicted to influence feelings of political legitimacy. Further, these general patterns are expected to be conditioned by whether respondents were winners and losers from the electoral process.

The core model in this book predicts that public perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractice will have a direct impact on feelings of political legitimacy. Although this may seem to be an obvious claim, it is striking that some previous attempts to monitor and compare state legitimacy have not considered the proposition.²⁹ To test the core argument, evidence of public opinion is derived from the sixth wave (2010–13) WVS. Feelings of political legitimacy are measured and analyzed using several indicators from this survey, tapping into multidimensional notions of system support. This includes overall satisfaction with the performance of democracy and respect for human rights in each country, as well as confidence in elected political institutions (parties, parliaments, and governments). Testing each of these dimensions increases confidence in the robustness of the results. Models in this chapter control for many micro-level social and demographic characteristics that have commonly been found to shape political orientations. This includes the standard characteristics of age (in years), sex (male), education (educational qualification 9-point standardized scale), household income scale, and urbanization (an 8-point scale for the size of urban-rural communities).³⁰ Models also control for many political attitudes that the previous literature has often associated with feelings of political legitimacy, including national pride, democratic values, political interest, and life satisfaction.³¹ To provide a partial test for rival alternative accounts, the models also include variables for cultural factors (post-material values and social trust), political communications (a standardized scale of media use), and government performance (macro-level measures of economic development and economic growth). All measures are described in the Technical Appendix

A. Voting preferences were classified by the party that respondents said they would support in the next general election. Citizens were then classified into “winners” and “losers” depending on which party or parties were returned to government in the most recent presidential or parliamentary election immediately prior to the survey fieldwork. The multivariate models use hierarchical linear models (HLM) with restricted maximum likelihood (REML) regression to take account of the use of macro- and micro-level data. All the variables are standardized using means-centering (Z-scores), which has the advantage of facilitating comparison of the strength of the beta coefficients as predictors of the dependent variables.

The Impact of Electoral Integrity on Feelings of Political Legitimacy

The agenda-setting model (H^2) proposes that public perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices shape feelings of political legitimacy. We can start to examine the evidence for this claim by looking at the descriptive bivariate relationships before applying HLM multivariate analysis with the full battery of controls. Figure 6.1 illustrates some of the relationships in the pooled WVS where public perceptions of electoral integrity are observed to be associated with greater confidence in three types of elected institutions – namely governments, political parties, and parliaments – with the pattern suggesting a linear progressive relationship. The fact that similar patterns can be observed across three different types of institutions increases confidence in the robustness of the results.³² Moreover, this relationship is not simply reflecting a general orientation or psychological disposition toward greater trust in all types of institutions; it is also striking (although hardly surprising) that contrasting patterns can be observed for public confidence in the church, which is logically unrelated to electoral integrity.

In addition, the observed findings are robust even when tested using more diffuse indicators; at a broader level, similar patterns can be seen in Figure 6.2 for how perceptions of electoral integrity relate to increased satisfaction with the overall performance of democracy. The more people believe that contests in their country are honesty and fair, the more they seem to approve of how democracy works in general. This linkage is again not surprising, given the centrality of elections to most people’s understanding of the characteristics of democracy.³³

Finally, one important consequence for any loss of legitimate authority is thought to be the breakdown of the rule of law, as unless there are effective sanctions, ordinary people fail to observe or respect regulations, exemplified by reports of widespread abuses where Greek citizens failed to report taxable income honestly, deepening the state fiscal crisis. Measures of voluntary legal compliance are compared in the WVS by asking respondents whether they believe that a series of acts are justifiable, using 10-point scales such as cheating on taxes, avoiding a fare on public transport, or claiming unentitled welfare benefits. The five items (see Figure 6.3) can be summed into a standardized

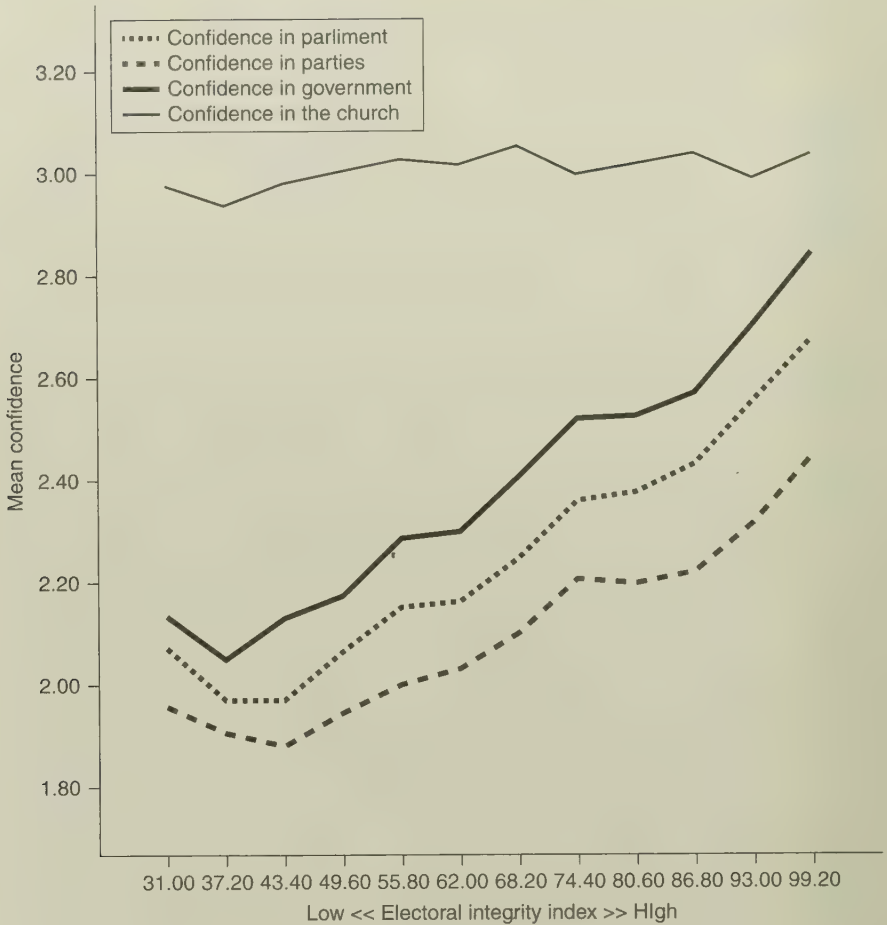


FIGURE 6.1. Electoral integrity strengthens confidence in elected institutions.

Note: "I am going to name a number of organizations. For each one, could you tell me how much confidence you have in them: is it a great deal of confidence, quite a lot of confidence, not very much confidence or none at all? ... The government (in your nation's capital), political parties, parliament, the churches."

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

100-point legal compliance scale. The results, presented in Figure 6.3, show that those citizens who believed that their elections were generally free and fair also adhered most strongly to the principle that it was never justifiable to break the law. By contrast, ordinary people who thought that electoral malpractices were common in their country's elections were less likely to feel that breaking the law was unjustifiable.

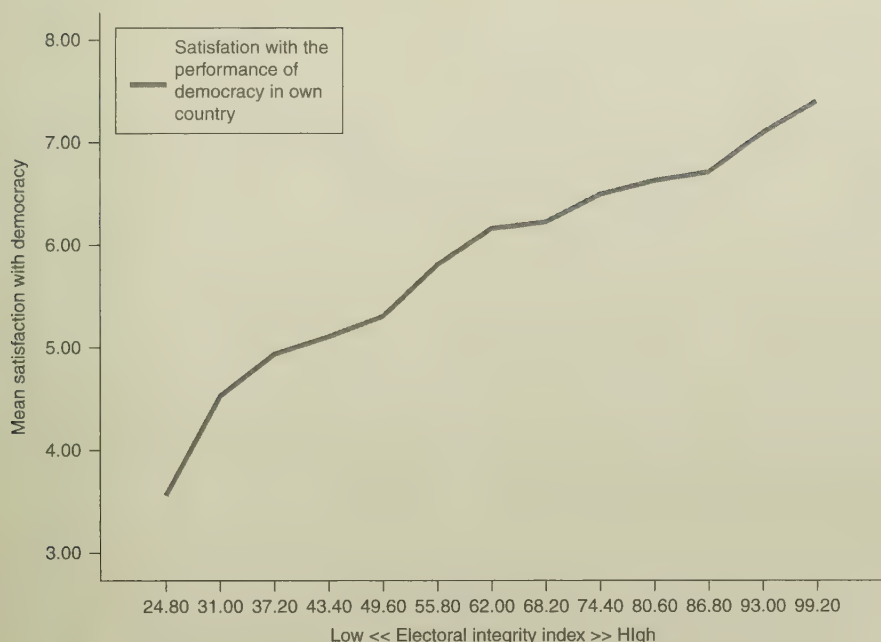


FIGURE 6.2. Electoral integrity increases satisfaction with the performance of democracy.

Note: “And how democratically is this country being governed today? Again using a scale from 1 to 10, where 1 means that it is ‘not at all democratic’ and 10 means that it is ‘completely democratic,’ what position would you choose?”

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

Nevertheless, although strikingly similar, the descriptive bivariate patterns we have examined could potentially prove spurious without controlling for many other factors. For example, strong feelings of national pride and patriotism or support for the winning party could encourage people to express satisfaction with the quality of their elections as well as with the performance of democracy in their own country. Similarly, previous studies commonly relate political attitudes to individual characteristics such as sex, age, and education. Table 6.1 therefore presents a series of hierarchical level models using REML regression to analyze the effects of public perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices on four indicators of legitimacy: confidence in elected institutions (parties, parliaments, and governments), satisfaction with the performance of democracy, respect for human rights, and voluntary legal compliance – controlling for many other related political attitudes and social characteristics that have commonly been found to shape political orientations. Several variables included in the models test the effects of rival hypotheses, including cultural theories (post-material values and social trust), government economic

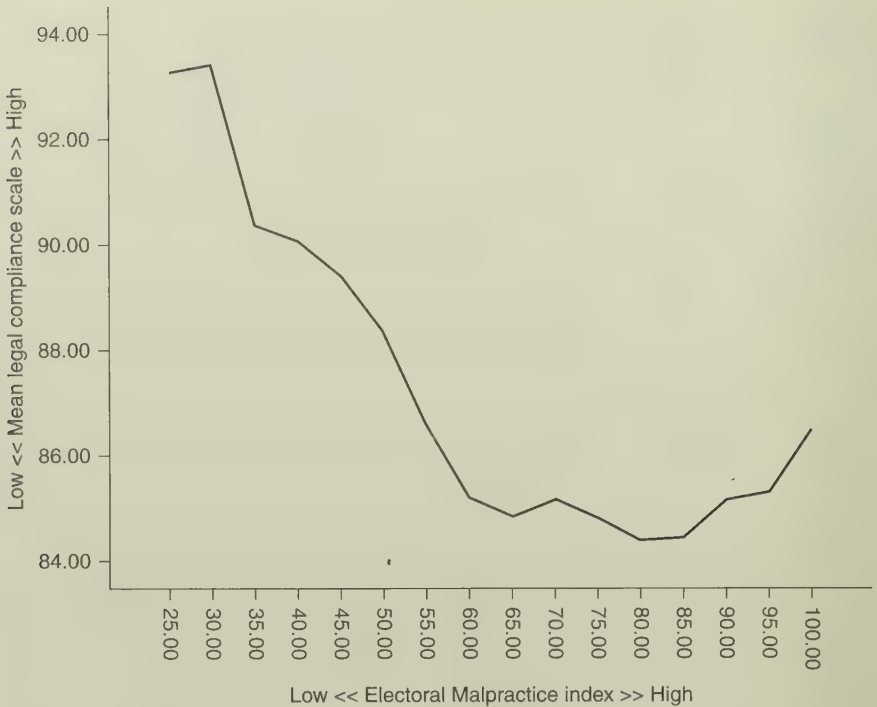


FIGURE 6.3. Electoral malpractices decrease voluntary legal compliance.

Note. “Please tell me for each of the following actions whether you think it can always be justified (scored 1), never be justified (scored 10), or something in between, using this card.”

- Claiming government benefits to which you are not entitled
- Avoiding a fare on public transport
- Stealing property
- Cheating on taxes if you have a chance
- Someone accepting a bribe in the course of their duties

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

performance theories (macro-level economic growth and level of economic development), and political communications (media use).

The results presented in Table 6.1 confirm that perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractice were significantly related, as expected, to all but one of the attitudinal indicators of political legitimacy. Thus, perceptions of electoral integrity were positively related to satisfaction with democracy, respect for human rights, and confidence in electoral institutions (although not to voluntary legal compliance). By contrast, perceptions of electoral malpractice were consistently negatively related to each of the indices of legitimacy. These effects persisted as relatively strong and significant despite the battery of attitudinal

TABLE 6.1. *Electoral Integrity Strengthens Political Legitimacy*

	Satisfaction with Democracy			Respect for Human Rights			Confidence in Elected Institutions			Obey Law		
	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.
PERCEPTIONS OF ELECTION QUALITY												
Perceived electoral integrity	.140	.007	***	.096	.007	***	.153	.007	***	-.005	.008	N/s
Perceived electoral malpractice	-.155	.008	***	-.108	.008	***	-.115	.007	***	-.047	.009	***
ATTITUDINAL CONTROLS												
Voted for winning parties	.063	.006	***	.022	.006	***	.093	.006	***	.009	.007	N/s
National pride	.048	.007	***	.068	.007	***	.068	.007	***	.083	.008	***
Importance of democracy	.171	.006	***	-.001	.006	N/s	-.001	.006	***	.092	.007	***
Confidence in elected institutions	.188	.008	***	.193	.008	***				.047	.009	***
Interest in politics	-.006	.007	N/s	-.030	.006	***	-.139	.006	***	.010	.007	N/s
Life satisfaction	.089	.007	***	.034	.007	***	-.046	.006	***	.009	.008	N/s
Post-material values	-.030	.007	***	-.034	.006	***	-.005	.006	N/s	-.014	.007	N/s
Media use	-.009	.008	N/s	.013	.008	N/s	.058	.007	***	-.058	.009	***
Social trust	-.013	.006	*	.034	.007	***	.140	.006	***	.024	.007	**
MACROECONOMIC PERFORMANCE												
Economic growth	-.012	.068	N/s	.001	.088	N/s	.152	.081	N/s	.079	.099	N/s
Per capita GDP ppp	.061	.098	N/s	-.034	.127	N/s	-.320	.117	**	.104	.142	N/s

(continued)

TABLE 6.1 (*continued*)

	Satisfaction with Democracy			Respect for Human Rights			Confidence in Elected Institutions			Obey Law		
	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.	b	S.E.	Sig.
SOCIAL CONTROLS												
Sex (male)	-.012	.006	N/s	.007	.006	N/s	-.016	.006	**	-.001	.007	N/s
Age (years)	-.007	.007	N/s	-.030	.007	*	-.001	.007	N/s	.094	.008	***
Income scale	.061	.007	***	.059	.007	***	.024	.006	***	-.065	.008	***
Education	-.019	.008	***	-.004	.008	N/s	-.025	.007	***	.056	.009	***
Urbanization	-.007	.008	N/s	-.008	.008	N/s	-.069	.007	***	.014	.009	N/s
Constant	.055			-.003			-.102			-.076		
N. observations	17,836			17,802			17,839			17725		
N. nations	18			18			18			18		
Schwarz's Bayesian Criteria (BIC)	46266			45771			43583			49790		

Note: The REML multilevel regression models monitor satisfaction with the performance of democracy, respect for human rights, confidence in elected institutions, and voluntary compliance with the law as indicators of legitimacy. All independent variables were standardized using means centering (Z-scores). See the Technical Appendix A for the definition and construction of all variables. * = .05, ** = .01, *** = .001.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010-14.

and social controls that are incorporated into the models, including the standard social and demographic controls for sex, age, income, education and urbanization. Moreover, comparison of the standardized beta coefficients in each of the models can be used to compare the relative importance of each of these factors and how these compare with alternative accounts. The analysis demonstrates that in each of the models, electoral integrity and malpractice were consistently stronger predictors of satisfaction with democracy, respect for human rights, and confidence in elected institutions than the effects of sex, age, income, education, or urbanization. The other variables suggested by rival theories failed to behave as expected on a consistent basis; for example, post-material values were negatively related to satisfaction with democracy and respect for human rights, although the effects were weak and they were insignificant for the other two indicators. Social trust was strongly and significantly associated positively with confidence in elected institutions, but it was negatively related to satisfaction with democracy. The measures of economic performance (per capita GDP and growth in per capita GDP) were both insignificant predictors of legitimacy except for the negative relationship with confidence in elected institutions, the contrary direction to the predicted theory. Therefore, overall perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices were consistent, significant, and strong predictors of the four legitimacy indicators, with one single exception that failed to approach significance.

Does it also matter whether citizens supported the winning side in an election, or whether they voted for the candidate or parties that lost? The regression analysis models also confirmed that across all indicators, those who voted for the winning party expressed greater satisfaction with the performance of democracy, respect for human rights, and confidence in elected institutions. To examine this in more detail by country, we can contrast the perceptions of electoral integrity among those who supported the “winners” and “losers,” classified by voting for the governing and opposition parties in the most recent national election prior to the survey. The largest governing party or parties that held ministerial office as part of governing coalitions were categorized as “winners” from a contest. Positive gaps indicate that losers perceive more malpractice than winners. The pattern in Figure 6.4 illustrates how supporters of the losing side were consistently more likely to believe that electoral malpractices had occurred to influence the outcome. Although the size of the winners–losers gap in most countries is often relatively modest, it is nevertheless substantial in several states where there have been widely publicized challenges to electoral integrity, notably Malaysia, Ukraine, and Zimbabwe.

We can also explore the overall pattern in more detail by examining which specific components of electoral integrity and malpractices are most closely linked with feelings of legitimacy. Does the public distinguish further about common problems such as vote buying, ballot stuffing, and media bias, or do they form a blanket opinion about the overall honesty of elections and politicians? As Table 6.2 shows, all aspects of the WVS battery on electoral integrity and malpractices were significantly correlated with system support with a single

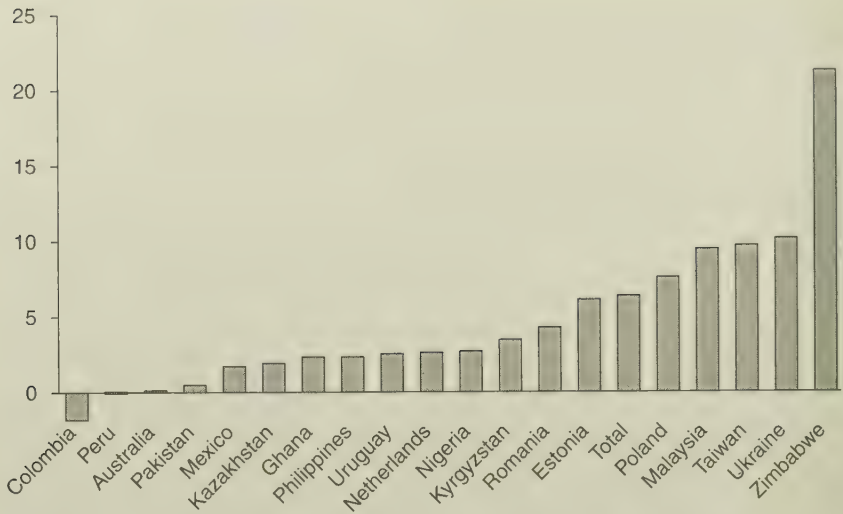


FIGURE 6.4. The winners-losers gap in perceptions of electoral malpractice.

Notes: Perceptions of electoral malpractice are monitored by the standardized 100-point scale constructed from responses to the following battery of items: “In your view, how often do the following things occur in this country’s elections? Opposition candidates are prevented from running; TV news favors the governing party; Voters are bribed; Rich people buy elections; Voters are threatened with violence at the polls.” See Table 3.4 for the analysis of the scale. The “gap” is measured by the difference between the perceptions of “winners” and “losers,” classified by voting supporters of the winning and losing parties in the most recent national election prior to the survey. A positive gap indicates that losers perceive more malpractice than winners.

Source: World Values Survey 2010–13.

exception. The perceived procedural fairness of the vote tabulation process and of electoral authorities were strongly related to institutional confidence and democratic satisfaction. Conversely, vote buying and the corrupting role of rich “fat cats” display the reverse effects. All these aspects can be regarded as central aspects of the fairness and honesty in elections. Other challenges of electoral integrity, such as the role of the media, while statistically significant, were more weakly related to system support. The correlations suggest that no single aspect of electoral integrity or malpractices drive the link with legitimacy, but fairness of the electoral process and the role of money in politics are particularly important components contributing toward feelings of political legitimacy.

Do Failed Elections Cause Dissatisfaction with Democracy?

The evidence considered so far, comparing several different attitudinal measures, therefore provides confirmation of the second proposition (H^2): Public

TABLE 6.2. *Components of Electoral Integrity and System Support*

	Confidence in Parliament	Confidence in Government	Satisfaction with Democracy	Obey Law
INTEGRITY				
Votes are counted fairly	.180**	.186**	.253**	.048**
Election officials are fair	.172**	.180**	.217**	.048**
Voters are offered a genuine choice in the elections	.107**	.112**	.156**	.030**
Journalists provide fair coverage of elections	.113**	.118**	.134**	-.001
MALPRACTICES				
Rich people buy elections	-.182**	-.172**	-.184**	-.103**
TV news favors the governing party	-.099**	-.106**	-.179**	-.065**
Voters are bribed	-.152**	-.155**	-.172**	-.116**
Opposition candidates are prevented from running	-.096**	-.076**	-.132**	-.134**
Voters are threatened with violence at the polls	-.060**	-.080**	-.092**	-.146**

Notes: Q: “How often in a country’s elections...” ** All correlations are significant at the .000 level.

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices are strongly and consistently associated with feelings of political legitimacy. The observations remain robust across indicators and countries, even with a battery of attitudinal and social controls.

But can we go further to make the stronger claim that electoral malpractices *weakened* feelings of legitimacy? One important limitation in attempting to determine the direction of any causal relationship is that the new battery of items measuring perceptions of electoral integrity is only currently available for a single point of time: from the sixth wave of the WVS. Therefore, one plausible interpretation suggested in the book’s core model and consistent with commonsense assumptions, is that, like floorboards infected by termites and

wet rot, direct and mediated information about rigged and stolen elections serves to undermine broader faith in electoral institutions and the foundation of citizen's confidence in democratic processes. Yet skeptics could always point out that, despite the robust correlation, it is, in fact, general cynicism about regime legitimacy that shapes perceptions about the integrity of any particular electoral contest. If regimes consistently suppress opposition parties, independent media, and dissident movements – as is repeatedly reported by human rights monitors in Kazakhstan, Zimbabwe, and Azerbaijan – then it would not be surprising if citizens in these countries became more cynical about the honesty and fairness of the electoral authorities and voting process. In the United States, for example, pre-election surveys found that registered voters with less trust in the federal government were more fearful about voting irregularities occurring during the 2008 contest.³⁴

To help determine the direction of causality in this complex relationship, one strategy – as mentioned earlier – is to examine the dynamics of political legitimacy in quasi-experimental “before-and-after” cases where major changes in electoral integrity occur over successive pairs of contests. Cases can be selected that have experienced a positive improvement through liberalizing reforms that strengthened party competition, the independence of the Election Management Bodies (EMB), or freedom of the campaign media, such as founding elections held in regime transitions from autocracy, in newly autonomous states, and in the peace-building process. By piecing together several sources of public opinion polls, analysts could attempt to document and compare trends in citizens' feelings of legitimacy over time, such as contests held in Tunisia before and after the fall of President Ben Ali. Two main limitations hinder this strategy, however. One practical obstacle is that reliable survey data is commonly unavailable prior to regime transitions and democratization. Repressive regimes restrict official permission to conduct independent social surveys monitoring public attitudes toward sensitive political issues. In states lacking freedom of expression, ordinary people may well be reluctant to voice critical opinions about the regime. Similarly, there were no prior elections for comparison in cases such as post-Gaddafi Libya, post-Taliban Afghanistan, or in newborn Timor-Leste and Southern Sudan. A more fundamental problem is that major regime transitions from autocracy catalyze multiple social, economic, and political changes so that it remains difficult to use before-and-after comparisons to disentangle and isolate the impact of gains in electoral integrity from a host of other developments; satisfaction with democracy and improvements in electoral integrity are both likely to improve in the initial optimism associated with founding contests.

As an alternative approach, cases can also be selected in stable democratic regimes where major problems about electoral integrity that had received little previous attention suddenly came to public attention during a particular contest, such as through news reporting about irregularities in the postal ballots in the UK, headlines revealing campaign-funding scandals in Spain, or

problems over voter registration, voter fraud and the vote count in Florida. In such cases, where before-and-after polls monitor public opinion consistently over two or more successive elections, we have an opportunity to see whether ordinary people respond to news coverage of these events by becoming more critical in their perceptions of electoral integrity and, in turn, if this damages confidence in elected institutions at a more diffuse level. In the United States, the problems of the Bush v. Gore 2000 presidential election could be suggested as a suitable case for analysis, where a range of issues in a razor-tight contest suddenly brought problems of electoral administration to the forefront of public attention.³⁵ Nevertheless, even though the Florida butterfly ballot and subsequent controversies damaged trust in the electoral process – especially among Democratic losers – many other factors that occurred fairly soon afterward, notably the events of 9/11 and a “rally-around-the-flag” effect, also exerted a tremendous impact on public confidence in government. Hence, trends in U.S. trust in government, using the standard composite indicator included in the American National Election Study (ANES) in every campaign from 1948–2008, shows political trust increasing slightly from the 1998 to the 2000 election, and then soaring higher from 2000–02 before subsiding in the next election to roughly the level it was in 2000. Moreover, the ANES does not directly monitor perceptions of electoral integrity or satisfaction with democracy. Other surveys have monitored voter confidence in the U.S. electoral process after every federal contest, notably those conducted by the U.S. Election Assistance Commission and the Pew Center for People and the Press – but both these series only started in 2004.³⁶ Thus, it remains difficult to use trend analysis with survey data to establish any plausible evidence about the long-term impact of the events in the 2000 election on U.S. perceptions of the integrity of the voting procedure, whether this caused ordinary people to doubt whether their votes are counted accurately and fairly, and whether this, in turn, reduced U.S. confidence in elected institutions and satisfaction with democracy.

Conclusions and Implications

The initial evidence compared in this research has amassed considerable empirical support for the agenda-setting model, although further questions still remain. Previous research has offered many theories about legitimacy, suggesting that confidence in political institutions and satisfaction with the performance of democracy arise from deep-rooted changes in the civic culture, from more specific judgments of the regime’s “output” performance in managing the delivery of basic goods and services, and from negative political communications. Although not seeking to undermine these arguments, the claims made in this book suggest that one other factor – and indeed a neglected explanation in the previous research literature – concerns the public’s perception about the quality of their elections.

To recapitulate the key findings in this chapter, the analysis supports several core claims in the agenda-setting theory. In particular, public perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices are observed to be related to several proxy attitudinal indicators of political legitimacy, monitored by satisfaction with the performance of democracy, satisfaction with respect for human rights, confidence in elected institutions, and willingness to obey the law. The findings remain significant and consistent even after controlling for many other political attitudes and social factors, such as education and age, which are often found to be closely linked with feelings of legitimacy. Given the evidence presented here, it is not possible to establish that changes in electoral integrity alter feelings of legitimacy, in particular that flawed elections lead toward a loss of institutional confidence. Over successive elections, the complex web of attitudes between perceptions of integrity and feelings of legitimacy are probably interactive. Nevertheless, in understanding the phenomenon of critical citizens, it seems that the quality of elections is a previously largely overlooked “missing link,” as the public assessments of democratic performance are closely associated with their experience of the way that elections work – or fail to do so. The observations remain robust across indicators and the diverse countries under comparison and they also hold up well compared with rival factors that are analyzed for comparison in the models, including post-material cultural values, economic performance, and media attention.

We should still remain cautious before making the stronger claim that failed elections *cause* dissatisfaction with democracy. One important difficulty to be acknowledged in determining the direction of any causal relationship at the current state of research is that the cross-national survey evidence monitoring multidimensional perceptions of electoral integrity is only currently available at a single point in time. Therefore, although it seems likely that rigged elections undermine faith in democratic processes and procedures, it remains possible that there is a reverse flow in complex patterns of reciprocal causation. Cynicism about the performance of democracy in general is also likely to encourage more critical attitudes toward the quality of elections. In future research, detailed case studies of public opinion in countries experiencing radical processes of electoral and regime change, social psychological experimental studies, and time-series survey analysis, are useful techniques that could help to unravel these relationships.

Are there behavioral consequences as well? It seems plausible to assume that perceptions of electoral flaws, fraud, or manipulation will trigger popular protest while, by contrast, belief in the fairness of elections should encourage voter turnout. Chapter 7 goes on to analyze the behavioral impacts, including distinguishing the behavior of election “winners” and “losers,” which can well be expected to differ.³⁷

For Political Behavior

Legitimacy includes both attitudinal and behavioral components. The third proposition in the core theory claims that *perceptions* of election integrity will affect political *participation*, with lack of confidence depressing voter turnout and also simultaneously strengthening the propensity for ordinary people to engage in peaceful demonstrations and violent protests. The model depicted earlier in Figure 1.1 also suggests an indirect effect of perceptions on behavior, which is mediated by feelings of political legitimacy. The reasoning is straightforward. Where an election is widely regarded as rigged, corrupt, or unfair, this is likely to depress conventional forms of electoral participation, especially voting turnout among supporters of the losing side.¹ Why spend time following the campaign, becoming informed about party choices, discussing politics, helping parties and candidates, attending rallies, and then trudging to the polls (especially if facing threats of political violence) if the exercise is ultimately futile for dislodging incumbents? After all, confidence that the political system is responsive to citizens' concerns (otherwise known as "external political efficacy") has long been established as strongly associated with political participation.² The assumption of a link rests on classical Downsian theories of rational voters calculating the utility benefits of going to the polls by the outcome for party choice.³ In this model, citizens estimate the costs and benefits of voting, and the probability of their vote making a difference to the outcome. The latter is normally assumed to be calculated based on the closeness of the race; in marginal seats, where even a small swing of the vote can determine the winner, the incentive to vote is higher. But electoral integrity can also be regarded as part of the calculation. In elections where contests are procedurally fair, citizens can be confident that their ballots will count and that candidates and parties compete on a level playing field. When it is widely believed that systematic fraud or abuse depresses competition, however, the outcome may be regarded as a foregone conclusion. Any effects that arise can also be expected to differ

for electoral winners and losers, as established in Chapter 6 for feelings of legitimacy.⁴

Several empirical studies, mostly based on analysis of survey data, support the idea that general mistrust in electoral processes reduces turnout. For example, McCann and Dominguez examined a series of public opinion polls in Mexico in the mid-1980s–mid-1990s, during the time of the predominance of the Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) and prior to more competitive and cleaner contests. They found that those citizens expecting electoral fraud were more likely to stay home on election day, and this group was also more likely to support the opposition.⁵ In the United States, Alvarez, Hall, and Llewellyn found that Americans who were more confident about the integrity of electoral procedures were more likely to cast a ballot, with malpractices having particularly strong impacts by depressing African-American turnout.⁶ In sub-Saharan Africa, as well, perceptions of the quality of elections are associated with voter turnout in a number of states.⁷ The broadest previous comparison, Sarah Birch's study that utilized survey data in thirty-one countries from Module I of the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (1996–2002), reported that perceptions of electoral fairness help to account for cross-national patterns of voter turnout.⁸ Moreover, aggregate data can also illuminate this issue; Simpson compared patterns of turnout in states before and after Mexican elections were cleaned up in the early 1990s, reporting that malpractices by the PRI had depressed real levels of turnout prior to the reforms.⁹ Nevertheless, even although there is clear logic suggesting that rational voter participation should be linked to perceptions of integrity, the macro- and micro-level evidence supporting this claim from previous research remains patchy and inconclusive. Any effects detected in specific cases such as in Mexico or Russia may be limited and contextual compared with more robust factors that have been repeatedly observed to effect turnout in multiple studies, such as the role of political institutions and population size at macro-level, or the effects of age, cohort, and educations at micro-level.¹⁰ Moreover, the impact of electoral integrity may not be quite so straightforward, for several reasons.

Firstly, many previous studies have used a single summary measure of perceptions of electoral fairness or honesty. Yet different types of malpractices occurring at different stages in the electoral cycle may well have contrary effects. For example, widespread threats of violence by state security forces against opposition supporters at polling places may plausibly depress the willingness of citizens to risk casting a ballot. Coercion may also be used to force government supporters to go to the polls. By contrast, the use of patronage and inducements by parties and candidates, such as small gifts of cash or food, may induce voting; Carreras and Irepoglu found that vote buying provides material incentives that encourage electoral participation in Latin America.¹¹ Although less common, material incentives may also be provided to encourage opposition supporters to stay home on polling day.¹² Thus, summary measures of perceptions of electoral fairness may underestimate the effects of integrity and

malpractices since cross-cutting pressures from several simultaneous electoral flaws may cancel each other out. Even when considering the misuse of money in politics, the results may also differ by the particular type of sleaze and misconduct that is prevalent. Other scholars have examined the broader effects of societal-level general corruption, using the Political Risk Services' International Country Risk Guide's (ICRG) measure of acts such as the prevalence of bribery, patronage, nepotism, job reservations, and secret party funding.¹³ The study reported that in democratic states, general corruption decreased turnout. This sounds plausible, although in fact, the comparison excluded one-party and electoral autocracies where bribery and corruption may well be most endemic in society and where repressive pressures to mobilize the vote may be widespread. In addition, it is possible that the specific stage of the electoral cycle when problems occur may prove important; malpractices conducted before the official campaign even starts, such as imprisoning dissidents under trumped-up charges, judicial bans on ballot access for certain minor parties, or gerrymandering district boundaries in committee rooms, may be less apparent to citizens than more explicit and blatant acts surrounding polling day and the count, such as faulty voting machines or polling stations closing early. Thus, not all dimensions of electoral integrity may matter equally for voter turnout. This idea can be tested by a series of models analyzing the overall effects of perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices, then breaking down perceived problems into their component parts and timing during the electoral cycle, including examining the separate effects of the fairness of electoral officials, vote bribery, and violence at the polls.

Secondly, the extensive research literature has found that multiple complex factors affect voter turnout, not simply calculations of electoral integrity and fraud.¹⁴ Thus well-specified and comprehensive models seeking to identify the effects of malpractices in different societies need to control for a complex range of micro-level characteristics and macro-level conditions. Given the lack of agreement in the research literature about the most important factors driving turnout, and the long "shopping list" of potential explanatory candidates, models may be under-specified. Rational models of voter turnout, and hence the calculation that it is futile to cast a ballot in a stolen or rigged contest, are confronted by many other alternative accounts. Traditional socialization theories regard voting participation as habitual behavior learned through cultural norms and conformity to social sanctions. From this perspective, citizens go to the polls largely because they learned to do so from emulating their family, friends, and neighbors during their formative political years as citizens, as well as from civic cues provided by formal institutions such as schools and religious organizations, with strong evidence of generational effects.¹⁵ Habitual forms of turnout learned in early adulthood by each successive generation are unlikely to be affected by sudden irregularities, or indeed dramatic improvements in integrity, occurring in any specific contest. Building on this tradition, a long series of studies has emphasized the role of resources for participation,

including skills, money, and time. Those with jobs, a high income, and a high socioeconomic status are more likely to have a wider range of resources and are, thus, more likely to vote. Education, in particular, provides cognitive skills and knowledge. Resources are also commonly related to the social and demographic characteristics of age, income, sex, race, ethnicity, and socioeconomic status.¹⁶ Social psychological models emphasize a range of attitudinal characteristics associated with political participation, including political interest, knowledge, internal and external efficacy, and partisan identification. Alternative mobilization theories emphasize the role of party activists, interest groups, and social movements, pulling ordinary people into political activism irrespective of any calculated benefits about the outcome.¹⁷ Similarly, accounts of social capital emphasize that close engagement and dense ties in community networks such as civic, religious, party, or trade union organizations encourage citizens to participate at the polls. Lastly, beyond the micro-level, comparative studies have focused on the institutional structures that are thought to affect aggregate levels of voting turnout, exemplified by the role of proportional representation electoral systems, the effective number of parties, electoral registration and voting facilities, and the use of compulsory voting.¹⁸ Theories of engagement in protest activism also traditionally emphasize the role of many socioeconomic characteristics, such as age, education, and social class, as well as long-term processes of value change, which are thought to be strengthening a shift in post-industrial societies from conventional civic engagement toward more direct forms of political participation.¹⁹ Given the potential number of factors, models that seek to be comprehensive can quickly become unwieldy.

Finally, even where a significant linkage can be observed, important questions of interpretation remain. This is a common issue with many attitudinal factors such as political interest and efficacy that are closely related to voting choice and the propensity to participate. Although it is conventional to assume that the direction of causality flows primarily from attitudes (citizens' perceptions of integrity) to behavior (the propensity to vote), nevertheless with cross-sectional survey data, problems of endogeneity remain. It is also possible that those who vote (for instrumental or affective reasons) may rationalize their actions by expressing greater trust and confidence in the electoral process. Similarly, those who cannot be bothered to participate may justify staying home by blaming the fairness of the electoral process. Thus, it is important to establish whether there is any evidence of linkages beyond cross-sectional analysis of individual attitudes and behavior; for example, if electoral malpractices are reformed and abuses cleaned up over successive contests in a particular country, does panel data suggest that this serves to strengthen subsequent levels of turnout?²⁰

Electoral integrity is also suspected of having an impact well beyond conventional forms of political participation and voting. In particular, feeling that the election outcome was fraudulent, rigged, or stolen can also be expected to encourage direct actions by antigovernment forces, notably opposition

boycotts, political strikes, and peaceful or violent mass demonstrations protesting against the process and outcome. This process is commonly observed; for example, large-scale Russian protests against Putin's return to the Kremlin were mobilized following the 2011 State Duma and 2012 presidential contests, despite the crackdown by security forces and new laws restricting demonstrations.²¹ Similar movements were evident in the so-called "colored revolutions" in Eastern Europe, where mass mobilization reportedly led to the reversal of the results of several fraudulent elections.²² Tucker argues that a blatantly stolen or rigged presidential or parliamentary contest provides a critical opportunity for mass protest and revolutionary action because it can serve as a single rallying point for opposition forces seeking to overthrow a regime, overcoming collective action problems.²³ Opposition parties and dissident movements may be deeply divided in their ideas and beliefs, as well as being drawn from dissimilar communities, regions, and ethnic identities, but forces can coalesce in mass street protests focused against a rigged election by the incumbent party. More recently, widespread mass demonstrations were also triggered in Mexico City by claims of vote buying and fraud following the victory of PRI candidate Enrique Peña Nieto in the 2012 presidential contest. Similarly, mass protests also erupted in Tahrir Square following the constitutional coup d'état suspending the newly elected parliament in Egypt. Even if protests are triggered by particular accusations of electoral flaws, however, this does not necessarily mean that these were the underlying or fundamental causes of the actions. Hence, cultural theories suggest that the general propensity to engage in protest activism is driven by long-term processes of value change, mainly affecting the younger generations living in well-educated and affluent post-industrial societies.²⁴ We need to determine how far any widespread public propensity to engage in protest activism is caused by perceptions of the unfairness of electoral procedures, *per se*, and how far the real problem lies in broader sources of disaffection with the regime's leaders and performance. Accordingly, the direct and indirect effects of perceptions of electoral integrity on mass political participation can be examined.

The Impact on Political Participation (H³ and H⁴)

In Figure 1.1, confidence in the quality of elections is expected to have a direct effect by increasing voting participation (H³), while perceptions that elections are flawed are simultaneously predicted to encourage protest activism (H⁴). Indirect effects are also predicted, mediated by feelings of political legitimacy (H⁵ and H⁶).

To start to examine the evidence, Figures 7.1 and 7.2 illustrate the bivariate relationships. The World Values Survey monitors the reported propensity to vote at both local and national levels. These items can be combined to form an ordinal likelihood to vote scale. As the first graph shows, at both levels, the propensity to cast a ballot rises steadily by perceptions of electoral integrity;

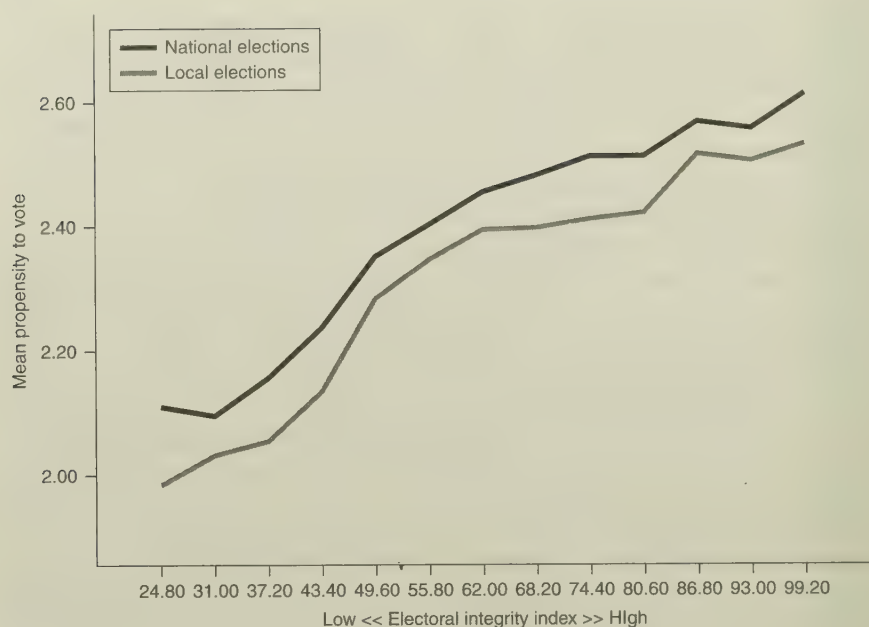


FIGURE 7.1. Electoral integrity strengthens voting participation.

Note: "When elections take place, do you vote always, usually or never? Please tell me separately for each of the following levels ... local level, national level."

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

the more the people feel that a contest is likely to be fair, the more willing they are to turnout. Similarly, we can examine the propensity to protest through three standard items in the World Values Survey: the willingness to attend a peaceful demonstration, to participate in a boycott, and to join a political strike. Figure 7.2 shows that the propensity to protest action rises, as expected, with the perception of electoral malpractices. Yet many potential factors could be driving this observed pattern, such as age or education, so multivariate controls are needed.

Table 7.1 presents the results of the multilevel models predicting voting and protest participation, with multiple controls. This includes the micro-level attitudinal, macroeconomic and social controls already employed when analyzing feelings of political legitimacy, as discussed in Chapter 6. In terms of voting participation, the results of the model demonstrates that feelings of electoral integrity were significantly related to turnout; as expected, those with greater faith in the honesty and fairness of the voting process proved more willing to cast a ballot.²⁵ The strength of the effect (shown in the betas with standardized variables) outweighed all the other control variables except for political interest and age. This is as predicted by the logic of rational choice accounts: Belief that the system is fair is more likely to encourage citizens to think it worthwhile to

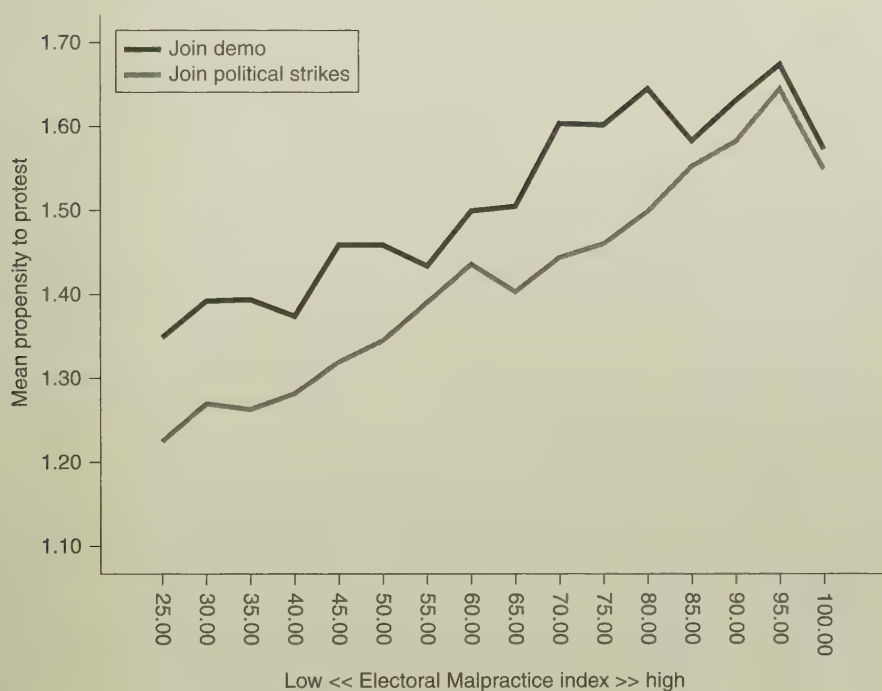


FIGURE 7.2. Electoral malpractices strengthen protest activism.

Note: “Now I’d like you to look at this card. I’m going to read out some forms of political action that people can take, and I’d like you to tell me, for each one, whether you have done any of these things, whether you might do it, or would never under any circumstances do it. Attending peaceful demonstrations, Joining political strikes.”

Source: World Values Survey 2010–14.

take part at the polls. Alternatively, perceptions of electoral malpractice were also negatively related to turnout, but the coefficients were not statistically significant. Thus, although the procedural fairness of several dimensions of elections exerted a positive impact on the calculus to vote, it appears that general problems of flawed contests do not depress citizen engagement. Electoral “winners” and “losers” have also been found to react very differently to the outcome of any contest, viewing the results through a partisan prism. In comparative European studies, losers have been proved far less satisfied with the way that democracy works, especially in newer democracies.²⁶ In Russia, as well, trust in elections was observed to vary among winners and losers.²⁷ The results confirm that supporters of the winning party were indeed more likely to participate via the ballot box. Among factors compared in the model, some of the strongest predictors of the propensity to vote include age (with the younger citizens less likely to participate, a well-established observation), media use, and education, as well as attitudes of national pride, democratic values,

TABLE 7.1. *Electoral Integrity Strengthens Voting Participation*

	Voting Participation		
	b	S.E.	Sig.
PERCEPTIONS OF ELECTION QUALITY			
Perceived electoral integrity	.097	.010	***
Perceived electoral malpractice	-.013	.011	N/s
ATTITUDINAL CONTROLS			
Voted for winning parties	.070	.009	***
National pride	.106	.010	***
Importance of democracy	.077	.009	***
Confidence in elected institutions	.045	.010	***
Satisfaction with democracy	.010	.009	N/s
Interest in politics	.168	.009	***
Life satisfaction	-.009	.009	N/s
Post-material values	.000	.009	N/s
Media use	.046	.011	***
Social trust	.016	.009	N/s
ECONOMIC CONTEXTS			
Economic growth	-.043	.068	N/s
Level of economic development	.148	.098	N/s
SOCIAL CONTROLS			
Sex (male)	-.011	.008	N/s
Age (years)	.345	.010	***
Income scale	-.020	.009	*
Education	.050	.010	***
Urbanization	-.082	.011	***
Constant	5.04		
N. observations	17,653		
N. nations	18		
Schwarz's Bayesian Criteria (BIC)	55734		

Note: The REML multilevel regression models monitor propensity to vote. All independent variables were standardized using means centering (Z-scores). See the Technical Appendix A for the definition and construction of all variables. * = .05, ** = .01, *** = .001.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010–14.

and political interest, all of which can be expected to mobilize and motivate civic engagement. In addition, as predicted, turnout was also directly affected by confidence in elected institutions including parties, legislatures, and governments, one of the key indicators of feelings of political legitimacy, although not by the more diffuse level of democratic satisfaction.

Turning to political protest, the result of the multivariate models in Table 7.2 also confirm, as expected, that perceptions of electoral integrity slightly

dampened the propensity to engage in direct action, whereas perceptions of malpractices strengthened protest activism. Indeed, disaffection with the procedural fairness of elections had a stronger direct effect on protest than many other attitudes, such as dissatisfaction with democracy or confidence in elected institutions, as well as many of the standard demographic variables associated with political participation, such as age and income. Nevertheless, the effects of reactions to fraudulent or flawed contests should not be exaggerated. Among the other factors compared in the model, a far stronger predictor of protest activism (measured by the size of the standardized beta coefficients) concerned the state's economic performance, with protests mobilized by poor records of annual growth. As exemplified by the financial crisis in Greece, Spain, and Portugal, economic discontent is a powerful motivation for engaging in mass demonstrations. The effects of economic conditions on the general propensity to direct protest activism strongly outweighed those of electoral integrity and malpractice. Moreover, as long argued by theories of cultural change, protests are also most common in postindustrialized societies characterized by high per capita income and high levels of literacy and education, and among those who expressed post-material values, the well-educated, and the younger generation, who are usually more likely to engage in demonstrations than their parents and grandparents.²⁸ In addition, protest activism was also strengthened by greater use of the media and especially by political interest, both of which can be expected to motivate citizens.

So far we have examined the relationship between general perceptions of electoral integrity and malpractices on individual-level forms of participation. But as noted earlier, the effects of different types of problems with the quality of elections could cut either way; for example, practices of vote buying by parties and candidates encourages casting a ballot whereas coercion and threats directed against opposition supporters encourage citizens to stay home. Thus, we need to break down the pattern by examining the specific types of problems monitored in the survey. Table 7.3 shows that voter turnout was strengthened most strongly by perceptions that the vote-count process was fair, electoral officials behaved fairly, and voters were offered a genuine choice. By contrast, all the types of malpractices depressed voting turnout by a fairly modest amount, but the perception of violent threats at the polls had the strongest effect in deterring turnout. The correlations linking types of electoral problems with the general propensity to engage in protest activism proved relatively weak, not surprisingly since peaceful demonstrations and boycotts are mobilized around multiple political and socioeconomic issues – such as protests against the government's economic record or industrial disputes about job losses – as much as targeted at electoral malpractices. We have already observed that macro-economic conditions were strong predictors of protest activism. Nevertheless, although the effects were very modest, people were slightly more engaged in protest actions where opposition candidates were prevented from running or voters were threatened with violence at the polls.

TABLE 7.2. *Electoral Malpractices Strengthen Protest Activism*

	Protest Activism		
	b	S.E.	Sig.
PERCEPTIONS OF ELECTION QUALITY			
Perceived electoral integrity	-.030	.007	***
Perceived electoral malpractice	.086	.008	***
ATTITUDINAL CONTROLS			
Voted for winning parties	.034	.010	***
National pride	-.083	.011	***
Importance of democracy	.072	.010	***
Confidence in elected institutions	-.001	.012	N/s
Satisfaction with democracy	-.027	.011	*
Interest in politics	.271	.010	***
Life satisfaction	-.049	.011	***
Post-material values	.118	.010	***
Media use	.109	.013	***
Social trust	.024	.007	*
ECONOMIC CONTEXTS			
Economic growth	-.315	.148	*
Level of economic development	.465	.214	*
SOCIAL CONTROLS			
Sex (male)	.101	.010	***
Age (years)	-.048	.011	***
Income scale	.012	.011	N/s
Education	.199	.013	***
Urbanization	.003	.013	N/s
Constant	4.27		
N. observations	17,660		
N. nations	18		
Schwarz's Bayesian Criteria (BIC)	61178		

Note: The REML multilevel regression models monitor propensity to vote and to protest. All independent variables were standardized using means centering (Z-scores). See the Technical Appendix A for the definition and construction of all variables. *=.05, **=.01, ***=.001.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010-14.

Conclusions and Discussion

Headlines emphasize numerous cases where the opposition's cries of fraud following the announcement of election results have triggered outbreaks of mass street demonstrations, sometimes peaceful, but sometimes violent, such as on the streets of Mexico City, Moscow, Tbilisi, or Phnom Penh. As shown

TABLE 7.3. *Components of Electoral Integrity and Political Activism*

	Voter Turnout	Protest Activism
INTEGRITY		
Votes are counted fairly	.143**	.056**
Election officials are fair	.109**	.054**
Voters are offered a genuine choice in the elections	.120**	.005
Journalists provide fair coverage of elections	.054**	-.017**
MALPRACTICES		
Rich people buy elections	-.035**	.007
TV news favors the governing party	-.014**	.022**
Voters are bribed	-.056**	-.003
Opposition candidates are prevented from running	-.069**	-.037**
Voters are threatened with violence at the polls	-.089**	-.007**

Notes: Q: “How often in a country’s elections...” ** All correlations are significant at the .000 level.

Source: World Values Survey sixth wave 2010–14.

in Chapter 4, according to NELDA’s estimates, almost one-fifth of all elections held during the last decade saw riots or protests after the contest. In many long-established democracies, even without any peaceful electoral demonstrations, there is still widespread concern that voting participation has been falling in recent decades. Popular perceptions of electoral flaws or irregularities are thought likely to exacerbate this problem.²⁹ In the United States, for example, new legal regulations passed by many states require the presentation of photo identification or other official documents to register to vote or to cast a ballot in a polling place.³⁰ These measures have been challenged in the courts as likely to depress voting participation, especially among minority groups and the elderly population who are most likely to lack official documents such as birth certificates and drivers’ licenses. Even routine problems of poor electoral management – typified by a lack of information about where and when to vote, long lines at polling stations, broken electronic voting machines, or clerical irregularities in the electoral register – are expected to deter some citizens from casting a ballot on polling day and thereby damage civic engagement that is essential for democracy. By increasing the costs of voting (the costs and effort required to cast a ballot), while simultaneously weakening the expected benefits (by reducing electoral competition), many types of electoral malpractices are expected to influence the rational calculus of voting. Some may strengthen the incentive to participate, such as “treating” and vote buying. But many are expected to weaken public participation, especially coercive acts.

The analysis presented in this chapter confirms that perceptions of electoral integrity have a direct effect by strengthening voter turnout, as well as

indirectly increasing confidence in elected institutions. Conversely, perceived electoral malpractices increase the propensity to protest activism – although how far this serves as a catalyst for collective action, or a fundamental driver fueling deeper discontents, remains to be determined. These findings persist as significant after controlling for many attitudinal, socioeconomic resources, and macroeconomic conditions that alternative theories suggest are usually important predictors of political participation. But under what circumstances do peaceful protests protesting stolen or fraudulent elections suddenly become violent? It is to this question that we now turn.

For Conflict and Security

One of the most remarkable developments during our lifetimes has been the global diffusion of competitive elections. As noted in Chapter 4, by the end of World War II, fifty nations had multiparty contests for the lower house of parliament; today, elections are almost universal worldwide; only a few states, mainly Gulf state monarchies, have appointed assemblies. Elections are organized in risky and difficult environments, including as a standard part of peace-building operations and negotiated settlements in deeply divided societies wracked by decades of conflict and among poor and illiterate populations.¹ In this context, electoral processes are designed to determine initial control of state institutions and to strengthen the popular legitimacy of the new authorities. During the 1990s, the United Nations organized or observed landmark elections and popular consultations in Timor-Leste, South Africa, Mozambique, El Salvador, and Cambodia. More recently, the UN has provided crucial technical and logistical assistance in breakthrough elections as part of the peace-building process in many countries, including Afghanistan, Burundi, the Democratic Republic of the Congo (DRC), Iraq, Nepal, Sierra Leone, and Sudan. Following the collapse of authoritarian regimes, contests were organized in post-Ben Ali Tunisia (2011) and post-Gaddafi Libya (2012).

Under these challenging conditions, perhaps not surprisingly, many contests start with hopes, but end with a flurry of court disputes, a flood of street protests, and outbreaks of conflict. In 2013 alone, opposition forces claimed fraud and challenged the legitimacy of the outcome following contests in Malaysia, Venezuela, Mozambique, Cameroon, Uganda, Zambia, Cambodia, and Pakistan. In many cases, popular protests gradually faded away. In others, discontent triggered bloodshed. Conflict is not an isolated occurrence; during the last decade, NELDA estimates suggest that almost one-fifth of all elections were afflicted by electoral violence involving at least one civilian fatality.² The number of cases has risen sharply; during the last two decades, deadly violence

occurred in approximately 294 national elections, or roughly one contest per month. The extent of conflict can be measured in different ways and this indicator provides a fairly conservative estimate since the count excludes problems of violent harassment, intimidation, and threats that do not end with civilian death. Conflict that occurs at any stage of the electoral cycle signals perhaps the most obvious breakdown of legitimate contests, raising widespread concern among the international community and local stakeholders.

Strauss and Taylor provide one of the most systematic datasets estimating electoral violence in sub-Saharan Africa and their figures suggest that incumbents were the primary perpetrators in three-quarters of all cases.³ Violence may be triggered by agents of the governing party using techniques of state repression to violate human rights, or security forces simply failing to control local gangs, as reported by incidents of pre-election intimidation and post-election reprisals in rural communities by ZANU-PDF supporters in the 2008 Zimbabwean presidential elections, which also reported incidents of rape, torture, and forced disappearance.⁴ Governments who control the army or police also have primary responsibility to end any ethnic riots that break out through deploying security forces. Nevertheless, problems may also arise from losing candidates and local supporters mobilizing violence, intercommunal conflict, and riots – a problem plaguing a long series of contests in India and Bangladesh for many decades.⁵ Steve Wilkinson argues that certain electoral incentives determine whether Indian politicians either incite, or seek to dampen, Hindu-Muslim ethnic riots. Violence can be encouraged by local leaders in order to heighten the salience of ethnic identities and thus mobilize popular electoral support. Alternatively, tit-for-tat coercion may be organized by rival sides of an electoral contest, as among communal leaders in Kenya in 2007.⁶ As discussed in Chapter 9, popular protests contributed toward annulling the results in at least two-dozen cases, including in Ukraine (2004), Thailand (2006), and Cameroon (2007), catalyzing a fresh round of contests that eventually defeated incumbents.⁷ Aside from the immediate casualties of electoral violence, this phenomenon can also depress turnout (as demonstrated in Chapter 7), as well as potentially deterring candidates from running for office, acerbating social divisions, delegitimizing the process and outcome, delaying an election, or even preventing it from taking place at all.⁸

The complex challenges of post-election violence can be illustrated by the case of Kenya, a country with an emerging economy that once appeared to be steadily on the path toward democratization and development, leading the region, but which was suddenly derailed by social instability, riots, and deadly conflict following the 2007 elections.⁹ Commonwealth observers reported that the electoral commission's conduct largely met international standards throughout the campaign and polling day. After the polls closed, however, flaws in the vote tally coupled with the seventy-two-hour delay in announcing the final results caused suspicion and mistrust.¹⁰ The commission eventually declared President Mwai Kibaki, leader of the Party of National Unity, as the

winner, but the opposition leader, Raila Odinga, refused to accept the result, accusing the incumbent party of vote rigging. The dispute triggered months of urban riots and intercommunal conflict; the UN High Commissioner for Human Rights estimated that after this contest, more than 1,200 were killed and thousands injured (including cases of sexual violence) and about 42,000 houses and many businesses were looted or destroyed, with more than 300,000 people displaced, costing the country more than 1 billion dollars and deterring potential investors.¹¹ Prominent supporters of the two main presidential hopefuls, including former ministers, a senior civil servant, a media executive, and a police chief, face trial in the International Criminal Court in The Hague for alleged crimes against humanity, with charges of planning violence even before the election. The conflict was only settled eventually by a brokered power-sharing deal among the two main protagonists, but the communal violence undermined public confidence in the electoral process and in the coalition government. In the subsequent 2013 Kenyan presidential contest, however, despite widely reported technical irregularities and administrative failures in voting procedures, the main loser, Mr. Raila Odinga, chose to dispute the outcome through the courts, not the streets, urging his supporters to avoid clashes.

What explains the phenomenon of electoral violence and, in particular, is the quality of electoral integrity important for mitigating the risks of conflict? The first part of this chapter discusses the conceptual and theoretical framework, the reasons why electoral integrity is expected to matter, and the selected propositions open to testing against empirical evidence. The second part then describes the evidence for monitoring incidents of electoral protests and electoral violence, drawn from the third release of the *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA) dataset. This source covers all legislative, presidential, and transitional assembly direct elections held worldwide from 1945–2010 (N. 2,948). Electoral violence is measured by incidents involving civilian fatalities immediately before, during, or after the election. Protests and riots related to the electoral process or outcome are measured after the election. The study describes some of the observed patterns of electoral violence, including trends over time since the mid-twentieth century and the geographic distribution by global region, and then uses logit regression analysis to model macro-level cross-national time-series data. Previous research and theories have not yet determined which particular types of malpractices are most prone to generate violence – for example, whether the risks are highest because of opposition boycotts, government harassment, fraud at the ballot box, or restrictions on opposition parties – so the effects of several alternative types of malpractices are tested empirically. The third part of this chapter presents the results of the analysis.

The main findings indicate: (1) Electoral violence is a widespread challenge, observed in roughly one-fifth of all contemporary elections worldwide and distributed across multiple countries in many global regions; (2) several types of electoral malpractice significantly exacerbate outbreaks of electoral violence, as

expected, with the highest risks (not surprisingly) associated with government repression against demonstrators, riots and protests after elections, and government harassment of opposition parties; (3) the perils of violence are also strongly affected by the type of regime, with conflict most commonly occurring in hybrid regimes stranded in the middle “grey” zone between autocracy and democracy. The conclusion summarizes the key findings and considers their broader implications.

The Conceptual and Theoretical Framework

What explains the phenomenon of electoral violence? Previous research on this topic in comparative politics and international relations has commonly drawn from existing theories of ethnic conflict, state repression, and civil war, especially attempts to organize elections as part of peace-building processes, and sought to extend these arguments to account for the phenomenon of electoral violence.¹² Scholars have emphasized the negative effects of winner-take-all majoritarian electoral systems and the benefits of power-sharing institutions for new constitutional settlements,¹³ the sequential timing of elections as part of the reconstruction process,¹⁴ the role of international monitors in containing or exacerbating tensions,¹⁵ and the importance of economic development and societal conditions associated with the onset or recurrence of civil wars.¹⁶ Most theories have adopted either a *rational choice* or a *structuralist perspective*.

Rational choice accounts take a “top-down” approach based on the premise that governing incumbents are the primary actors instigating violence.¹⁷ These studies seek to predict the strategic motivation of regime leaders when calculating to deploy coercion (such as imprisoning opponents, using military force to repress protests, and intimidation against opposition supporters), to use fraud (such as fiddling with the vote count or electoral register), or to offer material incentives (typified by vote buying, clientalism, and patronage politics), or indeed by some combination of these techniques.¹⁸ From this perspective, the problem of electoral violence is assumed to stem primarily from the calculated or intentional strategies used by ruling parties in the attempts to maintain their power in close contests. Authoritarian regimes are seen as the primary instigators, whereas security forces and law enforcement agencies are regarded as the main perpetrators, either by wielding batons directly or, more commonly, by turning a blind eye and failing to protect citizens when organized gangs of local party loyalists attack rivals.

Structural accounts, by contrast, focus primarily on long-term, deep-seated, “bottom-up” drivers thought to fuel the flames of more anarchistic intercommunal conflict involving multiple actors, including security forces, but also party leaders and local supporters, communal elites, illicit armed gangs and warlords, as well as insurgency movements, extremist factions, and terrorist groups. From this viewpoint, violence flares up most commonly because of social conditions that generate grievances, including the existence of deep

ethnic divisions; a recent legacy of civil war; the existence of natural resources; patronage politics that involve endemic corruption, socioeconomic inequality, and entrenched poverty; and cultures lacking social tolerance and trust. Formal institutions are also regarded as important, including types of regimes and levels of democratization, winner-take-all majoritarian constitutions, weak governance capacity, lack of independent electoral management bodies, civilian control of the military, and inadequate rule of law.¹⁹ A recent United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) report on electoral violence in Asia summarized this perspective:

While the structure and design of the political system are important, understanding the enabling conditions of electoral violence (e.g. a system that promotes a winner-takes-all scenario) requires addressing other important drivers of violence that revolve around real and perceived fraud; corruption; clientelism; patronage; patriarchy; a belief that politics is merely a mechanism for solidifying business interests; and ethnic, religious and socio-economic conflicts and grievances.²⁰

Mansfield and Snyder provide one of the most plausible structural arguments about regime types associated with curvilinear patterns of democratization, with risks of violence rising during the early stages of the transition from absolute autocracy and then falling subsequently sharply with the final stages of democratic consolidation.²¹

These theories provide potential explanations that can provide insights into electoral violence and conflict. Although common assumptions about this phenomenon are pervasive among practitioners within the international community, scholars are only starting to unpack the systematic evidence for many critical issues, including identifying the primary instigators and actors; understanding the timing, duration, and sequencing; comparing the global patterns; and monitoring the severity of any violence.²² For evidence, a growing body of literature highlights specific well-known African cases – such as electoral conflicts in Cote d'Ivoire, Kenya, Nigeria, and Sierra Leone²³ – whereas the experiences of countries with repeated violent elections located in many other regions – exemplified by Afghanistan, Bangladesh, the Philippines, Egypt, Honduras, Lebanon, and Haiti – are less commonly studied. Compared with the extensive data available on civil wars, and the growing human rights data measuring repression, few systematic cross-national and time-series datasets, until recently, have sought to monitor electoral integrity and the phenomenon of electoral violence in any detail. This situation has changed in the last few years, generating an emerging body of research on the topic.²⁴

Furthering the previous literature, this chapter theorizes that even when we control for many structural conditions commonly associated with deeply divided societies, the failure to observe international standards of electoral integrity also strengthens the risks of outbreaks of fatal electoral violence. The theoretical framework for this claim advances the agenda-setting model developed throughout this book and presented schematically in Figure 1.1.²⁵

In support of these claims, Chapter 5 demonstrated that contests failing to meet international standards encourage public awareness of stolen or rigged elections. Chapter 6 showed that contests that are widely perceived to be flawed through common malpractices (whether these beliefs are true or false) trigger public challenges to the legitimacy of the process and the outcome. Building on this foundation, this chapter demonstrates that the way that public disaffection is translated into either peaceful or violent acts of protest differ according to the structure of opportunities for the expression and mobilization of grievances available under consolidated democracies and electoral autocracies.

Flawed Contests in Consolidated Democracies

In consolidated democracies, public concern about the quality of elections and political disaffection can mobilize popular demonstrations aiming to pressure policy makers into implementing legal and regulatory reforms designed to ameliorate electoral flaws. Consolidated democracies facilitate peaceful protests through respecting rights to freedom of assembly and expression. In this environment, public concerns can be freely expressed without fear of reprisal or repression and mass demonstrations against electoral malpractices can be mobilized by losing parties and civic society groups. Long-established democracies are expected to be sufficiently resilient to overcome minor flaws in electoral integrity, such as Floridian “hanging chads” during the 2000 U.S. presidential contest, or overly restrictive voter registration laws passed in many U.S. states.²⁶ Similarly, recently there have been major problems over corrupt party finance in Spain, the misleading use of robocalls in Canada, and security lapses about postal ballots in the UK. We have already observed how these types of flaws deepen public cynicism with politicians and state institutions, and encourage the propensity to engage in protest politics.²⁷ Nevertheless, consolidated democracies with experience of elections over decades, or even centuries, have accumulated deep reservoirs of regime legitimacy, cultures of social tolerance and trust, and widespread adherence to democratic values. They have also developed robust formal institutional mechanisms for legal appeals and the redress of grievances. Even if one particular contest is deeply flawed by irregularities, this is not expected to undermine public confidence in the electoral processes as a whole, derived from the stock of repeated experience of popular contests.

In turn, in consolidated democratic states with electoral accountability, officials are generally expected to prove relatively responsive to public concerns, although the strength of this relationship is contingent on multiple institutional conditions.²⁸ In consolidated democracies, therefore, sustained popular protests demonstrating against the legitimacy of electoral processes and outcomes help to raise this issue for debate on the policy agenda, in conjunction with advocacy groups and political parties. This makes it more likely, although far from certain, that policy makers will consider adopting legal, procedural, or technical institutional changes designed to allay public concern.²⁹ After widespread and noisy partisan protests following the events in the Gore v. Bush race in Florida

in 2000, for example, Congress passed the Help America Vote Act (HAVA) in 2002, designed to replace mechanical punch-card voting machines, to create an Electoral Assistance Commission, and to establish minimum electoral standards.³⁰ Similarly following the 2012 U.S. presidential elections, after rival claims about problems of voter fraud and voter suppression, and complaints of long lines at polling stations, President Obama appointed an independent and bipartisan commission to investigate reforms to the voting process.³¹

In many other long-established democracies, public discontent with corruption scandals and sleaze helped to fuel pressures for major and minor reforms to electoral systems.³² In the 2010 UK elections, for example, public disgust with the Westminster expenses scandal and the inclusion of the Liberal Democrats in the Conservative-led coalition government pushed electoral reform onto the policy agenda. Groups such as the Electoral Reform Society advocated action, and Take Back Parliament organized public protests. The coalition government introduced a referendum in May 2011 on the adoption of an Alternative Vote system to replace First Past the Post for Westminster. The proposal failed to gather sufficient support, however, not least owing to the position of the major parties, and it was eventually defeated.³³ Any policy and procedural changes that are passed and implemented may also prove ineffectual by failing to tackle the underlying causes of electoral malpractices (such as problems arising from the fragmentation and partisanship of local electoral administration in the United States), misunderstanding the nature of the problem, or missing intended objectives. For example, tracking surveys since 2004 suggest that controversy surrounding new voter registration requirements implemented by many U.S. states have slightly weakened, not strengthened, voter confidence in the electoral process.³⁴ In general, evidence derived from several Anglo-American democracies suggest that changes to electoral institutions, such as the adoption of proportional representation electoral systems or legislative term limits, have little impact, at least in the short term, on strengthening feelings of political efficacy, satisfaction with democratic processes, and patterns of civic engagement.³⁵ Nevertheless, in consolidated democracies, public disaffection with the electoral system and voting processes generates bottom-up pressures that encourage legislative debate about legal and regulatory reforms designed to ameliorate public and party concern.

Flawed Contests in Electoral Autocracies: Repression or Concession

In electoral autocracies, however, which have introduced multiparty elections for national legislatures but which have failed to consolidate the full panoply of democratic institutions, regimes follow a different logic, and any public protest over malpractices can be met either by further state repression or by reform concessions.³⁶ It is widely feared that in the absence of democratic governance – including where founding elections are held as part of peace-building settlements in societies wracked by decades of conflict, in fragile states, and in divided societies lacking a cultural reservoir of public trust and

tolerance accumulated over many successive contests – even minor issues of maladministration and flawed contests heighten the risks of instability, violence, and the renewal of civil war.³⁷

Popular protests that occur in electoral autocracies can lead toward further restrictions on freedom of association, a process illustrated by the 2012 Russian presidential elections. Several aspects of the contest were criticized by Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) observers, including fraudulent activities reported on polling day and lack of transparency in the vote count.³⁸ Once Putin's victory was announced, demonstrators immediately rallied and called for the election results to be annulled and for vote rigging to be investigated. Far from capitulating to public concerns, however, the Duma cracked down after the contest by passing new legal penalties for unsanctioned protests. Police raided the homes of several prominent activists and some independent websites went down, although this did not deter tens of thousands of citizens from engaging in antigovernment demonstrations on Russia Day, demanding fresh elections.³⁹ The Armenian presidential elections on February 19, 2008 also triggered a similar series of mass protests organized by the opposition. The protestors alleged widespread vote falsification and violations, claims partially supported by flawed vote counts observed by international observers from the Council of Europe.⁴⁰ Protests were eventually brutally suppressed when the government responded on March 1 by introducing a twenty-day state of emergency, banning future demonstrations, and censoring the media from broadcasting political news.

Regimes prepared to violate international standards of electoral integrity through routine or minor noncoercive abuses – exemplified by practices such as ballot stuffing, vote buying, voter suppression through registration processes, manipulation of electoral systems, or inaccurate vote tabulation – are expected to also prove more willing to use physical coercion, intimidation, and outright repression of opponents and their supporters to manipulate the outcome if threatened with loss of power. Relatively minor misdemeanors fudging electoral standards may lead toward a slippery slope of further state repression and even major crimes against humanity.

In the case of the 2010 presidential election in Cote d'Ivoire, for example, incumbent President Laurent Gbagbo was challenged by former Prime Minister, Alassane Ouattara, who had overwhelming support in much of the north. The Independent Electoral Commission released provisional results on December 2, 2010 showing that Ouattara had won the second round of the presidential contest with 54 percent of the vote. The Constitutional Council immediately declared that the results were invalid, however, and the next day they declared Gbagbo the winner. Refusing to cede defeat, forces supporting Gbagbo used violent attacks to intimidate the opposition, to prevent potential defections among party supporters, and to deter external armed interventions. In this context, militant youth and other opposition forces supporting the rival candidacy of Ouattara, with limited opportunities to unseat Gbagbo through peaceful channels, used

tit-for-tat violence, including reprisal killings, arson, and sexual violence.⁴¹ In April 2011, Gbagbo was eventually captured and deposed, ending the civil war. The UN estimated that the crisis caused around 1,000 civilian deaths and the displacement of a million citizens within the country. In the city of Duékoué, for example, hundreds of people were estimated to have been killed, predominantly by advancing pro-Ouattara militias. In November 2011, Gbagbo was extradited to the International Criminal Court for violations of human rights, becoming the first head of state to be taken into the court's custody.

Yet repression is not the only outcome; alternatively, any mass protests and popular uprisings in autocratic states may potentially trigger regime concessions and constitutional reforms, leading ultimately toward more competitive multiparty contests, strengthening democratization. This process is exemplified by developments in Mexico, where the PRI maintained its hegemonic power during the 1980s largely through clientelistic politics and the use of particularistic material rewards to buy support, while withdrawing state funds from localities controlled by the opposition. During the 1990s, however, domestic and international pressures encouraged the ruling party to implement new measures gradually cleaning up elections.⁴² By the 2000 election, when the PRI's long grip was defeated at the ballot box by the Partido Acción Nacional (PAN) candidate, Vicente Fox, the electoral management body had become highly autonomous, opposition parties had access to generous public funds to disseminate their campaign messages, and exit polls clearly revealed PAN's victory. More recently, claims of a revival of vote buying and fraudulent practices in the 2012 presidential contest, following victory for Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) candidate Enrique Peña Nieto, generated widespread demonstrations in Mexico City, but these remained largely peaceful rather than sparking violence.⁴³ Protest movements were also evident in the so-called color revolutions in Eastern Europe, where mass mobilization reportedly led to the reversal of the results of several fraudulent elections, such as Georgia in 2003 or Ukraine in 2004.⁴⁴ Kuntz and Thompson use several cases from Eastern Europe to argue that stolen elections in autocracies have not only been crucial for the emergence of revolutionary protests, but by mobilizing ordinary citizens, strengthening the opposition, and dividing ruling elites, they have also shaped outcomes.⁴⁵ Lindberg also suggests that a series of elections in Africa, even flawed contests, provide platforms for the opposition that gradually facilitates the process of democratization.⁴⁶

Research Design, Evidence, and Indices

Core Propositions

To summarize the theoretical argument, lack of electoral integrity heightens public perceptions of electoral malpractices, undermines confidence in the electoral process and feelings of regime legitimacy, and simultaneously mobilizes the propensity to engage in popular protest, especially among supporters of the

losing parties. The analysis of survey evidence in earlier chapters of this book provides strong empirical support for each of these propositions. As a result, public reaction against perceived electoral malpractices is expected. Whether expressed through peaceful channels such as opposition boycotts, political strikes, and lawful mass demonstrations, or through outbreaks of fatal electoral conflict, the public's response depends on the type of regime in power and the structural conditions in each society. It therefore seems plausible that electoral malpractices will exacerbate the risks of violent protests and coercive counterreactions by regimes in electoral autocracies, especially in deeply divided societies, while mobilizing peaceful mass demonstrations in consolidated democracies, especially in more homogeneous societies. Moreover, by contrast, after controlling for structural conditions, contests that meet international standards of electoral integrity should generate fewer protests, whether violent or pacific. Thus, for all these reasons, the core propositions in this chapter predict that, *ceteris paribus*:

- *The standards of electoral integrity proposition*: Electoral malpractices will strengthen the risks of electoral violence.
- *The contemporary regime proposition*: The type of regime in power will matter, in particular, electoral autocracies face the greatest risks of electoral violence.

Nevertheless, alternative theories suggest that electoral violence springs from many other causes so that none of these propositions may turn out to prove significant (the null hypothesis). For example, international observers report that certain elections meet international standards of electoral integrity, but the outcome is still marred by conflict. This process is exemplified by the election of President Goodluck Jonathan in the 2011 Nigerian contest, which has been widely reported by international observers as relatively free and fair; indeed, the African Union praised the conduct of the contest as the best in years. The European Union's final mission report noted that the presidential elections were conducted in a generally peaceful and orderly manner, with enthusiastic voters committed to voting from early in the morning.⁴⁷ Nevertheless, the announcement of the results in the evening of April 18 triggered an immediate outbreak of post-election intercommunal violence in northern Nigeria, with mobs rioting with clubs and machetes, clashes with security forces, places of religious worship burned, and around 800 people reportedly killed and tens of thousands displaced. Therefore, even one of the best-run elections in recent Nigerian history was insufficient to overcome a legacy of suspicion and mistrust about electoral malpractices, majoritarian "winner-take-all" presidential arrangements, and an unstable society deeply divided by religious cleavages.

As discussed earlier, any effects associated with the quality of elections may be overwhelmed by structural social conditions that are often thought to heighten the general risks of societal struggles, functioning as the "deep drivers" of electoral violence.⁴⁸ Theories about the role of structural explanations

in civil wars have been developed most fully in a series of studies published for more than a decade by Paul Collier and Anke Hoefler, analyzing problems of armed rebellion and outbreaks of conflict.⁴⁹ The Collier-Hoeffler model categorizes the causes of violence as either greed or grievance, emphasizing societal characteristics such as ethnic heterogeneity and polarization, low levels of development and sluggish rates of economic growth, the role of geographic locations, the size of a country and its physical terrain, the persistence of socioeconomic inequality and endemic poverty, and the role of natural resources controlled by the state. Deep-rooted socioeconomic conditions in divided societies, used to explain the onset, persistence, or recurrence of civil wars, may be extended to help provide insights into outbreaks of electoral violence.

Other common structural explanations of civil wars and political instability are provided by power-sharing theories of democracy, long championed by Arend Lijphart.⁵⁰ This well-known argument stresses that constitutional arrangements dividing powers horizontally and vertically are essential to prevent violence in deeply divided societies, including implementing proportional representation electoral systems (and thus coalition governments and inclusive multiparty parliaments), the decentralization of power to local and regional levels (through local government or federalism), and parliamentary executives (rather than winner-take-all presidential executives).⁵¹ Power-sharing arrangements may also influence integrity, for example, through the establishment of electoral management bodies that are independent of the government and partisan pressures.

Within the scope of this study, it is not possible to develop models testing the effects of the full range of structural and institutional factors on electoral violence, an issue that awaits future research. Nevertheless, if structural and institutional conditions drive this phenomenon, then this suggests the null hypothesis, namely:

- *Null effects proposition:* Electoral malpractices, and the contemporary type of regime in power, will have no significant effects on electoral violence.

Measuring Electoral Integrity and Violence

New datasets are emerging to provide comprehensive measures of the core concepts of electoral integrity and malpractices, including the Perceptions of Electoral Integrity expert survey; nevertheless, at present this dataset covers only a limited range of contemporary elections. Similarly, as discussed in Chapter 3, the QED and IEM datasets also cover a limited range of contests. The most comprehensive comparative and time-series evidence is currently available from Susan Hyde and Nikolay Marinov's coding of NELDA.⁵² Previously, the most systematic comparative dataset of electoral violence had been confined to sub-Saharan Africa from 1990–2008.⁵³ With the third release, the NELDA dataset has the advantage of broadening the scope of inquiry by covering all transitional assembly, legislative, and presidential national election events in all

independent nation-states with populations greater than half a million during the period from 1945–2010. As discussed in Chapter 4, the dataset is derived from a comprehensive list of secondary sources, including academic election handbooks, online resources, news media, and official reports, in addition to observer reports. Details of the construction of all variables are included in the Technical Appendix A.

Electoral violence was measured using items contained in the NELDA dataset. Thus, elections were coded according to Nelda 33: “*Was there significant violence involving civilian deaths immediately before, during or after the election?*” This item was coded positively in NELDA if there were any civilian fatalities associated with the contest. Ideally it would be useful to be able to identify the exact timing, target, and severity of any violence, such as the number of deaths and injuries, although these issues are often difficult to determine with any precision; in Kenya, for example, the inter-communal violence occurred after the announcement of the official results, although it is reported to have been planned as a form of tit-for-tat retaliation by the main perpetrators well before the election.⁵⁴ Similarly reliable estimates of the exact size of the population affected or displaced by electoral violence are often unavailable, especially where official records and media reporting is controlled by the regime.

To understand the impact of electoral integrity on violence, we can compare seven variables from the NELDA dataset that reflect several types of malpractices, namely:

- *Nelda 11*: Before elections, are there significant concerns that elections will not be free and fair?
- *Nelda 13*: Were opposition leaders prevented from running?
- *Nelda 14*: Did some opposition leaders boycott the election?
- *Nelda 15*: Is there evidence that the government harassed the opposition?
- *Nelda 16*: In the run-up to the election, were there allegations of media bias in favor of the incumbent?
- *Nelda 29*: Were there riots and protests after the election?
- *Nelda 31* (If yes): Did the government use violence against demonstrators?

These items do not tap into all dimensions of the broader concepts of electoral integrity and malpractices during the electoral cycle, by any means; nevertheless, they do capture several important aspects.

The contemporary type of regime in power during the year of election is categorized from the standard 20-point democracy-autocracy index provided by Polity IV.⁵⁵ Following Mansfield and Snyder, the effects of regime type on electoral violence are expected to be distributed in a curvilinear fashion across the index.⁵⁶ That is to say, highly autocratic states are expected to have relatively low levels of violence, since they characteristically maintain strong control by the security forces and leaders have few constraints in deploying coercion when suppressing attempted insurgencies and stamping out opposition protests.

Similarly, at the opposite extreme, highly democratic states are also expected to have minimal levels of violence, for all the reasons discussed earlier. Thus, states with intermediate scores on the Polity IV autocracy-democracy scale are anticipated to suffer from the highest degree of violence. The initial transition from absolute autocracies often weakens the capacity of the regime to control state security forces and to govern effectively, as well as opening opportunities for parties and dissident groups to challenge the regime. In this context, the risks of violence rise. Accordingly, countries were classified based on the 20-point Polity IV autocracy-democracy scale as those located below -5 (for highly autocratic) and above $+5$ (for highly democratic).

Model 2 then adds controls for the year of election (to monitor any significant trends) and several economic and structural factors that are widely thought to be associated with internal conflict. This includes the role of geography, which is thought to matter because of its consequences for climate, agricultural production, distance to trade markets, transportation costs, vulnerability to disease, integration into regional networks, cross-border conflicts, and the global diffusion of cosmopolitan ideas.⁵⁷ The endowment of natural resources such as oil, gas, precious minerals, diamonds, and gold is often regarded as critical for both prosperity and conflict, whether positively through generating export-led trade and economic growth, or more commonly, like Midas, the “resource curse” may encourage rent-seeking behavior, the predatory state, and elite capture, as well as fueling civil wars over the plunder.⁵⁸ Similarly, ethnicity is expected to play a major role in conflict, including the existence of linguistic, racial, and religious divisions, with the most fractionalized societies commonly plagued both by extreme poverty and social inequality (Easterly) as well as by internal conflict and instability (Mansfield and Snyder).⁵⁹ Both the physical size of a country and the size of its population are also expected to shape security; it is more difficult to sustain peace and stable democracies in countries such as Nigeria, the Democratic Republic of Congo, and Egypt rather than in smaller states such as Botswana, Lesotho, and Cape Verde. Properly specified models of election violence therefore need to control, at a minimum, for the role of geography, natural resources, ethnic fractionalization, and the type of regime, as well as for many other variables. These include the fixed effects of the geographic location of each state in relation to the equator (latitude), which is strongly related to levels of economic development, population size, the existence of internal civil wars, religious and linguistic fractionalization, and real per capita GDP as the standard measure of economic development.

The Drivers of Electoral Violence

The Distribution of Electoral Violence

The first issue to consider, before analyzing the causes of the phenomenon, concerns the distribution and frequency of electoral violence, including trends over time, and which regions and countries are afflicted by this problem.

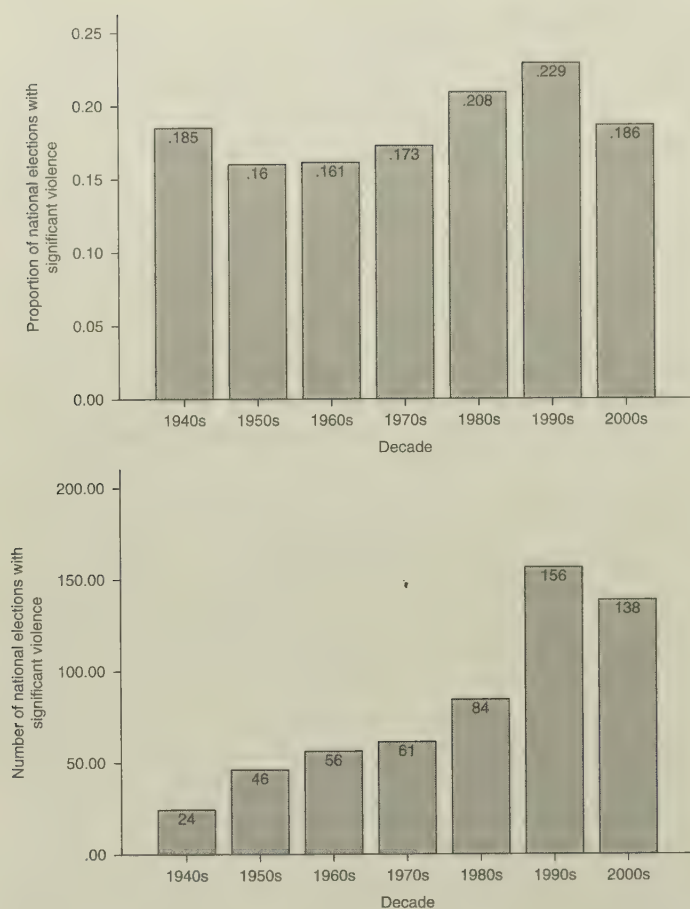


FIGURE 8.1. Trends in electoral violence, 1945–2010.

Note: All types of national elections held from 1945–2010 (N.2924).

Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA), 3rd release. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

An early assessment by Fisher estimates that in 2001, about one-quarter of all elections experienced some form of violence or conflict.⁶⁰ Straus and Taylor compared elections in sub-Saharan Africa over a longer period, from 1990–2007, and found that roughly one-fifth experienced violence.⁶¹ If we compare all types of electoral events coded in the NELDA dataset from 1945–2010, the results show that electoral violence and protests are usually fairly common. Overall, almost one-fifth of all elections have experienced violence (19 percent). This is roughly in line with previous estimates although measurements depend on the time periods covered and the violence thresholds that are used.⁶² Far from isolated events, therefore, violence is relatively widespread. Figure 8.1

displays trends in the proportion and number of national elections with fatal violence in every decade since the end of World War II. The results show that the proportion of violent contests remain relatively stable from 1945 until the 1970s, after which incidents of electoral violence grew during the 1980s and the 1990s, before falling back to earlier levels during the last decade. The number of elections with fatal violence, however, increased gradually during the post-war decades and then expanded substantially during the 1980s and 1990s, before dropping slightly during the last decade. The substantial expansion in the use of multiparty elections in Central and Eastern Europe following the fall of the Berlin wall, as well as in many parts of Latin America, Africa, and Asia, has been accompanied by many more violent contests.

Where does electoral violence occur around the world? Much attention has focused on the contemporary problems of conflict in sub-Saharan Africa, highlighted by cases such as Kenya, Cote d'Ivoire, Zimbabwe, Togo, Nigeria, Ethiopia, Guinea, and Equatorial Guinea.⁶³ In fact, however, as illustrated in Figures 8.2 and 8.3, these problems have been most common in South Asia, including the long series of elections held in India, Bangladesh, and Pakistan,⁶⁴ as well as in some states in Southeast Asia, the Pacific, and Latin America. The global map illustrates the worldwide distribution where electoral violence can be observed in many developing countries, including in several states in Latin America, Asia, and Eastern Europe. The main exception to this pattern concerns long-established consolidated democracies in postindustrial societies, although even European countries are not wholly immune from violence, including tensions between the nationalist community and security forces in Northern Ireland as recently as the 2005 elections, and Spain experienced a series of terrorist acts and assassinations by Euskadi Ta Askatasuna (ETA) targeted against Basque elected officials. If we compare the pattern of election violence in more detail, the results indicate that recurrent outbreaks of election conflict have been experienced in places as diverse as the Solomon Islands, Angola, Uganda, Guatemala, Haiti, the Philippines, Bangladesh, Pakistan, India, Zimbabwe, Papua New Guinea, Nepal, Sri Lanka, South Africa, Colombia, Albania, Cambodia, and Burma/Myanmar. Thus, electoral violence has occurred in small and large states, in countries with diverse colonial backgrounds and levels of economic development, in cultures with many different kinds of predominant faiths, and in all global regions.

Do Electoral Malpractices Explain Electoral Violence?

We can start by describing the impact of diverse conditions on electoral violence, without any prior controls, and then develop multivariate models for the risk factors already discussed. Do electoral malpractices help to predict levels of electoral violence? Figure 8.4 confirms that the problems most common in cases of electoral violence include government repression against demonstrators (found in 80 percent of violent elections), riots and protests after the election (63 percent), government harassment of the opposition candidates and



FIGURE 8.2. World map of electoral violence.

Note: Proportion of all types of national elections held from 1945–2010 with electoral violence (N.2924).

Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA), 3rd release. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

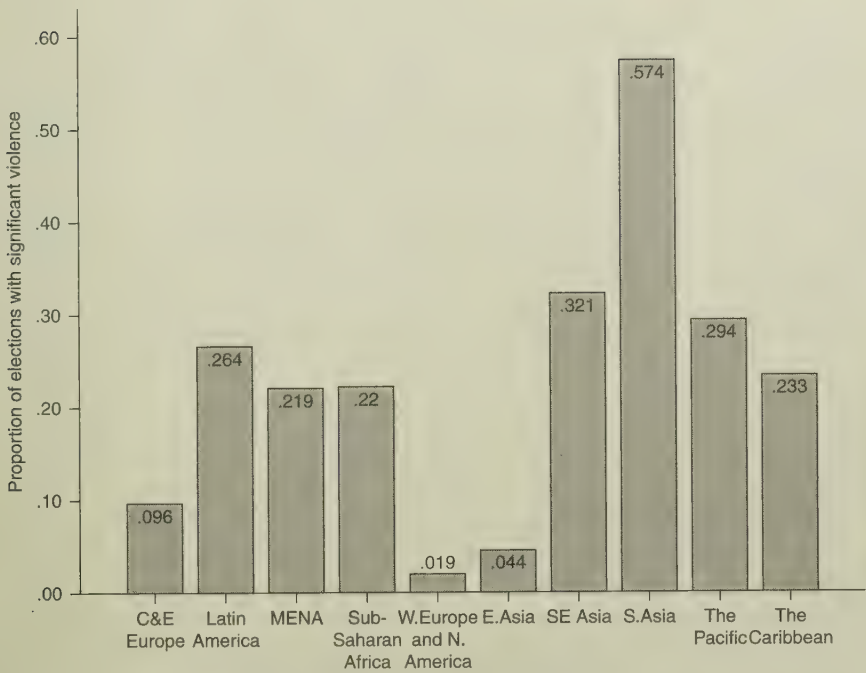


FIGURE 8.3. The regional distribution of electoral violence.
Note: All types of national elections held from 1945–2010 (N.2924).
Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA), 3rd release. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

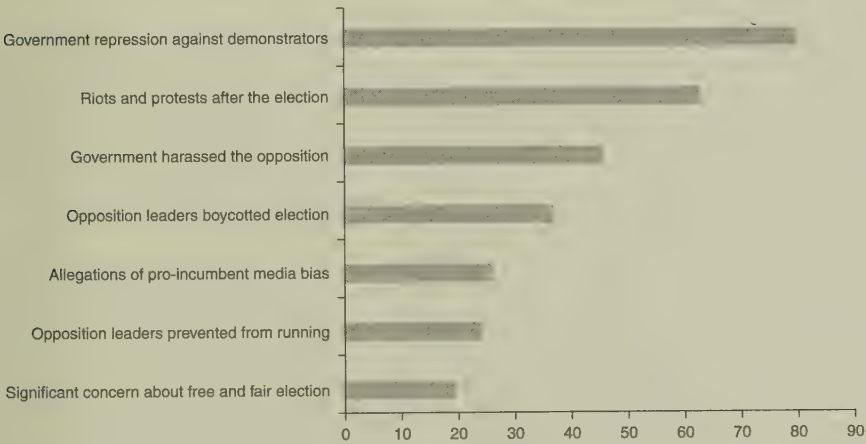


FIGURE 8.4. Electoral malpractices and electoral violence.
Note: Frequency of violence associated with several malpractices, comparing all types of national elections held worldwide from 1945–2010 (N.2924).
Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA), 3rd release. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

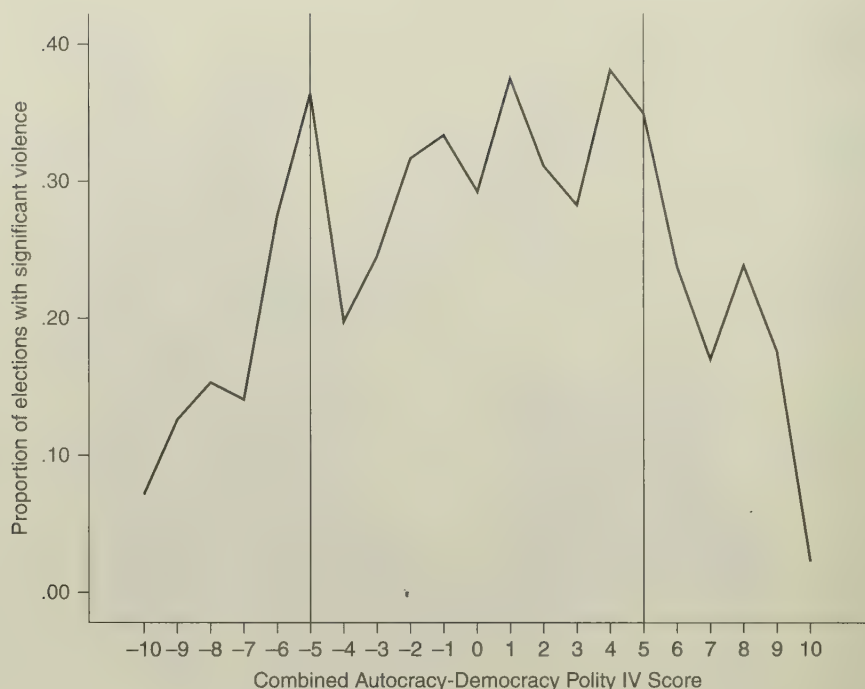


FIGURE 8.5. Election violence by levels of autocracy and democracy.

Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, 3rd release. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

parties (45 percent), and opposition leaders boycotting contests (37 percent). From the bivariate relationships alone, it appears that flawed contests that fail to respect international standards are indeed more likely to generate fatal conflict. The primary problem seems to be the greater willingness of regimes to deploy “top-down” techniques of repression against their own citizens and opponents, and to a lesser extent, violence arising from “bottom-up” popular uprisings, mass riots, and armed insurrections, although an interactive process is likely to be at work in this relationship.

Does the type of regime and level of democratization also affect electoral violence? An examination of the observed relationship between the level of autocracy–democracy on the Polity IV scale and the frequency of cases of electoral violence in the NELDA dataset (illustrated in Figure 8.5) confirms the curvilinear relationship. Thus, countries that are in the middle of the spectrum between autocracy and democracy, the “hybrid” regimes or “electoral autocracies,” are most prone to risks of violence. States with either high levels of autocracy or democracy are least at risk from electoral violence – although for very different reasons.

The link between electoral malpractices, types of regime, and violence needs to be tested at macro-level in cross-national time-series models with multiple conditions as well as with several structural controls, including the social conditions in divided societies that could exacerbate or mitigate armed conflict and electoral violence, as discussed earlier.⁶⁵ In this study, Table 8.1 presents the results of the binary logistic regression models where electoral violence is the dependent variable. The first model presents several types of electoral malpractices that we have theorized help to explain violence. The second model adds several controls for factors such as ethnic fractionalization, population size, geographic location, and levels of economic development that structural theories suggest are the deep drivers explaining internal conflict and cases of civil war.

The results of the analysis presented in Model 1 in Table 8.1 confirm that the several common types of electoral malpractices are significantly associated with levels of electoral violence. As observed earlier, by reducing feelings of political legitimacy, electoral malpractices exacerbate some of the underlying political grievances among losing parties, thereby fueling popular protests that can turn into mass demonstrations challenging election results, which can encourage state security forces to crack down on insurgents. Not surprisingly, electoral protests or riots are significantly linked to electoral violence, as is state repression against demonstrators. Again, as observed in diverse cases such as Kenya, Armenia, and Russia, mass demonstration triggered in protest against the process or outcome of elections, and the backlash against these by the security forces and regime supporters, are classic triggers of fatal conflict. In the first model, both high levels of autocracy and democracy (measured by Polity IV) are significantly associated with lower risks of violence.

For further tests, Model 2 incorporates many of the structural variables that are long thought to be associated with civic conflict, although because of data limitations, this process also unfortunately reduces the number of cases under comparison. The results in Model 2 suggest that the risks of conflict rise according to the geographical location of states; those located closer to the equator are not only more vulnerable to various tropical diseases, but also the curse of insecurity associated with extreme poverty. Not surprisingly, the existence of broader civil wars heighten the risk of electoral violence. Low levels of economic development are also problematic, as are large populations. Perhaps more surprisingly, levels of religious and ethnic fractionalization are not associated with electoral violence, although this may arise in part from problems of measurement, since the data does not capture the politicization and distribution of ethnic cleavages. The year of election is also significant, capturing the growing number of elections afflicted by deadly violence in recent decades. Finally, the results also confirm that even with this battery of structural controls, state repression, state harassment, limits on opposition parties, and electoral protests, as well as the type of regime in power, all continue to prove significant and consistent predictors of violence, as theorized.

TABLE 8.1. *Malpractices Associated with Electoral Violence*

	Model 1			Model 2		
	b	s.e.	Sig	b	s.e.	Sig
EFFECTS OF ELECTORAL INTEGRITY						
(If protests) Did the government use violence against demonstrators?	1.56	.234	***	1.87	.366	***
Were there riots and protests after the election?	1.43	.171	***	.977	.265	***
Is there evidence that the government harassed the opposition?	1.24	.152	***	1.29	.216	***
Before elections, are there significant concerns that elections will not be free and fair?	.507	.140	***	-.035	.199	N/s
Did some opposition leaders boycott the election?	.376	.151	**	.243	.229	N/s
Were opposition leaders prevented from running?	-.194	.049	N/s	-.477	.218	*
In the run-up to the election, were there allegations of media bias in favor of the incumbent?	-.516	.149	***	-.008	.214	N/s
TYPE OF REGIME						
High levels of autocracy (Polity IV autocracy–democracy scale > -5)	-.649	.159	***	-.759	.223	***
High levels of democracy (Polity IV autocracy–democracy scale > +5)	-.431	.142	***	-.431	.214	*
STRUCTURAL CONTROLS						
Economic						
Income (GDP/Capita)				.000	.000	***
Geographic						
Location (Latitude)				-1.38	.567	*
Social Structure						
Linguistic fractionalization				-.244	.321	N/s
Religious fractionalization				-.132	.368	N/s
Population size				.000	.000	*

	Model 1			Model 2		
	b	s.e.	Sig	b	s.e.	Sig
CIVIL WAR						
Internal conflict				.578	.094	***
Year				.011	.005	*
Nagelkerke R ²	.34			.41		
Number of observations	2,927			1,615		
% correctly predicted	80.8			86.4		

Note: The models present the unstandardized beta coefficients, the standard errors, and the statistical significance of binary logistic regression models with panel-corrected standard errors. The dependent variable is incidents of electoral violence measured by Nelda 33: “Was there significant violence involving civilian deaths immediately before, during or after the election?” *** $p < 0.001$, ** $p < 0.001$, * $p < 0.05$, N/s Not significant. Other data were derived from the Quality of Government Time-Series Data (Released May 15, 2013). For details of all the variables, see the Technical Appendix A.

Sources: National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA), 3rd release 1945–2010. Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>; Quality of Government <http://www.qog.pol.gu.se/>.

Conclusions and Discussion

This chapter focuses on the contribution of electoral malpractices to electoral violence. This problem has become a growing concern among the international community in recent years. One factor driving this development has been the decline of wars between nation-states since the post–Cold War era, so that internal violence has become the most common cause of conflict.⁶⁶ Moreover, in recent decades the international community has expanded peacekeeping operations seeking to contain and prevent conflict as well as efforts to strengthen democratic governance.⁶⁷ Interventions have broadened in scope well beyond the provision of blue-helmet security to cover complex challenges of overcoming human suffering and humanitarian crisis, economic and social reconstruction, and securing agreement for new constitutional settlements and holding transitional elections. Since the early 1990s, the idea that democratic elections are an integral part of any peace-building process has now become standard. Related processes include support for constitutional and legal reform, training for electoral administrators, assistance for political parties, and aid for civil society organizations.⁶⁸ Electoral violence undermines the legitimacy of fragile democratic gains and it may thereby exacerbate many global ills, including weak states providing opportunities for terrorism, organized crime and corruption, weapons proliferation, humanitarian emergencies, environmental degradation, genocides, and political extremism.⁶⁹ Attempts at peacekeeping and peace building generally have a checkered record of success; Hewitt, Wilkenfeld, and Gurr estimate that of the thirty-nine outbreaks

of armed conflict during the last decade, thirty-one were recurrences after violence had been dormant for at least a year.⁷⁰ Legitimate elections that meet international standards and that are accepted by all parties are one potential way out of the cycle of violence – but fraudulent, stolen, or rigged contests may simply worsen tensions.

What are the causes of violent conflict in elections? To summarize the central argument, in the sequential policy-cycle model, illustrated in Figure 1.1, standards of electoral integrity generate public perceptions of electoral malpractices, and thereby influence feelings of regime legitimacy and subsequent levels of protest activism. As we have seen earlier, some of the most overt electoral abuses, open to both ruling and opposition parties, typically include harassing adversaries, bribing supporters or coercing opponents, vote rigging, ballot stuffing, and finally, if losing, blatantly disregarding the people's choice.⁷¹ But in many countries, including in democracies, minor irregularities are more common, exemplified by inaccurate voter registers, maladministration of polling, petty corruption, pro-government media bias, lack of transparent campaign finance disclosure, tabulation miscounts, partisan gerrymandering, and excessively high vote-seat thresholds. The argument suggests that all these malpractices can trigger violence during or after the polls close, depending on structural and political conditions. In particular, the channels for expressing mass protests, and the reaction of governing and opposition party leaders, are shaped by the broader context in which these problems come to light, especially by opportunities for losing candidates and their followers to influence the policy-making agenda through peaceful and violent channels within consolidated democracies and electoral autocracies.

Pulling the building blocks of our story together, electoral malpractices encourage leaders and followers to believe that contests have been fraudulent, stolen, or unfair. These perceptions (whether real or imaginary) undermine confidence in the credibility of electoral institutions and processes, strengthen dissatisfaction with the performance of the regime, and erode feelings of political legitimacy. In turn, this process encourages the propensity to engage in direct-action protest politics, especially when supporters are cued by the leaders of losing parties and by the media to believe that elections are shams or rigged. Moreover, whether dissatisfaction is channeled through peaceful demonstrations or through outbreaks of violent conflict is dependent on many conditions, notably curvilinear levels of democratization and the contemporary type of regime in power.

The evidence compared in this study leads to several main conclusions. Firstly electoral violence has occurred fairly frequently – affecting roughly one in five national elections around the world during the last half century. This, in itself, is remarkable. Secondly, much discussion of the problem focuses on states in sub-Saharan Africa, whereas, in fact, electoral violence has been more common elsewhere around the world, especially in South Asia. Most importantly, however, is the primary finding that the quality of contests has a

substantial impact on electoral violence. Indications that the results are stolen, fraudulent, or simply stacked in favor of incumbents can help to catalyze mass protests, as well as spark state repression against demonstrators. Case studies suggest that tit-for-tat violence can be constrained by security forces in strong states, or intercommunal conflict can spiral out of control, causing widespread bloodshed and the displacement of refugees.

As Mansfield and Snyder suggest,⁷² the danger that protests against rigged and stolen elections will trigger a violent backlash can be expected to be especially hazardous in countries emerging from absolute autocracy. In this context, where rule of law is weak, a culture of social tolerance has not yet had time to mature, and channels for peaceful protest remain limited, disputed elections are most likely to trigger mass violence involving civilian casualties or fatalities, intercommunal riots, and the destruction of property through looting and arson. Consolidated democratic regimes have been found to be far less likely to use the techniques of repression, a robust finding that holds across all types of coercive behavior.⁷³ When threatened by insurgency, electoral autocracies are far more willing to deploy the techniques of domestic repression against their own citizens in the attempt to reduce dissent and suppress protests, including physical coercion, intimidation, and outright violence by the security forces and gangs of armed supporters.⁷⁴ Extreme cases of repression include the role of the post-Mubarak military in Egypt, in a coup d'état against the freely-elected President Morsi, generating hundreds of civilian deaths and thousands of Egyptian casualties when suppressing Muslim Brotherhood supporters. In electoral autocracies, however, the outcome of violent uprisings triggered by failed elections is essentially unpredictable. On the one hand, mass protests and intercommunal conflict are likely to catalyze a security backlash by the regime and further repression of human rights or even a reversion back to absolute autocracy, as in the Egyptian military state. On the other hand, there are also occasional cases, including several colored revolutions in Eastern Europe, where mass disaffection and violent uprisings over flawed elections are believed to have encouraged constitutional concessions and strengthened regime transitions, moving some states one step closer toward democracy.⁷⁵

By contrast, however, consolidated democratic states have experienced an extended sequence of legitimate contests where governing and opposition parties rotate in office, developing deeply rooted cultures of social tolerance, pluralism, trust, and formal institutions of justice. In this context, it is expected that public disaffection with any perceived electoral malpractices will normally be channeled through peaceful demonstrations, mass boycotts, and lawful political strikes. Political leaders are more likely to accept the outcome of electoral defeat, refraining from coercive pressures, in part because they accept the legitimacy of the rules of the game, and in part because of institutional checks and balances, limiting executive power. If public disaffection grows sufficiently strong within democratic states, for example, where problems come to light of flagrant abuses of political finance regulations, repeated cases of voter

suppression, or sustained irregularities in electronic voting machines, then increased pressures for elected political actors to respond are expected. The most likely outcome is renewed legislative debate about potential reforms to electoral procedures and laws, as part of the agenda-setting and agenda-building process. As discussed in Chapter 9, whether reforms are actually passed (given entrenched partisan interests) and whether, in turn, they prove effective in addressing public concerns (given administrative capacity and organizational inertia), depends on many complex conditions. We have already observed that some popular protests have led to annulled results and fresh contests. But under what circumstances does this process also lead to regime change? And to transitions toward democracy – or just the replacement of the old autocracy with a new one? It is to this issue that we now turn in the next chapter.

For Regimes

How do regimes respond to failures of electoral integrity – especially when public concern and disaffection rises about flawed or failed contests? This chapter sets out the theoretical argument addressing this complex issue, suggesting that public discontent with electoral malpractices can lead to several possible scenarios: the response may be one of *institutional stasis* (no fundamental change to the status quo, if discontent quickly fades, incumbent veto players resist change, and other problems predominate on the policy agenda), *reform concessions* (and thus pro-democratic institutional change, especially where governing elites and parliamentary parties are divided, and a coalition mobilizes public support for change), *state repression* (and further crackdown on public dissent), or *regime transitions* (replacing the ancient regime, fueled by popular uprisings from below and opposition mobilization). Predicting each of these scenarios remains a difficult puzzle where key pieces of the jigsaw are often missing from the box. Rational choice models provide some analytical clarity while case studies provide further insights, although revealing far messier and more complex underlying processes than parsimonious theoretical models suggest. Our partial and incomplete understanding of this process, more than most parts of this book, remains a work in progress.

The argument developed in this chapter suggests that the reaction of governing elites to public disaffection, and thus each of the scenarios, depend on many prior conditions, including, in particular, the type of regime in power, the structure of opportunities for the mobilization of dissent, the closeness of the contest, the balance of power and divisions among governing elites and political parties, the depth and duration of public anger, and contagion effects from events in neighboring states. The chapter illustrates the underlying processes in each of the three alternative change scenarios through selected case studies, including a series of partial and incomplete regulatory *concessions* exemplified in the United States, as implemented by the federal and state

governments, but challenged and modified by the courts during the last decade; *partial concessions and new repression* in Russia, where a few partial minor reforms offered under Putin's rule were followed by a post-election crackdown on human rights and freedom of association of progressive movements; and a partially successful regime *transition* in Ukraine, where mass uprisings and opposition unity in disgust at fraud in the 2004 elections during the Orange Revolution, which contributed toward overturning the old order, although a decade later the process of democratizations remains challenging.

Concessions to Demands for Electoral Reform in Consolidated Democracies

The general literature on agenda setting provides insights that can help to understand how governing elites respond to demands for institutional reform in consolidated democracies. Sequential models, derived originally from systems theory, suggest that several distinct steps can be distinguished in the policy making process:¹

1. The *agenda-setting* stage in the public sphere, engaging the public, political parties, the media, advocacy NGOs, and the international community, where public concern is mobilized by elites to heighten the salience of electoral malpractices as major problems that need to be addressed.
2. The *policy-making* stage in the state, where governing elites respond to issues of public concern, policy options are formulated, coalitions are built, and regulatory policies are adopted, directly engaging decisions by political parties in the legislature and governing elites in the executive, as well as indirectly influencing the public via referendums and initiatives.
3. The *implementation* stage, where the revised regulatory framework is put into practice in subsequent elections, involving election management bodies, public officials, and the courts.
4. The *evaluation feedback loop*, when learning about the consequences of the new regulatory framework reduces concern about electoral malpractices or else generates further demands for subsequent amendments.

Maintaining the Status Quo and Institutional Equilibrium

During recent decades there have been few fundamental changes to the electoral system used for the Lower House of national parliaments in mature democracies; indeed, since 1980, the only instances are France (1985, 1986), Italy (1993, 2005), New Zealand (1993), and Japan (1994).² The most recent attempt at changing the UK's Westminster system from First Past the Post (Single Member Plurality) to the Alternative Vote in May 2011 was defeated by referendum. Given this record, public concern about electoral malpractices is suspected to have little impact, if any, on the institutional equilibrium established among governing elites.

Most accounts assume that political actors have a profound interest in shaping institutions to their advantage. Rational choice theories emphasize that electoral reform is an elite-level, two-stage game among political parties, where the outcome depends primarily on the calculation of gains for office holders. In support of this view, Carles Boix argues that the choice of electoral systems derives from the decisions ruling parties make to maximize their representation.³ As long as the electoral arena does not alter and the current electoral rules benefit the ruling parties, the result is stasis. If the electoral arena changes, however – for example, with the rise of new parties caused by the entry of new voters or a shift in voters' preferences – then ruling parties are more likely to modify the electoral system. Similarly, Kenneth Benoit posits that electoral laws change when two conditions are fulfilled: (1) when a party coalition forms with the power to alter electoral rules, and (2) where each party in the coalition expects to benefit by gaining more seats under alternative electoral institutions.⁴ Echoing these views, Josep Colomer argues that incumbent parties in assemblies and governments tend to prefer the electoral formulas that reinforce their power, although party fragmentation in many countries, with the entry of new players such as regional, green, and radical right parties, gradually encourage the adoption of more inclusive formulas.⁵ From this perspective, the public may demand an end to election corruption scandals or irregularities, but it would be naïve to assume that political parties will necessarily respond to these concerns, particularly if the outcome runs counter to their interests. Rational choice accounts predict a mismatch between the public agenda and the party agenda regarding electoral system reform, even in the most democratic states.⁶

In many cases, as well, public protests against perceived electoral malpractices occurring in a particular contest are usually not sustained over a lengthy period. Even prominent claims of electoral fraud, fiddled ballots, and voter suppression – such as in Mexico, Malaysia, and Russia – often generated only sporadic protests among activists that fade away once the election is over, especially following a decisive victory for one side, where there is no consensus about potential policy solutions among reformers, and where there is no obvious scapegoat for the public's ire.⁷ Those seeking to amend electoral laws need to overcome cultural traditions, the power of vested interests, and divisions over the choice of alternative systems within reform coalitions.⁸ If they are seeking to revise constitutional provisions for elections, they may face even higher hurdles.

Moreover, agenda-setting theories suggest that governing elites in representative democracies usually respond to issues of public concern. With many standard policies, such as the public preferences for spending on welfare, education, or defense, thermostatic models have found that elected officials prove fairly responsive to public concerns, and, in turn, the public adjusts spending priorities in response to government expenditure.⁹ But the strength of the relationship between public opinion and public policy is mediated by the

institutional context. In states lacking effective competitive elections caused by malpractices, these links may be attenuated or even broken entirely. Since electoral malpractices undermine the accountability of elected officials and governments to the electorate, the mechanisms underlying policy responsiveness may fail to operate. In this context, corrupt politicians can be expected to get away with blatant vote buying, fraudulent ballot stuffing, or intimidation of opponents without facing any electoral sanctions.

The Reform Scenario

The status quo arguments usually focus on the stability of electoral systems in consolidated democracies, emphasizing the exceptional cases of reforms that have occurred to the electoral system for the Lower House of the national parliament, including in Italy, Japan, New Zealand, and France. Yet this is only one conceptualization of the notion of "electoral reform."¹⁰ Amendments to many types of electoral administrative procedures and regulations occur far more frequently, even in long-established democracies. For example, concerning significant modification in electoral formulae, mean district magnitude, chamber size, facilities available to voters for convenience balloting, the level of the legal vote threshold required for minor parties to win seats, processes of delimiting district boundaries, the qualifying age of voting rights, the rules governing campaign finance and broadcasting, and gender quota rules for candidate selection.¹¹ The introduction of new local and regionally elected assemblies and elected officials, through decentralization, and expanded membership of the European Parliament are other important reforms. Many of these policies also have profound consequences; for example, quota laws affect gender equality in parliaments and legal vote thresholds help determine legislative representation for minor parties.

In addition, constitutional arrangements and electoral systems are also far more fluid in states that have experienced recent regime transitions and processes of democratization, and with more weakly institutionalized party systems, including post-communist Europe and Latin America.¹² The traditional focus on electoral systems change in long-established democracies, therefore, provides highly conservative estimates of the potential scope and frequency of major and minor changes to electoral laws and regulations worldwide.

The idea that partisan interests and elite actors alone drive the process of electoral reform has also been subject to extensive critique; hence, Katz presents a series of reasons why rational choice theory fails to predict the outcome, including cases where changes are imposed on ruling parties, members of the winning coalition are divided, politicians miscalculate the unforeseen consequences of new rules, parties value long-term change over short-term electoral advantage, parties trade electoral advantage for other goals, and referenda results catalyze change.¹³ Moreover, the wealth of case-study descriptions in the literature emphasizes the complexity of the process of electoral reform, including the convergence of multiple actors and forces, and the impact

of contingent and idiosyncratic events.¹⁴ In describing reform in Israel, for example, Rahat rejects rational choice theories as oversimplifying the complex reality of the multi-stage bargaining process and the motivations of the key actors.¹⁵ In the UK, as well, the rational choice approach fits uneasily with the actions of the Blair Labour government, which implemented a swath of constitutional reforms and new elected bodies that abandoned the traditional first-past-the-post plurality system at every level except Westminster, and thus weakened two-party predominance, despite the Labour Government enjoying a massive parliamentary landslide in 1997 and the largest majority in its history.¹⁶ The UK case under Tony Blair remains a puzzle, according to the rational choice perspective, unless the notion of “self-interest” is stretched so far as to become almost meaningless.

In democracies, agenda-setting theories suggest that when electoral malpractices come to light, and when governing elites are divided about the workings of electoral rules and institutions, then political parties favoring change seek to mobilize a groundswell of general public disaffection to generate pressures for change.¹⁷ This process has been termed by Renwick as one of “mass-elite” interaction: “Where the public is angry at the state of [the] political system and electoral reform can plausibly be portrayed as a (partial) solution to the problems prompting that anger, public pressures for change in the electoral system can be stoked.”¹⁸ The agenda-setting process is led by political parties and advocacy organizations dissatisfied with the status quo and seeking to build support from diverse coalitions of grassroots political activists, social movements, media commentators, and ordinary citizens. In newer democracies as well, transnational networks of activists and agencies in the international community may also play an important role in this process. Depending on the perceived severity of the problems, reformers may demand more effective performance standards in the management bodies responsible for electoral administration, minor revisions of electoral procedures and regulation governing matters such as the electoral registration process, regulation of campaign finance or balloting facilities, or a wholesale overhaul of the electoral system, such as implementing party list, proportional list, or mixed systems to replace majoritarian rules.

In understanding the agenda-setting process, a useful distinction, suggested by Shugart and Wattenberg, can be made between *inherent* factors, focused on preexisting long-term conditions, and *contingent* factors, or tipping points, which trigger a specific event.¹⁹ Citizen disaffection with the general performance of democracy, declining public confidence in core regime institutions, and a perceived lack of legitimacy, all represent inherent conditions heightening the salience of electoral reform on the policy agenda. Political parties and advocacy organizations can attempt to mobilize public disaffection. Contingent factors, by contrast, include specific political scandals, notably Watergate during the early 1970s, Tangentopol in Italy during the early 1990s, or the Westminster expenses scandal in 2009, triggering public outrage with the political class.

Agenda-setting theories suggest that public disaffection, and sustained and large-scale popular protests demonstrating against the legitimacy of electoral processes and outcomes, can be expected to make it more likely, although far from certain, that policy makers will seek to respond through offering legal or procedural institutional changes designed to allay public concern. After widespread and noisy partisan protests following the events in the Gore v. Bush race in Florida in 2000, for example, Congress passed the Help America Vote Act (HAVA) in 2002, designed to replace mechanical punch-card voting machines, to create an Electoral Assistance Commission, and to establish minimum electoral standards.²⁰ Nevertheless, policies may well fail to achieve their intended objectives; for example, tracking surveys since 2004 suggest that controversy surrounding new voter registration requirements implemented by many U.S. states may have slightly weakened, not strengthened, voter confidence in the electoral process.²¹ In general, evidence derived from several Anglo-American democracies suggests that changes to electoral institutions, such as the adoption of proportional representation electoral systems or legislative term limits, have little impact, at least in the short term, on strengthening feelings of political efficacy and patterns of civic engagement.²²

Several scholars support the claim that political actors and governing elites seek to mobilize general public disaffection to generate support for institutional change. Evidence is derived primarily from thick description in qualitative case studies and from analysis of public opinion polls before and after reforms were enacted. For example, after comparing the series of major changes to electoral systems occurring in established democracies since 1950, Katz concludes that “public outrage” was a common catalyst in all cases.²³ For Reynolds, Reilly, and Ellis, as well, electoral systems change when there is a “crisis of governance” involving “huge public mistrust and dissatisfaction with the political system.”²⁴ Gallagher expressed similar views in a vivid metaphor, when he argued that widespread public disaffection with electoral procedures has the potential, like “woodworm,” to undermine the foundations of an electoral system until it suddenly collapses.²⁵ One of the most thorough and systematic studies of the process of electoral reform, by Bowler and Donovan, led the authors to conclude that although it makes sense for explanations of the outcome of electoral reforms to focus on the strategic motivation of self-interested incumbents, ordinary citizens nevertheless also play a role in the early stages of the process, with popular support and mobilization often underlying the proposal or adoption of prominent cases of electoral reform. They cite several well-known examples, notably the Civil Rights movement pushing for the adoption of the 1965 Voting Rights Act in the United States, and public disaffection over well-publicized political scandals encouraging wholesale reform of the electoral systems during the early 1990s in Japan and Italy.²⁶ Democratic theories predict that if there are divisions within the governing elite, then some political parties will seek to capitalize on widespread disaffection, so that public opinion becomes part of the agenda-setting process. Governing elites seek to

respond by implementing legal and procedural reforms. In turn, where policies prove effective, it is hoped that these will progressively restore public confidence in the integrity of the electoral process, although Bowler and Donovan suggest that, once lost, there are good grounds to be skeptical about the capacity of reforms to revive public trust.²⁷

Concession or Repression?

In countries governed by repressive regimes, however, the outcome of public protests against rigged or stolen elections may well be expected to differ. The greatest uncertainty in predicting the prospects for reforming electoral institutions and processes concerns “hybrid regimes” or electoral autocracies, such as Russia, Malaysia, and Zambia, which are stuck in a foggy “gray” zone, stranded somewhere between unambiguous cases of liberal democracy (Denmark) and absolute autocracy (Saudi Arabia).²⁸ A large body of research has sought to determine why some regime changes gradually move toward democracy while others involve factional power struggles among leadership elites, but remain stuck in autocracy. Typically, hybrid regimes hold multiparty elections – but the degree of competition remains restricted in several important ways. During the last decade, as the initial optimism of the inevitability of democratic transitions faded, the literature has proposed several terms for this important category of cases, including “hybrid regimes” (Diamond), “transitional” and “consolidating” democracies (implicitly assuming that these regimes will eventually adopt broader institutional and political reforms, in a steadily progressive trend), “semi-free” states (Freedom House), “electoral authoritarianism” (Schedler), and “competitive authoritarianism” (Levitsky and Way).²⁹ “Precising” our regime categories requires disentangling the multiple components and stages in the cycle of elections, to understand how multiparty contests still fail to generate a “level playing field” that poses any substantial political risks to incumbents. Scholars have sought to draw a fine line between *electoral democracies*, which hold genuinely competitive elections, where the opposition return to office if incumbents lose the popular vote, but which lack many other institutional features of liberal democracy, and *electoral autocracies*, where manipulated elections are a fig leaf disguising effective control by the ruling elites.³⁰

In some cases, public discontent with fraudulent or stolen elections may move electoral autocracies toward offering democratic concessions. Ruling parties may choose to expand voting rights and opportunities for opposition forces to mobilize parties, thereby conceding power. Staffan Lindberg presents one of the strongest arguments that a series of multiparty elections facilitate opportunities for opposition parties to compete, expand public participation, and thereby serve to strengthen human rights.³¹ For evidence, Lindberg compared the effects of contests in sub-Saharan Africa, arguing that a series of contests (of any quality) strengthen civil liberties. Nevertheless, subsequent attempts to replicate these results in other world regions have challenged his overall conclusions; for example, a long series of elections in Latin America

found no evidence that this process led progressively toward more liberal rights.³² These issues are important for understanding whether and how elections contribute toward processes of democratization and regime change, and, in particular, whether specific aspects of electoral integrity and malpractices are most important in this regard. Therefore, in electoral autocracies and electoral democracies, public discontent with blatant electoral malpractices may therefore potentially fuel pressures for liberal institutional reforms that could improve the procedures and regulations governing these contests, but research remains divided on this issue.

Moreover, alternatively, ruling parties may react to any outbreaks of mass dissent by seeking to suppress protest, including by silencing the news media, imprisoning dissidents, declaring a curfew and state of emergency, and restricting street protests. Regimes can engage in active repression and use armed forces to stamp out popular rebellions. If the military backs the ruling party, if countervailing state organs such as the courts and electoral management bodies are under the control of the ruling party, and if opposition forces are divided, the autocracy is likely to survive. Therefore, instead of progressive outcomes, popular protests may lead toward further state repression, as illustrated later by the case of the 2012 Russian presidential elections. The Russian contest was criticized by Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) observers.³³ Once Putin's victory was announced, demonstrators immediately rallied and called for the election results to be annulled and for vote rigging to be investigated. Far from capitulating to public concerns, however, the Duma cracked down after the contest by passing new penalties for unsanctioned protests. Police raided the homes of several prominent activists and some independent websites went down, although this did not deter tens of thousands of citizens from engaging in antigovernment demonstrations on Russia Day, demanding fresh elections.

Fueling Revolutionary Uprisings and Regime Transitions

Finally, in the face of massive public anger, and where there are divisions in the governing elites, then the failure of either concessions (carrots) or repression (sticks) may lead toward revolutionary uprisings and regime transitions. In some cases, mass protests over manipulated contests have been observed to escalate into revolutionary upheavals that eventually lead to the empowerment of new leaders and governing parties, especially where the armed forces switch sides or splinter, the ruling party lacks control of state institutions, and opposition parties are united.³⁴ In particular, if pressures for reform mount and these are not met by the ruling parties, then this is expected to increase the potential for more radical change.

In particular, Bunch and Wolchik emphasize that the second round of democratization that swept through post-Communist Europe from 1998–2005 was triggered in each case by popular protests over rigged election, which led to the defeat of authoritarian political forces and a victory for the liberal opposition.³⁵

This process occurred, they suggest, in Slovakia (1998), Croatia (2000), Serbia-Montenegro (2000), Georgia (2003), Ukraine (2004), and Kyrgyzstan (2005). Similar protests over fraudulent contests have occurred in other countries, including Zimbabwe (2008), Ethiopia (2005), and Iran (2009), although the outcomes in these cases differ. Scholars also suggest that popular discontent with elections can embolden the opposition, outrage over stolen or fraudulent practices provides a single dramatic rallying point capable of uniting opposition forces, and fraud can increase international pressures, forcing regime transition from below.³⁶

Comparing Case Studies

Selected cases can be compared to illustrate these alternative scenarios, each demonstrating some of the ways that regimes have responded to the diverse challenges of electoral integrity. The diverse cases include the 2012 presidential election in the United States, chosen as an example of a series of ongoing regulatory concessions; the 2012 presidential contests in Russia, which illustrates repression; and the 2004 Orange Revolution in Ukraine, to exemplify the scenario of radical uprisings and regime transitions. These cases also demonstrate common challenges facing electoral governance (in the United States), democratic rights (in Russia), and regime stability (in Ukraine). The serious flaws illustrated by each of these elections can perhaps be dismissed as important, but exceptional cases. However, the structural problems these particular elections illuminate have deep historical roots within each country, revealing a persistent pattern over successive elections. The failures these particular elections illustrate and the challenges of institutional reform are, unfortunately, far from isolated or unique.

U.S. Presidential Elections

U.S. contests highlight fundamental flaws of electoral governance and voting administration, and a complex series of partial policy reforms that have sought to address concerns. Problems in electoral administration were exemplified most dramatically by Bush v. Gore in Florida in 2000; since then, several new initiatives, notably the 2002 Help America Vote Act (HAVA), have sought to ensure that every eligible citizen can register and that every vote will be counted accurately.³⁷ Yet many deep-rooted structural problems have not been tackled; indeed, some have probably worsened since Florida as issues of electoral rights and voter fraud have become increasingly partisan, litigious, and contentious during the last decade.³⁸

Estimates about the quality of the 2012 U.S. election are illustrated in Figure 9.1, showing the evaluations provided by experts in the Perceptions of Electoral Integrity survey. For comparison, the figure also includes estimates for the Netherlands, selected as another long-established democracy. As the radar-gram shows, across nearly all dimensions, the United States consistently scores

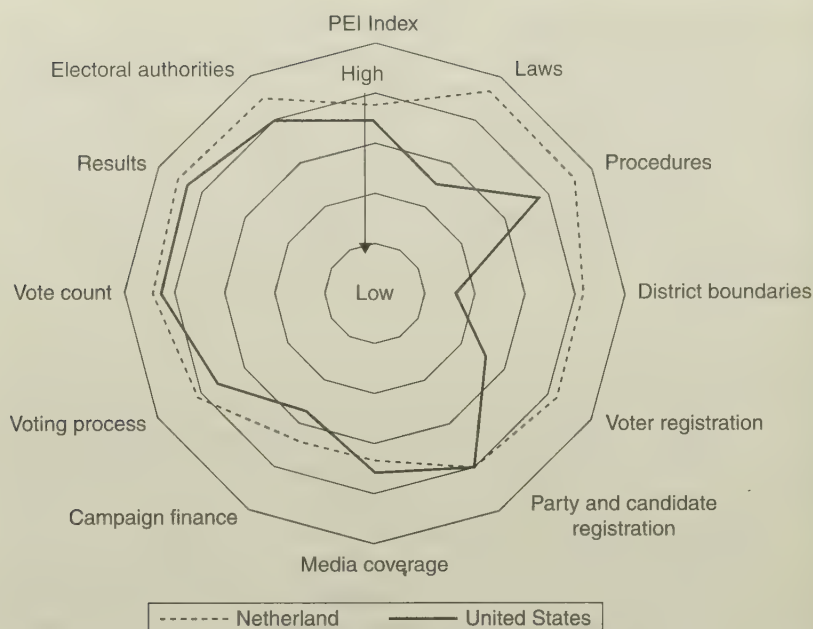


FIGURE 9.1. Comparing electoral integrity in the United States and the Netherlands. Source: Norris, Pippa, Ferran Martinez I Coma, and Richard W. Frank. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*. <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>.

less well than the Netherlands, with the exception of media coverage and party and candidate registration. The evaluations of the United States is particularly critical in terms of electoral laws, redistricting, and voter registration procedures, all reflecting contemporary controversies and partisan divides in U.S. politics. Campaign finance regulations were another weak area, although here the gap between the countries was less marked.

What has contributed toward this performance? Most democracies have established an independent national election management body, accountable to the legislature, with primary responsibility for registering citizens and managing the electoral process.³⁹ In the United States, however, electoral administration remains highly decentralized, fragmented, partisan, and often under-resourced. The Federal Election Commission's role is limited to making campaign finance contributions and spending more transparent, and in this regard they do a fine job, although transparency per se does not necessarily lead to greater accountability. The Electoral Assistance Commission was created under the Help America Vote Act (HAVA) in 2002 as a new federal agency tasked with overseeing and monitoring certain minimum standards of electoral administration, but primary responsibility for conducting elections is specified in the U.S. Constitution as a state-level responsibility.⁴⁰ The 2000 Florida contest in Gore

v. Bush spurred changes in voting technologies and voter registration laws, but the effectiveness of these developments has been patchy. Little attention has been paid to the ground troops manning the local polling places, although the quality of U.S. elections rests ultimately in the hands of partisan local officials, “frequently ill-equipped, poorly trained, part-time administrators,” and paid day-volunteer poll workers.⁴¹

U.S. citizens are required to mail their registration form to counties, cities, and townships, in most places usually well ahead of polling day. One in four eligible electors – at least 51 million Americans – fail to do so. Complex rules and deadlines for registering vary across states, as do facilities for early and absentee voting.⁴² Despite the e-governance revolution, citizens resident in the United States continue to submit handwritten registration forms, vulnerable to problems of legibility, missing information, and processing errors.⁴³ Party activists and voluntary organizations handle, collect, and submit bundles of forms, as do officials of the Registry of Motor Vehicles. The official forms also collect information on party affiliations, released as part of the public record, a potential violation of basic rights to confidentiality. The Pew Center estimates that about 24 million names on the electoral register are invalid or inaccurate.⁴⁴ This includes about 1.8 million dead and some 2.8 million who have duplicate registrations in more than one state. The Pew report suggests that about 12 million registrations have errors serious enough to make it unlikely that citizens can be contacted by mail. In addition, some 3.3 million Americans with felony convictions remain disenfranchised, in some states for life, due to prohibitive legal regulations or burdensome procedures for reinstating voting rights.⁴⁵ Another 4.1 million citizens resident in U.S. territories such as the U.S. Virgin Islands, Guam, and Puerto Rico are ineligible to vote in presidential elections.

Far from making citizen participation easier, during the last decade many U.S. states have passed laws requiring voters to show photo identification at polls, cutting back early voting periods, or imposing new restrictions on voter registration drives. In mid-2012, legislation of voter ID requirements is pending in around two-thirds of all U.S. states, including new voter ID proposals in fourteen states, proposals to strengthen existing voter ID laws in ten states, and bills in nine states to amend the new voter ID laws passed in 2011.⁴⁶ It is estimated that the effect of implementing these requirements in several key states depressed turnout in the Obama v. Romney contests by around one to two percent.⁴⁷ Republican legislators claim that the new rules preserve the integrity of the ballot box. Democrats argue that the changes discourage turnout, especially among minorities and young people. Overall, the immense hoopla about potential fraud in U.S. elections seems largely manufactured rhetoric; a study analyzing criminal cases and prosecution statistics from 2000–05 concluded that, according to this evidence, actual cases of election fraud explicitly intended to affect the outcome of a federal election are almost nonexistent.⁴⁸ Another detailed account arrived at similar findings: Although millions of Americans cast ballots, almost no one knowingly and willfully casts

an illegal vote today, so that voter fraud is a “politically constructed myth.”⁴⁹ Where restrictive voter identification requirements generate a systematic suppression of disproportionately Democratic voters, including the poor, African Americans, and Hispanics, then this also goes beyond maladministration to raise fundamental questions about the violation of human rights.

The problems of maladministration at the ballot box are substantial; however, they pale in significance compared with challenges caused by the pervasive role of money in U.S. politics. Spending is unlimited during the long campaign; in the 2008 Obama v. McCain campaign, for example, more than \$1.7 billion dollars was raised by all the presidential candidates, a tenfold increase since Carter v. Ford in 1976.⁵⁰ The 2012 electoral cycle is estimated to have cost more than \$6 billion in total, the most expensive elections yet.⁵¹ The total costs during presidential electoral cycles has risen steadily from 2000–12 by around one billion per cycle, far more than the cumulative rate of inflation.⁵² Financial donations to candidates and parties are monitored and regulated by the Federal Election Commission. Following the Supreme Court’s decision in *Citizens United vs. FEC* in January 2010, however, individuals, corporations, and unions can make unlimited donations to independent super-PACs supporting particular candidates. Citizens United has reinforced concerns about fairness and equity, although in the United States, unrestricted campaign spending is equated with the right to free speech and others defend unlimited contributions.⁵³ Spending by outside groups aligned in support of a specific presidential candidate is estimated to have more than doubled during the 2012 primary and pre-convention period, compared with the equivalent months during the previous presidential contest.⁵⁴ Inequalities in financial resources can reinforce, in turn, imbalanced media coverage, both through the capacity to purchase paid TV spots and also through reporters’ assessments of candidate credibility during the early stages of primary races.⁵⁵ There are also many residual issues that recur concerning the accuracy and security of the final vote counting process because of voting machines. State laws governing candidate ballot access are also usually highly restrictive for third-party challengers, whereas the manufactured majority in the Electoral College used in presidential contests penalizes third parties that fail to gain a popular plurality of the vote in every state.⁵⁶ Partisan gerrymandering by state legislatures is the norm for redistricting and reducing the number of competitive districts, in contrast to many other democracies that use more impartial judicial or independent electoral or boundary commissions.⁵⁷ The consequences of partisan gerrymandering have caused concern because of the potential consequences of this policy in exacerbating polarized partisan politics. In particular, during the October 2013 budget stalemate in Congress, a relatively small number of members of the House of Representatives proved intransigent by shutting down the federal government and budget negotiations for three weeks in an abortive attempt to defund the Affordable Care Act (Obamacare).⁵⁸ Although ultimately defeated, the effort proved highly damaging for confidence in the U.S. economy and for

the United States' international credit rating. One factor contributing toward the rise of Tea Party members has been partisan gerrymandering, allowing Republican-dominated states to draw ultra-safe boundaries that safeguard conservative members and thereby weaken the electoral incentives for representatives to make broader appeals likely to win support across a broader and more diverse range of constituents.⁵⁹ Gerrymandered house districts are not necessarily a fundamental cause for the rise of the Tea Party, which reflects the success of the radical right parties and discontent with more centrist parties found in many other established democracies, but partisan redistricting can be a facilitating condition, by limiting the traditionally moderating effects of majoritarian electoral systems.

In short, U.S. elections continue to face major challenges when administering accurate and fair voter registration and vote-counting processes, as well as facing broader structural problems concerning the regulation of campaign funding, ballot access, and redistricting. The Presidential Commission on Electoral Administration, appointed by President Obama in May 2013, was established to examine bipartisan ways to shorten lines at polling places, promote the efficient conduct of elections, and provide better access to the polls for all voters.⁶⁰ But the Commission is not designed to address the more deep-rooted and enduring challenges to U.S. electoral integrity.

Russian Presidential Elections: Mixing Partial Concessions and New Repression

Ever since the new constitution, adopted in 1993, the Russian Federation has conducted a series of multiparty contests for the Duma (currently every five years) and the presidency (currently every six years), as well as in the republics and to regional and local self-government.⁶¹ In December 2011, widespread allegations of fraud during elections for the Russian Duma triggered some of the largest mass protests seen since the fall of the Soviet Union two decades earlier.⁶² Popular unrest reignited following the presidential elections on March 4, 2012. Seventeen candidates sought to inhabit the Kremlin, but two-thirds were declared ineligible before a single vote was cast, some falling foul of onerous registration requirements. Five candidates remained: these included Prime Minister Vladimir Putin, the leader of United Russia (ER); Sergey Mironov from A Just Russia (SR); Vladimir Zhirinovskiy from the Liberal Democratic Party of Russia (LDPR); Gennady Zyuganov from the Communist Party (KPRF); and Mikhail Prokhorov, a prominent businessman, ran as an independent. Administrative preparations for the contest, involving almost one million election officials, were reportedly efficient. Voter registers were seen as accurate, with facilities established for early and overseas voting, and special polling places installed in hospitals and airports.⁶³ Two video web cameras were installed in every polling station, viewed without restriction via a public website attracting an estimated billion hits during election day, an innovation designed to restore public confidence in the electoral process. Russia used

a second-ballot electoral system, common in many countries for presidential contests, requiring the winning candidates to gain an absolute majority (50 percent plus 1) of votes, not simply a bare plurality.

The formal groundwork was therefore laid for presidential contests where Putin was ahead, according to the polls, but where multiple candidates competed for the popular vote. The formal requirements specify that members of the Central Election Commission are nominated by several bodies, including opposition parties. Russian law allows for domestic and international observers and accredited observers, candidate proxies, and journalists to monitor vote counts. The playing field during the month-long campaign was far from level, however, despite being nominally competitive.⁶⁴ Contrary to legal requirements for balanced coverage, broadcast news was heavily skewed toward Putin as a presidential contender and as prime minister, in both the time and tone of coverage.⁶⁵ The OSCE media monitor estimated that Putin received around 40–60 percent of the total news coverage of candidates on state television channels during the campaign, and an overwhelming 77–88 percent of the news on private stations.⁶⁶ As we shall see later, pro-government media bias is one of the most pervasive problems of many election campaigns. Local authorities also used their official websites and staff to help the Putin campaign. Observers from the Council of Europe concluded that in terms of media coverage and the distribution of state resources, the campaign was heavily skewed toward Putin: “[T]he voter’s choice was limited, the electoral competition lacked fairness and an impartial referee was missing.”⁶⁷ The head of the OSCE mission concurred: “The point of elections is that the outcome should be uncertain. This was not the case in Russia. There was no real competition and abuse of government resources ensured that the ultimate winner of the election was never in doubt.”⁶⁸

Events proceeded relatively smoothly on election day, although serious procedural irregularities were observed by the OSCE in some polling stations (estimated to be about 5 percent) through practices such as carousel voting (busing voters to cast several ballots in multiple polling stations), illegal campaigning, improperly sealed ballot boxes, and the last-minute creation of special polling stations. However, conditions worsened when polls closed, the OSCE reported, so that almost one-third of the vote counts they observed were “bad” or “very bad” because of problems such as poor tabulations, lack of transparency, or indicators of ballot stuffing.⁶⁹ The NGO Golas monitored the contest through expert observers and used innovative crowd-sourcing social media to collect evidence of overt fraud and crude vote manipulation, reporting problems with the use of absentee ballots and vote counts.⁷⁰ The organization concluded that the Russian elections were flawed by several shortcomings: “[A]n insufficient level of competition, government interference with the electoral process, and some degree of coercion to vote. These elections cannot be classified as free and fair under the definitions provided in the Russian constitution and international electoral standards.”⁷¹

Arguably the most serious problems arose from the lopsided nature of party competition and the pro-government advantage in the media coverage during the month-long election campaign. Independent polls conducted by the respected Levada Center suggested that the popularity of the government had eroded during the previous two years, but nevertheless, by the start of the campaign, two-thirds of Russians expressed approval of Vladimir Putin's performance as prime minister, and similar proportions indicated that they would vote for Putin, suggesting that he was cruising toward a comfortable victory.⁷² On polling day, March 4, 2012, President Putin won easily with 63.6 percent of the total vote, compared with just 17 percent for his nearest rival, the Communist party's Gennady Zyuganov (KPRF).⁷³ This proportion was lower than Putin achieved in 2004 (71 percent) or Medvedev, his handpicked successor, who won in 2008 (70 percent). Ballots were cast by roughly 72 million Russians, or two-thirds (65 percent) of the eligible electorate. Demonstrators immediately rallied and called for the election results to be annulled and for vote rigging to be investigated.⁷⁴ Far from capitulating to public concerns, however, the Duma cracked down after the contest by passing new penalties for unsanctioned protests. Police raided the homes of several prominent activists and some independent websites went down, although this did not deter tens of thousands of citizens from engaging in anti-government demonstrations on Russia Day, demanding fresh elections. By contrast, the chairman of the Central Election Commission of the Russian Federation, Vladimir E. Churov, concluded that the elections met international standards in terms of their organization, technical accuracy, openness, and transparency.⁷⁵ Moreover survey-based studies have found that few Russians had direct experience of procedural violations occurring during elections, nor were many aware of criticisms from international observer reports. In this context, and in the light of Putin's overwhelming lead in the campaign opinion polls, many Russians who supported the opposition believed that protests were fruitless.⁷⁶ In short, the Russian elections exemplify long-standing challenges facing many states where multiparty elections have been introduced yet where patterns of party competition and campaign communications continue to favor the incumbent officeholders.⁷⁷

The Ukrainian Orange Revolution

Alternatively, in the case of several postcommunist color revolutions, including Georgia in 2003 and Ukraine in 2004, popular discontent with electoral fraud emboldened the opposition and triggered international pressures, forcing regime transition from below.⁷⁸ As Bunch and Wolchik emphasize, the number of electoral revolutions generated by grassroots pressures from below has been quite limited and the most successful cases require several facilitating conditions.⁷⁹ They theorize that elections could prove important if these are the litmus tests that citizens use to judge the quality of democracy. If contests are corrupt or manipulated, then this signals that other institutions may also

be failing. Other research has demonstrated that citizens around the world do indeed associate the characteristics of democracy closely with elections.⁸⁰ Alternatively, elections may change the structure of opportunities for dissent, particularly if claims of fraudulent or stolen contests serve as a single rallying call with the capacity to unite disparate parties, civic society groups, and dissident movements opposed to the regime, as well as international allies, empowering broad coalitions to mobilize protest and overthrow vulnerable authoritarian leaders.⁸¹ Close elections, in particular, signal the vulnerability of winners to overturning the results and encourage supporters of the losing side to take to the streets. Contagion effects are also evident, where dissidents learn techniques from neighboring countries and popular protests stimulate demands for political change at home. Not all regime change necessarily leads toward more democratic outcomes, however, and some contests that have seen the demise of ruling party leaders have subsequently registered only checkered progress under new management.

The Ukrainian Orange Revolution exemplifies the way that elections can act as a mode of regime change. President Leonid Kuchma had ruled Ukraine since 1994 and he was reelected for a second term in 1999, but his time in office was surrounded by many corruption scandals and weakening media freedoms. A well-publicized scandal where Kuchma was accused of ordering the murder of a popular journalist, Georgiy Gongadze, deeply damaged his authority and after two terms he was constitutionally unable to continue to run for office again. The October 2004 presidential election was contested by two dozen candidates. The leading contenders were the government-backed Victor Yanukovych, the incumbent prime minister and handpicked successor to President Kuchma, versus the charismatic opposition leader, Viktor Yushchenko, leading the Orange Coalition. The Coalition was an umbrella organization for three parties: Our Ukraine (led by Yushchenko), the Socialist Party of Ukraine (led by Oleksandr Moroz), and the Yulia Tymoshenko Bloc (led by Yulia Tymoshenko). In a pact, in return for her support, Yushchenko promised to nominate Tymoshenko as prime minister if he won the presidential election. The coalition included many experienced politicians, many of whom had served previously in the Kuchma government.⁸²

Following the first-round vote, held on October 31, 2004, the two main candidates ended up neck and neck, winning 39.3 percent (Yanukovych) and 39.9 percent (Yushchenko) of the vote cast. Since no candidate won an absolute majority, under the second-ballot electoral system, a runoff ballot was held on November 21, 2004 among the top two contenders. Protests began just after the second round of voting, as the official count by the Central Election Commission reported that Yanukovych won by a 3 percent lead, in sharp contrast to the exit poll results, which gave Yushchenko up to an 11 percent lead. The next day, massive protests, strikes, and sit-ins started in cities across Ukraine, many participants wearing orange or carrying orange flags, with around 500,000 demonstrators in Kiev's Independence Square. Civil society groups were well organized

and engaged. Protests spread, with activists peacefully marching in front of the headquarters of the Ukrainian parliament in Kiev, as well as mobilizing elsewhere in the country. These actions triggered counterdemonstrations of public support for Yanukovich throughout Eastern Ukraine, his base region. The scale of the mass protests was substantial, engaging an estimated one-fifth of all Ukrainians.⁸³ Nevertheless, while there were some cases of violence, in general the security forces refused to crack down on demonstrators.

Opposition lawyers brought case after case of alleged irregularities to the Supreme Court. On December 1, 2004, the parliament passed a nonconfidence vote in the Cabinet of Ministers of Ukraine, a decision that Prime Minister Yanukovich refused to recognize. On December 3, 2004, however, Ukraine's Supreme Court broke the political deadlock when it announced that it had become impossible to establish the election results owing to the scale of the electoral fraud. The Court invalidated the official results that would have given Yanukovich the presidency and ordered a revote of the runoff on December 26, 2004. The contest was held under intense scrutiny of local and international observers, with the OSCE alone sending almost 1,400 observers from 46 states, making it the largest mission it had ever mounted. The preliminary results reversed the earlier results. The Central Election Commission announced on December 28 that the leader of the Orange Coalition, Viktor Yushchenko, was the winner with 51.9 percent of the total vote, a decisive lead that defeated Yanukovich with only 44.2 percent of the vote. Subsequent attempts to challenge the outcome were dismissed, leading to Yushchenko's inauguration as the president of Ukraine in January.

Many factors are thought to have contributed to the popular uprisings, notably the contagion effects of previous events leading to the ousting of Slobodan Milošević in Serbia four years earlier, and continuing with the Rose Revolution in Georgia. Each of these revolutions was also a result of extensive grassroots campaigning and coalition building among the opposition, mobilizing over fraudulent contests, and providing a successful model for the Orange Coalition. How far was electoral fraud at the heart of the protest? The OSCE report noted numerous problems in the first- and second-round contests, with a rancorous and divisive campaign where state media displayed an overwhelming bias toward the prime minister. There were reports of the abuse of state resources by Yanukovich's campaign, with state employees and students coerced into supporting his party. The OSCE observer report concluded that there were major problems with the lack of impartiality by the Central Election Commission:

During the run-up to the first and second rounds, major shortcomings were evident at all levels of the election administration. The CEC and a large number of Territorial Election Commissions (TECs) were not transparent or politically neutral in the administration of the electoral process.... Overall, the CEC did not administer the election effectively, and thereby did not ensure the integrity of the process ... Voter lists compiled by local government authorities contained numerous errors and omissions ... Observers reported the following irregularities: a failure to ensure the secrecy of the vote; the presence of large numbers of police and other unauthorized persons in polling stations

during polling and tabulation of results; some instances of voters being “bussed” from polling station to polling station; ballot box stuffing; a variety of serious irregularities in the use of Absentee Voting Certificates (AVCs), which allow voters to cast their vote in a polling station other than the one they are registered in, including forged certificates and multiple voting; and examples of implausibly high voter turnout figures. All these factors contributed to undermining the credibility of both the first and second rounds of the election.⁸⁴

These problems lessened in the final rerun round of voting, although even then the OSCE noted some continued incidences of “implausible” polling station results and other flaws.⁸⁵ In summary, the OSCE concluded that the first- and second-round contests in Ukraine clearly failed to meet international standards, with numerous irregularities. Given the closeness of the outcome (unlike in the Russian 2012 presidential contest), the contrary results reported by the exit poll, and the condemnation of international observer reports, the opposition had every incentive to seize on claims of a stolen contest and to unite and mobilize around these problems. Although many factors contributed to the Orange Revolution, the fraudulent outcome in a close contest helped catalyze widespread protest and trigger a rerun contest, leading ultimately to victory for the opposition.

What were the longer-term consequences and did the quality of elections improve over subsequent contests?⁸⁶ Figure 9.2 illustrates the evaluations for the October 28, 2012 Ukrainian presidential election offered by experts in the Perceptions of Electoral Integrity survey compared with assessments of the October 1, 2012 Georgian general election, a comparable state in the region that has also experienced a color revolution. The results show that across almost all dimensions, Georgia achieved higher scores in electoral integrity according to the PEI estimates. Ukrainian elections proved weakest on the issue of money in politics and the regulation of campaign finance, but on every dimension they performed less well than their neighbor. Nevertheless, Freedom House categorizes both countries as “partly free” in 2012, warning that

Ukraine was heading in the wrong direction on a number of fronts: consolidation of power in the executive branch at the expense of democratic development, a more restrictive environment for the media, selective prosecution of opposition figures, worrisome instances of intrusiveness by the Security Service of Ukraine (SBU), widely criticized local elections in October 2010, a pliant Verkhovna Rada (Ukraine’s parliament), an erosion of basic freedoms of assembly and speech, and widening corruption.⁸⁷

Mr. Yanukovich’s decision to pull out of an agreement for closer ties with the EU in November 2013 led to increasingly violent protests in the capital, Kiev. On February 22, 2014, President Yanukovich abandoned the presidential residence and fled east. Instead of resigning, however, he denounced a “coup d’état.” A week later, pro-Russian troops seized key buildings in Crimea, precipitating an international crisis. Many factors triggered the popular uprising on the streets of Kiev but one contributing factor concerns the lack of legitimacy of the contest which brought Yanukovich to power.

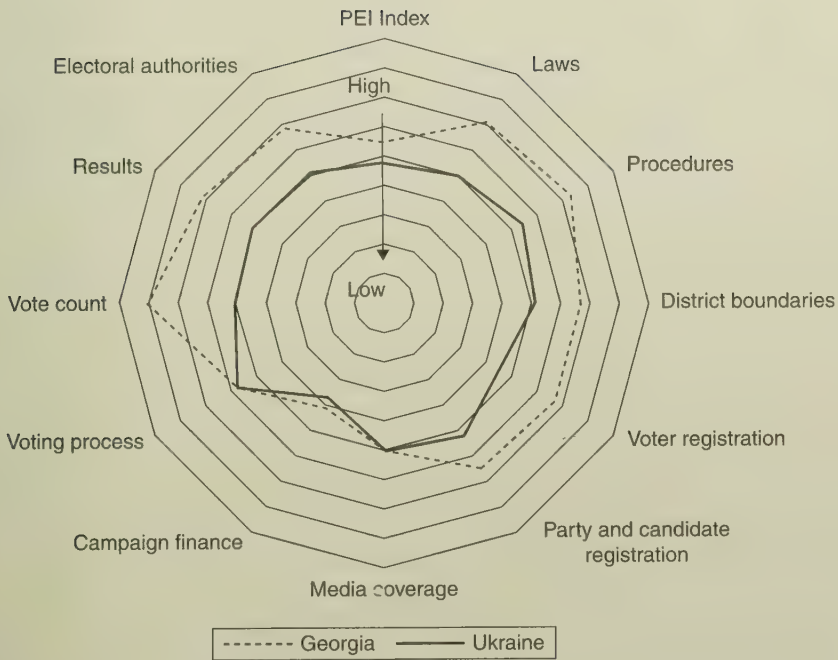


FIGURE 9.2. Comparing electoral integrity in Ukraine and Georgia.
Source: Norris, Pippa, Ferran Martinez I Coma, and Richard W. Frank. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*. <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>.

Conclusions and Discussion

The selected case studies compared in this chapter suggest that despite the tendency toward institutional stability and multiple barriers to change, under certain circumstances, persistent and sustained public disaffection with electoral malpractices, coupled with discontent with the broader political system, have the capacity to mobilize significant reforms to the electoral process, although the reaction of governing elites depends on the type of regime and opportunities for the expression of dissent and disaffection, the depth and duration of public anger, and the balance of power among elite forces and political parties. Thus, in some cases, the outcome is political concessions (and thus a series of institutional reforms). In electoral autocracies, however, protests can catalyze renewed state repression (and a further crackdown on dissent). Finally, in certain exceptional cases, mass discontent can be one of the catalysts leading to revolutionary regime transitions (fueled by popular uprisings and opposition mobilization). But if reformers and governing elites decide to introduce policies seeking to strengthen electoral integrity, what interventions work most effectively? The conclusion considers the menu of reform options that local stakeholders and the international community can employ to reduce problems of electoral malpractices.

PART IV

CONCLUSIONS

Conclusions: Strengthening Electoral Integrity

During the early 1990s, conventional wisdom suggested that the spread of multiparty direct elections would be one major step in the transition toward democracy; indeed, it was often assumed that elections are both necessary and sufficient for democratization. The “electoralist fallacy” emphasizes the idea that the act of holding elections will automatically channel political action into peaceful contests among elites and give the winner public legitimacy, irrespective of the quality of how they are conducted.¹ Staffan Lindberg provided academic plausibility for this idea by arguing that in Africa, repeated experience of an uninterrupted series of multiparty contests, of any quality, expanded freedom of speech and the press, opened space for opposition parties and civil society to organize and mobilize support, deterred strongman rulers from curtailing civic liberties, and thus gradually strengthened opportunities for democratization.² The “electoralist fallacy” continues to be expressed in popular journalistic commentary, for example, when describing Tunisia, Libya, and Egypt as “new democracies” after the first elections following the Arab uprisings. Recent years have tempered the initial heady optimism about the transformative power of multiparty elections, with states now recognizing that elections are necessary, but clearly not *sufficient* for democratic governance without the development and consolidation of many other institutions, including executive checks and balances, an effective and inclusive legislature, rule of law, an independent judiciary, and a state with the capacity to deliver basic public services.

During the last decade, scholarly concern about electoral integrity has been fed by a conflux of multiple streams of new research, although the linkages among these subfields still need strengthening. Thus, a rapidly expanding comparative politics literature on regime transition has focused on defining “hybrid” or “electoral autocracies” as a major category, where nominally multiparty elections are held, yet the outcome is flawed by major

or minor infractions of international standards of elections, as well as by the underdevelopment of other democratic institutions.³ In these regimes, elections serve to disguise the persistent grip of ruling parties, with the fig leaf of popular legitimacy weakening domestic and international pressures for liberalizing reforms. In addition, however, many common electoral flaws and technical irregularities are also observed in many countries worldwide, including within newer and longer-established democracies. The growing literature on the administration of elections in the United States and Britain, as well as across Latin America and sub-Saharan Africa, has started to explore the role, organization, and functions of electoral management bodies and develop a range of performance indicators to monitor and evaluate the work of these public-sector agencies.⁴ Meanwhile, reflecting disruptive outbreaks of conflict in countries such as Kenya, Nigeria, and Sierra Leone, researchers in international relations and civil wars have turned attention to the causes, perpetrators, and timing of electoral violence and what can be done to mitigate these risks.⁵ The work presented throughout this book has sought to build on this emerging literature and to expand the agenda still further by analyzing some of the consequences of electoral integrity for political culture and political participation in countries around the world, as well as considering the implications of public disaffection for electoral reform and regime change.

The emerging research agenda among scholars reflects real-world events and shifts in concern among development agencies. In recent decades, as more and more countries have adopted multiparty direct elections for legislative and executive offices, the international community has devoted considerable resources and technical assistance designed to strengthen electoral processes and procedures, including organizing competitive contests as a standard part of UN peace-building initiatives. Moreover, even long-standing democracies are also not immune from disputes; following the November 2012 contests, the bipartisan Presidential Commission, appointed in May 2013, is in the process of exploring what can be done to strengthen the administration of U.S. contests.⁶ Hardly a month goes by without claims of flawed, stolen, or rigged elections somewhere around the world. Some of these accusations are simply rhetoric from sore losers. In many other cases, however, elections fall well short of international standards of integrity.

In conclusion, therefore, how does the theory and evidence presented in this book throw new light on what has been established previously about the cultural and behavioral impact of flawed and failed elections? What are the next steps to be tackled on the research agenda? And what are the broader implications for effective policies and programs strengthening electoral integrity? This study is the first in a planned trilogy, seeking to call renewed attention to the importance of these phenomena, but in making progress by establishing the conceptual and methodological foundations, it must be admitted that many, many research puzzles remain on the table.

Summarizing the Key Findings

The book opened by arguing that a clearer understanding of this phenomena needs to start by addressing conceptual limitations common in much of the literature. Most of the work has focused fairly narrowly on practices that are described as “fraudulent,” “unclean,” or “manipulated,” although this provides only partial and incomplete insights into the multiple types of problems common today. Similarly, positive notions that are used in observer reports and the news media, such as the notion of “free and fair” or “democratic” elections, also provide insufficient analytical boundaries. The alternative preferred conceptualization used in this study refers to agreed international conventions reflecting global norms, applying universally to all countries worldwide throughout the electoral cycle. This includes issues arising throughout the pre-electoral period, the campaign, on polling day, and its aftermath, not simply crude ballot stuffing and voter intimidation tactics used on polling day. This understanding has the advantage of grounding the notion in universal standards of human rights that have been accepted as legitimate and binding norms by the world’s governments when endorsing international treaties and regional conventions. Elections that are regarded as flawed or failed need to be judged against universal normative standards that have achieved a broad consensus, rather than on arbitrary or culturally specific grounds. Practices seen as perfectly legitimate and morally defensible in one country or region are not necessarily shared in other places, so a human rights framework provides the clearest guidance for evaluation. At the same time, this conceptualization leaves open many detailed matters of practical standards, some of which are already widely agreed in guidelines issued to electoral observer missions by bodies such as the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE), the European Union (EU), and the Organization of American States (OAS), some of which still have to be hammered out. Global norms about electoral rights, originating in the 1948 Declaration of Human Rights, continue to evolve and expand over time.

In light of these concepts, it is important to develop more precise and rigorous evidence about when, where, and why elections fail to meet international standards, with research moving beyond rather impressionistic “thumbs up/thumbs down” judgments and the prevailing assumptions reported in the popular press. Unless all steps in the electoral cycle are monitored and evaluated, then the danger is that any analysis can only be partial and incomplete, for example, by providing a snapshot focusing on polling day and its immediate aftermath, while failing to document earlier violations of electoral rights.

Based on this conceptual framework, the argument developed throughout this book has been that elections with major failures, or more minor flaws, should not be dismissed as technical and abstract procedural issues about which the public is largely indifferent and ignorant; instead, problems with the fairness of the process or outcome have potentially serious consequences. The logic for this study is summarized through the sequential steps outlined in the core

model in Figure 1.1. As observed in successive chapters laying out the evidence, the procedural quality of electoral contests does matter for political attitudes and mass behavior – indeed, in many ways, the study has hit upon the “missing link” which has been unduly neglected in much of the previous scholarship. The comprehensive, supporting evidence available for analysis throughout this study remains less than ideal, not least because new sources of systematic data, which go beyond blanket “pass/fail” judgments, are just starting to be gathered in many countries. In particular, although cross-national surveys are starting to include many items monitoring public opinion, there is nevertheless only limited longitudinal survey evidence to compare how perceptions of electoral integrity change over time in different countries. However, pieces of the jigsaw can be assembled through examining the growing body of indicators, especially from the expert survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity, and newly available comparative survey evidence from the sixth wave of the World Values Survey. Subsequent studies need to supplement these resources by utilizing other types of analytical techniques, including case-studies, event data, natural field experiments, and policy evaluation studies, all of which can help to throw further light on this topic.

What are the key findings from this book? Some problems with the fairness of electoral procedures can prove highly abstract and technical, where it might be thought that the public knows little and cares even less. Matters such as ballot access laws, redistricting processes, and electoral laws may appear arcane and far removed from people’s everyday lives, especially compared with urgent problems of poverty, security, and development in poorer countries. But elections provide the main opportunity for people to engage directly in determining their rulers, providing direct experience of the integrity of the ballot box. Moreover, elections are also high-profile media events with major flaws highlighted by the leaders of losing parties, election watch, and human rights organizations, international and domestic monitors, and independent reporters and social media networks. Among the general public, the comparative survey evidence presented in Chapter 5 demonstrates that ordinary citizens are indeed aware of many types of electoral malpractices, since public judgments about the quality of elections coincide quite closely with the assessments of election experts.

Does this matter? The issue of declining public confidence and trust in political parties, parliaments, and governments has long been a major matter of concern in many established democracies, where it is feared that on the “demand side” of the equation, long-term cultural and generational shifts among ordinary citizens have weakened public support for conventional channels of participation and the institutions of representative government. As I remarked elsewhere, the assumption that the general public in established democracies has become deeply disillusioned with government and politics is so pervasive today that many accounts jump straight into the discussion of consequences and solutions, without questioning the evidence.” Since the early 1990s, many scholars have detected signs of a rising tide of popular discontent and voter

anger in the United States, and deep mistrust of government, with the U.S. House of Congress held in especially low regard.⁸ Commentators have pointed toward multiple signs of contemporary discontent with U.S. democracy, from voter anger against incumbents of both major parties and the outbreak of Tea Party populist rebellion to public frustration with gridlock and divisive partisanship in Washington, DC. Similar symptoms have been diagnosed in many other postindustrial societies, exemplified by mass protests in Southern Europe following the financial crisis.⁹ Hence, Russell Dalton concludes that citizens in advanced industrial societies remain staunchly committed to democratic principles, but they have gradually become more distrustful of politicians, detached from parties, and doubtful about public-sector institutions.¹⁰

Nevertheless, careful analysis of the available public opinion survey data, which I have presented elsewhere in earlier books, reveals that the evidence in both the United States and Western Europe supports the notion of “trendless fluctuations” in many time-series survey indicators, rather than a steady linear erosion of confidence and trust in representative institutions. Hence, longitudinal trends in public approval of parliaments, parties, and regime performance displays its ups and downs across European countries in recent decades, as well as in the United States.¹¹ The public also displays differing levels of trust across several types of institutions; for example, Americans consistently express far more confidence in the U.S. Supreme Court than in Congress. Fluctuating patterns over time strongly suggest that public opinion is driven more by “supply-side” factors, including by the impact of specific political and social events within each society and by perceptions of regime performance, rather than by longer term “demand-side” or “bottom-up” sociological processes of cultural change.

In previous work, I argued that “supply-side” accounts emphasize that rational citizens have the capacity to judge how democracy works in their own country; it follows that public satisfaction in different countries should reflect beliefs about the procedural quality of how well elections work. “Process performance, including both measures of the quality of democracy and good governance, does count for how content people are with the way that government works. In this regard, there is indeed a rational basis for public evaluations.”¹² A growing body of literature has started to examine the consequences of perceptions of electoral flaws and failures for public trust, both comparatively and in specific case studies.¹³ Previous research has often relied on rather limited assessments of public opinion, using single items measuring the “honesty” or “fairness” of elections. The evidence presented in Chapter 6 builds on this body of work by analyzing a more comprehensive multidimensional measure of public perceptions of the quality of elections. Compared with previous research, the World Values Survey data also allows us to observe general patterns from the broadest coverage of diverse types of rich and poor societies and from democratic, autocratic, and hybrid regimes. The results demonstrate that the quality of elections is one factor closely associated with public trust and confidence

in elected institutions. The survey evidence presented in Chapter 6 suggests that stolen, fraudulent, or rigged contests serve to delegitimize regimes and reduce confidence in elected institutions among ordinary citizens, especially trust in elected officials, political parties, and legislative assemblies. Therefore, perceptions of flawed and failing contests, quite rationally, depress citizens' confidence in the main institutional channels linking citizens and elected officials in the representative process. If the procedures for winning office are seen as unfair, why trust elected authorities?

Moreover, the evidence we have presented in Chapter 6 indicates that the quality of elections affects not just attitudes and feelings of political legitimacy, but also patterns of political participation and protest activism. Again, there has been widespread concern that civic engagement has been eroding in established democracies, especially through participation in conventional channels of voting turnout. A wide range of scholars have detected a rising tide of civic disengagement in the United States, notably as expressed through low or falling voting turnout, eroding social capital, and declining party loyalties.¹⁴ In Western Europe, as well, research has demonstrated how political parties have lost droves of loyal voting supporters as well as grassroots members, while studies suggest that electoral turnout has declined in many democracies, at least since the early 1990s.¹⁵ Conventional social psychological explanations emphasize that these developments reflect long-term shifts in society, notably weakening class and party loyalties, and processes of cultural and generational change encouraging protest politics. This book adds to the existing literature by suggesting that a further "missing link" in understanding civic engagement concerns the quality of elections; Chapter 7 demonstrated that perceptions of electoral integrity are significantly linked with voting participation, while by contrast, perceptions of electoral malpractices are associated with protest activism. Nevertheless, although the logic is both powerful and plausible, the evidence remains limited, and further research is required to nail down the causal links with greater certainty, through using techniques such as panel surveys and natural or field experiments.

In turn, elections failing to observe international standards of integrity can be expected to have consequences at macro-level for the state and for society. Where does protest turn into violence? Consolidated democracies are expected to be sufficiently robust to overcome minor flaws about the rules of the game, and sufficiently resilient to use legal processes to resolve disputes, because of the experience of repeated contests over many decades or even centuries.¹⁶ The process of major institutional reform faces many obstacles, not least of which is the self-interest of incumbent officeholders. Nevertheless in established democracies, electoral laws and procedural regulations are amended quite frequently to address perceived shortcomings and public concern.¹⁷ The case study of the United States discussed the numerous proposals for reform in America and the many new laws passed by state governments. Worldwide, especially in weaker states emerging from recent

conflict, where elections are held as part of the peace-building and state-building processes, far more grave consequences are expected to arise from perceptions of malpractices. The evidence in Chapter 8 demonstrated that flawed contests can perpetuate and exacerbate internal conflict rather than help to provide peaceful channels for the accommodation of political tensions and grievances. Electoral violence is a widespread challenge, observed today in around one-fifth of all contemporary elections around the world. Moreover, several types of malpractices raise the risks of violence, especially in electoral autocracies and hybrid regimes, notably post-election protests, and government harassment and repression of opposition parties. Again, further research is required to explore these issues in more depth; for example, using events data to identify many aspects of electoral violence including the main perpetrators and victims, the timing and sequencing, and the underlying triggers.¹⁸

Finally, the issue about how regimes respond to concern about flawed or failed elections raises complex questions that remain difficult to disentangle with the existing evidence, and even more difficult to predict. Chapter 9 suggested that public discontent with electoral malpractices can lead to several possible scenarios: the response may be one of *institutional stasis* (producing no fundamental change to the status quo), *reform concessions* (and thus positive gains for democratic institutions), *state repression* (and a regime crackdown on public dissent), or, in exceptional cases, *regime transitions* (replacing the ruling party by popular uprisings from below and opposition mobilization). The argument developed in this chapter suggests that the reaction of governing elites to public disaffection, and thus each of the scenarios, depend on many prior conditions, including in particular the type of democratic or autocratic regime in power, the structure of opportunities for the mobilization of dissent by opposition parties, the closeness of the contest, the balance of power and divisions among governing elites and political parties, the depth and duration of public anger, and contagion effects from events in neighboring states. Several cases were described to illustrate these processes, and these provide some clues about some of the underlying theoretical mechanisms – although self-selection bias admittedly makes it difficult to generalize from these examples. The cases are suggestive of a plausible story, but extensive exploration of the process underlying multiple cases is needed in subsequent work to understand these issues more fully.

The Next Steps: Explaining Failures of Electoral Integrity

What are the next steps in the research agenda?¹⁹ This study focused on understanding the consequences of a lack of electoral integrity for public attitudes and behavior, suggesting that measures of electoral integrity should become part of the standard repertoire of factors that should be integrated survey research. But answering some questions inevitably raises others. In particular, building on this foundation, what helps to explain the most common reasons why elections fail? And what can be done to mitigate these problems?

Subsequent volumes take up these issues, pursuing the logic of the sequential electoral cycle in Figure 2.2 to understand problems ranging from overly restrictive or biased electoral laws through partisan drawing of district boundaries, the suppression of voting rights, limited ballot access for parties and candidates, lack of a level playing field in access to campaign media and money, irregularities in the polling process and vote count, dishonest and fraudulent election counts, and a lack of impartial and independent electoral authorities.

The legal framework establishes the basic rules of the game and this can be manipulated to facilitate substantial advantages to incumbents, thereby limiting opportunities for party competition, as well limiting equal opportunities for women and ethnic minority candidates.²⁰ All electoral systems and legal frameworks inevitably favor some parties and candidates over others, but the rules of the game can be heavily stacked so that the predominant party and incumbent officials consistently win a disproportionate share of votes and seats through several provisions, such as imposing excessively high electoral thresholds and manipulating ballot access rules. It is therefore important to understand the role of electoral laws in facilitating or restricting competition for elected offices.

The routine mechanics of managing the register of voters and administering polling facilities should have become more efficient, professional, and cost-effective for electoral authorities, given the availability of new information and communication technologies. Nevertheless, ever since Florida in 2000, as discussed in Chapter 9, the voter registration process in many U.S. states has become far more controversial and polarized, with litigious accusations of voter fraud (by Republicans) and claims of voter suppression (by Democrats).²¹ This controversy is not confined to the United States, however, as there have also been several problems in the administration of voting facilities in the UK and elsewhere.²² Demands for “convenience” voting have raised new challenges of the security and integrity of the secret ballot.²³ Countries vary in the nature of the official bodies responsible for maintaining and updating the voter register, the degree of central coordination and regulation of electoral organizations, the role of elected officials, independent experts, party representatives, and civil servants, and the administrative processes used in electoral registration.²⁴ It is therefore important to expand our comparative knowledge about the underlying reasons for contemporary problems of voter registration and to identify the causes of poor performance among electoral management bodies.

Another major set of concerns arises from the complex issue of campaign and party finance. Questions about money and politics arise in every country, although the issue has been most extensively studied in established democracies, including the series of recent initiatives designed to subsidize political parties in Western Europe and attempts by the courts to deregulate campaign spending in the United States.²⁵ The effectiveness of the regulation of political finance needs to be compared, using the database developed by international agencies, to identify countries using spending caps, contributor limits, public subsidies, and

transparency requirements, studying selected cases to illustrate and explain the contrasts in regulatory environments and their consequences.²⁶

A related issue concerns corruption through vote buying and patronage politics. The use of bribery and treating designed to get out the vote used to be widespread historically in many Western democracies, exemplified by eighteenth-century British corrupt boroughs and nineteenth-century U.S. machine politics.²⁷ It remains common in contemporary states characterized by clientalistic rather than programmatic party politics.²⁸ Several case studies have examined how vote buying and electoral corruption works in particular countries, such as in Nigeria, Costa Rica, Mexico, and Thailand.²⁹ It is less well established how far this problem is widespread in many societies and global regions, as well as among different types of regimes, to understand what factors drive corrupt practices and clientalism. Reforms designed to clean up elections may also have unintended consequences by disenfranchising or discouraging electors.³⁰ Evidence needs to be compared worldwide to analyze the causes of this phenomenon.

In other cases, however, exemplified by a series of contests in Putin's Russia, one of the central challenges of establishing a level playing field for all parties arises from imbalanced campaign coverage provided by public service or private-sector broadcasters and, to a lesser extent, newspapers.³¹ Biases in campaign reporting can arise from several causes, not least the way that the ruling party is often covered twice, both as the government and also as one of the contenders contesting elections. The severity of any media imbalance also varies from many factors, including state control of broadcasting, the use of censorship, and the penetration of new social media.³² Cross-national evidence and case studies provide insights into the broader issues exemplifying these challenges.

The international community has also invested heavily in providing technical assistance for elections held in countries experiencing regime transitions, such as following the Arab uprisings in Tunisia, Libya, and Egypt.³³ One of the primary areas of focus has been capacity building for electoral management bodies (EMBs) so that they become more professional, effective, and independent.³⁴ In several cases, this has been a remarkably successful intervention, yet there are also others, such as Afghanistan and DRC, where sustained development seems to have failed, based on assessments of the quality of successive contests.³⁵ Problems can arise for several reasons, especially in weak states, whether owing to a lack of institutional independence; inadequate financial, technical, or human resources; or other deep-rooted political barriers restricting the independence of EMBs. We therefore need to understand under what circumstances interventions and programs have successfully strengthened electoral management bodies – and where and why this process has failed.

Policies Designed to Strengthen Electoral Integrity

Finally, what can be done to improve the quality of elections? Multiple actors within each country have a role in this process, notably electoral management

bodies; executive agencies and parliaments exerting oversight and accountability; political parties; civic society organizations, such as transparency and human rights NGOs and think-tanks; and the news media and social media in strengthening transparency about electoral abuses. The role of local stakeholders is supplemented by the growing engagement of the international community. International and regional organizations seek to strengthen electoral integrity through perhaps the most visible, although not the most costly, set of initiatives designed to strengthen democratic governance. It is estimated that today, multilateral organizations invest an estimated US\$5 billion annually to assist states seeking to strengthen democratic governance – a growing total, although still relatively modest as a proportion of the overall development aid budget.³⁶ What is to be done? What works in practice to strengthen integrity and eliminate common malpractices?

The menu of available policy interventions are depicted in Figure 10.1, depending on the specific type of problem that needs to be addressed in each context and also the role, mission, and mandate of development agencies.³⁷ Interventions range from monitoring and capacity-building initiatives on the one hand, and attempting to improve legal regulations, strengthening accountability mechanisms, and applying international pressures on the other hand.

Transparency: International and Domestic Observer Monitoring

One important type of intervention involves the deployment of international monitoring missions. Regional organizations and development agencies have sought to strengthen the transparency of election procedures and to monitor the implementation of internationally agreed standards and principles. Thousands of international and domestic observers have been deployed in election missions, most commonly by regional organizations, including the Carter Center, International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES), OSCE, AU, EU, and OAS.³⁸ Local election watch and media watch NGOs supplement these activities, along with attempts to strengthen the independent media and civil society organizations.

The extent to which observation has become common is illustrated in Figure 10.2, which illustrates the gradual rise of electoral observer missions from the start of the “third wave” era in the mid-1970s, followed by a sharp increase during the late 1980s. Today, relatively few elections have no international observer missions. A growing body of research has sought to evaluate the effectiveness of this development. In particular, scholars have analyzed whether the presence of observers in certain electoral districts successfully reduces, or simply displaces, fraudulent practices.³⁹ Nevertheless, whereas a growing body of scholarly and evidence-based applied research has evaluated the effectiveness of international monitors, far less systematic work has assessed the impact of domestic monitors, media watch, and “crowd-sourcing” social media initiatives, as well as many other strategies and programs.

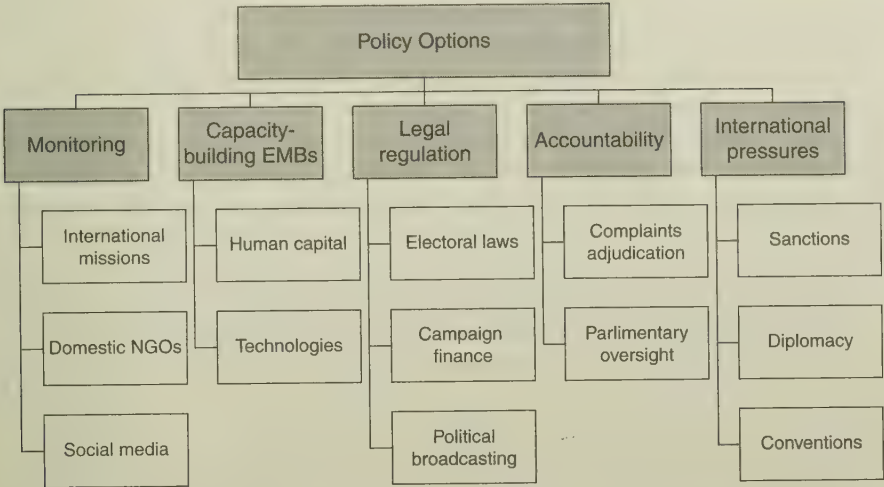


FIGURE 10.1. The menu of policy options strengthening electoral integrity.

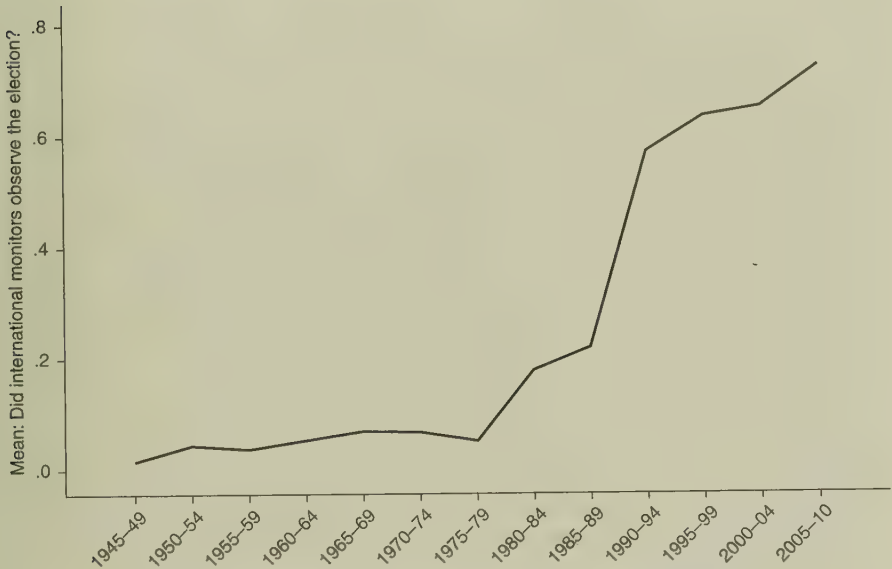


FIGURE 10.2. The growing role of the international community in electoral observer missions.

Note: The proportion of elections monitored by international observers.
Source: *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA) Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/>.

Capacity Building and Technical Assistance

Another major set of initiatives has sought to strengthen the capacity of electoral management bodies and local electoral officials. The UN established a permanent Electoral Assistance Division to provide countries with technical advice for holding elections. This division is deeply involved in post-conflict peace-building activities and it was even briefly under UN Department of Peacekeeping Operations' supervision before moving to the Department of Political Affairs. Since 1991, more than 100 countries have requested and received UN assistance with holding referendums, plebiscites, and elections. Technical assistance is provided in areas such as electoral administration and planning, review of electoral laws and regulations, electoral dispute resolution, boundary delimitation, voter registration, election budgeting, logistics, procurement of election materials, use of technologies, training of election officials, voter and civic education, voting and counting operations, election security, and coordination of international donor assistance.

Similarly, during the last decade the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) stepped up its technical assistance to strengthening electoral processes and management, as did many regional agencies and multilateral organizations and NGOs. UNDP has identified ten main entry points, which currently guide how the organization provides electoral assistance: electoral system reform, strengthening electoral administration, building sustainable electoral processes, mobilization and coordination of resources, civic and voter education, electoral dispute resolution, support to domestic observation, working with political parties, media strengthening, and increasing women's participation. UNDP provides both event- and process-driven support during the electoral cycle. During the last decade, the UNDP alone has invested US\$1.2–\$1.5 billion every year to programs strengthening democratic governance in 130 developing countries worldwide, out of a total UNDP annual budget of around \$5 billion. In total, UNDP has assisted eighty-three countries' elections, with expenditures of approximately \$2.2 billion between 1999 and 2011.⁴⁰ The total cost fluctuates tremendously every year, however, with the highest spending during years of large-scale international efforts to support post-conflict elections, such as in Afghanistan, Sudan, Nigeria, and Burundi. In the context of electoral assistance, the largest UNDP focus area has been on strengthening electoral administration, accounting for approximately one-quarter of the total effort. Initiatives by the UNDP included launching the Global Programme for Electoral Cycle Support (GPEC) in 2009, designed to help countries improve their electoral laws, processes, and institutions and to enhance the participation of women in electoral processes.⁴¹

Many international agencies have also aimed to expand the capacity and professional standards of independent election management bodies (EMBs). This includes technical assistance provided by the International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (IDEA), the IFES, the National Democratic

Institute for International Affairs (NDI), the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP), and the Carter Center, in partnership with regional organizations such as the European Union and Organization of American States, bilateral partners, and local stakeholders.⁴² Elections are large-scale, complex, and sensitive operations, as observed earlier with the Indian case, and EMBs need the logistical capacity to develop strategic and operational plans, to assess election costs and prepare budgets, to improve voter registration processes, to implement procurement plans, to manage the vote count, and to handle any complaints and disputes. International agencies, regional organizations, and bilateral donors have also worked with local stakeholders to strengthen political parties and the independent media; to address judicial dispute resolution mechanisms; to increase the participation of women, young people, and minorities; and to improve civic education.

In response to these challenges, a growing body of applied policy analysis has developed to study the framework for electoral law and administration, drawing from comparative political science, legal studies, and public-sector management. Work has focused on the institutional framework surrounding election rules, including the design and reform of constitutions, electoral laws, and procedural regulations; the role, independence, and powers of election management bodies; the capacity, skills, and training of election officials; legal voter registration and polling requirements; the regulation of campaign finance and broadcasting; the provision of balloting facilities; the establishment of complaints and dispute resolution mechanisms; and the deployment of new voting technologies, including online polling. Ever since the Florida controversy in the 2000 race and the polarization of issues of voter registration and flaws in voting technologies, interest in electoral administration has grown among U.S. scholars.⁴³ New research has evaluated the effects of moving from localized to state-coordinated voter registers, the introduction of new electronic voting machines replacing mechanical models, and the use of convenience voting (such as early in-person voting, voting by mail, absentee voting, electronic voting, and voting by fax) and election-day registration. Whereas work has focused on the effects of these reforms on differential patterns of turnout among social groups, less is known about their impact on campaigns, costs, fraud, security, and party support.⁴⁴ Elsewhere, the impact of independent electoral management bodies on the public confidence and the quality of democracy has started to be examined in developing countries in sub-Saharan Africa and in Latin America.⁴⁵

Constitutional and Legal Regulations

As part of its role in providing technical assistance for EMBs, agencies in the international community, including International IDEA, IFES, the OAS, and the ACE project, have simultaneously sought to compare practices and legal regulations of electoral administration, campaign finance, and campaign broadcasting in countries around the world.⁴⁶ Constitutions can also contain

important clauses regulating the conduct and management of elections. A large research agenda is required to compare the constitutional and legal frameworks governing each of these areas and determining the most appropriate regulations that meet international standards.⁴⁷

Strengthening Accountability and Oversight

When establishing effective processes of electoral management and the legal framework, it is insufficient to promote transparency and effective regulations unless attention is also given to issues of accountability and oversight. Here, both parliaments and the judiciary can play an important potential role, although little systematic research has explored the process of oversight for electoral authorities and dispute resolution mechanisms. Despite important advances in recent years, it has been increasingly recognized that far too many contests have ended with the major protagonists at loggerheads, parties bitterly disputing the results, and conflict spilling over onto the streets.⁴⁸ Cries of fraud are commonplace, especially among losers in tight winner-take-all presidential races. Protests have recently contested the outcome in places as diverse as Kabul, Karachi, Kuala Lumpur, and Caracas. Accusations of vote rigging, corruption and stolen elections are particularly common in cultures stamped by a long history of past malpractices, undermining public confidence in the process, associated with Mexican practices of vote buying by the PRI, overwhelming pro-government coverage in the Russian airwaves, and outbreaks of intercommunal violence in Nigeria. Therefore, we need to establish what forms of legislative oversight make sure that electoral authorities meet international standards and what resolution mechanisms, including the judiciary and courts, are most effective to resolve any disputes occurring during or immediately after elections.

Expanding the Scope of Legal Regulation, Global Norms, and Human Rights Conventions

In many countries the primary challenge is to incorporate and strengthen fundamental principles and global norms of electoral integrity and human rights. This includes both integrating international conventions into domestic laws and also expanding the scope of international and regional treaties as core pillars of human rights. The role of the United Nations in promoting human rights is nothing new, but the end of the Cold War era in the early 1990s witnessed a decisive shift in the priority given to strengthening democratic governance. The General Assembly underscored the United Nations' active support for representative democracy by passing a resolution on February 21, 1991 declaring that "periodic and genuine elections" are a "crucial factor in the effective enjoyment ... of a wide range of other human rights." A series of similar resolutions have been passed periodically by the General Assembly over the years.⁴⁹

The United Nations is committed to strengthening human rights and elections are widely acknowledged democratic principles. Article 21 in the 1948

Universal Declaration of Human Rights declares that “the will of the people shall be the basis of the authority of government; this will be expressed in periodic and genuine elections which shall be by universal and equal suffrage and shall be held by secret vote or by equivalent free voting procedures” guaranteeing everyone “the right to take part in the government of his country, directly or through freely chosen representatives.”⁵⁰ These principles have been elaborated and endorsed in many subsequent international treaties and instruments, notably the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, and the International Covenant on Economic, Social, and Cultural Rights that entered into force in 1976.⁵¹ The General Assembly underscored the United Nation’s active support for representative democracy on February 21, 1991 by passing a resolution declaring that “periodic and genuine elections” are a “crucial factor in the effective enjoyment ... of a wide range of other human rights.” A series of similar resolutions have been passed periodically by the General Assembly over the years.⁵² The core principles have been long endorsed by the international community, but unless the standards of elections reflect these principles by eliminating common malpractices, contests will fail to strengthen democracy and reduce conflict. One major challenge is that international conventions are often not yet fully integrated into domestic laws, so that official endorsement has not been translated into practice. Equally importantly, there are many crucial components of electoral rights, including the role of campaign finance and campaign communications, which are still not covered by any international treaty, even though regional organizations are laying the foundations for a broader agreement. Therefore, there is a substantial role for human rights organizations, such as Human Rights Watch and Amnesty International, to monitor compliance with existing conventions, as well as a major role for norm advocates, NGOs, and leading regional organizations to advance agreement about appropriate standards for regulating money and media during election campaigns.

This volume has therefore helped to demonstrate the importance of the research agenda. Yet we have only scratched the surface to understand the reasons why elections fail to respect international standards and what can be done to address these problems; much work remains to be done in the months and years ahead.

Technical Appendix A: Description of Variables and Scale Construction

Source	Items and aggregation
WVS 2011–2012 <i>Perception of Electoral Integrity and Electoral Malpractice</i>	<i>Electoral integrity</i> and <i>electoral malpractice</i> are monitored using a 9-item battery of questions where responses to each item are coded on a scale from 1 “Very often” to 4 “Not at all often.” “In your view, how often do the following things occur in this country’s elections?” <i>Electoral integrity</i>: “1. Votes are counted fairly; 2. Journalists provide fair coverage of elections; 3. Election officials are fair; 4. Voters are offered a genuine choice at the ballot box.” <i>Electoral malpractice</i>: “1. Opposition candidates are prevented from running; 2. TV news favors the governing party; 3. Voters are bribed; 4. Rich people buy elections; 5. Voters are threatened with violence at the polls.” Items are aggregated for each scale and then each score is standardized to 100 points.
Nelda Electoral Integrity 2005–2010	Electoral integrity was measured in the Nelda dataset using four items: nelda11 “Before elections, are there significant concerns that elections will not be free and fair?”; nelda13 “Were opposition leaders prevented from running?”; nelda15 “Is there evidence that the government harassed the opposition?”; and nelda16 “In the run-up to the election, were there allegations of media bias in favor of the incumbent?” These items were selected as a consistent scale on the basis of Principal Component Factor Analysis with Varimax rotation. The four items were combined and then the score was reversed and standardized. Source: Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <i>National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy</i> (NELDA) 3rd release. http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/

(continued)

Source	Items and aggregation
<i>Electoral Violence</i>	Nelda33 "Was there significant violence involving civilian deaths immediately before, during, or after the elections?" Source: Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <i>National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy</i> (NELDA) 3rd release. http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda .
<i>Peaceful Electoral Protest</i>	Nelda29 "Were there riots and protests after the election?" Source: Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <i>National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy</i> (NELDA) 3rd release. http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/
<i>State Repression against Demonstrators</i>	Nelda31 If yes to above, "Did the government use violence against demonstrators?" Source: Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov, <i>National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy</i> (NELDA) 3rd release. http://hyde.research.yale.edu/nelda/
<i>Quality of Electoral Democracy (QED) Scale</i>	This scale is composed by summing the following items: SF1 freedom to change government, SF2 freedom of association, SF3 freedom of speech, SA1 overall election quality, SA2 extent of problems, SR0STR legal environment, SR11CHEAT pre-election political conditions, SR12CAP pre-election administrative capacity, SR12VIOL pre-election violence, SR21CHEAT polling day cheating, SR23VIOL polling day violence, and SR22CAP polling day administrative capacity. The sum was then standardized to 100 points. Source: Judith Kelley, Quality of Electoral Democracy. http://www.systemicpeace.org/polity/polity4.htm
<i>Contemporary Level of Democratization (Polity IV)</i>	The Polity IV index of autocracy-democracy in the year of the election. The 20-point index is standardized to generate a 100-point scale. Source: Polity IV
<i>Historical Experience of Democratization (Polity IV)</i>	The cumulative Polity IV index of autocracy-democracy since 1945. Source: Polity IV http://www.systemicpeace.org
<i>Contemporary Level of Democratization (FH)</i>	Index of political rights and civil liberties, with the 14-point summary scale transformed into a standardized 100-point scale of democratization for ease of interpretation. Source: www.freedomhouse.org
<i>Historical Experience of Democratization (FH)</i>	The cumulative standardized FH index of liberal democracy since 1972. Source: www.freedomhouse.org

Source	Items and aggregation
	MICRO-LEVEL ATTITUDES
<i>Support for Democratic Principles</i>	"I'm going to describe various types of political systems and ask what you think about each as a way of governing this country. For each one, would you say it is a very good, fairly good, fairly bad or very bad way of governing this country? (i) Having a democratic political system; (ii) Having a strong leader who does not have to bother with parliament and elections; (iii) Having experts, not government, make decisions according to what they think is best for the country; (iv) Having the army rule." Source: World Values Survey, http://www.worldvaluessurvey.org
<i>Satisfaction with Performance of Democracy</i>	"And how democratically is this country being governed today? Again using a scale from 1 to 10, where 1 means that it is 'not at all democratic' and 10 means that it is 'completely democratic,' what position would you choose?" Source: World Values Survey
<i>Democratic Values</i>	"How important is it for you to live in a country that is governed democratically? On this scale where 1 means it is 'not at all important' and 10 means 'absolutely important' what position would you choose?" Source: World Values Survey
<i>Respect for Human Rights</i>	"How much respect is there for individual human rights nowadays in this country? Do you feel there is[:] A great deal of respect for individual human rights, Fairly much respect, Not much respect, No respect at all." Source: World Values Survey
<i>Confidence in Elected Institutions</i>	"I am going to name a number of organizations. For each one, could you tell me how much confidence you have in them: is it a great deal of confidence, quite a lot of confidence, not very much confidence or none at all?... The government (in your nation's capital), Political parties, Parliament." Twelve-point scale standardized to 100 points. Source: World Values Survey
<i>National Pride</i>	"How proud are you to be [*]? Very proud, quite proud, not very proud, not at all proud." Source: World Values Survey
<i>Voting Participation</i>	"When elections take place, do you vote always, usually or never? Please tell me separately for each of the following levels ... local level, national level."

(continued)

Source	Items and aggregation
<i>Protest Activism</i>	"Now I'd like you to look at this card. I'm going to read out some forms of political action that people can take, and I'd like you to tell me, for each one, whether you have done any of these things, whether you might do it, or would never under any circumstances do it ... Attending peaceful demonstrations, Joining strikes, Joining in boycotts." Nine-point scale added and reversed. Source: World Values Survey
<i>Life Satisfaction</i>	"All things considered, how satisfied are you with your life as a whole these days? Using this card on which 1 means you are 'completely dissatisfied' and 10 means you are 'completely satisfied' where would you put your satisfaction with your life as a whole?" Source: World Values Survey
MICRO-LEVEL CONTROLS	
<i>Education</i>	V217. "What is the highest educational level that you have ever attained?" Coded on a 9-point scale from no formal education (1) to university level with degree (9). Source: World Values Survey
<i>Age</i>	Age coded in continuous years derived from date of birth. Source: World Values Survey
<i>Household Income</i>	V253. "On this card is a scale of incomes on which 1 indicates the 'lowest income decile' and 10 the 'highest income decile' in your country. We would like to know in what group your household is. Please, specify the appropriate number, counting all wages, salaries, pensions and other incomes that come in. (Code one number)." Source: World Values Survey
<i>Education Scale</i>	V238. "What is the highest educational level that you have attained? [NOTE: if respondent indicates to be a student, code highest level s/he expects to complete]: (1) No formal education; (2) Incomplete primary school; (3) Complete primary school; (4) Incomplete secondary school: technical/vocational type; (5) Complete secondary school: technical/vocational type; (6) Incomplete secondary: university-preparatory type; (7) Complete secondary: university-preparatory type; (8) Some university-level education, without degree; (9) University-level education, with degree." Source: World Values Survey

Source	Items and aggregation
Urbanization	Population size of town coded: Fewer than 2,000; 2,000–5,000; 5,000–10,000; 10,000–20,000; 20,000–50,000; 50,000–100,000; 100,000–500,000; 500,000+. <i>Source:</i> World Values Survey
Economic Growth	MACRO-LEVEL CONTROLS Annual percentage growth rate of per capita gross domestic product (GDP) at market prices based on constant local prices. <i>Source:</i> Penn World Tables
Economic Development	Per capita GDP at market prices based on constant local prices. <i>Source:</i> Penn World Tables
Internal Armed Conflict	“Internal armed conflict” is defined as that which occurs between the government of a state and one or more internal opposition group(s) without intervention from other states. The Uppsala Conflict Data Program (UCDP) measure is coded on a 4-point ordinal scale depending on the incidence and magnitude of conflict (depending on the number of battle-related deaths): (0) no interstate conflict, (1) minor interstate-armed conflict, (2) interstate intermediate-armed conflict, and (3) interstate war. The measure indicates the incidence and severity of internal armed conflict. <i>Source:</i> UCDP/PRIO Armed Conflict Dataset V4.0 1946–2007
Geographic Latitude	The absolute value of the latitude from the equator of the capital city, divided by ninety (to take values between 0 and 1). <i>Source:</i> Quality of Government dataset www.qog.pol.gu.se/
Ethno-Linguistic Fractionalization	The share of languages spoken as “mother tongues” in each country, generally derived from national census data, as reported in the <i>Encyclopedia Britannica</i> 2001. The fractionalization index is computed as one minus the Herfindahl index of ethnolinguistic group share, reflecting the probability that two randomly selected individuals from a population belonged to different groups. <i>Source:</i> Quality of Government dataset www.qog.pol.gu.se/

(continued)

Source	Items and aggregation
Religious Fractionalization	The share of the population adhering to different religions in each country, as reported in the <i>Encyclopedia Britannica</i> 2001 and related sources. The fractionalization index is computed as one minus the Herfindahl index of ethnoreligious group share, reflecting the probability that two randomly selected individuals from a population belonged to different groups. Source: Quality of Government dataset www.qog.pol.gu.se/
Population Size	The estimates of total population per state (thousands). Sources: Penn World Tables
Electoral System	The type of electoral system used for the lower house of the national parliament. Coded (1) majoritarian or preferential vote, (2) mixed member majority or block vote, and (3) list PR. Source: Geering, Thacker, and Moreno www.bu.edu/sthacker/data.htm
Unitarism	Average of non-federalism and non-bicameralism. Source: Geering, Thacker, and Moreno www.bu.edu/sthacker/data.htm
Parliamentarism	Coded (0) Presidential, (1) Mixed, and (2) Parliamentary. Source: Geering, Thacker, and Moreno www.bu.edu/sthacker/data.htm

Note: For more details, see Jan Teorell, Marcus Samanni, Nicholas Charron, Soren Holmberg, and Bo Rothstein, *The Quality of Government Dataset Codebook*, available at www.qog.pol.gu.se

Technical Appendix B: Questions in the Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity

Period	Sections	Questions
Pre-election	1. Electoral Laws	1. Electoral laws were unfair to smaller parties
		2. Electoral laws favored the governing party or parties
		3. Election laws restricted citizens' rights
	2. Electoral Procedures	4. Elections were well managed
		5. Information about voting procedures was widely available
		6. Election officials were fair
		7. Elections were conducted in accordance with the law
	3. District Boundaries	8. Boundaries discriminated against some parties
		9. Boundaries favored incumbents
		10. Boundaries were impartial
	4. Voter Registration	11. Some citizens were not listed in the register
		12. The electoral register was inaccurate
		13. Some ineligible electors were registered
	5. Registration Process for Parties and Candidates to Get on the Ballot	14. Some opposition candidates were prevented from running
		15. Women had equal opportunities to run for office
		16. Ethnic and national minorities had equal opportunities to run for office
		17. Only top party leaders selected candidates
		18. Some parties/candidates were restricted from holding campaign rallies

(continued)

Period	Sections	Questions		
Campaign	6. Media's Coverage of These Elections	19. Newspapers provided balanced election news		
		20. TV news favored the governing party		
		21. Parties/candidates had fair access to political broadcasts and advertising		
		22. Journalists provided fair coverage of the elections		
		23. Social media were used to expose electoral fraud		
	7. Campaign Finance	24. Parties/candidates had equitable access to public subsidies		
		25. Parties/candidates had equitable access to political donations		
		26. Parties/candidates publish transparent financial accounts		
		27. Rich people buy elections		
		28. Some states' resources were improperly used for campaigning		
Election Day	8. When Voting	29. Some voters were threatened with violence at the polls		
		30. Some fraudulent votes were cast		
		31. The process of voting was easy		
		32. Voters were offered a genuine choice at the ballot box		
		33. Postal ballots were available		
		34. Special voting facilities were available for the disabled		
		35. National citizens living abroad could vote		
		36. Some form of Internet voting was available		
		Post-election	9. After the Polls Closed	37. Ballot boxes were secure
				38. The results were announced without undue delay
39. Votes were counted fairly				
40. International election monitors were restricted				
41. Domestic election monitors were restricted				
10. Official Results announced	42. Parties/candidates challenged the results			
	43. The election led to peaceful protests			
	44. The election triggered violent protests			
11. Electoral Authorities Administering Elections	45. Any disputes were resolved through legal channels			
	46. The election authorities were impartial			
	47. The authorities distributed information to citizens			
	48. The authorities allowed public scrutiny of their performance			
	49. The election authorities performed well			

Source: Pippa Norris, Ferran Martinez I Coma, and Richard W. Frank. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*. Available at www.electoralintegrityproject.com

Technical Appendix C: Electoral Context and Background in the Selected Cases

Country	Month/Year of WVS Survey	Year/Type of Previous National Election	Level of Liberal Democracy, 2011	Notes about Election	Election Results: Governing Party(ies)
Australia	2012	Parliamentary August 21, 2010	100	The August 21, 2010 snap federal elections to the Australian parliament were for 40 Senate and 150 House of Representative seats. The Australian Labor Party won with 35.3% of the valid votes, but with only 15 seats, while the Liberal Party got 21% of the vote, but won 18 seats. Julia Gillard assembled a minority coalition government with the support of three independent and one Green MP. National Assembly (<i>Milli Majlis</i>) elections saw 125 members elected by absolute majority vote in single-member constituencies, abandoning the mixed system with 25 proportional representation seats used in 2005. The ruling party, the Yeni Azerbaijan Party (YAP), swept 46% of the vote and 71 (56.8%) seats, with independents winning 48% of the vote. Other parties are suppressed. Human Rights Watch noted that the government has cracked down, at times violently, on all forms of public protest, restricted journalists, and imprisoned activists on politically motivated charges. The Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) observer report of the election strongly condemned the process. ¹	Australian Labor Party (ALP)
Azerbaijan	December 8–30, 2011	Parliamentary November 2010	36		Yeni Azerbaijan Party (YAP)

Country	Month/Year of WVS Survey	Year/Type of Previous National Election	Level of Liberal Democracy, 2011	Notes about Election	Election Results: Governing Party(ies)
Chile	December 1-19, 2011	Presidential December 13, 2009 and January 27, 2010	100	The December 2010 second-round presidential elections saw the victory of Miguel Juan Sebastián Pinera for the National Renewal (RN – Renovación Nacional) Party, with 51.6% of the second ballot votes. He led the center-right Coalition for Change. The Concertación coalition selected former president Eduardo Frei Ruiz-Tagle from the Christian Democrat Party as its single candidate for president.	National Renewal (RN)
Colombia	2013	Presidential May 30 and June 20, 2010	64	Juan Manuel Santos Calderón, candidate for the Social Party of National Unity (PSUN), won 48% of the vote in the first round and an overwhelming majority for his coalition in the second-round ballot (69%). He defeated his main rival in the second round, Antanas Mockus for the Green Party (Partido Verde), who only increased his vote from 21% to 27% in the second ballot. Turnout was low, however (only 44.4% of registered voters cast ballots).	Social Party of National Unity (PSUN)
Estonia	2011	Parliamentary March 2011	93	The ruling coalition of Prime Minister Andrus Ansip, leading the Reform Party, was returned to power. The new cabinet on April 6, 2011 included representatives of the Estonian Reform Party and Union of Pro Patria and Res Publica. In a notable innovation, nearly 25% of voters cast their ballot online. The OSCE report concluded	Reform Party and Union of Pro Patria and Res Publica

positively that the elections demonstrated respect for fundamental rights and freedoms, and a high degree of trust in the impartiality of the election administration.²

Observers celebrated Ghana's peaceful transfer of power after an extremely close run-off election. National Democratic Congress (NDC) opposition candidate John Atta Mills defeated the ruling New Patriotic Party's (NPP) Nana Akufo-Addo by less than one half of a percentage point of the vote. Some problems with the distribution of ballots were found in the rural Tain constituency, however, which forced election officials to postpone voting there. The defeated New Patriotic Party also challenged some results in the courts, alleging vote stealing.

Elections for the 540-seat People's Assembly (Lok Sabha) were held in five stages for an electorate of 714 million people, the largest worldwide. The United Progressive Alliance (UPA) led by the Indian National Congress formed the government after obtaining the majority of seats. The conduct of the election saw a number of allegations of vote buying and irregularities violating poll codes. India also has many domestic election-watch non-governmental organizations (NGOs) in different states.

Ghana	January 1–February 1, 2012	Presidential and Parliamentary December 2008	78	Observers celebrated Ghana's peaceful transfer of power after an extremely close run-off election. National Democratic Congress (NDC) opposition candidate John Atta Mills defeated the ruling New Patriotic Party's (NPP) Nana Akufo-Addo by less than one half of a percentage point of the vote. Some problems with the distribution of ballots were found in the rural Tain constituency, however, which forced election officials to postpone voting there. The defeated New Patriotic Party also challenged some results in the courts, alleging vote stealing.	National Democratic Congress (NDC)
India	2013	Parliamentary April–May 2009	78	Elections for the 540-seat People's Assembly (Lok Sabha) were held in five stages for an electorate of 714 million people, the largest worldwide. The United Progressive Alliance (UPA) led by the Indian National Congress formed the government after obtaining the majority of seats. The conduct of the election saw a number of allegations of vote buying and irregularities violating poll codes. India also has many domestic election-watch non-governmental organizations (NGOs) in different states.	United Progressive Alliance (UPA) led by the Indian National Congress

(continued)

Country	Month/Year of WVS Survey	Year/Type of Previous National Election	Level of Liberal Democracy, 2011	Notes about Election	Election Results: Governing Party(ies)
Kazakhstan	November 11–December 5, 2011	Presidential April 3, 2011	36	On April 3, 2011, President Nursultan Nazarbayev was reelected in a contest that the OSCE observer mission reported was in a noncompetitive environment, given the absence of opposition candidates and excessive restrictions on the right to be elected, freedom of assembly, and freedom of expression, although technically well administered. Kazakhstan's Central Election Commission claimed Nur Otan won 95.5 % of the vote, with a turnout of 89.5 %. ³	Nur Otan
Kyrgyzstan	2011	Presidential October 2011	36	Former Prime Minister Almazbek Atambayev of the Social Democratic Party of Kyrgyzstan (SDPK) won by a large majority of votes (63 %) in the first round. The OSCE report noted that there were problems in the integrity of voting, counting, and tabulation with cases of ballot box stuffing, multiple and family voting, vote buying, and bussing of voters. ⁴	Social Democratic Party of Kyrgyzstan (SDPK)
Malaysia	2012	Parliamentary March 8, 2008	57	Following the March 8, 2008 general election for the 222-seat House of Representatives (Dewan Rakyat), United Malays National Organization (UMNO) won 30 % of the vote and was the largest party with 79 seats. The governing National Front coalition won 140 seats overall, while the opposition People's Front got 82 seats.	United Malays National Organization (UMNO)

Mexico	2012	Congressional and Local July 2009	71	The Congressional and local elections saw the Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI) returned as the largest party with 39% of the vote and 241 (48%) of the seats in the Chamber of Deputies (lower house). Seven parties were returned with Congressional representation, with PAN the largest. Turnout was low (47%), but the OAS mission reported that the conduct of the election was peaceful and satisfactory. The defeat for the governing party was attributed to mid-term elections and a weak economy.	Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI)
Netherlands	2013	Parliamentary September 12, 2012	100	An early election saw the People's Party for Freedom and Democracy (VVD) win the largest share of votes (26.6%), followed by the Labour Party (PvdA). The radical right Party for Freedom, led by the controversial Geert Wilders, came in third with 10.1% of the vote. On November 5, 2012, after negotiations, the new VVD-PvdA government was announced, establishing Mark Rutte as prime minister along with 7 VVD ministers and 6 PvdA ministers.	People's Party for Freedom and Democracy (VVD) and Labour Party (PvdA)
Nigeria	January 1–February 22, 2012	Presidential and Parliamentary April 2011	57	President Goodluck Jonathan of the People's Democratic Party (PDP) defeated Muhammadu Buhari (CPC) to secure his first full term as the country's president. The elections, which African Union international observers deemed credible and largely successful, despite some minor administrative problems, triggered post-election sectarian violence between Muslims and Christian communities in several northern cities.⁵	People's Democratic Party

(continued)

Country	Month/Year of WVS Survey	Year/Type of Previous National Election	Level of Liberal Democracy, 2011	Notes about Election	Election Results: Governing Party(ies)
Pakistan	October 4–19, 2012	Parliamentary February 18, 2008	50	This general election led to a new coalition government of the Pakistan People's Party (PPP) and the Pakistan Muslim League (Nawaz) (PML-N), with Yosaf Raza Gillani as prime minister.	Pakistan People's Party (PPP) and the Pakistan Muslim League (PML-N)
Peru	April 5–June 6, 2012	Presidential April 10–June 5, 2011	78	In the second round, Ollanta Humala – Peru Wins (Gana Perú) won with 51% of the vote.	Peru Wins (Gana Perú)
Philippines	April 18–24, 2012	Presidential and Parliamentary May 10, 2010	71	Benigno Aquino III for the Liberal Party was elected president with a plurality of votes (42%) over his main rival, Joseph Estrada (PMP) with 26% of the vote.	Liberal Party (PH)
Poland	2012	Presidential June 20, 2010 and July 4, 2010	100	The presidential elections led to victory for Bronisław Komorowski (Civic Platform or Platforma Obywatelska), a liberal-conservative party. This built on their success in the 2007 parliamentary elections where Civic Platform was the largest party forming a government in coalition with the Polish People's Party.	Civic Platform
Romania	October 1–December 21, 2012	Parliamentary December 9, 2012	86	The Social Liberal Union of Prime Minister Victor Ponta won an absolute majority in both the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate. Far behind, the Right Romania Alliance came in second place with only 16.7% of the vote.	Social Liberal Union (USL)

Rwanda	November 28– December 10, 2012	Parliamentary September 15–18, 2008	36	The ruling Rwandan Patriotic Front (FPR) assembled a coalition that included six smaller parties: the Islamic Democratic Party (PDI), the Christian Democratic Party (PDC), the Party for Progress and Concord (PPC), the Prosperity and Solidarity Party (PSP), the Democratic Union of the Rwandan People (UPDR), and the Rwandese Socialist Party (PSR). The coalition got 78% of the vote. Other than these, only two parties competed, and the opposition parties remained in exile. The elections saw defeat in the second round for the incumbent president Danilo Türk (independent) by Borut Pahor of the Social Democrats.	Rwandan Patriotic Front (FPR)
Slovenia	2013	Presidential November 11–December 2, 2012	100	The elections saw defeat in the second round for the incumbent president Danilo Türk (independent) by Borut Pahor of the Social Democrats.	Social Democrats
Taiwan	2013	Presidential and Parliamentary January 14, 2012	93	Incumbent President Ma Ying-jeou was reelected with 51.6% of the vote, standing for the Kuomintang (KMT or Chinese Nationalist Party).	Kuomintang (KMT)
Ukraine	2011	Presidential January– February 2010	57	Viktor Yanukovich (Party of Regions) won a narrow victory in the second-round contest over Yulia Tymoshenko – All-Ukrainian Union “Fatherland.” The OSCE observer mission reported that the contests largely met international standards of democratic elections, the process was transparent, and voters were offered a genuine choice of candidates, although the legal framework was deficient and unsubstantiated allegations of electoral fraud negatively affected the election atmosphere and voter confidence in the process.⁶	Party of Regions

(continued)

Country	Month/Year of WVS Survey	Year/Type of Previous National Election	Level of Liberal Democracy, 2011	Notes about Election	Election Results: Governing Party(ies)
Uruguay	October 4–November 28, 2011	Parliamentary and Presidential October– November 2009	100	The opposition leader, Tynoshenko, alleged “large-scale fraud” in the country’s first presidential vote since the 2004 Orange Revolution. The coalition of Western-leaning political factions in Ukraine’s Parliament disintegrated. In the second-round runoff, President José Mujica, from the center-left Frente Amplio coalition, was returned to power with 53% of the vote.	Frente Amplio
Zimbabwe	January 1–19, 2012	Presidential and Parliamentary March–June 2008	36	During the first-round presidential elections in March 2008, the opposition leader, Morgan Tsvangirai (MDC) gained more votes than President Robert Mugabe (ZANU-PF), although officials said that no candidate achieved the 50% required for victory. A second-round runoff election was held in June, but Mr. Tsvangirai subsequently withdrew following numerous reports of systematic attacks against MDC activists, including killings and abductions. Citizens were coerced to vote in the one-candidate second ballot. The Secretary General of the United Nations (UN) criticized the violence and intimidation surrounding the elections.	(ZANU-PF)

Note: The level of liberal democracy is measured using the Freedom House standardized 100-point score based on political rights and civil liberties.

- 1 OSCE/ODIHR. 2010. *Republic Of Azerbaijan Parliamentary Elections 7 November 2010 Election Observation Mission Final Report*. This criticized the conduct as failing to meet international standards: "A deficient candidate registration process, a restrictive political environment, unbalanced and biased media coverage, disparity in access to resources to mount an effective campaign, misuse of administrative resources as well as interference by local authorities in favor of candidates from the ruling party created an uneven playing field for candidates." <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/azerbaijan/75073/>
- 2 OSCE/ODIHR. 2011. *Estonia Parliamentary Elections 6 March 2011* <http://www.osce.org/odihr/77557>
- 3 OSCE/ODIHR. 2011. *Republic of Kazakhstan Early Presidential Election 3 April 2011*. OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report. Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections>
- 4 OSCE/ODIHR. 2011. *Kyrgyzstan Presidential Elections*. OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report. Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections>
- 5 African Union. 2011. *Preliminary Statement of the African Union Observer Mission on the 2011 Presidential Election in Nigeria 16 April 2011*.
- 6 OSCE/ODIHR. 2011. *Ukraine Presidential Election 17 January and 7 February 2010*. OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report. Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections>

Notes

1 Theories Why Electoral Integrity Matters

- 1 See, for example, G. Bingham Powell. 2000. *Elections as Instruments of Democracy*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- 2 Many terms have been offered for this category of regimes. See Thomas Carothers. 2002. "The end of the transition paradigm." *Journal of Democracy* 13: 5–21; Fareed Zakaria. 1997. "The rise of illiberal democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 76(6): 22–41; Larry Diamond. 2002. "Thinking about hybrid regimes." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 21–35; Steven Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2002. "The rise of competitive authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 51–65; Andreas Schedler (Ed.). 2006. *Electoral Authoritarianism: The Dynamics of Unfree Competition*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner; Steven Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2010. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press. A further distinction has been drawn by Brownlee within electoral autocracies, dividing hegemonic from competitive electoral autocracies, based on whether they win 70% or more of votes or seats. See Jason Brownlee. 2009. "Portents of pluralism: How hybrid regimes affect democratic transitions." *American Journal of Political Science* 53(3): 515–32.
- 3 OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission. December 4, 2011. "Russian federation elections to the state Duma, Final Report." OSCE: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/86959>. See also Chapter 9 in this volume, and Mikhail Myagkov, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2005. "Fraud or fairytales: Russia and Ukraine's electoral experience." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 21(2): 91–131; Stephen White. 2011. "Elections Russian-style." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 531–56; Paul Chaisty and Steven Whitefield. 2013. "Forward to democracy or back to authoritarianism? The attitudinal bases of mass support for the Russian election protests of 2011–2012." *Post-Soviet Affairs*.
- 4 Susan Booyesen. 2009. "The presidential and parliamentary elections in Zimbabwe, March and June 2008." *Electoral Studies* 28(1): 150–54; Napoleon Bamfo. 2010. "Mugabe's 2008 Reelection Victory: Issues and Debate." *African and Asian Studies* 9(1–2): 105–27; Steven R. Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2012. "Beyond patronage:

- Violent struggle, ruling party cohesion, and authoritarian durability.” *Perspectives on Politics* 10(4): 869–89; Dorina Bekoe (Ed.). 2012. *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 5 BBC News. May 15, 2012. “Abuse claims swamp Kazakh oil riot trial.”
 - 6 Max Fisher. October 9, 2013. “Oops: Azerbaijan released election results before voting had even started.” *The Washington Post*. <http://www.washingtonpost.com/blogs/worldviews/wp/2013/10/09/oops-azerbaijan-released-election-results-before-voting-had-even-started/>
 - 7 See, for example, the monographs produced by Sarah Birch. 2011. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Susan D. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat’s Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Alberto Simpser. 2013. *Why Governments and Parties Manipulate Elections: Theory, Practice and Implications*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Daniela Donno. 2013. *Defending Democratic Norms*. New York: Oxford University Press.
 - 8 The Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security at: http://www.idea.int/elections/global_commission_launch.cfm.
 - 9 Richard K. Scher. 2010. *The Politics of Disenfranchisement: Why Is It So Hard to Vote in America?* New York: M. E. Sharpe; Douglas W. Jones and Barbara Simons. 2012. *Broken Ballots: Will Your Vote Count?* Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
 - 10 For details, see the U.S. Presidential Commission on Electoral Administration at: <http://www.supportthevoter.gov/>
 - 11 The Center for Responsive Politics estimates, based on FEC data, that the total cost of the U.S. electoral cycle was \$3,082 billion in 2000 and \$6,285 billion in 2012, growing steadily by around one billion dollars for each presidential election cycle. <http://www.opensecrets.org/bigpicture/index.php>.
 - 12 If the estimated total costs of the 2000 electoral cycle are calculated in constant prices, taking account of the cumulative rate of inflation (33.3%) from 2000–12, the equivalent total cost of the 2012 electoral cycle would have been \$4,109 billion, not \$6,285 billion. <http://www.usinflationcalculator.com/>
 - 13 Robert G. Boatright. 2012. “The end of the reform era? Campaign finance retrenchment in the United States and Canada.” *The Forum* 10(2): 1–30; Glenn Hubbard and Tim Kane. 2013. “In defense of Citizens United: Why campaign finance reform threatens American democracy.” *Foreign Affairs* 92(4): 126–33.
 - 14 Chief Election Officer of Canada. 2012. “Issues Arising from Improper Telecommunications with Electors.” *Elections Canada Discussion Paper*. <http://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=res&dir=cons/tele&document=p1&lang=e> The 2006 Canadian federal elections also saw the “In and Out” scandal involving improper election spending on the part of the Conservative Party, violating Canadian election spending laws.
 - 15 Fernando Jimenez and Manuel Vitoria. 2012. “Political finance, urban development and corruption in Spain.” In *Money, Corruption, and Political Competition in Established and Emerging Democracies*. Ed. Jonathan Medilow. Lanham, MD: Transaction Publishers.
 - 16 Stuart Wilks-Heeg. April 28, 2008. *Purity of Elections in the UK: Causes for Concern*. York: The Joseph Rowntree Reform Trust; Sam Buckley. 2011. *Banana*

- Republic UK? Vote Rigging, Fraud and Error in British Elections since 2001. London: Open Rights Group; House of Commons Library. March 12, 2012. "Postal voting and electoral fraud 2001–09." SN/PC/3667. London: House of Commons; Toby S. James. 2012. *Elite Statecraft and Election Administration*. London: Palgrave MacMillan; UK Election Commission. 2013. *Electoral fraud in the UK: Evidence and issues paper*. London: Electoral Commission.
- 17 In 2010, it was estimated by staff at the UK Electoral Commission that around 86% of all entitled electors were registered, down by 10 percentage points from the 1950s. Gemma Rosenblatt, Phil Thompson, and Davide Tiberti. 2012. "The quality of the electoral registers in Great Britain and the future of electoral registration." *Parliamentary Affairs* 65(4): 861–76.
 - 18 Scott Sayare. October 7, 2013. "French judges drop investigation into charges against Sarkozy." *The New York Times*. <http://www.nytimes.com/2013/10/08/world/europe/french-judges-drop-sarkozy-investigation.html>
 - 19 Christian Breunig and Achim Goerres. 2011. "Searching for electoral irregularities in an established democracy: Applying Benford's Law tests to Bundestag Elections in Unified Germany." *Electoral Studies*, 30(3): 534–45.
 - 20 Karl-Heinz Nassmacher. 2009. *The Funding of Party Competition: Political Finance in 25 Democracies*. Baden-Baden: Nomos; Kevin Casas-Zamora. 2004. *Paying for Democracy*. Essex: ECPR Press; Michael Koss. 2011. *The Politics of Party Funding*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Magnus Öhman and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: IFES.
 - 21 UN. 1948. Universal Declaration of Human Rights at: <http://www.un.org/en/documents/udhr/>
 - 22 <http://www.un.org/wcm/content/site/undpa/main/issues/elections/resolutions>
 - 23 European Commission for Democracy through Law (Venice Commission). October 2002. *Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters: Guidelines and Explanatory Report*. Venice: Venice Commission. [http://www.venice.coe.int/webforms/documents/CDL-AD\(2002\)023rev-e.aspx](http://www.venice.coe.int/webforms/documents/CDL-AD(2002)023rev-e.aspx)
 - 24 In 2010, the European Court of Human Rights declared that the ban on the Turkish People's Democracy Party was contrary to Article 11 (freedom of association) of the European Convention on Human Rights.
 - 25 See, for example, Sarah Birch. 2008. "Electoral institutions and popular confidence in electoral processes: A cross-national analysis." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 305–20; Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22.
 - 26 Stuart Wilks-Heeg. April 28, 2008. *Purity of Elections in the UK: Causes for Concern*. York: The Joseph Rowntree Reform Trust.
 - 27 See The Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA; Joshua Tucker. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51.
 - 28 Terry Karl. 1986. "Imposing consent: Electoralism versus democratization in El Salvador." In *Elections and Democratization in Latin America*. Eds. Paul Drake and Eduardo Silva. San Diego, CA: Center for Iberian and Latin American Studies, University of California. pp. 9–36.

- 29 R. Michael Alvarez, José Antonio Cheibub, Fernando Limongi, and Adam Przeworski. 1996. "Classifying political regimes." *Studies in International Comparative Development* 31: 3–36.
- 30 See Staffan Lindberg. 2006. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press. In other global regions, however, several scholars have challenged this claim; see Staffan Lindberg (Ed.). 2009. *Democratization by Elections: A New Mode of Transition*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press; Matthijs Bogaards. 2013. "Reexamining African elections." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 151–60; Staffan I. Lindberg, 2013. "Confusing categories, shifting targets." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 161–67.
- 31 See, for example, The Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA. The report was launched by the International Institute for Electoral Assistance (International IDEA) and the Kofi Annan Foundation in September 2012.
- 32 Jorgen Elklit and Palle Svensson. 1997. "What makes elections free and fair?" *Journal of Democracy* 8(3): 32–46; Chad Vickery and Erica Shein. 2012. *Assessing Electoral Fraud in New Democracies*. Washington, DC: IFES. <http://www.ifes.org>.
- 33 Alberto Simpser. 2013. *Why Parties and Governments Manipulate Elections: Theory, Practice and Implications*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 34 This understanding of sequential steps is similar to the notions developed in Andreas Schedler. 2002. "The menu of manipulation." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 36–50.
- 35 As discussed in Chapter 3, observer reports have been coded and the resultant datasets used in many comparative studies, such as for Sarah Birch. 2011. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Susan D. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 36 Judith Kelley. 2009. "The more the merrier? The effects of having multiple international election monitoring organizations." *Perspectives on Politics*. 7(1): 59–64; Judith Kelley. 2012. *The Good, the Bad, and the Ugly: Rethinking Election Monitoring*. Stockholm: International IDEA; Ursula E. Daxecker and Gerald Schneider. 2014. "Electoral monitoring." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*, Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 37 OSCE. October 10, 2013. "International Election Observation Mission: Republic of Azerbaijan – Presidential Election, 9 October 2013. Statement of Preliminary Findings" at: <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/106901>
- 38 David M. Herszenhorn. October 10, 2013. "Observers Differ on Fairness of Election in Azerbaijan." *New York Times*. http://www.nytimes.com/2013/10/11/world/asia/observers-say-azerbaijan-election-marred-by-fraud.html?partner=rss&emc=rss&csmid=tw-nytimesworld&_r=0
- 39 For details, see <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>.
- 40 Pippa Norris. 2014. "Introduction: The new research agenda studying electoral integrity." Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 34(4) (Forthcoming).
- 41 See, for example, the arguments in Glenn Hubbard and Tim Kane. 2013. "In defense of Citizens United: Why campaign finance reform threatens American democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 92(4): 126–33; David Kairys. 2013. "The contradictory messages

- of Rehnquist-Roberts era speech law: Liberty and justice for some." *University of Illinois Law Review* 1: 195–220.
- 42 Michael X. Delli Carpini and Scott Keeter. 1997. *What Americans Know about Politics and Why It Matters*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press; Arthur Lupia and Mathew Daniel McCubbins. 1998. *The Democratic Dilemma: Can Citizens Learn What They Need To Know?* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
 - 43 Maxwell E. McCombs and David L. Shaw. 1972. "The agenda-setting function of mass media." *Public Opinion Quarterly* 36(2): 176–87; Maxwell E. McCombs. 2004. *Setting the Agenda: The Mass Media and Public Opinion*. Malden, MA: Blackwell; Shanto Iyengar. 1991. *Is Anyone Responsible? How Television Frames Political Issues*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
 - 44 Michael Bratton (Ed.). 2013. *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
 - 45 Seymour Martin Lipset. 1983. *Political Man: The Social Bases of Politics*. Second edition. London: Heinemann. p. 64.
 - 46 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 47 Sarah Birch. 2008. "Electoral institutions and popular confidence in electoral processes: A cross-national analysis." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 305–20.
 - 48 Tom R. Tyler. 1990. *Why People Obey the Law*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press; Tom R. Tyler. 1994. "Governing amid diversity: The effect of fair decision-making procedures on the legitimacy of government." *Law & Society Review* 28(4): 809–31; Tom R. Tyler, Jonathan D. Casper, and Bonnie Fisher. 1989. "Maintaining allegiance toward political authorities: The role of prior attitudes and the use of fair procedures." *American Journal of Political Science* 33(3): 629–52; Tom R. Tyler, Kenneth A. Rasinski, and Kathleen M. McGraw. 1985. "The influence of perceived injustice on the endorsement of political leaders." *Journal of Applied Social Psychology* 15(8): 700–25; Tom R. Tyler. 2006. "Psychological perspectives on legitimacy and legitimation." *Annual Review of Psychology* 57: 375–400.
 - 49 Rick Hasen. 2013. *The Voting Wars*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
 - 50 Richard Rose and William Mishler. 2009. "How do electors respond to an 'unfair' election? The experience of Russians." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25(2): 118–36.
 - 51 Ian McAllister and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663–83.
 - 52 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 53 Harold D. Clarke, Euel W. Elliott, William Mishler, Marianne C. Stewart, Paul F. Whiteley, and Gary Zuk. 1992. *Controversies in Political Economy*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press; Christopher J. Anderson. 1995. *Blaming the Government: Citizens and the Economy in Five European Democracies*. New York: M. E. Sharpe.
 - 54 Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel. 2005. *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Russell J. Dalton. 2004. *Democratic Challenges, Democratic Choices: The Erosion of Political Support in Advanced Industrial Democracies*. New York: Oxford University Press.
 - 55 Sidney Verba and Norman Nie. 1972. *Participation in America: Political Democracy and Social Equality*. New York: Harper and Row; Sidney Verba, Norman Nie, and Jae-on Kim. 1978. *Participation and Political Equality: A Seven-Nation Comparison*.

- New York: Cambridge University Press; Sidney Verba, Kay Schlozman and Henry E. Brady. 1995. *Voice and Equality: Civic Voluntarism in American Politics*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- 56 Anthony Downs. 1957. *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. New York: Harper and Row.
- 57 J. A. McCann and Jorge I. Dominguez. 1998. "Mexicans react to electoral fraud and political corruption: An assessment of public opinion and voting behavior." *Electoral Studies* 17(4): 483–503.
- 58 Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22. See also Michael Bratton and Nicholas van de Walle, 1997. *Democratic Experiments in Africa: Regime Transitions in Comparative Perspective*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 206–10; Michael Bratton, 1998.
- 59 Robert A. Pastor. 1999. "The role of electoral administration in democratic transitions." *Democratization* 6(4):1–27.
- 60 Denis Volkov. 2012. "The protesters and the public." *Journal of Democracy* 23(3): 55–62.
- 61 Stephen White. 2011. "Elections Russian-Style." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 531–56.
- 62 Beatriz Magaloni. 2006. *Voting for Autocracy: Hegemonic Party Survival and Its Demise in Mexico*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Antonio Ugues, Jr. 2010. "Citizens' views on electoral governance in Mexico." *Journal of Elections, Public Opinion & Parties* 20(4): 495–527.
- 63 Katya Kalandadze and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. "Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2004. "Stolen elections: The case of the Serbian October." *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 159–72; Mark R. Thompson, and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3):253–72; Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2006. "Favorable conditions and electoral revolutions." *Journal of Democracy* 17: 5–18; Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2011. *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Post-Communist Countries*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 64 Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51.
- 65 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 66 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 1995. "Democratization and the danger of war." *International Security* 20(1): 5–38; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz, 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3):253–72.
- 67 Michael Chege. 2008. "Kenya: Back from the brink." *Journal of Democracy* 19(4): 125–39.
- 68 Lahra Smith. 2009. "Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya." *Democratization* 16(5): 867–97; Michael Chege. 2008. "Kenya: Back from the brink." *Journal of Democracy* 19(4): 125–39.
- 69 Michael Bratton. 2008. "Vote buying and violence in Nigerian election campaigns." *Electoral Studies* 27(4): 621–32.

- 70 Preliminary statement of the African Union observer mission on the national assembly (NASS) elections in Nigeria April 9, 2011, at: <http://au.int/en/dp/pa/sites/default/files/AU%20EOM%20NASS%20Elections%20Preliminary%20Statement%20-%20final-2.pdf>
- 71 Human Rights Watch. *Nigeria: Post-Election Violence Killed 800*. May 17, 2011.
- 72 Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA.
- 73 See, for example, David A. Backer, Paul K. Huth, and Jonathan Wilkenfeld, 2014. *Peace and Conflict* 2014. Boulder, CO: Paradigm Publishers.
- 74 The expansion in peacekeeping activities and the settlement of civil wars has attracted a substantial literature. See, for example, Roland Paris, 2004. *At War's End: Building Peace after Civil Conflict*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Ho-Won Jeong. 2005. *Peace-Building in Post-Conflict Societies*. Boulder, Co: Lynne Rienner; Paul Collier and Nicholas Sambanis (Eds.). 2005. *Understanding Civil War*. Washington, DC: The World Bank; James Dobbins et al. 2005. *The UN's Role in Nation-Building: From the Congo to Iraq*. Santa Monica: Rand Corporation; Michael W. Doyle and Nicholas Sambanis. 2006. *Making War and Building Peace*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Anna K. Jarsad and Timothy D. Sisk (Eds.). 2008. *From War to Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Lise Morjé Howard. 2009. *UN Peacekeeping in Civil Wars*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Monica Toft. 2010. *Securing the Peace: The Durable Settlement of Civil Wars*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 75 Bruce Bueno de Mesquita, Alistair Smith, Randolph M. Siverson, and James D. Morrow. 2003. *The Logic of Political Survival*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- 76 Christian Davenport. 2007. "State repression and political order." *Annual Review of Political Science* 10: 1–23; Christian Davenport. 2007. *State Repression and the Domestic Democratic Peace*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- 77 Bruce M. Russett. 1993. *Grasping the Democratic Peace: Principles for a Post-Cold War World*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press. p.11.
- 78 Dawn Brancati and Jack L. Snyder. 2011. "Rushing to the polls: The causes of premature post-conflict elections." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 55(3): 469–92.
- 79 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 1995. "Democratization and the danger of war." *International Security* 20(1): 5–38; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- 80 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.

2 The Concept of Electoral Integrity

- 1 Jørgen Elklit and Palle Svensson. 1997. "What makes elections free and fair?" *Journal of Democracy* 8(3): 32–46; Jørgen Elklit and Andrew Reynolds. 2005. "A framework for the systematic study of election quality." *Democratization* 12(2): 147–62.
- 2 See also Pippa Norris. 2014. "The new research agenda studying electoral integrity." Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 34(4) (Forthcoming).

- 3 Martha Finnemore and Kathryn Sikkink. 2001. "Taking stock: The constructivist research program in international relations and comparative politics." *Annual Review of Political Science* 4: 391–416.
- 4 Avery Davis-Roberts and David J. Carroll. 2010. "Using international law to assess elections." *Democratization* 17(3): 416–41; David J. Carroll and Avery Davis-Roberts. "The Carter Center and election observation: An obligations-based approach for assessing elections." *Election Law Journal* 12(1): 87–93; The Carter Center, Atlanta. "Database of Obligations for Democratic Elections," at: <http://www.cartercenter.org/des-search/des/Introduction.aspx>
- 5 ICCPR, Article 25, at: <http://www2.ohchr.org/english/law/ccpr.htm>
- 6 http://treaties.un.org/Pages/ViewDetails.aspx?src=TREATY&mtdsq_no=IV-4&chapter=4&lang=en
- 7 John Hardin Young. 2009. *International Election Principles: Democracy and the Rule of Law*. Chicago: American Bar Association.
- 8 European Commission for Democracy through Law (Venice Commission). October 2002. *Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters: Guidelines and Explanatory Report*. Venice: Venice Commission, at: [http://www.venice.coe.int/webforms/documents/CDL-AD\(2002\)023rev-e.aspx](http://www.venice.coe.int/webforms/documents/CDL-AD(2002)023rev-e.aspx)
- 9 Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE). 2010. *Election Observation Handbook*, 6th edition. Warsaw: OSCE/ODIHR.
- 10 Carter Center, at: <http://www.cartercenter.org/des-search/des/Introduction.aspx>
- 11 Martha Finnemore and Kathryn Sikkink. 1998. "International norm dynamics and political change." *International Organization* 52(3): 887–917; Beth A. Simmons. 2009. *Mobilizing for Human Rights: International Law in Domestic Politics*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Daniella Donno. 2013. *Defending Democratic Norms*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 12 See, for example, Jutta Joachim. 2003. "Framing issues and seizing opportunities: The UN, NGOs and women's rights." *International Studies Quarterly* 47(2): 247–74; Kenneth R. Rutherford. "The evolving arms control agenda: Implications for the role of NGOs in banning antipersonnel landmines." *World Politics* 53(1): 101–31; Justin Gest, Carolyn Armstrong, and Elizabeth Carolan, et al. 2013. "Tracking the process of international norm emergence: A comparative analysis of six agendas and emerging migrants' rights." *Global Governance* 19(2): 153–86.
- 13 Estimated from the Cross-National Time-Series Data Archive, at: <http://www.databanksinternational.com/>
- 14 Daniella Donno. 2010. "Who is punished? Regional intergovernmental organizations and the enforcement of democratic norms." *International Organization* 64(4): 593–625; Susan. D. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 15 Susan D. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 16 Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 17 Art. 2, <http://www.un.org/en/documents/udhr/>
- 18 Par. 62, <http://www.un.org/womenwatch/daw/beijing/mexico.html>
- 19 Article 7, <http://www.un.org/womenwatch/daw/cedaw/text/econvention.htm>
- 20 Par. 86, 88, 91, <http://www.un.org/esa/gopher-data/conf/fwcw/nfls/nfls.en>

- 21 Par. 182, <http://www.un.org/womenwatch/daw/beijing/fwcwn.html>
- 22 Drude Dahlerup (Ed.). 2006. *Women, Quotas, and Politics*. London: Routledge; Miki Caul Kittilson. 2006. *Challenging Parties, Changing Parliaments: Women and Elected Office in Contemporary Western Europe*. Columbus: Ohio State University Press; Mona Lena Krook. 2009. *Quotas for Women in Politics: Gender and Candidate Selection Reform Worldwide*. New York: Oxford University Press; Ann Towns. 2010. *Women and States*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Mona Lena Krook and Jacqui True. 2012. "Rethinking the life cycles of international norms: The United Nations and the global promotion of gender equality." *European Journal of International Relations* 18(1): 103–27.
- 23 Kevin Casas-Zamora. 2004. *Paying for Democracy*. Essex: ECPR Press; Karl-Heinz Nassmacher (Ed.). 2001. *Foundations for Democracy: Approaches to Comparative Political Finance*. Baden-Baden: Nomos; Karl-Heinz Nassmacher. 2009. *The Funding of Party Competition: Political Finance in 25 Democracies*. Baden-Baden: Nomos; Lawrence Lessig. 2011. *Republic, Lost*. New York: Twelve; Robert G. Boatright (Ed.). 2011. *Campaign Finance: The Problems and Consequences of Reform*. New York: Debate Press.
- 24 <http://www.unodc.org/unodc/en/treaties/CAC/>
- 25 http://www.oas.org/es/sap/docs/deco/Financiamiento_partidos_s.pdf
- 26 International IDEA. 2004. *Handbook on the Funding of Political Parties and Election Campaigns*. Stockholm: International IDEA; Magnus Öhman and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: IFES.
- 27 http://www.oas.org/es/sap/docs/deco/ManualMetodologia_WEB2.pdf
- 28 For example, Elections Canada reported receiving tens of thousands of complaints concerning fraudulent phone calls made during the campaign for the May 2011 federal election, where voters were directed away from their correct polling station. *Reuters*. March 2, 2012. "Canada agency swamped with 2011 election complaints." For the UK, see the House of Commons Library. March 14, 2012. "Postal voting and electoral fraud 2001–09." SN/PC/3667.
- 29 Cornelius O'Leary. 1962. *The Elimination of Corrupt Practices in British Elections, 1968–1911*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 30 H. F. Gosnell. 1968. *Machine Politics: Chicago Model*, 2nd edition. Chicago and London: University of Chicago Press.
- 31 Tracy Campbell. *Deliver the Vote: A History of Election Fraud, an American Political Tradition-1742–2004*. New York: Basic Books.
- 32 Raffaele Romanelli (Ed.). 1998. *How Did They Become Voters? The History of Franchise in Modern European Representation*. The Hague: Kluwer Law.
- 33 Alexander Keyssar. 2009. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*, revised edition. New York: Basic Books.
- 34 Marian Sawer (Ed.). 2001. *Elections: Full, Free and Fair*. Annandale, NSW: The Federation Press.
- 35 Spencer Overton. 2006. *Stealing Democracy: The New Politics of Voter Suppression*. New York: Norton; Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 36 International IDEA. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.

- 37 Katya Kalandadze and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. "Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25.
- 38 Richard L. Hasen. 2012. *The Voting Wars: From Florida 2000 to the Next Election Meltdown*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- 39 Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe. 2007. *Handbook for Long-Term Election Observers: Beyond Election Day Observation*. Warsaw: OSCE/ODIHR.
- 40 Ace Project, at: <http://aceproject.org/ero-en/topics/electoral-management/electoral%20cycle.JPG/view>
- 41 Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 42 Andreas Schedler. 2002. "The menu of manipulation." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 36–50.
- 43 John Hardin Young. 2009. *International Election Principles: Democracy and the Rule of Law*. Chicago: American Bar Association; C. C. Donsanto. 2008. "Corruption in the electoral process under U.S. federal law." In *Election Fraud: Detecting and Deterring Electoral Manipulation*. Eds. R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde. Washington, DC: Brookings Institute; Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Chad Vickery and Erica Shein. 2012. "Assessing electoral fraud in new democracies." Washington, DC: IFES.
- 44 True the Vote, at: <http://www.truethevote.org/>
- 45 C. C. Donsanto 2008. "Corruption in the electoral process under U.S. federal law." In *Election Fraud: Detecting and Deterring Electoral Manipulation*. Eds. R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde. Washington, DC: Brookings Institute.
- 46 Cornelius O'Leary. 1962. *The Elimination of Corrupt Practices in British Elections, 1968–1911*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 47 Alexander Keyssar. 2009. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*, revised edition. New York: Basic Books.
- 48 Nettina Tan. 2012. "Electoral engineering and hegemonic party resilience in Singapore." Paper presented at the IPSA-ECP Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity, July 7, 2012, Madrid.
- 49 R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2006. "Controlling democracy: The principal agent problems in election administration." *Policy Studies Journal* 34(4): 491–510; R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall (Eds.). 2012. *Confirming Elections: Creating Confidence and Integrity through Election Auditing*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- 50 International IDEA. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden.
- 51 Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 52 *Ibid.*
- 53 *Ibid.*
- 54 Herbert Kitschelt and Steven L. Wilkinson (Eds.). 2007. *Patrons, Clients and Policies*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 55 See, for example, John Hardin Young. 2009. *International Election Principles: Democracy and the Rule of Law*. Chicago: American Bar Association; Chad Vickery and Erica Shein. 2012. "Assessing electoral fraud in new democracies." Washington, DC: IFES.

- 56 For an American perspective along these lines, see, for example, R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2006. "Controlling democracy: The principal agent problems in election administration." *Policy Studies Journal* 34(4): 491–510; R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall (Eds.). 2012. *Confirming Elections: Creating Confidence and Integrity through Election Auditing*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan; R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall. 2013. *Evaluating Elections*. New York: Cambridge University Press. For an equivalent British study, see Toby S. James. 2012. *Elite Statecraft and Election Administration: Bending the Rules of the Game*. Basingstoke: Palgrave.
- 57 See, for example, Nicholas N. Kerr. 2014. "EMB performance and African perceptions of electoral integrity." And also Antonio Ugues, Jr. "Electoral management in Central America." Both in *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 58 Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

3 Evidence

- 1 Walter Mebane. 2013. "Using digits to diagnose strategies and frauds." Paper presented at the 2013 Annual Workshop on Concepts and Indicators of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 3–4, 2013.
- 2 Thad Dunning. 2012. *Natural Experiments in the Social Sciences*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Jasjeet S. Sekhon and Titiunik, Rocío. 2012. "When natural experiments are neither natural nor experiments." *American Political Science Review* 106(1): 35–57. See, however, Susan D. Hyde 2007. "The observer effect in international politics: Evidence from a natural experiment." *World Politics* 60(1): 37–63; Nahomi Ichino and Schuendeln, Matthias. 2012. "Deterring or displacing electoral irregularities? Spillover effects of observers in a randomized field experiment in Ghana." *Journal of Politics* 74(1): 292–307.
- 3 See Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press. <http://www.essex.ac.uk/government/electoral-malpractice/index.htm>; Judith Kelley. 2010. *Quality of Elections Data Codebook*. <http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/>; Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. 2011. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)* November 10, 2011.
- 4 Eric C. Bjornlund. 2004. *Beyond Free and Fair: Monitoring Elections and Building Democracy*. Washington, DC: Woodrow Wilson Center Press; Susan D. Hyde 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 5 United Nations. 2005. *Declaration of Principles for International Election Observation and Code of Conduct for International Elections Observers*. New York: United Nations. <http://www.cartercenter.com/documents/2231.pdf>
- 6 Judith Kelley. 2012. *The Good, the Bad, and the Ugly: Rethinking Election Monitoring*. Stockholm: International IDEA; Ursula E Daxecker and Gerald Schneider. 2014. "Electoral monitoring." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 7 www.electoralintegrityproject.com

- 8 For more details, see Pippa Norris, Ferran Martinez I Coma, and Richard W. Frank. 2014. "Assessing the quality of elections." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 124–35; Ferran Martinez I Coma and Richard W. Frank. 2014. "Expert judgments." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*, chapter 4. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press. The dataset can be downloaded from <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>
- 9 Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, November 10, 2011.
- 10 See Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press. <http://www.essex.ac.uk/government/electoralmalpractice/index.htm>.
- 11 Judith Kelley. 2010. *Quality of Elections Data Codebook*, at: <http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/>.
- 12 Freedom House. *Freedom around the World*, at: <http://www.freedomhouse.org>. Note that this measure of *electoral* democracy is a subset containing a limited range of items derived from their measure of political rights and civil liberties, or liberal democracy.
- 13 Carolien van Ham. 2013. "Getting elections right? Measuring electoral integrity." Paper presented at the 2013 Annual Workshop on Concepts and Indicators of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 3–4, 2013.
- 14 David L. Cingranelli, David L. Richards, and K. Chad Clay. 2013. *The Cingranelli-Richards (CIRI) Human Rights Dataset*, at: <http://www.humanrights-data.org>.
- 15 Freedom House. *Freedom around the World*, at: <http://www.freedomhouse.org>; Polity IV <http://www.systemicpeace.org/polity/polity4.htm>.
- 16 Andreas Schedler. 2012. "Judgment and measurement in political science." *Perspectives on Politics* 10(1): 21–36.
- 17 Marco R. Steenbergen and Gary Marks. 2007. "Evaluating expert judgments." *European Journal of Political Research* 46: 347–66.
- 18 Mary Meyer and Jane Booker. 2001. *Eliciting and Analyzing Expert Judgment: A Practical Guide*. Society for Industrial and Applied Mathematics.
- 19 See Pippa Norris, Jørgen Elklit and Andrew Reynolds. 2014. "Methods and evidence" chapter 3 in *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 20 Mary Meyer and Jane Booker. 2001. *Eliciting and Analyzing Expert Judgment: A Practical Guide*. Society for Industrial and Applied Mathematics.
- 21 Pippa Norris, Ferran Martinez I Coma, and Richard W. Frank. 2014. "Assessing the quality of elections." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 124–35.
- 22 Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, November 10, 2011.
- 23 See Adam Przeworski, Michael E. Alvarez, Jose Antonio Cheibub, and Fernando Limongi. 2000. *Democracy and Development: Political Institutions and Well-Being in the World, 1950–1990*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 24 Sarah Birch. 2012. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press. For the dataset and methodology, see <http://www.essex.ac.uk/government/electoralmalpractice/index.htm>.
- 25 Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE). 2010. *Election Observation Handbook*. Sixth edition. Warsaw: OSCE/ODIHR.

- 26 Judith Kelley. 2008. "Assessing the complex evolution of norms: The rise of international election monitoring." *International Organization* 62(2): 221–55.
- 27 Todd Landman and Edzia Carvalho. 2010. *Measuring Human Rights*. London: Routledge.
- 28 Pippa Norris. 2009. *Driving Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 29 For details about Polity IV, see <http://www.systemicpeace.org/polity/polity4.htm>.
- 30 Similar issues confront the construction and use of indicators of democratization and human rights; see, for example, Geraldo L. Munck and Jay Verkuilen. 2002. "Conceptualizing and measuring democracy: Evaluating alternative indices." *Comparative Political Studies* 35(1): 5–34; Todd Landman and Edzia Carvalho. 2010. *Measuring Human Rights*. London: Routledge; Geraldo L. Munck. 2009. *Measuring Democracy: A Bridge between Scholarship and Politics*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 31 Staffan Lindberg. 2006. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 32 Alberto Alesina and Enrico Spolaore. 2003. *The Size of Nations*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- 33 Gallup International. 2011. *World Poll*. <https://worldview.gallup.com/>
- 34 Pippa Norris. 2011. "Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model." *West European Politics* 34(1): 531–50.
- 35 See, for example, Katya Kalandadze and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. "Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25.
- 36 R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2008. "Building secure and transparent elections through standard operating procedures." *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 828–38.
- 37 Tavishi Bhasin and Jennifer Gandhi. 2013. "State Repression in Authoritarian Elections." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- 38 Jessica Heinzelman and Patrick Meier. 2012. "Crowdsourcing for Human Rights Monitoring: Challenges and Opportunities for Verification." In *Human Rights and Information Communication Technologies: Trends and Consequences of Use*. Ed. John Lannon. New York: IGI Global.
- 39 For a discussion of the pros and cons of natural experimental research design, see Thad Dunning. 2012. *Natural Experiments in the Social Sciences*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 40 Susan D. Hyde. 2007. "Experimenting in democracy promotion: International observers and the 2004 presidential elections in Indonesia." *Perspectives on Politics* 8(2): 511–27; Nahomi Ichino and Matthias Schuendeln. 2012. "Deterring or displacing electoral irregularities? Spillover effects of observers in a randomized field experiment in Ghana." *Journal of Politics* 74(1): 292–307. See also Kentaro Fukumoto and Yusaku Horiuchi. 2011. "Making outsiders' votes count: Detecting electoral fraud through a natural experiment." *American Political Science Review* 105(3): 586–603; Christopher Carman, James Mitchell, and Robert Johns. 2008. "The unfortunate natural experiment in ballot design: The Scottish Parliamentary elections of 2007." *Electoral Studies* 27(3): 442–59.
- 41 Susan D. Hyde. 2007. "The observer effect in international politics: Evidence from a natural experiment." *World Politics* 60(1): 37–63.

- 42 Fredrik Sjöberg. 2012. "Making voters count: Evidence from field experiments about the efficacy of domestic election observation." *Harriman Institute Working Paper 1*. <https://sites.google.com/site/fredrikmsjoberg/home/research>.
- 43 Mikhail Myagkov, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2009. *The Forensics of Election Fraud: Russia and Ukraine*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Walter Mebane. 2013. "Using digits to diagnose strategies and frauds." Paper presented at the 2013 Annual Workshop on Concepts and Indicators of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 3–4, 2013.
- 44 See, for example, R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde (Eds.). 2008. *Election Fraud: Detecting and Deterring Electoral Manipulation*. Washington, DC: Brookings Institute; Mikhail Myagkov, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2009. *The Forensics of Election Fraud: Russia and Ukraine*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 45 Mikhail Myagkov, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2009. *The Forensics of Election Fraud: Russia and Ukraine*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Christian Breunig and Achim Goerres. 2011. "Searching for electoral irregularities in an established democracy: Applying Benford's Law tests to Bundestag elections in Unified Germany." *Electoral Studies* 30(3): 534–45; Gonzalo Castañeda. 2011. "Benford's law and its applicability in the forensic analysis of electoral results." *Política Y Gobierno* 18(2): 297–329; Walter R. Mebane, Jr. 2012. Comment on "Benford's Law and the detection of election fraud." *Political Analysis* 19(3): 269–72.
- 46 Joseph Deckert, Mikhail Myagkov, and Peter C. Ordeshook. 2011. "Benford's Law and the detection of election fraud." *Political Analysis* 19: 245–68; Walter R. Mebane, Jr. 2012. Comment on "Benford's Law and the detection of election fraud." *Political Analysis* 19(3): 269–72; Bernd Beber and Alexandra Scacco. 2012. "What the numbers say: A digit-based test for election fraud." *Political Analysis* 20(2): 211–34.

4 International Concern about Electoral Malpractices

- 1 See, for example, the *Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security* launched by the International Institute for Electoral Assistance (International IDEA) and the Kofi Annan Foundation in March 2011.
- 2 <http://www.un.org/wcm/content/site/undpa/main/issues/elections>.
- 3 UNDP Evaluation Office. June 2012. *Evaluation of UNDP Contribution to Strengthening Electoral Systems and Processes*. New York: UNDP. This evaluation report noted that the number of UNDP-supported countries has increased from twenty-eight in 2004 to sixty-two in 2011, with the highest number of countries in Africa (twenty-four), followed by Asia and the Pacific (twelve), Latin America and the Caribbean (twelve), the Arab States (seven) and Europe and the Commonwealth of Independent States (seven). In total, between 1999 and 2011, UNDP assisted eighty-three countries with a budget of approximately US\$2.9 billion and expenditures of approximately \$2.2 billion. This represents a range of 5–27 percent of all UNDP democratic governance assistance. The higher end of such ranges reflects UNDP assistance during years of large post-conflict elections, such as those in Afghanistan and Sudan. See also UNDP. April 2010. *UNDP's Global Programme for Electoral Cycle Support (GPEC)*. www.undp.org.

- 4 UNDP. *Strategic Plan 2008–2013*. Paragraph 1. New York: UNDP.
- 5 This search was conducted using a keyword search of [(elec*) and (fraud)] by year 1990–2012.
- 6 Pippa Norris. 2014. “The new research agenda studying electoral integrity.” Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 34(4) (Forthcoming); Pippa Norris. 2014. “Introduction.” In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martínez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 7 Pamela Paxton, Kenneth A. Bollen, Deborah M. Lee, and HyoJuong Kim. 2003. “A half-century of suffrage: New data and a comparative analysis.” *Studies in Comparative International Development* 38: 93–122.
- 8 The Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA. This includes a few countries that have never used direct elections for the legislature, including Saudi Arabia, Qatar, and Brunei, and others where elections have been suspended for an extended period.
- 9 Cross-National Time-Series Data Archive <http://www.databanksinternational.com/>.
- 10 It should be emphasized that this variable merely measures whether a direct or popular election occurred for selecting members of the national legislature without gauging whether it was a one-party or multiparty contest, or whether there was a limited or universal franchise. Moreover, even if the majority of members are popularly elected, many contemporary parliaments continue to contain at least a few appointed members; for example, representing special constituencies.
- 11 Samuel E. Finer. 1999. *The History of Government*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; John Middleton (Ed.). 2005. *World Monarchies and Dynasties*. New York: Sharpe Reference.
- 12 Francis Fukuyama. 1993. *The End of History and the Last Man Standing*. New York: Harper Perennial.
- 13 Thomas Carothers. 2002. “The end of the transition paradigm.” *Journal of Democracy* 13: 5–21.
- 14 Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, November 10, 2011.
- 15 Guy Hermet, Richard Rose, and Alain Rouquié (Eds.). 1978. *Elections without Choice*. London: Macmillan; Stephen White. “Non-competitive elections and national politics: The USSR Supreme Soviet elections of 1984.” *Electoral Studies* 4(3): 215–29; Jennifer Gandhi and Ellen Lust-Okar. 2009. “Elections under authoritarianism.” *Annual Review of Political Science* 12: 403–22.
- 16 International IDEA. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.
- 17 The Electoral Commission of India. http://eci.nic.in/eci_main1/index.aspx
- 18 Krishna Kumar (Ed.). 1998. *Postconflict Elections, Democratization and International Assistance*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner.
- 19 Michael McFaul. 2010. *Advancing Democracy Abroad*. New York: Rowman and Littlefield; Pippa Norris. 2012. *Making Democratic Governance Work*. New York: Cambridge University Press. chapter 7.
- 20 Tracy Campbell. 2006. *Deliver the Vote: A History of Election Fraud, an American Political Tradition-1742–2004*. New York: Basic Books.

- 21 Cornelius O'Leary. 1962. *The Elimination of Corrupt Practices in British Elections, 1968–1911*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; J. P. King. 1990. "Socio-economic development and corrupt campaign practices in England." In *Political Corruption: A Handbook*. Eds. A. J. Heidenheimer, M. Johnston, and V. T. Levine. New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers.
- 22 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 2010. *Public Sentinel: News Media and the Governance Agenda*. Washington, DC: The World Bank.
- 23 Arthur B. Gunlicks (Ed.). 1993. *Campaign and Party Finance in North America and Western Europe*. Boulder: Westview Press; Karl-Heinz Nassmacher. 2009. *The Funding of Party Competition: Political Finance in 25 Democracies*. Baden-Baden: Nomos; Kevin Casas-Zamora. 2004. *Paying for Democracy*. Essex: ECPR Press; Michael Koss. 2011. *The Politics of Party Funding*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Magnus Öhman and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: IFES.
- 24 Michael Pinto-Duschinsky. 2002. "Financing Politics: A Global View." *Journal of Democracy* 13(4): 69–86.
- 25 Glenn Hubbard and Tim Kane. 2013. "In defense of Citizens United: Why campaign finance reform threatens American democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 92(4): 126–33; Susan Scarrow. 2007. "Political finance in comparative perspective." *Annual Review of Political Science* 10: 193–210.
- 26 Mona Lena Krook. 2009. *Quotas for Women in Politics: Gender and Candidate Selection Reform Worldwide*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 27 Michael Hanmer. 2009. *Discount Voting*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 28 H. Däubler-Gmelin and U. Gacek. 2008. *Application to Initiate a Monitoring Procedure to Investigate Electoral Fraud in the United Kingdom: Opinion for the Bureau of the Assembly*. Strasbourg: Council of Europe. http://www.assembly.coe.int/CommitteeDocs/2008/electoral_fraud_UK_E.pdf.

5 Public Perceptions of Electoral Integrity

- 1 Anthony Downs. 1957. *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. New York: Harper and Row.
- 2 Philip E. Converse 1964. "The nature of belief systems in mass publics." In *Ideology and Discontent*. Ed. David Apter. New York: Free Press, pp. 206–61; Philip E. Converse. 1970. "Attitudes and non-attitudes: Continuation of a dialogue." In *The Quantitative Analysis of Social Problems*. Ed. Edward Tufte. Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley, pp. 168–89; Angus Campbell, Philip E. Converse, Warren E. Miller, and Donald Stokes. 1960. *The American Voter*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- 3 Michael X. Delli Carpini and Scott Keeter. 1997. *What Americans Know about Politics and Why It Matters*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press; Arthur Lupia and Mathew Daniel McCubbins. 1998. *The Democratic Dilemma: Can Citizens Learn What They Need to Know?* Cambridge and New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 4 Michael X. Delli Carpini and Scott Keeter. 1993. "Measuring political knowledge: Putting 1st things 1st." *American Journal of Political Science* 37(4): 1179–1206; Michael X. Delli Carpini and Scott Keeter. 1996. *What Americans Know about Politics and Why it Matters*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.

- 5 Michael X. Delli Carpini and Scott Keeter. 1991. "Stability and change in the United States' public's knowledge of politics." *Public Opinion Quarterly* 55(4): 583–612.
- 6 Stephen Earl Bennett, Richard S. Flickinger, John R. Baker, Staci L. Rhine, and Linda M. Bennett. 1996. "Citizen's Knowledge of Foreign Affairs." *The Harvard International Journal of Press-Politics* 1(2): 1–29; Pippa Norris. 2000. *A Virtuous Circle? Political Communications in Post-Industrial Democracies*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Pippa Norris and Christina Holtz-Bacha. 2001. "To entertain, inform and educate: Still the role of public television in the 1990s?" *Political Communications* 18(2): 123–140; Claes De Vreese and Hans Boomgaarden. 2006. "News, political knowledge and participation: The differential effects of news media exposure on political knowledge and participation." *Acta Politica* 41: 317–41; Pippa Norris. 2012. "To them that hath ... News media and knowledge gaps." *Comparative Governance and Politics* 6 (1): 71–98. (*Zeitschrift für Vergleichende Politikwissenschaft*); S. B. Gordon and G. M. Segura. 1997. "Cross-national variation in the political sophistication of individual: Capability or choice?" *The Journal of Politics* 59: 126–47; Kimmo Grönlund and Henry Milner. 2006. "The determinants of political knowledge in comparative perspective." *Scandinavian Political Studies* 29: 386–406; Shanto Iyengar, James Curran, A. B. Lund, I. Salovaara-Moring, H. Kyu, and S. Coen. 2010. "Cross national versus individual-level differences in political information: A media systems perspective." *Journal of Elections, Public Opinion and Parties* 20: 291–309; Marta Fraile. 2013. "Do information rich contexts reduce knowledge inequalities? The contextual determinants of political knowledge in Europe." *Acta Politica* 48: 119–43.
- 7 Wolfram Schulz, Julian Fraillon, and John Ainley. 2013. "Measuring young people's understanding of civics and citizenship in a cross-national study." *Educational Psychology: An International Journal of Experimental Educational Psychology* 33(3): 334–56.
- 8 John Zaller. 1992. *The Nature and Origins of Public Opinion*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 9 Michael Bratton and Nicholas van de Walle. 1997. *Democratic Experiments in Africa*. New York: Cambridge University Press, p. 201.
- 10 Thad Hall and Charles Stewart. 2014. "Understanding voter attitudes towards election fraud across the United States." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. (Forthcoming).
- 11 Arthur Lupia and Mathew D. McCubbins. 1998. *The Democratic Dilemma: Can Citizens Learn What They Need to Know?* New York: Cambridge University Press; Richaed R. Lau and David P. Redlawsk. 2009. *How Voters Decide: Information Processing during Election Campaigns*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 12 Arthur Lupia and Mathew D. McCubbins. 1998. *The Democratic Dilemma: Can Citizens Learn What They Need to Know?* New York: Cambridge University Press; Doris Graber. 2004. "Mediated Politics and Citizenship in the Twenty-First Century." *Annual Review of Psychology* 55: 545–71; Cheryl Boudreau and Arthur Lupia. 2011. "Political Knowledge." In *Cambridge Handbook of Experimental Political Science*. Eds. James N. Druckman, Donald P. Green, James H. Kuklinski, and Arthur Lupia, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, pp. 171–83.
- 13 David Doherty and Jennifer Wolak. 2012. "When do the ends justify the means? Evaluating procedural fairness." *Political Behavior* 34(2): 301–23.

- 14 J. A. McCann and Jorge I. Dominguez. 1998. "Mexicans react to electoral fraud and political corruption: An assessment of public opinion and voting behavior." *Electoral Studies* 17(4): 483–503; Michael Bratton. 2008. "Vote buying and violence in Nigerian election campaigns." *Electoral Studies* 27(4): 621–32; Paul Collier and Pedro Vicente. 2011. "Violence, bribery and fraud: The political economy of elections in Sub-Saharan Africa." *Public Choice* 153(1): 1–31.
- 15 Nicholas Kerr. "Public perceptions of election quality in Africa: A cross-national analysis." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. (Forthcoming).
- 16 Miguel Carreras and Yasmin Irepoglu. 2013. "Electoral malpractices, political efficacy, and turnout in Latin America." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- 17 Pippa Norris. 2000. *A Virtuous Circle*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Pippa Norris. 2001. *Digital Divide*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Claes H. de Vreese and H. Boomgaarden. 2006. "News, political knowledge and participation: The differential effects of news media exposure on political knowledge and participation." *Acta Politica* 41(4): 317–41; Jesper Stromback and Adam Shehata. 2010. "Media malaise or a virtuous circle? Exploring the causal relationships between news media exposure, political news attention and political interest." *European Journal of Political Research* 49(5): 575–97.
- 18 James Curran, Shanto Iyengar, Anker Brink Lund, and Inka Salovaara-Moring. 2009. "Media system, public knowledge and democracy: A comparative study." *European Journal of Communication* 24(1): 5–26; Shanto Iyengar, James Curran, Anker Brink Lund, Inka Salovaara-Moring, Kyu S. Hahn, and Sharon Coen. 2010. "Cross-national versus individual-level differences in political information: A media systems perspective." *Journal of Elections, Public Opinion & Parties* 20(3): 291–309.
- 19 W. Russell Neuman. 1974. "Political knowledge – Comparison of impact of print and broadcast news media." *Public Opinion Quarterly* 38(3): 444–45; J. Stauffer, R. Frost and W. Rybolt. 1981. "Recall and learning from broadcast news: Is print better?" *Journal of Broadcasting* 25: 253–62; J. R. Robinson and M. Levy. 1986. *The Main Source: Learning from TV News*. Beverley Hills, CA: Sage; J. J. Mondak. 1995. "Newspapers and Political Awareness." *American Journal of Political Science* 39(2): 513–27; K. A. Martinelli and Steven Chaffee. 1995. "Measuring new-voter learning via three channels of political information." *Journalism & Mass Communication Quarterly* 72(1): 18–32.
- 20 Steven H. Chaffee and Joan Schleuder. 1986. "Measurement and effects of attention to media news." *Human Communication Research* 13:76–107; Vince Price and John Zaller. 1993. "Who gets the news: Alternative measures of news reception and their implications for research." *Public Opinion Quarterly* 57(2): 133–64.
- 21 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 2010. *Public Sentinel: News Media and the Governance Agenda*. Washington, DC: The World Bank.
- 22 Maxwell E. McCombs and David L. Shaw. 1972. "The agenda-setting function of mass media." *Public Opinion Quarterly* 36(2): 176–87; Maxwell E. McCombs. 2004. *Setting the Agenda: The Mass Media and Public Opinion*. Malden, MA: Blackwell.
- 23 Shanto Iyengar. 1991. *Is Anyone Responsible? How Television Frames Political Issues*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

- 24 David O. Sears. 1975. "Political Socialization." In *Handbook of Political Science*, vol. 2. Eds. Fred I. Greenstein and Nelson W. Polsby. Reading, PA: Addison-Wesley; James G. Gimpel, J. Celeste Lay, and Jason E. Schuknecht. 2003. *Cultivating Democracy: Civic Environments and Political Socialization in America*. Washington, DC: Brookings Institution Press; Scott Althaus. 2003. *Collective Preferences in Democratic Politics*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Joan E. Grusec and Paul D. Hastings (Eds.). 2006. *Handbook of Socialization: Theory and Research*. New York: The Guilford Press; Edward S. Greenberg (Ed.). 2009. *Political Socialization*. Chicago: Aldine Transaction.
- 25 Christopher J. Anderson and Y. V. Tverdova. 2001. "Winners, losers, and attitudes about government in contemporary democracies." *International Political Science Review* 22: 321–38; Christopher J. Anderson, Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Lishaug. 2005. *Losers' Consent: Elections and Democratic Legitimacy*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 26 Luigi Curini, Willy Jou, and Vincenzo Memoli. 2012. "Satisfaction with democracy and the winner/loser debate: The role of policy preferences and past experience." *British Journal of Political Science* 42: 241–61.
- 27 Emily Beaulieu. 2013. "Political parties and perceptions of electoral fraud in the U.S." Paper presented at the Workshop on Concepts and Indicators of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 3–4, 2013.
- 28 Tova Andrea Wang. 2012. *The Politics of Voter Suppression: Defending and Expanding Americans' Right to Vote*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Richard K. Scher. 2010. *The Politics of Disenfranchisement: Why Is It So Hard to Vote in America?* New York: M. E. Sharpe; Richard L. Hasen. 2012. *The Voting Wars: From Florida 2000 to the Next Election Meltdown*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- 29 Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 30 Juliet Lapidus. July 13, 2013. "Yeah, voter ID hurts Democrats." *New York Times*, at: <http://takingnote.blogs.nytimes.com/2013/07/19/yeah-voter-id-hurts-democrats/?ref=voterregistrationandrequirements>.
- 31 Dorina Bekoe (Ed.). 2012. *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 32 OSCE. 2011. *Kyrgyzstan Presidential Elections: OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report*. Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections>.
- 33 Naomi Chazan, Peter Lewis, Robert Mortimer, Donald Rothchild, and Steven Stedman. 1999. *Politics and Society in Contemporary Africa*. London: Lynne Rienner Publishers and Macmillan; Joseph Aye. 2000. *Deepening Democracy in Ghana*. Middlebury, VT: Freedom Publications; Kwame Boafo-Arthur (Ed.). 2007. *Ghana: One Decade of the Liberal State*. London: Zed Books. See, however, Heinz Jockers, Dirk Kohnert, and Paul Nugent. 2010. "The successful Ghana election of 2008: A convenient myth?" *Journal of Modern African Studies* 48(1): 95–115.
- 34 Pippa Norris. 2000. *A Virtuous Circle*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 35 Richard Rose and William Mishler. 2009. "How do electors respond to an 'unfair' election? The experience of Russians." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25(2): 118–36. See also Ian McAllister and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663–83.

- 36 See Susan Hyde and Nickolas Marinov. 2012. "Information and self-enforcing democracy: The role of international election observation." *IPSA-ECP Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity*. Madrid, July 7, 2012.

6 For Legitimacy

- 1 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press; John A. Booth and Mitchell A. Seligson. 2009. *The Legitimacy Puzzle in Latin America*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 2 Seymour Martin Lipset. 1983. *Political Man: The Social Bases of Politics*, 2nd ed. London: Heinemann, p. 64.
- 3 Milan W. Svobik, 2012. *The Politics of Authoritarian Rule*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 4 Christopher J. Anderson, Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Listerhaug. 2005. *Losers' Consent: Elections and Democratic Legitimacy*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 5 Lahra Smith. 2009. "Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya." *Democratization* 16(5): 867–97.
- 6 Bo Rothstein. 2009. "Creating political legitimacy." *American Behavioral Scientist* 52: 311–30.
- 7 Stephen M. Weatherford. 1984. "Economic 'stagflation' and public support for the political system." *British Journal of Political Science* 14: 187–205; Harold D. Clarke, Euel W. Elliott, William Mishler, Marianne C. Stewart, Paul F. Whiteley, and Gary Zuk. 1992. *Controversies in Political Economy*. Boulder, CO.: Westview Press; Christopher J. Anderson. 1995. *Blaming the Government: Citizens and the Economy in Five European Democracies*. New York: M. E. Sharpe; Mark E. Warren (Ed.). *Democracy and Trust*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- 8 Michael Robinson. 1976. "Public affairs television and the growth of political malaise: The case of 'the selling of the president.'" *American Political Science Review* 70(3): 409–32; Suzanne Garment. 1991. *Scandal: The Crisis of Mistrust in American Politics*. New York: Random House; Thomas E. Patterson. 1993. *Out of Order*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf; Patricia Moy and Mochael Pfau. 2000. *With Malice Toward All? The Media and Public Confidence in Democratic Institutions*. Westport, CT: Praeger.
- 9 Gary Orren 1997. "Fall from grace: The public's loss of faith in government." In *Why People Don't Trust Government*. Ed. Joseph S. Nye, Jr., Philip D. Zelikow, and David C. King. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- 10 Ronald Inglehart. 1997. *Modernization and Postmodernization: Cultural, Economic and Political Change in 43 Societies*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel. 2005. *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 11 Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel. 2005. *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 12 Ronald Inglehart. 2003. "How solid is mass support for democracy: And how can we measure it?" *PS: Political Science and Politics* 36 (1): 51–57.

- 13 Robert D. Putnam. 2000. *Bowling Alone: The Collapse and Revival of American Community*. New York: Simon and Schuster.
- 14 David Easton. 1965. *A Framework for Political Analysis*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice Hall; David Easton. 1965. *A Systems Analysis of Political Life*. New York: Wiley; David Easton. 1975. "A reassessment of the concept of political support." *British Journal of Political Science* 5: 435–57.
- 15 David Beetham. 1991. *The Legitimation of Power*. Basingstoke, UK: Macmillan; Stephen M. Weatherford. 1992. "Measuring political legitimacy." *American Political Science Review* 86: 149–66.
- 16 Bo Rothstein. 2009. "Creating political legitimacy." *American Behavioral Scientist* 52: 311–30. See also Bruce Gilley. 2006. "The meaning and measure of state legitimacy: Results for 72 countries." *European Journal of Political Research* 45: 499–525; Bruce Gilley. 2012. "State legitimacy: An updated dataset for 52 countries." *European Journal of Political Research* 51: 693–99.
- 17 Lahra Smith. 2009. "Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya." *Democratization* 16(5): 867–97.
- 18 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press; John A. Booth and Mitchell A. Seligson. 2009. *The Legitimacy Puzzle in Latin America*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 19 David Easton. 1965. *A Framework for Political Analysis*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice Hall.
- 20 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press. It should be noted that other studies have confirmed the multidimensional nature of system support and distinguished eight dimensions: see John A. Booth and Mitchell A. Seligson. 2009. *The Legitimacy Puzzle in Latin America*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 21 Sarah Birch. 2008. "Electoral institutions and popular confidence in electoral processes: A cross-national analysis." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 305–20.
- 22 D. C. Moehler. 2009. "Critical citizens and submissive subjects: Elections losers and winners in Africa." *British Journal of Political Science* 39(2): 345–66; Michael Bratton (Ed.). 2013. *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Michael D. H. Robbins and Mark Tessler. 2012. "The effects of elections on public opinion towards democracy: Evidence from longitudinal survey research in Algeria." *Comparative Political Studies* 45(10): 1255–76.
- 23 Michael Bratton (Ed.). 2013. *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
- 24 Richard Rose and William Mishler. 2009. "How do electors respond to an 'unfair' election? The experience of Russians." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25(2): 118–36; Ian McAllister and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663–83.
- 25 Christopher J. Anderson and Yuliya V. Tverdova. 2003. "Corruption, political allegiances, and attitudes toward government in contemporary democracies." *American Journal of Political Science* 47(1): 91–109; Kimmo Gronlund and Maija Setälä. 2011. "In honest officials we trust: Institutional confidence in Europe." *American Review of Public Administration* 42(5): 523–42.
- 26 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.

- 27 Christopher J. Anderson and Y. V. Tverdova. 2001. "Winners, losers, and attitudes about government in contemporary democracies." *International Political Science Review* 22: 321–38; Christopher J. Anderson, Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Listhaug. 2005. *Losers' Consent: Elections and Democratic Legitimacy*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 28 Luigi Curini, Willy Jou, and Vincenzo Memoli. 2012, "Satisfaction with democracy and the winner/loser debate: The role of policy preferences and past experience." *British Journal of Political Science* 42: 241–61.
- 29 See, for example, Bruce Gilley. 2006. "The meaning and measure of state legitimacy: Results for 72 countries." *European Journal of Political Research* 45: 499–525; Bruce Gilley. 2012. "State legitimacy: An updated dataset for 52 countries." *European Journal of Political Research* 51: 693–99. Gilley measures citizens' feelings of political legitimacy through perceived respect for human rights, confidence in the justice system, confidence in the civil service, and satisfaction with democracy (measured by the World Values Survey), as well as several aggregate indices such as levels of voter turnout and incidents of repression.
- 30 The results of the multivariate analysis models were checked through tolerance statistics to confirm that they were all free from problems of multicollinearity.
- 31 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 32 It should be noted that other indices were also compared, such as the effect of integrity on national pride, with similar results.
- 33 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 34 Shayla C. Nunnally, 2011. "(Dis)counting on democracy to work: Perceptions of electoral fairness in the 2008 presidential election." *Journal of Black Studies* 42(6): 923–42.
- 35 Stephen C. Craig, Michael D. Martinez, and Jason Gainous. 2006. "Winners, losers, and election context: Voter responses to the 2000 presidential election." *Political Research Quarterly* 59(4): 579–92.
- 36 Emily Beaulieu. 2013. "Political parties and perceptions of election fraud in the U.S." Paper presented at the Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University June 2–3, 2013; Paul Gronke. 2013. "Are we confident in voter confidence? Conceptual and methodological challenges in survey measures of electoral integrity." Paper presented at the Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University June 2–3, 2013.
- 37 Pippa Norris. 2004. *Electoral Engineering*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

7 For Political Behavior

- 1 Charles H. Fairbanks. 2004. "Georgia's Rose Revolution." *Journal of Democracy* 15(2):110–24; Yann Kerevel. 2009. *Election Management Bodies and Public Confidence in Elections: Lessons from Latin America*. Washington, DC: International Foundation of Electoral Systems; Joseph L. Klesner and Chappell Lawson. 2001. "Adiós to the PRI? Changing voter turnout in Mexico's political transition." *Mexican Studies/Estudios Mexicanos* 17(1): 17–39; Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22.

- 2 Sidney Verba and Norman Nie. 1972. *Participation in America: Political Democracy and Social Equality*. New York: Harper and Row; Sidney Verba, Norman Nie, and Jae-on Kim. 1978. *Participation and Political Equality: A Seven-Nation Comparison*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Sidney Verba, Kay Schlozman, and Henry E. Brady. 1995. *Voice and Equality: Civic Voluntarism in American Politics*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- 3 Anthony Downs. 1957. *An Economic Theory of Democracy*; William Riker and Peter C. Ordeshook. 1968. "A theory of the calculus of voting." *American Political Science Review* 62: 25–42.
- 4 Christopher J. Anderson, Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Listhaug Anderson. 2005. *Loser's Consent*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 5 J. A. McCann and Jorge I. Dominguez. 1998. "Mexicans react to electoral fraud and political corruption: An assessment of public opinion and voting behavior." *Electoral Studies* 17(4): 483–503.
- 6 R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Morgan H. Llewellyn. 2008. "Are Americans confident their ballots are counted?" *Journal of Politics* 70(3): 754–66.
- 7 Michael Bratton and Nicholas van de Walle. 1997. *Democratic Experiments in Africa: Regime Transitions in Comparative Perspective*. New York: Cambridge University Press, pp. 206–10.
- 8 Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22.
- 9 Alberto Simpser. 2012. "Does electoral manipulation discourage voter turnout? Evidence from Mexico." *Journal of Politics* 74(3): 782–95.
- 10 Benny Geys. 2006. "Explaining voter turnout: A review of aggregate-level research." *Electoral Studies* 25(4): 637–63; Kaat Smets and Carolien van Ham. 2013. "The embarrassment of riches? A meta-analysis of individual-level research on voter turnout." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 344–59.
- 11 Michael Bratton (Ed.). 2013. *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Miguel Carreras and Yasmin Irepoglu. 2013. "Electoral malpractices, political efficacy, and turnout in Latin America." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- 12 F. C. Schaffer (Ed.). *Elections for Sale: The Causes and Consequences of Vote Buying*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
- 13 Daniel Stockemer, Bernadette LaMontagne, and Lyle Scruggs. 2013. "Bribes and ballots: The impact of corruption on voter turnout in democracies." *International Political Science Review* 34(1): 74–90.
- 14 For a useful overview, see Kaat Smets and Carolien van Ham. 2013. "The embarrassment of riches? A meta-analysis of individual-level research on voter turnout." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 344–59.
- 15 Eric Plutzer. 2002. "Becoming a habitual voter: Inertia, resources, and growth in young adulthood." *American Political Science Review* 96: 41–56; Mark Franklin. 2004. *Voter Turnout and the Dynamics of Electoral Competition in Established Democracies since 1945*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 16 Sidney Verba and Norman Nie. 1972. *Participation in America: Political Democracy and Social Equality*. New York: Harper and Row; Sidney Verba, Norman Nie, and Jae-on Kim. 1978. *Participation and Political Equality: A Seven-Nation Comparison*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Sidney Verba, Kay Schlozman, and Henry

- E. Brady. 1995. *Voice and Equality: Civic Voluntarism in American Politics*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- 17 Steven Rosenstone and J. M. Hansen, 1993. *Mobilization, Participation and Democracy in America*. New York: MacMillan.
 - 18 Andre Blais and A. Dobrzynska. 1998. "Turnout in electoral democracies." *European Journal of Political Research* 33: 239–61; Pippa Norris. 2003. *Democratic Phoenix*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 19 Samuel Barnes and Max Kaase. 1979. *Political Action: Mass Participation in Five Western Democracies*. Beverley Hills, CA: Sage. See also Alan Marsh. 1977. *Protest and Political Consciousness*. Beverly Hills, CA: Sage; Charles Adrian and David A. Apter. 1995. *Political Protest and Social Change: Analyzing Politics*. New York: New York University Press; Ronald Inglehart. 1997. *Modernization and Postmodernization: Cultural, Economic and Political Change in 43 Societies*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
 - 20 Thus, Sarah Birch used British Election Study panel data to demonstrate that perceptions of fairness in the 1997 general election had an impact on levels of turnout in the 2001 contest. Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22.
 - 21 <http://www.bbc.co.uk/news/world-europe-18405306>; Denis Volkov. 2012. "The protesters and the public." *Journal of Democracy* 23(3): 55–62.
 - 22 Katya Kalandadze and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. "Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2004. "Stolen elections: The case of the Serbian October." *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 159–72.
 - 23 Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72.
 - 24 Ronald Inglehart. 1997. *Modernization and Postmodernization: Cultural, Economic and Political Change in 43 Societies*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel. 2005. *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 25 It should be noted that alternative models were tested using binary logistic regression, with the vote in national elections recoded as "always" (1) or "usually" and "never" (0) but this did not alter the interpretation of the results.
 - 26 Christopher J. Anderson, Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Listhaug Anderson. 2005. *Loser's Consent*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 131–33.
 - 27 Ian McAllister and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663–83.
 - 28 Ronald Inglehart. 1997. *Modernization and Postmodernization: Cultural, Economic and Political Change in 43 Societies*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel. 2005. *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Pippa Norris. 2003. *Democratic Phoenix*. New York: Cambridge University Press.

- 29 See, for example, The Electoral Commission. May 2013. *Perception of Electoral Fraud: Qualitative Research*. UK Electoral Commission.
- 30 The U.S. National Conference of State Legislators tracks new legislation on voters' rights and electoral regulations: <http://www.ncsl.org/legislatures-elections/elections/voter-id.aspx>.

8 For Conflict and Security

- 1 Roland Paris. 2004. *At War's End: Building Peace after Civil Conflict*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Michael W. Doyle and Nicholas Sambanis. 2006. *Making War and Building Peace*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Roland Paris and Timothy D. Sisk (Eds.). 2009. *The Dilemmas of Statebuilding*. Oxford: Routledge.
- 2 Data is derived from Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. November 10, 2011. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, 3rd release.
- 3 Scott Straus and Charles Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008." In *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Ed. Dorina Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace. Straus and Taylor compiled the African Electoral Violence Dataset 1990–2008.
- 4 Abiodun Alao. 2012. *Mugabe and the Politics of Security in Zimbabwe*. Montreal: McGill-Queen's University Press.
- 5 Steve Wilkinson. 2006. *Votes and Violence: Electoral Competition and Ethnic Riots in India*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Simon Alexis Finley and Sophie Khan/UNDP. 2011. *Understanding Electoral Violence in Asia*. UNDP Asia-Pacific Regional Center.
- 6 Stefan Dercon and Roxana Gutierrez-Romero. 2012. "Triggers and characteristics of the 2007 Kenyan electoral violence." *World Development* 40(4): 731–44.
- 7 Mauricio Rivera Celestino and Kristian Skrede Gleditsch. 2013. "Fresh carnations or all thorn, no rose? Nonviolent campaigns and transitions in autocracies." *Journal of Peace Research* 50(3): 385–400; Emilie M. Hafner-Burton, Susan D. Hyde, and Ryan S. Jablonski. 2013. "When do governments resort to election violence?" *British Journal of Political Science* (Forthcoming). See also Figure 8.2.
- 8 Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA.
- 9 Stefan Dercon and Roxana Gutierrez-Romero. 2012. "Triggers and characteristics of the 2007 Kenyan electoral violence." *World Development* 40(4): 731–44; Catherine Boone. 2011. "Politically allocated land rights and the geography of electoral violence: The case of Kenya in the 1990s." *Comparative Political Studies* 44(10): 1311–42; Lahra Smith. 2009. "Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya." *Democratization* 16(5): 867–97.
- 10 Commonwealth Secretariat. 2007. *Kenya General Election 27 December 2007: The Report of the Commonwealth Observer Group*. London: Commonwealth Secretariat. http://www.thecommonwealth.org/shared_asp_files/GFSR.asp?NodeID=174448.
- 11 United Nations High Commissioner for Human Rights. 2008. *Report from OHCHR Fact-finding Mission to Kenya, 6–28 February 2008*. UN/OHCHR: Geneva; Maina

- Kiai. 2008. "The crisis in Kenya." *Journal of Democracy* 19(3): 162–68; Michael Chege. 2008. "Kenya: Back from the brink." *Journal of Democracy* 19(4): 125–39.
- 12 See the summary literature review in Kristine Hoglund. 2009. "Electoral violence in conflict-ridden societies: Concepts, causes, and consequences." *Terrorism and Political Violence* 21(3): 412–27.
- 13 Timothy Sisk and Andrew Reynolds (Eds.). 1998. *Elections and Conflict Management in Africa*. Washington, DC: U.S. Institute of Peace Press; Krishna Kumar. 1998. *Post-Conflict Elections, Democratization, and International Assistance*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Benjamin Reilly. 2002. "Post-conflict elections: Constraints and dangers." *International Peacekeeping* 9(2): 118; Pippa Norris. 2004. *Electoral Engineering*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Pippa Norris. 2008. *Driving Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 14 Jack Snyder. 2000. *From Voting to Violence: Democratization and Nationalist Conflict*. New York: Norton; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press; Dawn Brancati and Jack L. Snyder. 2011. "Rushing to the polls: The causes of premature post-conflict elections." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 55(3): 469–92; Tavishi Bhasin and Jennifer Gandhi. 2013. "State Repression in Authoritarian Elections." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- 15 Njunga Mulikita. 1999. "Democratization and conflict resolution in Africa: The role of international/regional electoral observers." *Peacekeeping and International Relations* 28(3): 1–12; Ursula E. Daxecker. 2012. "The cost of exposing cheating: International election monitoring, fraud, and post-election violence in Africa." *Journal of Peace Research* 49(4): 503–16.
- 16 Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler, and Nicholas Sambanis. 2005. "The Collier-Hoeffler model of civil war onset and the case study project research design." In *Understanding Civil War*, chap. 1. Eds. Paul Collier and Nicolas Sambanis. Washington, DC: The World Bank.
- 17 See, for example, Emilie M. Hafner-Burton, Susan D. Hyde, and Ryan S. Jablonski. 2013. "When Do Governments Resort to Election Violence?" *British Journal of Political Science* (Forthcoming).
- 18 See, for example, Jennifer Gandhi and Ellen Lust-Okar. 2009. "Elections under authoritarianism." *Annual Review of Political Science* 12: 403–22; Alberto Simpser. 2013. *Why governments and parties manipulate elections: Theory, practice and implications*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 19 Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 1998. "On economic causes of civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 50(4): 563–73; Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 2002. "On the incidence of civil war in Africa." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 46(1): 13–28; Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 2004. "Greed and grievance in civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 56(4): 563–95; Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler, and Nicholas Sambanis. 2005. "The Collier-Hoeffler model of civil war onset and the case study project research design." In *Understanding Civil War*, chap. 1. Eds. Paul Collier and Nicolas Sambanis. Washington, DC: The World Bank; Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler, and Dominic Rohner. 2009. "Beyond greed and grievance: Feasibility and civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 61(1): 1–27; Paul Collier. 2009. *Wars, Guns and Votes: Democracy in Dangerous Places*. New York: HarperCollins; Scott Straus and Charlie Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and

- electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008.” In *Voting in Fear*. Ed. Dorina A. Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 20 Simon Alexis Finley and Sophie Khan/UNDP. 2011. *Understanding Electoral Violence in Asia*. UNDP Asia-Pacific Regional Center.
 - 21 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
 - 22 Kristine Hoglund. 2009. “Electoral violence in conflict-ridden societies: Concepts, causes, and consequences.” *Terrorism and Political Violence* 21(3): 412–27.
 - 23 See, for example, Scott Straus. 2011. “‘It’s sheer horror here’: Patterns of violence during the first four months of Cote d’Ivoire’s post-electoral crisis.” *African Affairs* 110(440): 481–89; Catherine Boone. 2011. “Politically allocated land rights and the geography of electoral violence: The case of Kenya in the 1990s.” *Comparative Political Studies* 44(10): 1311–42; Lahra Smith. 2009. “Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya.” *Democratization* 16(5): 867–97.
 - 24 Pippa Norris. 2014. “The new research agenda studying electoral integrity.” Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 34(4) (Forthcoming).
 - 25 Pippa Norris. 2011. “Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model.” *West European Politics* 34(1): 531–50.
 - 26 Spencer Overton. 2006. *Stealing Democracy: The New Politics of Voter Suppression*. New York: Norton; Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
 - 27 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 28 Stuart N. Soroka and Christopher Wlezien. 2009. *Degrees of Democracy: Politics, Public Opinion, and Policy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; William D. Berry, Evan J. Ringquist, Richard C. Fording, and Russell L. Hanson. 1998. “Measuring citizen and government ideology in the American states, 1960–93.” *American Journal of Political Science* 42(1): 327–48; Donald P. Haider-Markel and Matthew S. Kaufman. 2006. “Public opinion and policy making in the culture wars: Is there a connection between opinion and state policy on gay and lesbian issues?” In *Public Opinion in State Politics*. Ed. Jeffrey E. Cohen. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 163–82; Jeffrey R. Lax, and Justin H. Phillips. 2012. “The Democratic Deficit in the States.” *American Journal of Political Science* 56: 148–66.
 - 29 Kristof Jacobs and Monique Leyenaar. 2011. “A conceptual framework for major, minor, and technical electoral reform.” *West European Politics* 34(3): 495–513.
 - 30 R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad Hall. 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 31 The White House. March 28, 2013. “Executive order establishment of the Presidential Commission on Election Administration.” <http://www.whitehouse.gov/briefing-room/Statements-and-Releases/2013>
 - 32 Alan Renwick. 2010. *The Politics of Electoral Reform*. New York: Cambridge University Press, pp. 239–41.
 - 33 Samantha Laycock, Alan Renwick, Daniel Stevens, and Jack Vowles. 2013. “The UK’s electoral reform referendum of May 2011.” *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 211–14; John Curtice. 2013. “Politicians, voters and democracy: The 2011 UK referendum on the Alternative Vote.” *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 215–23.
 - 34 Lonna Rae Atkeson and K. L. Saunders. 2007. “The effect of election administration on voter confidence: A local matter?” *PS: Political Science & Politics* 40:

- 655–60; InfoSENTRY. April 2012. “Americans’ confidence in vote count accuracy shows little change since 2011: But doubts are increasing in key groups ahead of the presidential election.” http://www.infosentry.com/InfoSENTRY_NewsRelease_Vote-Count-Trust_20120401.pdf.
- 35 Shaun Bowler and Todd Donovan. 2011. “The limited effects of election reforms on efficacy and engagement.” *Australian Journal of Political Science* 47(1): 55–70.
- 36 Jennifer Gandhi and Ellen Lust-Okar. 2009. “Elections under authoritarianism.” *Annual Review of Political Science* 12: 403–22.
- 37 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 1995. “Democratization and the danger of war.” *International Security* 20(1): 5–38; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz, 2009. “More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers.” *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72.
- 38 Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. May 11, 2012. *OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report: Russian Federation Presidential Election 4 March 2012*. OSCE/ODIHR: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/90461>
- 39 BBC News. <http://www.bbc.co.uk/news/world-europe-18405306>.
- 40 Council of Europe. April 14, 2008. *Parliamentary Assembly Report: Observation of the Presidential Election in Armenia (19 February 2008)*. <http://assembly.coe.int/Documents/WorkingDocs/Doc08/EDOC11564.pdf>.
- 41 Scott Straus. 2011. “‘It’s sheer horror here’: Patterns of violence during the first four months of Cote d’Ivoire’s post-electoral crisis.” *African Affairs* 110(440): 481–89.
- 42 Beatriz Magaloni. 2006. *Voting for Autocracy: Hegemonic Party Survival and Its Demise in Mexico*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- 43 *The Washington Post*. July 4, 2012. “Mexican presidential election tainted by claims of vote buying.” http://www.washingtonpost.com/world/mexicos-presidential-election-tainted-by-claims-of-vote-buying/2012/07/04/gJQAHqTzNW_story.html.
- 44 Katya Kalandadze and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. “Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions.” *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25.
- 45 Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2004. “Stolen elections: The case of the Serbian October.” *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 159–72; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. “More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers.” *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72.
- 46 Staffan Lindberg. 2006. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 47 European Union. April 2011. *Election Observation Mission Final Report: Nigeria*. http://eeas.europa.eu/eucom/pdf/missions/final-report-nigeria2011_en.pdf
- 48 See the summary literature review in Kristine Høglund. 2009. “Electoral violence in conflict-ridden societies: Concepts, causes, and consequences.” *Terrorism and Political Violence* 21(3): 412–27.
- 49 Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 1998. “On economic causes of civil war.” *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 50(4): 563–73; Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 2002. “On the incidence of civil war in Africa.” *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 46(1): 13–28; Paul Collier and Anke Hoeffler. 2004. “Greed and grievance in civil war.” *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 56(4): 563–95; Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler,

- and Nicholas Sambanis. 2005. "The Collier-Hoeffler model of civil war onset and the case study project research design." In *Understanding Civil War*, chap. 1. Eds. Paul Collier and Nicholas Sambanis. Washington, DC: The World Bank; Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler, and Dominic Rohner. 2009. "Beyond greed and grievance: Feasibility and civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 61(1): 1–27; Paul Collier. 2009. *Wars, Guns and Votes: Democracy in Dangerous Places*. New York: HarperCollins.
- 50 Arend Lijphart. 1969. "Consociational democracy." *World Politics* 21: 207–25; Arend Lijphart. 1975. *The Politics of Accommodation: Pluralism and Democracy in the Netherlands*. Berkeley: University of California Press; Arend Lijphart. 1999. *Patterns of Democracy: Government Forms and Performance in 36 Countries*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press; Arend Lijphart. 2008. *Thinking about Democracy: Power Sharing and Majority Rule in Theory and Practice*. New York: Routledge.
- 51 For a review of the extensive literature, see Rudy B. Andweg. 2000. "Consociational democracy." *Annual Review of Politics* 3:509–36; Pippa Norris. 2008. *Driving Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 52 Susan D. Hyde and Nikolay Marinov. November 10, 2011. *Codebook for National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*.
- 53 Scott Straus, and Charlie Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008." In *Voting in Fear*. Ed. Dorina A. Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 54 Stefan Dercon and Roxana Gutierrez-Romero. 2012. "Triggers and characteristics of the 2007 Kenyan electoral violence." *World Development* 40(4): 731–44.
- 55 The other standard measure of democracy used earlier in the book, by Freedom House, only started in the early-1970s, whereas Polity IV has the advantage of providing an extended time-series to match the post-war data in NELDA.
- 56 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 1995. "Democratization and the danger of war." *International Security* 20(1): 5–38; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- 57 Jared Diamond. 1997. *Guns, Germs, and Steel: The Fates of Human Societies*. New York: W. W. Norton and Co.
- 58 Paul Collier and Nicholas Sambanis (Eds.). 2005. *Understanding Civil War*. Washington, DC: World Bank; M. Humphreys. 2005. "Natural resources, conflict, and conflict resolution: Uncovering the mechanisms." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 49(4): 508–37; Michael L. Ross. 2001. "Does oil hinder democracy?" *World Politics* 53: 325–61; Michael L. Ross. 2004. "How do natural resources influence civil war? Evidence from thirteen cases." *International Organization* 58(1): 35–67. For a critique, however, see Pauline Jones Luong and Erika Weithal. 2010. *Oil Is Not a Curse: Ownership Structure and Institutions in Soviet Successor States*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 59 William Easterly. 1997. "Africa's growth tragedy: Policies and ethnic divisions." *Quarterly Journal of Economics* 112: 1203; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press; S. G. Simonsen. 2005. "Addressing ethnic divisions in post-conflict institution-building: Lessons from recent cases." *Security Dialogue* 36(3): 297–318; Paul Collier, Anke Hoeffler, and Dominic Rohner. 2009. "Beyond greed and grievance: Feasibility and civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers* 61: 1–27.

- 60 Jeff Fisher. 2002. *Electoral Conflict and Violence*. Washington, DC: IFES.
- 61 Scott Straus and Charlie Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008." In *Voting in Fear*. Ed. Dorina A. Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 62 Jendayi E. Frazer and E. Gyimah-Boadi (Eds.). 2011. *Preventing Electoral Violence in Africa*. Pittsburgh, PA: Carnegie Mellon University.
- 63 *Ibid.* Dorina Bekoe (Ed.). 2012. *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace; Scott Straus and Charlie Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008." In *Voting in Fear*. Ed. Dorina A. Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 64 See Simon Alexis Finley and Sophie Khan/UNDP. 2011. *Understanding Electoral Violence in Asia*. UNDP Asia-Pacific Regional Center.
- 65 See Kristine Hoglund. 2009. "Electoral violence in conflict-ridden societies: Concepts, causes, and consequences." *Terrorism and Political Violence* 21(3): 412–27.
- 66 J. Joseph Hewitt, Jonathan Wilkenfeld, and Ted Robert Gurr. 2012. *Peace and Conflict 2012*. Center for Systemic Peace, University of Maryland.
- 67 The expansion in peacekeeping activities and the settlement of civil wars has attracted substantial literature. See, for example, Roland Paris. 2004. *At War's End: Building Peace after Civil Conflict*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Ho-Won Jeong. 2005. *Peace-building in Post-conflict Societies*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Paul Collier and Nicholas Sambanis. Eds. 2005. *Understanding Civil War*. Washington, DC: The World Bank; James Dobbins et al. 2005. *The UN's Role in Nation-building: From the Congo to Iraq*. Santa Monica: Rand Corporation; Michael W. Doyle and Nicholas Sambanis. 2006. *Making War and Building Peace*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Anna K. Jarsad and Timothy D. Sisk (Eds.). 2008. *From War to Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Lise Morjé Howard. 2009. *UN Peacekeeping in Civil Wars*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Monica Toft. 2010. *Securing the Peace: The Durable Settlement of Civil Wars*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 68 Michael McFaul. 2010. *Advancing Democracy Abroad*. New York: Rowman and Littlefield.
- 69 Roland Paris and Timothy D. Sisk (Eds.). 2009. *The Dilemmas of State-Building*. New York: Routledge.
- 70 J. Joseph Hewitt, Jonathan Wilkenfeld, and Ted Robert Gurr. 2011. *Peace and Conflict 2011*. Center for Systemic Peace, University of Maryland.
- 71 See, for example, Jason Brownlee. 2007. *Authoritarianism in an Age of Democratization*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Jennifer Gandhi and Ellen Lust-Okar. 2009. "Elections under authoritarianism." *Annual Review of Political Science* 12: 403–22; Steven Levitsky and Lucan Way. 2010. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 72 Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- 73 Christian Davenport and Molly Inman. 2012. "The state of state repression research since the 1990s." *Terrorism and Political Violence* 24(4): 619–34.

- 74 Christian Davenport. 2007. *State Repression and the Domestic Democratic Peace*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 75 Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51; Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72.

9 For Regimes

- 1 See, for example, David Easton. 1965. *A Framework for Political Analysis*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice Hall; Thomas R. Dye, 1995. *Understanding Public Policy*. 8th ed. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice Hall; Paul Sabatier (Ed.). 1999. *Theories of the Policy Process*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press.
- 2 Joseph M. Colomer. 2004. *Handbook of Electoral System Choice*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan; Michael Gallagher and Paul Mitchell (Eds.). 2005. *The Politics of Electoral Systems*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; André Blais (Ed.). 2008. *To Keep or to Change First Past the Post?* Oxford: Oxford University Press; Alan Renwick. 2011. *The Politics of Electoral Reform: Changing the Rules of Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Gideon Rahat and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "The barriers to electoral system reform: A synthesis of alternative approaches." *West European Politics* 34(3): 478–94.
- 3 Carlos Boix. 1999. "Setting the rules of the game: The choice of electoral systems in advanced democracies." *American Political Science Review* 93(3): 609–24.
- 4 Kenneth Benoit. 2007. "Electoral laws as political consequences: Explaining the origins and change of electoral institutions." *Annual Review of Political Science* 10: 363–90.
- 5 Joseph M. Colomer. 2004. *Handbook of Electoral System Choice*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- 6 See Pippa Norris. 2011. "Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model." *West European Politics* 34(1): 531–50.
- 7 Shaun Bowler and Todd Donovan. 2013. *The Limits of Electoral Reform*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- 8 Gideon Rahat and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "The barriers to electoral system reform: A synthesis of alternative approaches." *West European Politics* 34(3): 478–94.
- 9 Stuart Soroka and Christopher Wlezien. 2010. *Degrees of Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Christopher Wlezien and Stuart Soroka. 2012. "Political institutions and the opinion–policy link." *West European Politics* 35(6): 1407–32.
- 10 Monique Leyenaar and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "Reconceptualising electoral reform." *West European Politics* 34(3): 437–55; Jacobs Kristof and Monique Leyenaar. 2011. "A conceptual framework for major, minor, and technical electoral reform." *West European Politics* 34(3): 495–513.
- 11 Louis Massicotte, André Blais, and Antoine Yoshinaka. 2004. *Establishing the Rules of the Game*. Toronto: University of Toronto Press.
- 12 Philipp Harfst. 2013. "Changing the rules of the game: Determinants of successful electoral system change in Central and Eastern Europe." *International Political Science Review* 34(4): 427–43; Karen L. Remmer, 2008. "The politics of

- institutional change – Electoral reform in Latin America, 1978–2002.” *Party Politics* 14(1): 5–30; Jack Bielasiak and John W. Hulse. 2013. “Party system determinants of electoral reform in post-Communist states.” *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 46(1): 1–12.
- 13 Richard S. Katz. 2005. “Why are there so many (or so few) electoral reforms?” In Michael Gallagher and Paul Mitchell (Eds.), *The Politics of Electoral Systems*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 14 Pippa Norris. 1995. “The politics of electoral reform.” *International Political Science Review* 16(1): 1–12.
 - 15 Gideon Rahat. 2004. “The study of the politics of electoral reform in the 1990s: Theoretical and methodological issues.” *Comparative Politics* 36(4): 461–79.
 - 16 Pippa Norris. 1995. “The politics of electoral reform in Britain.” *International Political Science Review* 16(1): 65–78; Pippa Norris. 2001. “The twilight of Westminster? Electoral reform and its consequences.” *Political Studies* 49(5): 877–900; Vernon Bogdanor. 2005. “Constitutional reform in Britain: The quiet revolution.” *Annual Review of Political Science* 8: 73–98; Rodney Brazier. 2008. *Constitutional Reform: Reshaping the British Political System*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Vernon Bogdanor. 2009. *The New British Constitution*. Boston: Hart Publishing; Anthony King. 2009. *The British Constitution*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 17 Pippa Norris. 2011. “Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model.” *West European Politics* 34(1): 531–50.
 - 18 Alan Renwick. 2011. *The Politics of Electoral Reform: Changing the Rules of Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 19 Matthew S. Shugart and Martin P. Wattenberg (Eds.). 2001. *Mixed-Member Electoral Systems: The Best of Both Worlds?* Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 20 Michael R. Alvarez, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad Hall. 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
 - 21 Lonna Rae Atkeson and K. L. Saunders. 2007. “The effect of election administration on voter confidence: A local matter?” *PS: Political Science & Politics* 40: 655–60; InfoSENTRY. April 2012. “Americans’ confidence in vote count accuracy shows little change since 2011: But doubts are increasing in key groups ahead of the presidential election.” http://www.infosentry.com/InfoSENTRY_NewsRelease_Vote-Count-Trust_20120401.pdf.
 - 22 Shaun Bowler and Todd Donovan. 2011. “The limited effects of election reforms on efficacy and engagement.” *Australian Journal of Political Science* 47(1): 55–70.
 - 23 Richard S. Katz. 2005. “Why are there so many (or so few) electoral reforms?” In *The Politics of Electoral Systems*. Eds. Michael Gallagher and Paul Mitchell. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 24 Andrew Reynolds, Benjamin Reilly, and Andrew Ellis (Eds.). 2006. *The New International IDEA Handbook of Electoral System Design*, 2nd ed. Stockholm: International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance, p. 20.
 - 25 Michael Gallagher. 2005. “Conclusions.” In *The Politics of Electoral Systems*. Eds. Michael Gallagher and Paul Mitchell. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 26 Shaun Bowler and Todd Donovan. 2013. *The Limits of Electoral Reform*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
 - 27 *Ibid.*

- 28 See, for example, Andreas Schedler (Ed.). 2006. *Electoral Authoritarianism: The Dynamics of Unfree Competition*. Boulder and London: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Stephen Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2010. "Why democracy needs a level playing field." *Journal of Democracy* 21(1): 57–68; Stephen Levitsky and Lucan Way. 2010. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 29 Thomas Carothers, 2002. "The End of the Transition Paradigm." *Journal of Democracy* 13: 5–21; Fareed Zakaria. 1997. "The Rise of Illiberal Democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 76(6): 22–41; Larry Diamond. 2002. "Thinking about Hybrid Regimes." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 21–35; Steven Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2002. "The Rise of Competitive Authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 51–65; Ariel C. Armony and Hector E. Schamis. 2005. "Babel in democratization studies." *Journal of Democracy* 16(4): 113–28; Andreas Schedler (Ed.). 2006. *Electoral Authoritarianism: The Dynamics of Unfree Competition*. Boulder and London: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Stephen Levitsky and Lucan A. Way. 2010. "Why democracy needs a level playing field." *Journal of Democracy* 21(1): 57–68; Stephen Levitsky and Lucan Way. 2010. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 30 Michael Alvarez, José Antonio Cheibub, Fernando Limongi, and Adam Przeworski. 1996. "Classifying political regimes." *Studies in International Comparative Development* 31: 3–36; Adam Przeworski, Michael E. Alvarez, Jose Antonio Cheibub, and Fernando Limongi. 2000. *Democracy and Development: Political Institutions and Well-Being in the World, 1950–1990*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Jose Antonio Cheibub, Jennifer Gandhi, and James Raymond Vreeland. 2010. "Democracy and dictatorship revisited." *Public Choice* 143(1–2): 67–101.
- 31 Staffan I. Lindberg. 2006. "The surprising significance of African elections." *Journal of Democracy* 17(1): 139–51; Staffan I. Lindberg. 2006. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 32 Staffan I. Lindberg (Ed.). 2009. *Democratization by Elections: A New Mode of Transition*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 33 Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. May 11, 2012. *OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report: Russian Federation Presidential Election 4 March 2012*. OSCE/ODIHR: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/90461>
- 34 For similar arguments, see Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51; Beatriz Magaloni. 2010. "The game of electoral fraud and the ousting of authoritarian rule." *American Journal of Political Science* 54(3): 751–65.
- 35 Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2006. "Favorable conditions and electoral revolutions." *Journal of Democracy* 17: 5–18; Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2011. *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Post-Communist Countries*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 36 Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72; Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51.
- 37 R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad Hall. 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.

- 38 Richard L. Hasen. 2012. *The Voting Wars: From Florida 2000 to the Next Election Meltdown*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- 39 Louis Massicotte, Andre Blais, and Antoine Yoshinaka. 2004. *Establishing the Rules of the Game*. Toronto: University of Toronto Press; Alan Wall, et al. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.
- 40 Electoral Assistance Commission, <http://www.eac.gov/>.
- 41 R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2006. "Controlling democracy: The principal-agent problems in election administration." *The Policy Studies Journal* 34(4): 491–510; Thad E. Hall, J. Quin Monson, and Kelly D. Patterson. 2009. "The human dimension of elections: How poll workers shape public confidence in elections." *Political Research Quarterly* 62(3): 507–22.
- 42 See chapter 2 in Brian L. Fife. 2010. *Reforming the Electoral Process in America*. Santa Barbara, CA: Praeger.
- 43 For details, see http://www.eac.gov/assets/1/Documents/National_Mail_Voter_Registration_Form_English_2.15.2012.1.pdf.
- 44 Pew Center on the States. 2012. *Inaccurate, Costly, and Inefficient*: <http://www.pewstates.org/research/reports/inaccurate-costly-and-inefficient-85899378437>.
- 45 Michael P. McDonald. "2010 general election turnout rates" available at http://elections.gmu.edu/Turnout_2010G.html. See table 2.6 in Brian L. Fife. 2010. *Reforming the Electoral Process in America*. Santa Barbara, CA: Praeger. For a discussion, see Michael P. McDonald and Samuel Popkin. 2001. "The Myth of the Vanishing Voter." *American Political Science Review* 95(4): 963–74. Higher estimates (5.3 million) are provided by the Sentencing Project <http://www.sentencingproject.org/template/page.cfm?id=133>.
- 46 <http://www.ncsl.org/legislatures-elections/elections/voter-id.aspx#2011>.
- 47 Nate Silver. July 15, 2012. "Measuring the effects of voter identification laws." *New York Times*.
- 48 Delia Bailey. 2008. "Federal election fraud cases." In *Election Fraud: Detecting and Deterring Electoral Manipulation*. Eds. R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde. Washington, DC: Brookings Institute. For an alternative view, see John H. Fund. 2004. *Stealing Elections: How Voter Fraud Threatens Our Democracy*. San Francisco, CA: Encounter Books.
- 49 Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 50 See table 5.1 in Brian L. Fife. 2010. *Reforming the Electoral Process in America*. Santa Barbara, CA: Praeger.
- 51 The Center for Responsive Politics. <http://www.opensecrets.org/bigpicture/index.php>.
- 52 If the estimated total costs of the 2000 electoral cycle are calculated in constant prices, taking account of the cumulative rate of inflation (33.3%) from 2000–12, the equivalent total cost of the 2012 electoral cycle would have been \$4,109 billion, not \$6,285 billion. <http://www.usinflationcalculator.com/>.
- 53 Robert G. Boatright. 2012. "The end of the reform era? Campaign finance retrenchment in the United States and Canada." *The Forum* 10(2): 1–30; Glenn Hubbard and Tim Kane. 2013. "In defense of Citizens United: Why campaign finance reform threatens American democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 92(4): 126–33.

- 54 The Center for Responsive Politics. <http://www.opensecrets.org/pres12/superpacs.php>
- 55 For a discussion about the broader consequences for U.S. politics, see Lawrence Lessig. 2011. *Republic, Lost*. New York: Twelve.
- 56 Steven J. Rosenstone, Roy L. Behr, and Edward Lazarus. 1996. *Third Parties in America: Citizen Response to Major Party Failure*, 2nd ed. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Donald J. Green. 2010. *Third Party Matters: Politics, Presidents and Third Parties in American History*. New York: Praeger.
- 57 David Butler and Bruce E. Cain. 1992. *Congressional Redistricting: Comparative and Theoretical Perspectives*. New York: Macmillan; Michael P. McDonald. 2008. “United States redistricting.” In *Redistricting in Comparative Perspective*. Eds. Lisa Handley and Bernard Grofman. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 58 The *New York Times* estimated that around 42 members of the House of Representatives were affiliated with the Tea Party Caucus, although another 38 members supported tying the budget to attempts to defund the Affordable Care Act. <http://www.nytimes.com/interactive/2013/10/20/us/politics/the-factions-in-the-house.html?hp>.
- 59 Theda Skocpol and Vanessa Williamson. 2013. *The Tea Party and the Remaking of Republican Conservatism*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 60 The U.S. Presidential Commission on Electoral Administration. <http://www.supportthevoter.gov/>.
- 61 For background details, see Stephen White. 2011. *Understanding Russian Politics*, 2nd ed. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 62 Alesia Sedziaka. August 28, 2013. “Unfair elections and support for electoral protest: Reactions to the Russian State Duma election in 2011.” Paper presented at the pre-APSA Workshop on Electoral Integrity, Chicago.
- 63 Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. May 11, 2012. *OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report: Russian Federation Presidential Election 4 March 2012*. OSCE/ODIHR: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/90461>.
- 64 For evidence that this mattered in previous Russian contests, see Stephen White, Sarah Oates, and Ian McAllister. 2005. “Media effects and Russian elections, 1999–2000.” *British Journal of Political Science* 35: 191–208.
- 65 Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. May 11, 2012. *OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report: Russian Federation Presidential Election 4 March 2012*. OSCE/ODIHR: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/90461>.
- 66 *Ibid.*
- 67 http://assembly.coe.int/ASP/NewsManager/EMB_NewsManagerView.asp?ID=7459.
- 68 Tonino Picula, the special coordinator to lead the short-term OSCE observer mission and head of the delegation of the OSCE Parliamentary Assembly. http://assembly.coe.int/ASP/NewsManager/EMB_NewsManagerView.asp?ID=7459.
- 69 Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. May 11, 2012. *OSCE/ODIHR Election Observation Mission Final Report: Russian Federation Presidential Election 4 March 2012*. OSCE/ODIHR: Warsaw. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/90461>.

- 70 <http://www.kartanarusHENiy.org/2012-03-04>.
- 71 Russian Federation. March 4, 2012. "Association GOLOS domestic monitoring of elections of the president of Russian Federation Preliminary Report." <http://www.ndi.org/files/Golos-Prelim-Report-030512-ENG.pdf>.
- 72 http://www.russiavotes.org/president/presidency_performance_trends.php#190.
- 73 It should be noted that the GOLOS Association, a Russian nonprofit founded in 2000 to protect the electoral rights of citizens, estimated that Putin received only a wafer-thin majority (50.75%) of the total vote. <http://www.golos.org/news/5789>.
- 74 Denis Volkov. 2012. "The protesters and the public." *Journal of Democracy* 23(3): 55–62.
- 75 <http://cikrf.ru/eng/>.
- 76 Alesia Sedziaka. August 28, 2013. "Unfair elections and support for electoral protest: Reactions to the Russian State Duma election in 2011." Paper presented at the pre-APSA Workshop on Electoral Integrity, Chicago.
- 77 For details about how far the 2012 presidential elections reflected tendencies evident in previous Russian contests, see Stephen White. 2011. "Elections Russian-Style." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 531–56.
- 78 Mark R. Thompson and Philipp Kuntz. 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–72.
- 79 Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2006. "Favorable conditions and electoral revolutions." *Journal of Democracy* 17: 5–18; Valerie J. Bunce and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2011. *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Post-Communist Countries*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 80 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 81 Joshua Tucker. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51.
- 82 Andrew Wilson. 2006. *Ukraine's Orange Revolution*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press; Paul D'Anieri (Ed.). 2010. *Orange Revolution and Aftermath: Mobilization, Apathy, and the State in Ukraine*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 83 Nathaniel Copsey. 2007. *The Colour Revolutions in the Former Soviet Republics*. London: Routledge.
- 84 OSCE/ODIHR. *Election Observation Mission Final Report: Ukraine Presidential Election 31 October, 21 November and 26 December 2004*. Warsaw: OSCE. <http://www.osce.org/odihr/elections/ukraine/14674>.
- 85 Mikhail Myagkov, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2005. "Fraud or fairytales: Russia and Ukraine's electoral experience." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 21(2): 91–131.
- 86 Thad Hall, Susan Hyde, and Elizabeth Wellman. August 28, 2013. "Confidence in a climate of fraud: Ukraine 2004–11." Paper presented at the pre-APSA Workshop on Electoral Integrity, Chicago.
- 87 Freedom House. 2012. *Sounding the Alarm: Protecting Democracy in Ukraine*. Washington, DC: Freedom House.
- 10 **Conclusions: Strengthening Electoral Integrity**
- 1 Philippe C. Schmitter and Terry Lynn Karl. 1991. "What democracy is ... and is not." *Journal of Democracy* 2(3): 75–88.

- 2 Staffan Lindberg. 2006. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press; Staffan Lindberg (Ed.). 2009. *Democratization by Elections: A New Mode of Transition*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press; Staffan Lindberg. 2013. "Confusing Categories, Shifting Targets." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 161–67.
- 3 Steven Levitsky and Lucan Way. 2010. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 4 R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad Hall. 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 5 Dorina Bekoe (Ed.). 2012. *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- 6 The Presidential Commission on Electoral Administration. <http://www.support-thevoter.gov/>.
- 7 See the discussion in Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 8 See, for example, E. J. Dionne, Jr. 1991. *Why Americans Hate Politics*. New York: Simon and Schuster; Stephen Craig. 1993. *The Malevolent Leaders: Popular Discontent in America*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press; John R. Hibbing and Elizabeth Theiss-Morse. 1995. *Congress as Public Enemy*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Susan J. Tolchin. 1996. *The Angry American: How Voter Rage Is Changing the Nation*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press; Joseph S. Nye, Philip D. Zelikow, and David C. King (Eds.). 1997. *Why People Don't Trust Government*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press; John R. Hibbing and Elizabeth Theiss-Morse (Eds.). 2001. *What Is It About Government that Americans Dislike?* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- 9 Pippa Norris (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens: Global Support for Democratic Governance*. New York: Oxford University Press; Susan Pharr and Robert Putnam (Eds.). 2000. *Disaffected Democracies: What's Troubling the Trilateral Countries?* Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Russell J. Dalton. 2004. *Democratic Challenges, Democratic Choices: The Erosion of Political Support in Advanced Industrial Democracies*. New York: Oxford University Press; Mariano Torcal and José R. Montero. 2006. *Political Disaffection in Contemporary Democracies: Social Capital, Institutions, and Politics*. London: Routledge.
- 10 Russell J. Dalton. 2004. *Democratic Challenges, Democratic Choices: The Erosion of Political Support in Advanced Industrial Democracies*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 11 See the discussion in Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*, chap. 4. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 12 Pippa Norris. 2011. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited*, chap. 10. New York: Cambridge University Press, pp. 214–15.
- 13 Sarah Birch. 2008. "Electoral institutions and popular confidence in electoral processes: A cross-national analysis." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 305–20; Sarah Birch. 2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601–22; Richard Rose and William Mishler. 2009. "How do electors respond to an 'unfair' election? The experience of Russians." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25(2): 118–36; Ian McAllister and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663–83.
- 14 Ruy A. Teixeira. 1992. *The Disappearing American Voter*. Washington, DC: The Brookings Institution; John H. Aldrich. 1995. *Why Parties? The Origin and*

- Transformation of Party Politics in America*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press; Robert D. Putnam. 2000. *Bowling Alone: The Collapse and Revival of American Community*. New York: Simon and Schuster; Sidney Verba, Kay Schlozman, and Henry Brady. 1995. *Voice and Equality: Civic Volunteerism in American Politics*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press; Martin P. Wattenberg. 2002. *Where Have All the Voters Gone?* Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press; Cliff Zukin, Scott Keeter, Molly Andolina, Krista Jenkins, and Michael X. Delli Carpini. 2006. *A New Engagement? Political Participation, Civic Life, and the Changing American Citizen*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 15 Colin Hay. 2007. *Why We Hate Politics*. Cambridge: Polity Press; Peter Mair and Ingrid van Biezen. 2001. "Party membership in twenty European democracies 1980–2000." *Party Politics* 7(1): 5–22; Mark N. Franklin, Thomas T. Mackie, and Henry Valen. 1991. *Electoral Change: Responses to Evolving Social and Attitudinal Structures in Western Countries*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Russell J. Dalton and Marty P. Wattenberg. 2000. *Parties without Partisans: Political Change in Advanced Industrial Democracies*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Mark N. Franklin. 2004. *Voter Turnout and the Dynamics of Electoral Competition in Established Democracies since 1945*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Susan Pharr and Robert Putnam (Eds.). 2000. *Disaffected Democracies: What's Troubling the Trilateral Countries?* Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Mariano Torcal and José R. Montero. 2006. *Political Disaffection in Contemporary Democracies: Social Capital, Institutions, and Politics*. London: Routledge; Mattei Dogan (Ed.). 2005. *Political Mistrust and the Discrediting of Politicians*. The Netherlands: Brill; Jan Van Deth, Jose R. Montero, and Anders Westholm. 2007. *Citizenship and Involvement in European Democracies: A Comparative Analysis*. New York: Routledge.
 - 16 Christopher Anderson and Silvia Mendes. 2006. "Learning to lose: Election outcomes, democratic experience and political protest potential." *British Journal of Political Science* 36(1): 91–111.
 - 17 Pippa Norris. 2011. "Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model." *West European Politics* 34(1): 531–50; Monique Leyenaar and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "Reconceptualising electoral reform." *West European Politics* 34(3): 437–55.
 - 18 Jack Snyder. 2000. *From Voting to Violence: Democratization and Nationalist Conflict*. New York: Norton; Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder. 2007. *Electing to Fight: Why Emerging Democracies Go to War*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press; Dawn Brancati and Jack L. Snyder. 2011. "Rushing to the polls: The causes of premature post-conflict elections." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 55(3): 469–92.
 - 19 Pippa Norris. 2014. "The new research agenda studying electoral integrity." Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 34(4) (Forthcoming).
 - 20 International IDEA. 2002. *International Electoral Standards: Guidelines for Reviewing the Legal Framework for Elections*. Stockholm: International IDEA.
 - 21 Spencer Overton. 2006. *Stealing Democracy: The New Politics of Voter Suppression*. New York: Norton; Lorraine Carol Minnite. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Richard L. Hasen. 2012. *The Voting Wars: From Florida 2000 to the Next Election Meltdown*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.

- 22 Stuart Wilks-Heeg. April 28, 2008. *Purity of Elections in the UK: Causes for Concern*. York: The Joseph Rowntree Reform Trust; Sam Buckley. 2011. *Banana Republic UK? Vote Rigging, Fraud and Error in British Elections since 2001*. Open Rights Group.
- 23 Paul Gronke, Eva Galanes-Rosenbaum, Peter A. Miller, and Daniel Toffey. 2008. "Convenience voting." *Annual Review of Political Science* 11: 437–55.
- 24 R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2008. "Building secure and transparent elections through standard operating procedures." *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 828–38; R. Michael Alvarez, Lonna Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall (Eds.). 2012. *Confirming Elections: Creating Confidence and Integrity through Election Auditing*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- 25 Karl-Heinz Nassmacher (Ed.). 2001. *Foundations for Democracy: Approaches to Comparative Political Finance*. Baden-Baden: Nomos; Karl-Heinz Nassmacher. 2009. *The Funding of Party Competition: Political Finance in 25 Democracies*. Baden-Baden: Nomos.
- 26 Magnus Öhman and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: IFES. http://www.ifes.org/files/Political_Finance_Regulation_The_Global_Experience.pdf.
- 27 Tracy Campbell. 2006. *Deliver the Vote: A History of Election Fraud, an American Political Tradition, 1742–2004*. New York: Basic Books.
- 28 Herbert Kitschelt and Steven L. Wilkinson (Eds.). 2007. *Patrons, Clients and Policies*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Miguel Carreras and Yasmin Irepoglu. 2013. "Electoral malpractices, political efficacy, and turnout in Latin America." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- 29 Fabrice Edouard Lehoucq and Iván Molina Jiménez. 2002. *Stuffing the Ballot Box: Fraud, Electoral Reform, and Democratization in Costa Rica*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Beatriz Magaloni. 2006. *Voting for Autocracy: Hegemonic Party Survival and Its Demise in Mexico*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press; Michael Bratton. 2008. "Vote buying and violence in Nigerian election campaigns." *Electoral Studies* 27(4): 621–32; W. A. Callahan. 2005. "The discourse of vote buying and political reform in Thailand." *Pacific Affairs* 78(1): 95; Muhāmmada Iyāhaiyā Ākhatāra. 2001. *Electoral Corruption in Bangladesh*. Burlington, VT: Ashgate; Timothy J. Power and Matthew MacLeod Taylor. 2005. *Corruption and Democracy in Brazil: The Struggle for Accountability*. South Bend, IN: University of Notre Dame Press.
- 30 Fredric Charles Schaffer (Ed.). 2007. *Elections for Sale: The Causes and Consequences of Vote Buying*. Boulder and London: Lynne Rienner Publishers; Fredric Charles Schaffer. 2002. "Might cleaning up elections keep people away from the polls? Historical and comparative perspectives." *International Political Science Review* 23(1): 69–84; Fredric Charles Schaffer. 2008. *The Hidden Costs of Clean Election Reform*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 31 Ellen Mickiewicz. 2008. *Television, Power, and the Public in Russia*. New York: Cambridge University Press; Ellen Mickiewicz. 1997. *Changing Channels: Television and the Struggle for Power in Russia*. New York: Oxford University Press; Stephen White. 2011. "Elections Russian-Style." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 531–56.
- 32 Pippa Norris. 2010. *Public Sentinel: News Media and the Governance Agenda*. Washington, DC: The World Bank.

- 33 UNDP. April 2011. *Comparative Experience in Electoral Administration and the Arab World*. New York: UNDP.
- 34 International IDEA. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.
- 35 UNDP. 2012. *Evaluation of UNDP Contribution to Strengthening Electoral Systems and Processes*. New York: UNDP.
- 36 Peter Burnell (Ed.). 2010. *Democracy Assistance: International Co-operation for Democratization*. London: Routledge.
- 37 Eric C. Bjornlund. 2004. *Beyond Free and Fair: Monitoring Elections and Building Democracy*. Washington, DC: Woodrow Wilson Center Press; Guy S. Goodwin-Gill. 2006. *Free and Fair Elections*, 2nd Edition. Geneva: Inter-parliamentary Union; John Hardin Young. 2009. *International Election Principles: Democracy and the Rule of Law*. Chicago: American Bar Association.
- 38 Susan B. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press; Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- 39 Judith Kelley. 2008. "Assessing the complex evolution of norms: The rise of international election monitoring." *International Organization* 62(2): 221–55; Judith Kelley. 2009. "D-Minus Elections: The politics and norms of international election observation." *International Organization* 63(4): 765–87; Judith Kelley. 2009. "The more the merrier? The effects of having multiple international election monitoring organizations." *Perspectives on Politics* 7: 59–64; Judith Kelley. 2010. "Election observers and their biases." *Journal of Democracy* 21: 158–72; Judith Kelley. 2012. "The international influences on elections in transition states." *Annual Review of Political Science* 15: 203–20; Judith Kelley. 2012. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why it Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press; Susan D. Hyde. 2007. "Experimenting in democracy promotion: International observers and the 2004 presidential elections in Indonesia." *Perspectives on Politics* 8(2): 511–27; Susan D. Hyde. 2007. "The observer effect in international politics: Evidence from a natural experiment." *World Politics* 60(1): 37–63; Susan D. Hyde. 2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- 40 UNDP. 2012. *Evaluation of UNDP Contribution to Strengthening Electoral Systems and Processes*. New York: UNDP.
- 41 UNDP Global Programme for Electoral Cycle Support. http://web.undp.org/eu/UNDP_Global_Programme_for_Electoral_Cycle_Support%20.shtml.
- 42 See, for example, the ACE Electoral Knowledge Network <http://aceproject.org>; R. Michael Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2008. "Building secure and transparent elections through standard operating procedures." *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 828–38.
- 43 Michael R. Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2006. "Controlling democracy: The principal agent problems in election administration." *Policy Studies Journal* 34(4): 491–510; Michael R. Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Morgan Llewellyn. 2008. "Who should run elections in the United States?" *Policy Studies Journal* 36(3): 325–46; Michael R. Alvarez and Thad E. Hall. 2008. "Building secure and transparent elections through standard operating procedures." *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 828–38; Lonna Rae Atkeson, Lisa Ann Bryant, and Thad E. Hall. 2010. "A new barrier to

- participation: Heterogeneous application of voter identification policies.” *Electoral Studies* 29(1): 66–73; Robert S. Montjoy, 2008. “The public administration of elections.” *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 788–99; Robert S. Montjoy, 2010. “The changing nature ... and costs ... of election administration.” *Public Administration Review* 70(6): 867–75; Michael R. Alvarez, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad Hall, 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 44 Paul Gronke, Eva Galanes-Rosenbaum, Peter A. Miller, and Daniel Toffey. 2008. “Convenience voting.” *Annual Review of Political Science* 11: 437–55.
 - 45 Shaheen Mozaffar and Andreas Schedler. 2002. “The comparative study of electoral governance: Introduction.” *International Political Science Review* 23(1): 5–27; Jonathan Hartlyn, Jennifer McCoy, and Thomas M. Mustillo. 2008. “Electoral governance matters: Explaining the quality of elections in contemporary Latin America.” *Comparative Political Studies* 41(1): 73–98.
 - 46 See, for example, International IDEA. 2004. *Handbook on the Funding of Political Parties and Election Campaigns*. Stockholm: International IDEA; Organization of American States/International IDEA. 2005. *Funding of Political Parties and Election Campaigns in the Americas*. OAS/International IDEA; Alan Wall et al. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA; Magnus Öhman and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: IFES.
 - 47 International IDEA. 2002. *International Electoral Standards: Guidelines for Reviewing the Legal Framework for Elections*. Stockholm: International IDEA.
 - 48 Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA.
 - 49 <http://www.un.org/wcm/content/site/undpa/main/issues/elections/resolutions>.
 - 50 United Nations. 1948. Universal Declaration of Human Rights. <http://www.un.org/en/documents/udhr/>.
 - 51 <http://www.un.org/wcm/content/site/undpa/main/issues/elections/resolutions>.
 - 52 <http://www.un.org/wcm/content/site/undpa/main/issues/elections/resolutions>.

Select Bibliography

- Abbink, Jon. 2000. "Introduction: Rethinking democratization and election observation." In Jon Abbink and G. Hesselning (Eds.), *Election Observation and Democratization in Africa*. New York: St. Martin's Press, pp. 1-17.
- Acemoglu, Daron and James A. Robinson. 2005. *Economic Origins of Dictatorship or Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Ākhatāra, Muhāmmada Iyāhaiyā. 2001. *Electoral Corruption in Bangladesh*. Burlington, VT: Ashgate.
- Albaugh, E. A. "An autocrat's toolkit: Adaptation and manipulation in 'democratic' Cameroon." *Democratization* 18(2): 388-414.
- Alesina, Alberto and Enrico Spolaore. 2003. *The Size of Nations*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Allen, H. W. and K. W. Allen. 1981. "Voting fraud and data validity." In J. M. Clubb, W. H. Flanigan, and H. Zingale (Eds.), *Analyzing Electoral History*. Beverley Hills, CA: Sage, pp. 153-93.
- Alston, L. J. and A. A. Gallo. 2008. "Electoral fraud, the rise of Peron and demise of checks and balances in Argentina." *Explorations in Economic History* 47(2): 179-97.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall (Eds.). 2012. *Confirming Elections: Creating Confidence and Integrity through Election Auditing*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, Lonna Rae Atkeson, and Thad E. Hall. 2012. *Evaluating Elections: A Handbook of Methods and Standards*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, Lonna Rae Atkeson, Thad E. Hall, and Andrew J. Lotempio. 2002. "Winning, losing and political trust in America." *British Journal of Political Science* 32(2): 335-51.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, José Antonio Cheibub, Fernando Limongi, and Adam Przeworski. 1996. "Classifying political regimes." *Studies in International Comparative Development* 31: 3-36.

- Alvarez, R. Michael and Thad E. Hall. 2006. "Controlling democracy: The principal agent problems in election administration." *Policy Studies Journal* 34(4): 491-510.
- Alvarez, R. Michael and Thad E. Hall. 2008. "Building secure and transparent elections through standard operating procedures." *Public Administration Review* 68(5): 828-38.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, Thad E. Hall, and Morgan Llewellyn. 2008a. "Who should run elections in the United States?" *Policy Studies Journal* 36(3): 325-46.
- 2008b. "Are Americans confident their ballots are counted?" *Journal of Politics* 70(3): 754-66.
- Alvarez, R. Michael, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde (Eds.). 2008. *Election Fraud*. Washington, DC: Brookings Institution Press.
- Anderson, Christopher J. 1995. *Blaming the Government: Citizens and the Economy in Five European Democracies*. New York: M. E. Sharpe.
- Anderson, Christopher J., Andre Blais, Shaun Bowler, Todd Donovan, and Ola Listhaug. 2005. *Losers' Consent: Elections and Democratic Legitimacy*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Anderson, Christopher J. and Christine A. Guillory. 1997. "Political institutions and satisfaction with democracy." *American Political Science Review* 91(1): 66-81.
- Anderson, Christopher J. and Silvia Mendes. 2006. "Learning to lose: Election outcomes, democratic experience and political protest potential." *British Journal of Political Science* 36(1): 91-111.
- Anderson, Christopher J. and Y. V. Tverdova. 2001. "Winners, losers, and attitudes about government in contemporary democracies." *International Political Science Review* 22: 321-38.
- Anderson, Christopher J. and Yuliya V. Tverdova. 2003. "Corruption, political allegiances, and attitudes toward government in contemporary democracies." *American Journal of Political Science* 47(1): 91-109.
- Anglin, Douglas G. 1995. "International monitoring of the transition to democracy in South Africa, 1992-1994." *African Affairs* 9(377): 519-43.
1998. "International election monitoring: The African experience." *African Affairs* 97: 471-95.
- Ansolabehere, Stephen. 2009. "Effects of identification requirements on voting: Evidence from the experiences of voters on election day." *PS: Political Science & Politics* 42: 127-30.
- Ansolabehere, Stephen, Eitan Hersh, and Kenneth Shepsle. 2012. "Movers, stayers, and registration: Why age is correlated with registration in the U.S." *Quarterly Journal of Political Science* 7(4): 333-63.
- Arrington, Theodore S. 2010. "Redistricting in the US: A review of scholarship and plan for future research." *Forum: A Journal of Applied Research in Contemporary Politics* 8(2).
- Atkeson, Lonna Rae and K. L. Saunders. 2007. "The effect of election administration on voter confidence: A local matter?" *PS: Political Science & Politics* 40: 655-60.
- Atkeson, Lonna Rae, Lisa Ann Bryant, and Thad E. Hall. 2010. "A new barrier to participation: Heterogeneous application of voter identification policies." *Electoral Studies* 29(1): 66-73.

- Atwood, Richard. 2012. "How the EU can support peaceful post-election transitions of power: lessons from Africa." Directorate-General for External Policies of the Union, Directorate B Policy Department, European Parliament, Brussels.
- Baker, B. 2002. "When to call black white: Zimbabwe's electoral reports." *Third World Quarterly* 23(6): 1145-58.
- Balule, Badala Tachilisa. 2008. "Election management bodies in the SADC region: An appraisal of the independence of Botswana's independent electoral commission." *South African Journal on Human Rights* 24: 104-22.
- Banducci, Susan A. and Jeffrey A. Karp. 1999. "Perceptions of fairness and support for proportional representation." *Political Behavior* 21(3): 217-38.
- Bardall, Gabrielle. "Election violence monitoring and the use of new communication technologies." *Democracy & Society* 7(2): 1-8.
- Barkan, Joel D. 1993. "Kenya: Lessons from a flawed election." *Journal of Democracy* 4(3): 85-99.
- Basedau, Matthais, Gero Erdman, and Andreas Mehler. 2007. *Votes, Money and Violence: Political Parties in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Sweden: Nordiska Afrikainstitutet. <http://urn.kb.se/resolve?urn=urn:nbn:se:nai:diva-492>
- Beaulieu, Emily. 2013. "Political parties and perceptions of election fraud in the U.S." Paper presented at the Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 2-3, 2013.
- Beaulieu, Emily and Susan D. Hyde. 2009. "In the shadow of democracy promotion: Strategic manipulation, international observers, and election boycotts." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(3): 392-415.
- Beber, Bernd and Alexandra Scacco. 2012. "What the numbers say: A digit-based test for election fraud." *Political Analysis* 20(2): 211-34.
- Bekoe, Dorina (Ed.). 2012. *Voting in Fear: Electoral Violence in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- Benson, J. F. 2009. "Voter fraud or voter defrauded? Highlighting an inconsistent consideration of election fraud." *Harvard Civil Rights-Civil Liberties Law Review* 44(1): 1-42.
- Berinsky, Adam J. 2004. "The perverse consequences of electoral reform in the United States." *American Politics Research* 33(4): 471-91.
- Bermeo, Nancy. 2010. "Interests, inequality, and illusion in the choice for fair elections." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(8-9): 1119-47.
- Bhasin, Tavishi and Jennifer Gandhi. 2013. "State repression in authoritarian elections." *Electoral Studies* (Forthcoming).
- Birch, Sarah. 2007. "Electoral systems and electoral misconduct." *Comparative Political Studies* 40(12): 1533-56.
2008. "Electoral institutions and popular confidence in electoral processes: A cross-national analysis." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 305-20.
2010. "Perceptions of electoral fairness and voter turnout." *Comparative Political Studies* 43(12): 1601-22.
2011. *Electoral Malpractice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Bjornlund, Eric C. 2004. *Beyond Free and Fair: Monitoring Elections and Building Democracy*. Washington, DC: Woodrow Wilson Center Press.
- Bjornskov, C. "How does social trust lead to better governance? An attempt to separate electoral and bureaucratic mechanisms." *Public Choice* 144(1-2): 323-46.

- Bland, Gary, Andrew Green, and Toby Moore. 2012. "Measuring the quality of election administration." *Democratization*, 1-20: 358-377.
- Blaydes, Lisa. 2011. *Elections and Distributive Politics in Mubarak's Egypt*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Boatright, Robert G. (Ed.). 2011. *Campaign Finance: The Problems and Consequences of Reform*. New York: IDebate Press.
- Bogaards, Matthijs. 2013. "Reexamining African elections." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4):151-60.
- Bogaards, Matthijs, Matthias Basedau, and Christof Hartmann. 2010. "Ethnic party bans in Africa: An introduction." *Democratization* 17(4): 599-617.
- Boix, Carles, Michael K. Miller, and Sebastian Rosato. "A complete dataset of political regimes, 1800-2007." *Comparative Political Studies*. Forthcoming.
- Boniface, Makulilo Alexander. 2011. "'Watching the watcher': An evaluation of local election observers in Tanzania." *Journal of Modern African Studies* 49(2): 241-62.
- Boone, Catherine. 2011. "Politically allocated land rights and the geography of electoral violence: The case of Kenya in the 1990s." *Comparative Political Studies* 44(10): 1311-42.
- Bowler, Shaun and Todd Donovan. 2011. "The limited effects of election reforms on efficacy and engagement." *Australian Journal of Political Science* 47(1): 55-70.
- Brancati, Dawn and Jack L. Snyder. 2011. "Rushing to the polls: The causes of premature postconflict elections." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 55(3): 469-92.
- Bratton, Michael. 2008. "Vote buying and violence in Nigerian election campaigns." *Electoral Studies* 27(4): 621-32.
- Bratton, Michael (Ed.). 2013. *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
- Bratton, Michael and Nicholas van de Walle. 1997. *Democratic Experiments in Africa: Regime Transitions in Comparative Perspective*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Bratton, Michael, Robert Mattes, and E. Gyimah-Boadi. 2005. *Public Opinion, Democracy and Market Reform in Africa*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Breunig, Christian and Achim Goerres. 2011. "Searching for electoral irregularities in an established democracy: Applying Benford's Law tests to Bundestag elections in Unified Germany." *Electoral Studies* 30(3): 534-45.
- Brown, Nathan J. (Ed.). 2011. *The Dynamics of Democratization: Dictatorship, Development and Diffusion*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- Brownlee, Jason. 2007. *Authoritarianism in an Age of Democratization*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
2008. "Bound to rule: Party institutions and regime trajectories in Malaysia and the Philippines." *Journal of East Asian Studies* 8(1): 89-118.
2009. "Portents of pluralism: How hybrid regimes affect democratic transitions." *American Journal of Political Science* 53(3): 515-32.
2011. "Executive elections in the Arab world: When and how do they matter?" *Comparative Political Studies* 44(7): 807-28.
- Buckley, Sam. 2011. *Banana Republic UK? Vote Rigging, Fraud and Error in British Elections since 2001*. London: Open Rights Group.

- Bunce, Valerie J. and Sharon L. Wolchik. 2006. "Favorable conditions and electoral revolutions." *Journal of Democracy* 17: 5-18.
2010. "Defeating dictators: Electoral change and stability in competitive authoritarian regimes." *World Politics* 62(1): 43-86.
2011. *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Post-Communist Countries*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Butler, David and Bruce E. Cain. 1992. *Congressional Redistricting: Comparative and Theoretical Perspectives*. New York: Macmillan.
- Calimbahin, Cleo. 2011. "Exceeding (low) expectations: Autonomy, bureaucratic integrity, and capacity in the 2010 elections." *Philippine Political Science Journal* 32(55): 103-26.
- Callahan, W. A. 2000. *Poll Watching, Elections and Civil Society in South-East Asia*. Burlington, VT: Ashgate.
2005. "The discourse of vote buying and political reform in Thailand." *Pacific Affairs* 78, (1): 95-113.
- Campbell, Tracy. 2006. *Deliver the Vote: A History of Election Fraud, an American Political Tradition 1742-2004*. New York: Basic Books.
- Carey, Sabine. 2007. "Violent dissent and rebellion in Africa." *Journal of Peace Research* 44(1): 1-39.
- Carman, Christopher, James Mitchell, and Robert Johns. 2008. "The unfortunate natural experiment in ballot design: The Scottish Parliamentary elections of 2007." *Electoral Studies* 27(3): 442-59.
- Carothers, Thomas. 1997. "The observers observed." *Journal of Democracy*. 8(3): 17-31.
2002. "The End of the Transition Paradigm." *Journal of Democracy* 13: 5-21.
- Carreras, Miguel and Yasmin Irepoglu. 2013. "Trust in elections, vote buying, and turnout in Latin America." *Electoral Studies* 32(4): 609-619.
- Carroll, David J. and Avery Davis-Roberts. 2013. "The Carter Center and election observation: An obligations-based approach for assessing elections." *Election Law Journal*. 12(1): 87-93.
- The Carter Center. *Database of Obligations for Democratic Elections*. Atlanta: Carter Center. <http://www.cartercenter.org/des-search/des/Introduction.aspx>
- Casas-Zamora, Kevin. 2004. *Paying for Democracy*. Essex: European Consortium for Political Research (ECPR) Press.
- Case, William. 2011. "Electoral authoritarianism and backlash: Hardening Malaysia, oscillating Thailand." *International Political Science Review* 32(4): 438-57.
- Castaneda, Gonzalo. 2011. "Benford's law and its applicability in the forensic analysis of electoral results." *Politica Y Gobierno* 18(2): 297-329.
- Castaneda, Gonzalo and I. Ibarra. "Detection of fraud with agent-based models: The 2006 Mexican election." *Perfiles Latinoamericanos* 18(36): 43-69.
- Cederman, Lars-Erik, Kristian S. Gleditsch, and Simon Hug. 2012. "Elections and civil war." *Comparative Political Studies* 46(3): 387-417.
- Celestino, Mauricio Rivera and Kristian Skrede Gleditsch. 2013. "Fresh carnations or all thorn, no rose? Nonviolent campaigns and transitions in autocracies." *Journal of Peace Research* 50(3): 385-400.
- Chaisty, Paul and Steven Whitefield. 2013. "Forward to democracy or back to authoritarianism? The attitudinal bases of mass support for the Russian election protests of 2011-2012." *Post-Soviet Affairs*, 29(5): 387-403.

- Chand, Vikram. 1997. "Democratisation from the outside in: NGO and international efforts to promote open elections." *Third World Quarterly* 18(3): 543-61.
- Chaturvedi, Ashish. 2005. "Rigged elections with violence." *Public Choice* 125(1/2): 189-202.
- Cheibub, Jose Antonio, Jennifer Gandhi, and James Raymond Vreeland. 2010. "Democracy and dictatorship revisited." *Public Choice* 143(1-2): 67-101.
- Cingranelli, David L., David L. Richards, and K. Chad Clay. 2013. The Cingranelli-Richards (CIRI) Human Rights Dataset. <http://www.humanrightsdata.org>
- Collier, Paul. 2009. *Wars, Guns and Votes: Democracy in Dangerous Places*. New York: HarperCollins.
- Collier, Paul and Anke Hoeffler. 1998. "On economic causes of civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 50(4): 563-73.
2002. "On the incidence of civil war in Africa." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 46(1): 13-28.
2004. "Greed and grievance in civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 56(4): 563-95.
- Collier, Paul, Anke Hoeffler, and Dominic Rohner. 2009. "Beyond greed and grievance: Feasibility and civil war." *Oxford Economic Papers-New Series* 61(1): 1-27.
- Collier, Paul, Anke Hoeffler, and Mans Soderbom. 2008. "Post-conflict risks." *Journal of Peace Research* 45(4): 461-78.
- Collier, Paul, Anke Hoeffler, and Nicholas Sambanis. 2005. "The Collier-Hoeffler model of civil war onset and the case study project research design." Ch 1 in *Understanding Civil War*. Eds. Paul Collier and Nicolas Sambanis. Washington, DC: The World Bank.
- Collier, Paul and Pedro Vicente. 2011. "Violence, bribery and fraud: the political economy of elections in Sub-Saharan Africa." *Public Choice*. 153(1): 1-31.
- Coppedge, Michael. 2012. *Democratization and Research Methods*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Craig, Stephen C., Michael D. Martinez, and Jason Gainous. 2006. "Winners, losers, and election context: Voter responses to the 2000 presidential election." *Political Research Quarterly* 59(4): 579-92.
- Cruz, R. C. 2001. "Voting for the unexpected: Electoral fraud and political struggle in Costa Rica (1901-1948)." *Journal of Latin American Studies* 33: 893-94.
- Curtice, John. 2013. "Politicians, voters and democracy: The 2011 UK referendum on the Alternative Vote." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 215-23.
- Dahl, Robert A. 1971. *Polyarchy: Participation and Opposition*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- D'Anieri, Paul (Ed.). 2010. *Orange revolution and aftermath: Mobilization, apathy, and the state in Ukraine*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press.
- Davenport, Christian. 1997. "From ballots to bullets: An empirical assessment of how national elections influence state uses of political repression." *Electoral Studies* 6(4): 517-40.
- 2007a. "State repression and political order." *Annual Review of Political Science* 10: 1-23.
- 2007b. *State Repression and the Domestic Democratic Peace*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Davenport, Christian and Molly Inman. 2012. "The state of state repression research since the 1990s." *Terrorism and Political Violence* 24(4): 619-34.

- Davis-Roberts, Avery and David J. Carroll. 2010. "Using international law to assess elections." *Democratization* 17(3): 416-41.
- Daxecker, Ursula E. 2012. "The cost of exposing cheating: International election monitoring, fraud, and post-election violence in Africa." *Journal of Peace Research* 49(4): 503-16.
- Daxecker, Ursula E. and Gerald Schneider. 2014. "Electoral monitoring." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Debrah, Emmanuel. 2011. "Measuring governance institutions' success in Ghana: The case of the Electoral Commission, 1993-2008." *African Studies* 70(1): 25-45.
- Deckert, Joseph, Mikhail Myagkov, and Peter C. Ordeshook. 2011. "Benford's Law and the detection of election fraud." *Political Analysis* 19: 245-68.
- Denver, David, R. Johns, and C. Carman. 2009. "Rejected ballot papers in the 2007 Scottish Parliament election: The voters' perspective." *British Politics* 4(1): 3-21.
- Dercon, Stefan and Roxana Gutierrez-Romero. 2012. "Triggers and characteristics of the 2007 Kenyan electoral violence." *World Development* 40(4): 731-44.
- Diamond, Larry. 2002. "Thinking about hybrid regimes." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 21-35.
- Diamond, Larry and Leonardo Morlino. 2004. "Quality of democracy: An overview." *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 20-31.
- Doherty, David and Jennifer Wolak. 2012. "When do the ends justify the means? Evaluating procedural fairness." *Political Behavior* 34(2): 301-23.
- Donno, Daniella. 2010. "Who is punished? Regional intergovernmental organizations and the enforcement of democratic norms." *International Organization* 64(4): 593-625.
- 2013a. *Defending Democratic Norms*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- 2013b. "Elections and democratization in authoritarian regimes." *American Journal of Political Science* 57(3): 703-16.
- Donno, Daniella and Alberto Simpser. 2012. "Can international election monitoring harm governance?" *Journal of Politics* 74(2): 501-13.
- Donno, Daniella and Nasos Roussias. 2012. "Does cheating pay? The effect of electoral misconduct on party systems." *Comparative Political Studies* 45(5): 575-605.
- Donsanto, C. C. 2008. "Corruption in the electoral process under U.S. federal law." In *Election Fraud: Detecting and Deterring Electoral Manipulation*. Eds. R. Michael Alvarez, Thad E. Hall, and Susan Hyde. Washington, DC: Brookings Institute.
- Downs, Anthony. 1957. *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. New York: Harper and Row.
- Doyle, Michael W and Nicolas Sambanis. 2000. "International peace-building: A theoretical and quantitative analysis." *American Political Science Review* 94(4): 779-801.
- Drometer, Marcus and Rincke Johannes. 2009. "The impact of ballot access restrictions on electoral competition: Evidence from a natural experiment." *Public Choice* 138(3-4): 461-74.
- Dunning, Thad. 2011. "Fighting and voting: Violent conflict and electoral politics." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 55(3): 327-39.
2012. *Natural Experiments in the Social Sciences*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Eisenstadt, T. A. 2004. "Catching the state off guard: Electoral courts, campaign finance, and Mexico's separation of state and ruling party." *Party Politics* 10(6): 723-45.

- Ekman, Joakim. 2009. "Political participation and regime stability: A framework for analyzing hybrid regimes." *International Political Science Review* 30(1): 7–31.
- Elklit, Jørgen. 1999. "Electoral institutional change and democratization: You can lead a horse to water, but you can't make it drink." *Democratization* 6(4): 28–51.
- Elklit, Jørgen and Andrew Reynolds. 2002. "The impact of election administration on the legitimacy of emerging democracies: A new comparative politics research agenda." *Commonwealth & Comparative Politics* 40(2): 86–119.
- 2005 "A framework for the systematic study of election quality." *Democratization* 12(2): 147–62.
- Elklit, Jørgen and Palle Svensson. 1997. "What makes elections free and fair?" *Journal of Democracy* 8(3): 32–46.
- Elklit, Jørgen and Svend-Erik Skaaning. *Coding Manual: Assessing Election and Election Management Quality*, 2011. <http://www.democracy-assessment.dk/start/page.asp?page=22>
- Estevez, Federico, Eric Magar, and Guillermo Rosas. 2008. "Partisanship in non-partisan electoral agencies and democratic compliance: Evidence from Mexico's Federal Electoral Institute." *Electoral Studies* 27(2): 257–71.
- Evrensel, Astrid (Ed.). 2010. *Voter Registration in Africa: A Comparative Analysis*. Johannesburg: EISA.
- Ewing, Keith. 2009. *The Funding of Political Parties in Britain*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Fawn, Rick. 2006. "Battle over the box: International election observation missions, political competition and retrenchment in the post-Soviet space." *International Affairs* 82(6): 1133–4.
- Fell, Dafydd. 2005. *Party Politics in Taiwan: Party Change and the Democratic Evolution of Taiwan, 1991–2004*. London: Routledge.
- Fife, Brian L. 2010. *Reforming the Electoral Process in America*. Santa Barbara, CA: Praeger.
- Finnemore, Martha and Kathryn Sikkink. 1998. "International norm dynamics and political change." *International Organization* 52(3): 887–917.
- Fisher, Jeff. 2002. *Electoral Conflict and Violence*. Washington, DC: IFES.
- Fishkin, Joseph. 2011. "Equal citizenship and the individual right to vote." *Indiana Law Journal* 86(4): 1289–1360.
- Flores, Thomas Edward and Irfan Nooruddin. 2012. "The effect of elections on post-conflict peace and reconstruction." *Journal of Politics* 74(2): 558–70.
- Forest, Benjamin. 2012. "Electoral redistricting and minority political representation in Canada and the United States." *Canadian Geographer* 56(3): 318–38.
- Foweraker, Joseph and R. Krznaric. 2002. "The uneven performance of third wave democracies: Electoral politics and the imperfect rule of law in Latin America." *Latin American Politics and Society* 44(3): 29–60.
- Franklin, Mark. 2004. *Voter Turnout and the Dynamics of Electoral Competition in Established Democracies since 1945*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Franzese, R. J. 2002. "Electoral and partisan cycles in economic policies and outcomes." *Annual Review of Political Science* 5: 369–421.
- Frazer, Jendayi E. and E. Gyimah-Boadi (Eds.). 2011. *Preventing Electoral Violence in Africa*. Pittsburgh, PA: Carnegie Mellon University.

- Fukumoto, Kentaro and Yusaku Horiuchi. 2011. "Making outsiders' votes count: Detecting electoral fraud through a natural experiment." *American Political Science Review* 105(3): 586–603.
- Fund, John H. 2004. *Stealing Elections: How Voter Fraud Threatens Our Democracy*. San Francisco, CA: Encounter Books.
- Fung, Archon. 2011. "Popular election monitoring." In *Race, Reform and Regulation of the Electoral Process: Recurring Puzzles in American Democracy*. Eds. Heather Gerken, Guy-Uriel E. Charles, and Michael S. Kang. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Gandhi, Jennifer. 2008. *Political Institutions under Dictatorship*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Gandhi, Jennifer and Ellen Lust-Okar. 2009. "Elections under authoritarianism." *Annual Review of Political Science* 12: 403–22.
- Geddes, Barbara. 1999. "What do we know about democratization after twenty years?" *Annual Review of Political Science* 2: 115–44.
- Geisler, G. 1993. "Fair – what has fairness got to do with it? Vagaries of election observations and democratic standards." *Journal of Modern African Studies* 31(4): 613–37.
- Gelman, Andrew and Gary King. 1994. "Enhancing democracy through legislative redistricting." *American Political Science Review* 88(3): 541–59.
- Geys, Benny. 2006. "Explaining voter turnout: A review of aggregate-level research." *Electoral Studies* 25(4): 637–63.
- Gilbert, Leah and Mohseni Payam. 2011. "Beyond authoritarianism: The conceptualization of hybrid regimes." *Studies in Comparative International Development* 46(3): 270–97.
- Gingerich, D. W. 2009. "Ballot structure, political corruption, and the performance of proportional representation." *Journal of Theoretical Politics* 21(4): 509–41.
- Global Commission on Elections, Democracy and Security. 2012. *Deepening Democracy: A Strategy for Improving the Integrity of Elections Worldwide*. Sweden: IDEA.
- Goodwin-Gill, Guy. S. 2006. *Free and Fair Elections*. 2nd ed. Geneva: Inter-parliamentary Union.
- Gosnell, Herbert F. 1968. *Machine Politics: Chicago Model*. 2nd ed.. Chicago and London: University of Chicago Press.
- Greenberg, Ari and Robert Mattes. 2013. "Does the quality of elections affect the consolidation of democracy?" In *Voting and Democratic Citizenship in Africa*. Ed. Michael Bratton. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
- Greene, Kenneth F. 2007. *Why Dominant Parties Lose: Mexico's Democratization in Comparative Perspective*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Grömping, Max. 2012. "Many Eyes of Any Kind? Comparing Traditional and Crowd-sourced Monitoring and their Contribution to Democracy." Paper presented at the Second International Conference on International Relations and Development, July 2012 in Thailand.
- Gronke, Paul. 2013. "Are we confident in voter confidence? Conceptual and methodological challenges in survey measures of electoral integrity." Paper presented at the Workshop on Challenges of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University June 2–3, 2013.
- Gronke, Paul and Daniel Krantz Toffey. 2008. "The psychological and institutional determinants of early voting." *Journal of Social Issues*. 64(3): 503–24.

- Gronke, Paul, Eva Galanes-Rosenbaum, and Peter A. Miller. 2007. "Early Voting and Turnout." *PS: Political Science and Politics* 40(4): 639-45.
- Gronke, Paul, Eva Galanes-Rosenbaum, Peter A. Miller, and Daniel Toffey. 2008. "Convenience voting." *Annual Review of Political Science*. 11:437-55.
- Gunlicks, Arthur B. (Ed.). 1993. *Campaign and Party Finance in North America and Western Europe*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press.
- Gustafson, Marc. 2010. "Elections and the probability of violence in Sudan." *Harvard International Law Journal Online* 51: 47-62.
- Hadenius, Axel and Jan Teorell. 2007. "Pathways from authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 18(1): 143-56.
- Hafner Burton, Emilie M., Susan D. Hyde, and Ryan S. Jablonski. 2014. "When Do Governments Resort to Election Violence?" *British Journal of Political Science* 44(1): 1-31.
- Hale, Henry E. 2011. "Formal constitutions in informal politics: Institutions and democratization in post-Soviet Eurasia." *World Politics* 63(4): 581-617.
- Hall, Thad E. 2011. "Voter opinions about election reform: Do they support making voting more convenient?" *Election Law Journal* 10(2): 73-87.
- Hall, Thad E., J. Quin Monson, and Kelly D. Patterson. 2009. "The human dimension of elections: How poll workers shape public confidence in elections." *Political Research Quarterly* 62(3):507-22.
- Hamm, Keith E. and Hogan Robert E. 2008. "Campaign finance laws and decisions in state legislative candidacy elections." *Political Research Quarterly* 61(3): 458-67.
- Handley, Lisa and Bernie Grofman. 2008. *Redistricting in Comparative Perspective*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Hanham, H. J. 1959. *Elections and Party Management: Politics in the Time of Disraeli and Gladstone*. London: Longmans.
- Hanmer, Michael J. 2009. *Discount Voting: Voter Registration Reforms and Their Effects*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Hanmer, Michael J. and Michael W. Traugott. 2004. "The impact of Vote-By-Mail on voter behavior." *American Politics Research* 32:375-405.
- Hasen, Richard L. 2012. *The Voting Wars: From Florida 2000 to the Next Election Meltdown*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Hasseling, Gerti and Jon Abbink (Eds.). 2000. *Election Observation and Democratization in Africa*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Hausmann, Ricardo and Rigobon Roberto. 2011. "In search of the black swan: Analysis of the statistical evidence of electoral fraud in Venezuela." *Statistical Science* 26(4): 543-63.
- Heidenheimer, Arnold J., Michael Johnston, and V. T. Levine (Eds.). 1990. *Political Corruption: A Handbook*. New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers.
- Heinzelman, Jessica and Patrick Meier. 2012. "Crowdsourcing for human rights monitoring: Challenges and opportunities for verification." In *Human Rights and Information Communication Technologies: Trends and Consequences of Use*. Ed. John Lannon. New York: IGI Global.
- Hermet, Guy, Richard Rose, and Alain Rouquié (Eds.). 1978. *Elections without Choice*. London: Macmillan.
- Herrnson, Paul S., Richard G. Niemi, and Michael J. Hanmer. 2012. "The impact of ballot type on voter errors." *American Journal of Political Science* 56: 716-30.

- Herrnson, Paul S., Richard G. Niemi, Michael J. Hanmer, Benjamin B. Bederson, Frederick G. Conrad, and Michael W. Traugott. 2008. *Voting Technology: The Not-So-Simple Act of Casting a Ballot*. Washington, DC: Brookings.
- Herron, Erik S. "The effect of passive observation methods on Azerbaijan's 2008 presidential election and 2009 referendum." *Electoral Studies* 29(3): 417-24.
2009. *Elections and Democracy after Communism?* New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Hershey, Marjorie Randon. 2009. "What we know about voter ID Laws, registration, and turnout." *PS: Political Science & Politics*, 42:87-91.
- Hillman, Ben. 2013. "Public administration reform in post-conflict societies: Lessons from Aceh, Indonesia." *Public Administration and Development* 33(1): 1-14.
- Hoglund, Kristine. 2009. "Electoral violence in conflict-ridden societies: Concepts, causes, and consequences." *Terrorism and Political Violence* 21(3): 412-27.
- Hoglund, Kristine and Jarstad, Anna K. 2011. "Toward electoral security: Experiences from KwaZulu-Natal." *Africa Spectrum* 46(1): 33-59.
- Howard, Marc Morjé and Philip G. Roessler. 2006. "Liberalizing electoral outcomes in competitive authoritarian regimes." *American Journal of Political Science* 50(2):365-81.
- Howell, Patrick and Florian Justwan. 2013. "Nail-biters and no-contests: The effect of electoral margins on satisfaction with democracy in winners and losers." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 334-43.
- Hubbard, Glenn and Tim Kane. 2013. "In defense of Citizens United: Why campaign finance reform threatens American democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 92(4): 126-33.
- Hyde, Susan. D. 2007a. "Experimenting in democracy promotion: international observers and the 2004 presidential elections in Indonesia." *Perspectives on Politics* 8(2): 511-27.
- 2007b. "The observer effect in international politics: Evidence from a natural experiment." *World Politics* 60(1): 37-63.
2011. *The Pseudo-Democrat's Dilemma*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- Hyde, Susan. D. and Nikolay Marinov. 2012. "Which elections can be lost?" *Political Analysis*. 20(2): 191-210.
- Ichino, Nahomi and Matthias Schuendeln. 2012. "Deterring or displacing electoral irregularities? Spillover effects of observers in a randomized field experiment in Ghana." *Journal of Politics* 74(1): 292-307.
- International IDEA. 2002. *International Electoral Standards: Guidelines for Reviewing the Legal Framework for Elections*. Stockholm: International IDEA.
2004. *Handbook on the Funding of Political Parties and Election Campaigns*. Stockholm: International IDEA.
2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.
- Jacobs, Kristof and Monique Leyenaar. 2011. "A conceptual framework for major, minor, and technical electoral reform." *West European Politics* 34(3): 495-513.
- James, Toby S. 2010a. "Electoral administration and voter turnout: Towards an international public policy continuum." *Representation* 45(4): 369-89.
- 2010b. "Electoral modernisation or elite statecraft? Electoral administration in the U.K. 1997-2007." *British Politics*, 5(2): 179-201.
2012. *Elite Statecraft and Election Administration: Bending the Rules of the Game*. Basingstoke: Palgrave.

- Jockers, Heinz, Dirk Kohnert, and Paul Nugent. 2010. "The successful Ghana election of 2008: A convenient myth?" *Journal of Modern African Studies* 48(1): 95–115.
- Jones, Douglas W. and Barbara Simons. 2012. *Broken Ballots: Will your Vote Count?* Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Kairys, David. 2013. "The contradictory messages of Rehnquist-Roberts era speech law: Liberty and justice for some." *University of Illinois Law Review* 1: 195–220.
- Kalandadze, Katya and Mitchell A. Orenstein. 2009. "Electoral protests and democratization beyond the color revolutions." *Comparative Political Studies* 42(11): 1403–25.
- Kang, M. S. 2005. "The hydraulics and politics of party regulation." *Iowa Law Review* 91(1): 131–87.
- Katz, Richard S. 2005. "Democratic principles and judging 'free and fair.'" *Representation* 41(3): 161–79.
- Keefer, Philip and R. Vlaicu. 2008. "Democracy, credibility, and clientelism." *Journal of Law Economics & Organization* 24(2): 371–406.
- Kelley, Judith. 2008. "Assessing the complex evolution of norms: The rise of international election monitoring." *International Organization* 62(2): 221–55.
- 2009a. "D-Minus Elections: The politics and norms of international election observation." *International Organization* 63 (4): 765–87.
- 2009b. "The more the merrier? The effects of having multiple international election monitoring organizations." *Perspectives on Politics* 7: 59–64.
- 2010a. "Election observers and their biases." *Journal of Democracy* 21: 158–72.
- 2010b. *Quality of Elections Data Codebook*. <http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/>
2011. "Do international election monitors increase or decrease opposition boycotts?" *Comparative Political Studies* 44(11): 1527–56.
- 2012a. "The international influences on elections in transition states." *Annual Review of Political Science* 15: 203–20.
- 2012b. *Monitoring Democracy: When International Election Observation Works and Why It Often Fails*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Project on International Election Monitoring* <http://sites.duke.edu/kelley/data/>
- Kerr, Nicholas. 2014. "Public perceptions of election quality in Africa: A cross-national analysis." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Keyssar, Alexander. 2009. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*, revised ed. New York: Basic Books.
- Kitschelt, Herbert and Steven L. Wilkinson (Eds.). 2007. *Patrons, Clients and Policies*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Klein, A. "The puzzle of ineffective election campaigning in Japan." *Japanese Journal of Political Science* 12: 57–74.
- Koehler, Kevin. 2008. "Authoritarian elections in Egypt: Formal institutions and informal mechanisms of rule." *Democratization* 15(5): 974–90.
- Koss, Michael. 2008. "The convergence of party funding regimes in Western Europe: Towards an analytical framework." *Osterreichische Zeitschrift Fur Politikwissenschaft* 37(1): 63+.
2011. *The Politics of Party Funding*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Krook, Mona Lena. 2009. *Quotas for Women in Politics: Gender and Candidate Selection Reform Worldwide*. New York: Oxford University Press.

- Kumar, Krishna. 1998. *Post-Conflict Elections, Democratization, and International Assistance*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Reinner Publishers.
- Kuntz, Philipp and Mark R. Thompson 2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3): 253–263.
- Landman, Todd and Edzia Carvalho. 2010. *Measuring Human Rights*. London: Routledge.
- Lanning, K. 2008. "Democracy, voting, and disenfranchisement in the United States: A social psychological perspective." *Journal of Social Issues* 64(3): 431–46.
- Lasthuizen, Karin, Leo Huberts, and Leonie Heres. 2011. "How to measure integrity violations." *Public Management Review* 13(3): 383–408.
- Laycock, Samantha, Alan Renwick, Daniel Stevens, and Jack Vowles. 2013. "The UK's electoral reform referendum of May 2011." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 211–14.
- Lean, S. F. 2007. "Democracy assistance to domestic election monitoring organizations: Conditions for success." *Democratization*, 14(2): 289–312.
- Leduc, Lawrence, Richard Niemi, and Pippa Norris (Eds.). 2010. *Comparing Democracies 3: Elections and Voting in the 21st Century*. London: Sage.
- Lehoucq, Fabrice Edouard. 2002. "Can parties police themselves? Electoral governance and democratization." *International Political Science Review* 23(1): 29–46.
- Lehoucq, Fabrice Edouard. 2003. "Electoral fraud: Causes, types, and consequences." *Annual Review of Political Science* 6: 233–56.
- Lehoucq, Fabrice Edouard and Iván Molina Jiménez. 2002. *Stuffing the Ballot Box: Fraud, Electoral Reform, and Democratization in Costa Rica*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Lessig, Lawrence. 2011. *Republic, Lost*. New York: Twelve.
- Levitsky, Steven and Lucan A. Way. 2010a. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Levitsky, Steven and Lucan A. Way. 2010b. "Why democracy needs a level playing field." *Journal of Democracy* 21(1): 57–68.
- Leyenaar, Monique and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "Reconceptualising electoral reform." *West European Politics* 34(3): 437–55.
- Lijphart, Arend. 1994. *Electoral Systems and Party Systems: A Study of Twenty-Seven Democracies, 1945–1990*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Lindberg, Staffan. I. 2005. "Consequences of electoral systems in Africa: A preliminary inquiry." *Electoral Studies* 24, (1): 41–64.
- 2006a. *Democracy and Elections in Africa*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
- 2006b. "The surprising significance of African elections." *Journal of Democracy* 17 (1): 139–51.
- (Ed.). 2009. *Democratization by Elections: A New Mode of Transition*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.
2013. "Confusing Categories, Shifting Targets." *Journal of Democracy* 24(4): 161–67.
- Little, Andrew T. 2012. "Elections, fraud, and election monitoring in the shadow of revolution." *Quarterly Journal of Political Science* 7(3): 249–83.
- Lo, B. B. 2003. "Russian elections: Uncivil state." *World Today* 59 (11): 22–24.
- López-Pintor, Rafael. 2000. *Electoral Management Bodies as Institutions of Governance*. New York: United Nations Development Programme.

2010. *Assessing Electoral Fraud in New Democracies: A Basic Conceptual Framework*. Washington, DC: The International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES).
- López-Pintor, Rafael and Jeff Fischer. 2005. *Getting to the CORE: On the Cost of Registration and Elections*. New York: UNDP.
- Lukinova, Evgeniya, Mikhail Myagkov, and Peter C. Ordeshook. 2011. "Ukraine 2010: Were Tymoshenko's cries of fraud anything more than smoke?" *Post-Soviet Affairs* 27(1): 37-63.
- Lust-Okar, Ellen. 2000. "Legislative politics in the Arab world: The resurgence of democratic institutions." *International Journal of Middle East Studies* 32(3): 420-22.
2004. "Divided they rule: The management and manipulation of political opposition." *Comparative Politics* 36(2): 159-167.
- Lust-Okar, Ellen and Amaney Jamal. 2002. "Rulers and rules: Reassessing the influence of regime type on electoral law formation." *Comparative Political Studies* 35(3): 337-66.
- Lynch, Gabrielle and Gordon Crawford. 2011. "Democratization in Africa 1990-2010: An assessment." *Democratization* 18 (2): 275-310.
- Magaloni, Beatriz. 2006. *Voting for Autocracy: Hegemonic Party Survival and Its Demise in Mexico*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
2008. "Credible power-sharing and the longevity of authoritarian rule." *Comparative Political Studies* 41(4-5): 715-41.
2010. "The game of electoral fraud and the ousting of authoritarian rule." *American Journal of Political Science* 54(3): 751-65.
- Makulilo, Alexander Boniface. 2011. "'Watching the watcher': An evaluation of local election observers in Tanzania." *Journal of Modern African Studies* 49(2): 241-62.
- Martinez i Coma, Ferran and Richard W. Frank. 2014. "Expert judgments." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*, chapter 4. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Massicotte, Louis, Andre Blais, and Antoine Yoshinaka. 2004. *Establishing the Rules of the Game*. Toronto: University of Toronto Press.
- McAllister, Ian and Stephen White. 2011. "Public perceptions of electoral fairness in Russia." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 663-83.
- McCann, J. A., and Jorge I. Domínguez. 1998. "Mexicans react to electoral fraud and political corruption: An assessment of public opinion and voting behavior." *Electoral Studies* 17(4): 483-503.
- McDonald, Michael P. 2004. "A Comparative Analysis of Redistricting Institutions in the United States, 2001-02." *State Politics and Policy Quarterly* 4: 371-95.
- McDonald, Michael P. and Samuel Popkin. 2001. "The myth of the vanishing voter." *American Political Science Review* 95(4): 963-74.
- McFaul, Michael and N. Petrov. 2004. "What the elections tell us." *Journal of Democracy* 15(3): 20-31.
- McGrath, Amy. 1997. *Corrupt Elections: Ballot Rigging in Australia*. Sydney, NSW: H. S. Chapman Society.
- Mebane, Walter R., Jr. 2012. "Comment on Benford's Law and the detection of election fraud." *Political Analysis* 19(3): 269-72.
- Meyer, M. and J. Booker. 1991. *Eliciting and Analyzing Expert Judgment: A Practical Guide*. London: Academic Press.

- Mickiewicz, Ellen. 1997. *Changing Channels: Television and the Struggle for Power in Russia*. New York: Oxford University Press.
2008. *Television, Power, and the Public in Russia*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Minnite, Lorraine Carol. 2010. *The Myth of Voter Fraud*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- Moehler, D. C. 2009. "Critical citizens and submissive subjects: Elections losers and winners in Africa." *British Journal of Political Science* 39(2): 345–66.
- Moehler, D. C. and Staffan I. Lindberg. 2009. "Narrowing the legitimacy gap: Turnovers as a cause of democratic consolidation." *Journal of Politics* 71(4): 1448–66.
- Molina, I. and Fabrice Edouard Lehoucq. 1999. "Political competition and electoral fraud: A Latin American case study." *Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 30(2): 199+.
- Moller, Jorgen and Svend-Erik Skaaning. 2010a. "Beyond the radial delusion: Conceptualizing and measuring democracy and non-democracy." *International Political Science Review* 31(3): 261–83.
- 2010b. "Post-communist regime types: Hierarchies across attributes and space." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 43(1): 51–71.
- Montjoy, Robert S. 2008. "The public administration of elections." *Public Administration Review* 68 (5): 788–99.
2010. "The changing nature ... and costs ... of election administration." *Public Administration Review* 70(6): 867–75.
- Morse, Yonatan L. 2012. "The era of electoral authoritarianism." *World Politics* 64(1): 161–98.
- Mozaffar, Shaheen and Andreas Schedler. 2002. "The comparative study of electoral governance: Introduction." *International Political Science Review* 23(1): 5–27.
- Munck, Geraldo L. 2009. *Measuring Democracy: A Bridge between Scholarship and Politics*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins Press.
- Munck, Geraldo L. and Jay Verkuilen. 2002a. "Conceptualizing and measuring democracy: Evaluating alternative indices." *Comparative Political Studies* 35(1): 5–34.
- 2002b. "Generating better data: A response to discussants." *Comparative Political Studies* 35(1): 52–57.
- Myagkov, Mikhail and Peter C. Ordeshook. 2005. "The trail of votes in Ukraine's 1998, 1999, and 2002 elections." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 21(1): 56–71.
2008. "Ukraine's 2007 parliamentary elections free and fair, or fraud once again?" *Problems of Post-Communism* 55(6): 33–41.
- Myagkov, Mikhail, Peter C. Ordeshook, and Dimitri Shakin. 2005. "Fraud or fairytales: Russia and Ukraine's electoral experience." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 21(2): 91–131.
2009. *The Forensics of Election Fraud: Russia and Ukraine*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Nagle, J. C. 2004. "How not to count votes." *Columbia Law Review* 104(6): 1732–63.
- Nassmacher, Karl-Heinz (Ed.). 2001. *Foundations for Democracy: Approaches to Comparative Political Finance*. Baden-Baden: Nomos.
- Nassmacher, Karl-Heinz. 2009. *The Funding of Party Competition: Political Finance in 25 Democracies*. Berlin: Nomos.
- National Democratic Institute. 2005. *Money in Politics: A Study of Party Financing Practices in 22 countries*. Washington, DC: National Democratic Institute.

- Nazzarine, S. R. 2003. "A faceless name in the crowd: Freedom of association, equal protection, and discriminatory ballot access laws." *University of Cincinnati Law Review* 72(1): 309–61.
- Neiheisel, Jacob R. and Barry C. Burden, 2012. "The impact of election day registration on voter turnout and election outcomes." *American Politics Research* 40(4): 636–64.
- Newell, James. *The Politics of Italy: Governance in a Normal Country*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Norris, Pippa. (Ed.). 1999. *Critical Citizens*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
2003. *Democratic Phoenix*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
2004. *Electoral Engineering: Voting Rules and Political Behavior*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
2008. *Driving Democracy: Do Power-Sharing Institutions Work?* New York: Cambridge University Press.
- (Ed.). 2010. *Public Sentinel: News Media and the Governance Agenda*. Washington, DC: The World Bank.
- 2011a. "Cultural explanations of electoral reform: A policy cycle model." *West European Politics*. 34(1): 531–50.
- 2011b. *Democratic Deficit: Critical Citizens Revisited* New York: Cambridge University Press.
2012. *Making Democratic Governance Work: How Regimes shape Prosperity, Welfare and Peace*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- 2014a. "Does the world agree about standards of electoral integrity? Evidence for the diffusion of global norms." Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 32(4): 576–588
- 2014b. "Electoral integrity and political legitimacy." In *Comparing Democracies* 4. Eds. Lawrence LeDuc, Richard Niemi, and Pippa Norris. London: Sage.
- 2014c. "The new research agenda studying electoral integrity." Special issue of *Electoral Studies* 32(4): 563–575.
- Norris, Pippa, Ferran Martinez I. Coma, and Richard W. Frank. 2014. *The Expert Survey of Perceptions of Electoral Integrity*. Available at <http://www.electoralintegrityproject.com>.
2014. "Assessing the quality of elections." *Journal of Democracy*. 24(4): 124–35.
- Norris, Pippa, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma (Eds.). 2014. *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Nou, J. 2009. "Privatizing democracy: Promoting election integrity through procurement contracts." *Yale Law Journal* 118(4): 744–93.
- Nunnally, Shayla C. 2011. "(Dis)counting on democracy to work: Perceptions of electoral fairness in the 2008 presidential election." *Journal of Black Studies* 42(6): 923–42.
- Nyblade, B. and S. R. Reed. "Who cheats? Who loots? Political competition and corruption in Japan, 1947–1993." *American Journal of Political Science* 52(4): 926–41.
- Obi, Cyril. 2011. "Taking back our democracy? The trials and travails of Nigerian elections since 1999." *Democratization* 18(2): 366–87.
- Öhman, Magnus and Hani Zainulbhai. 2011. *Political Finance Regulation: The Global Experience*. Washington, DC: International Foundation for Electoral Systems. Available at http://www.ifes.org/files/Political_Finance_Regulation_The_Global_Experience.pdf

- O'Leary, Cornelius. 1962. *The Elimination of Corrupt Practices in British Elections, 1968-1911*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Omotola, J. S. "Elections and democratic transition in Nigeria under the Fourth Republic." *African Affairs* 109 (437): 535-53.
- Organization of American States/International IDEA. 2005. *Funding of Political Parties and Election Campaigns in the Americas*. Washington, DC: OAS/International IDEA.
- Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe. 2007. *Handbook for Long-Term Election Observers: Beyond Election Day Observation*. Warsaw: OSCE/ODIHR.
2010. *Election Observation Handbook*, 6th ed. Warsaw: OSCE/ODIHR.
- Ottaway, Marina. 2003. *Democracy Challenged: The Rise of Semi-Authoritarianism*. Washington, DC: Carnegie Endowment for International Peace.
- Overton, Spencer. 2006. *Stealing Democracy: The New Politics of Voter Suppression*. New York: Norton.
- Paris, Roland. 2004. *At War's End: Building Peace after Civil Conflict*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Pastor, Robert A. 1999. "The role of electoral administration in democratic transitions." *Democratization* 6(4):1-27.
- Pastor, Robert A., Robert Santos, and Alison Prevost. 2011. "Voting and ID requirements: A survey of registered voters in three states." *American Review of Public Administration* 40(4): 461-81.
- Paxton, Pamela, Kenneth A. Bollen, Deborah M. Lee, and HyoJuong Kim. 2003. "A half-century of suffrage: New data and a comparative analysis." *Studies in Comparative International Development* 38:93-122.
- Persily, N. 2001. "Candidates v. parties: The constitutional constraints on primary ballot access laws." *Georgetown Law Journal* 89(7): 2181-2225.
- Pinto-Duschinsky, Michael. 2005. "Financing politics: A global view." *Journal of Democracy* 13(4): 69-86.
- Popova, Marina. 2006. "Watchdogs or attack dogs? The role of the Russian Courts and the Central Election Commission in the resolution of electoral disputes." *Europe-Asia Studies* 58(3): 391-414.
- Powell, G. Bingham. 2000. *Elections as Instruments of Democracy*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- 2004a. "The chain of responsiveness." *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 91-105.
- 2014b. "Why elections matter." In *Comparing Democracies* 4. Eds. Lawrence LeDuc, Richard Niemi, and Pippa Norris. London: Sage.
- Power, Timothy J. and Matthew MacLeod Taylor. *Corruption and Democracy in Brazil: The Struggle for Accountability*, Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press.
- Przeworski, Adam, Michael E. Alvarez, Jose Antonio Cheibub, and Fernando Limongi. 2000. *Democracy and Development: Political Institutions and Well-Being in the World, 1950-1990*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Quimpo, N. G. 2009. "The Philippines: Predatory regime, growing authoritarian features." *Pacific Review* 22(3): 335-53.
- Qvortup, M. 2005. "First past the postman: Voting by mail in comparative perspective." *Political Quarterly* 76(3):414-19.

- Rahat, Gideon and Reuven Y. Hazan. 2011. "The barriers to electoral system reform: A synthesis of alternative approaches." *West European Politics* 34(3): 478–94.
- Rallings, Colin, Michael Thrasher, and Galina Borisjuk. 2010. "Much ado about not very much: The electoral consequences of postal voting at the 2005 British General Election." *British Journal of Politics & International Relations* 12(2): 223–38.
- Regan, P. M., R. W. Frank, and D. H. Clark. 2009. "Political institutions and elections: New datasets." *Conflict Management and Peace Science*, 26(3):320–37.
- Reilly, Benjamin. 2002. "Post-conflict elections: Constraints and dangers." *International Peacekeeping* 9(2): 118.
2004. "Elections in Post-conflict Societies." In *The UN Role in Promoting Democracy: Between Ideals and Reality*. Eds. Edward Newman and Roland Rich. Tokyo: United Nations University Press.
- Renwick, Alan. 2011. *The Politics of Electoral Reform: Changing the Rules of Democracy*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Reynolds, Andrew. 2011. *Designing Democracy in a Dangerous World*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Reynolds, Andrew and M. Steenbergen. 2006. "How the world votes: The political consequences of ballot design, innovation and manipulation." *Electoral Studies* 25(3): 570–98.
- Romanelli, Raffaele (Ed.). 1998. *How Did They Become Voters? The History of Franchise in Modern European Representation*. The Hague: Kluwer Law.
- Rosas, Guillermo. 2010. "Trust in elections and the institutional design of electoral authorities: Evidence from Latin America." *Electoral Studies* 29(1): 74–90.
- Rose, Richard and William Mishler. 2009. "How do electors respond to an 'unfair' election? The experience of Russians." *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25(2): 118–36.
- Rose, Richard, William Mishler, and Neil Monroe. 2011. *Popular Support for an Undemocratic Regime: The Changing Views of Russians*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Rothstein, Bo. 2009. "Creating political legitimacy: Electoral democracy versus quality of government." *American Behavioral Scientist* 53(3): 311–30.
- Samples, John Curtis. 2006. *The Fallacy of Campaign Reform*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Santa-Cruz, Arturo. 2005. "Constitutional structures, sovereignty, and the emergence of norms: The case of international election monitoring." *International Organization* 59(03): 663–93.
- Santiso, C. and A. Loada. 2003. "Explaining the unexpected: Electoral reform and democratic governance in Burkina Faso." *Journal of Modern African Studies* 41(3): 395–419.
- Scarrow, Susan. 2004. "Explaining political finance reforms: Competition and context." *Party Politics* 10: 653–75.
2007. "Political finance in comparative perspective." *Annual Review of Political Science* 10: 193–210.
- Schaffer, Fredric Charles. 2002. "Might cleaning up elections keep people away from the polls? Historical and comparative perspectives." *International Political Science Review* 23(1):69–84.
- Schaffer, Fredric Charles (Ed.). 2007. *Elections for Sale: The Causes and Consequences of Vote Buying*. Boulder and London: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
2008. *The Hidden Costs of Clean Election Reform*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.

- Schaffer, Frederic Charles and Tova Andrea Wang. 2009. "Is everyone else doing it? Indiana's voter identification law in international perspective." *Harvard Law & Policy Review*, 3:397-413.
- Schedler, Andreas. 1999. "Civil society and political elections: A culture of distrust?" *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 565: 126-41.
- . 2002. "The menu of manipulation." *Journal of Democracy* 13(2): 36-50.
- (Ed.). 2006. *Electoral Authoritarianism: The Dynamics of Unfree Competition*. Boulder and London: Lynne Rienner Publishers.
- . 2010. "Authoritarianism's last line of defense." *Journal of Democracy* 21(1): 69-80.
- . 2012a. "Judgment and measurement in political science." *Perspectives on Politics* 10(1): 21-36.
- . 2012b. *The Politics of Uncertainty Sustaining and Subverting Electoral Authoritarianism*. Mexico City: CIDE.
- Scher, Richard K. 2010. *The Politics of Disenfranchisement: Why Is It So Hard to Vote in America?* New York: M.E. Sharpe.
- Schmeets, Hans (Ed.). 2010. *International Election Observation and Assessment of Elections*. The Hague: Statistics Netherlands.
- Schuler, Ian. 2008. "SMS as a tool in election observation." *Innovations* 3(2): 143-57.
- Schumpeter, Joseph. 1942. *Capitalism, Socialism and Democracy*. London: George Allen and Unwin.
- Sekhon, Jasjeet S. and Rocio Titunuk. 2012. "When natural experiments are neither natural nor experiments." *American Political Science Review* 106(1): 35-57.
- Seymour, Charles. 1970. *Electoral Reform in England and Wales: The Development and Operation of the Parliamentary Franchise 1832-1885*. London: David and Charles reprint.
- Sharafutdinova, Gulnaz. *Political Consequences of Crony Capitalism inside Russia*. Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press.
- Shock, David R. 2008. "Securing a line on the ballot: Measuring and explaining the restrictiveness of ballot access laws for non-major party candidates in the United States." *Social Science Journal* 45(1): 48-60.
- Simmons, Beth A. 2009. *Mobilizing for Human Rights: International Law in Domestic Politics*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Simpser, Alberto. 2012. "Does electoral manipulation discourage voter turnout? Evidence from Mexico." *Journal of Politics* 74(3): 782-95.
- . 2013. *Why Parties and Governments Manipulate Elections: Theory, Practice and Implications*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Sisk, Timothy and Andrew Reynolds (Eds.). 1998. *Elections and Conflict Management in Africa*. Washington, DC: U.S. Institute of Peace Press.
- Sjoberg, Fredrik. 2012. "Making voters count: Evidence from field experiments about the efficacy of domestic election observation." New York: Harriman Institute Working Paper 1.
- Slater, Dan. 2010. *Ordering Power: Contentious Politics and Authoritarian Leviathans in Southeast Asia*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Smets, Kaat and Carolien van Ham. 2013. "The embarrassment of riches? A meta-analysis of individual-level research on voter turnout." *Electoral Studies* 32(2): 344-59.
- Smith, Lahra. 2009. "Explaining violence after recent elections in Ethiopia and Kenya." *Democratization* 16(5): 867-97.

- Snyder, Jack. 2000. *From Voting to Violence: Democratization and Nationalist Conflict*. New York: Norton.
- Steenbergen, Marco R. and Gary Marks. 2007. "Evaluating expert judgments." *European Journal of Political Research* 46: 347–66.
- Stewart, J. 2006. "A banana republic? The investigation into electoral fraud by the Birmingham Election Court." *Parliamentary Affairs* 59(4): 654–67.
- Stockemer, Daniel, Bernadette LaMontagne, and Lyle Scruggs. 2013. "Bribes and ballots: The impact of corruption on voter turnout in democracies." *International Political Science Review* 34(1): 74–90.
- Stokes, Susan, Thad Dunning, Marcelo Nazareno, and Valeria Brusco. 2013. *Brokers, Voters, and Clientelism: The Puzzle of Distributive Politics*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Straus, Scott. 2011. "'It's sheer horror here': Patterns of violence during the first four months of Cote d'Ivoire's post-electoral crisis." *African Affairs* 110(440): 481–89.
2012. "Wars do end! Changing patterns of political violence in sub-Saharan Africa." *African Affairs* 111(443): 179–201.
- Straus, Scott and Charlie Taylor. 2012. "Democratization and electoral violence in Sub-Saharan Africa, 1990–2008." In *Voting in Fear*. Ed. Dorina A. Bekoe. Washington, DC: United States Institute of Peace.
- Stroh, Alexander. 2010. "Electoral rules of the authoritarian game: Undemocratic effects of proportional representation in Rwanda." *Journal of Eastern African Studies* 4(1): 1–19.
- Struwig, Jare, Benjamin J. Roberts, and Elme Vivier. 2011. "A vote of confidence: Election management and public perceptions." *Journal of Public Administration*, 46(3):1122–38.
- Svolik, Milan W. 2012. *The Politics of Authoritarian Rule*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Tan, Nettina. 2013. "Electoral engineering and hegemonic party resilience in Singapore." *Electoral Studies* 32(4): 632–643.
- Tancangco, Luzviminda G. 1992. *The Anatomy of Electoral Fraud: Concrete Bases for Electoral Reforms*. Manila: MJAGM Distributor Matrix.
- Taylor, Charles, Jon Pevehouse, and Scott Straus. 2013. "Perils of Pluralism: Electoral Violence and Competitive Authoritarianism in Sub-Saharan Africa." *Simons Papers in Security and Development* 23, School for International Studies, Simon Fraser University, Vancouver, Canada.
- Taylor, Steven L. 2009. *Voting amid Violence: Electoral Democracy in Colombia*. Boston: Northeastern University Press.
- Thompson, Mark R. and Philipp Kuntz. 2004. "Stolen elections: The case of the Serbian October." *Journal of Democracy* 15(4): 159–72.
2009. "More than just the final straw: Stolen elections as revolutionary triggers." *Comparative Politics* 41(3):253–72.
- Trenschel, Alexander and Fernando Mendez (Eds.). 2005. *The European Union and E-voting*. London: Routledge.
- Tucker, Joshua. 2007. "Enough! Electoral fraud, collective action problems, and post-communist colored revolutions." *Perspectives on Politics* 5(3): 535–51.
- Tyler, Tom R. 1984. "The role of perceived injustice in defendants' evaluations of their courtroom experience." *Law & Society Review* 18(1): 51–74.

1990. *Why People Obey the Law*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
1994. "Governing amid diversity: The effect of fair decision-making procedures on the legitimacy of government." *Law & Society Review* 28(4): 809–31.
- Tyler, Tom R., Jonathan D. Casper, and Bonnie Fisher. 1989. "Maintaining allegiance toward political authorities: The role of prior attitudes and the use of fair procedures." *American Journal of Political Science* 33(3): 629–52.
- Tyler, Tom R., Kenneth A. Rasinski, and Kathleen M. McGraw. 1985. "The influence of perceived injustice on the endorsement of political leaders." *Journal of Applied Social Psychology* 15(8): 700–25.
- Ugues, Jr, Antonio. 2010. "Citizens' views on electoral governance in Mexico." *Journal of Elections, Public Opinion & Parties*, 20(4): 495–527.
2014. "Electoral management in Central America." In *Advancing Electoral Integrity*. Eds. Pippa Norris, Richard W. Frank, and Ferran Martinez I Coma. New York: Oxford University Press.
- UNDP. 2011. *Understanding Electoral Violence in Asia*. Bangkok: UNDP Asia-Pacific Regional Center.
2012. *Evaluation of UNDP Contribution to Strengthening Electoral Systems and Processes*. New York: UNDP.
- United Nations. 2005. *Declaration of Principles for International Election Observation and Code of Conduct for International Elections Observers*. New York: United Nations. <http://www.cartercenter.com/documents/2231.pdf>
- United Nations General Assembly Resolution 63/163. April 12, 2012. *Strengthening the Role of the United Nations in Enhancing Periodic and Genuine Elections and the Promotion of Democratization*. New York: United Nations.
- van der Walle, Nicholas. 2003. "Presidentialism and clientelism in Africa's emerging party systems." *Journal of Modern African Studies* 41(02):297–321 DOI: dx.doi.org/10.1017/S0022278X03004269
- van Ham, Carolien. 2012. *Beyond Electoralism? Electoral Fraud in Third Wave Regimes 1974–2009*. PhD Thesis. Florence: European University Institute.
2013. "Getting elections right? Measuring electoral integrity." Paper presented at the 2013 Annual Workshop on Concepts and Indicators of Electoral Integrity, Harvard University, June 3–4, 2013.
2014. "Getting elections right? Measuring electoral integrity." *Democratization*. (Forthcoming)
- Verba, Sidney and Norman Nie. 1972. *Participation in America: Political Democracy and Social Equality*. New York: Harper and Row.
- Verba, Sidney, Norman Nie, and Jae-on Kim. 1978. *Participation and Political Equality: A Seven-Nation Comparison*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Verba, Sidney, Kay Schlozman, and Henry E. Brady. 1995. *Voice and Equality: Civic Voluntarism in American Politics*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Vickery, Chad and Erica Shein. 2012. *Assessing Electoral Fraud in New Democracies*. Washington, DC: IFES. http://www.ifes.org/~media/Files/Publications/White%20PaperReport/2012/Assessing_Electoral_Fraud_Series_Vickery_Shein.pdf
- Volkov, Denis. 2012. "The protesters and the public." *Journal of Democracy* 23(3): 55–62.
- Wahm, Michael, Jan Teorell, and Axel Hadenius. 2013. "Authoritarian regime types revisited: Updated data in comparative perspective." *Contemporary Politics* 19(1):19–34.

- Wall, Alan, Andrew Ellis, Ayman Ayoub, Carl W. Dundas, Joram Rukambe and Sara Staino. 2006. *Electoral Management Design: The International IDEA Handbook*. Sweden: International IDEA.
- Wand, Jonathan, Gary King, and Olivia Lau. 2011. "Anchors: Software for Anchoring Vignettes Data." *Journal of Statistical Software* 42(3): 1-25. <http://j.mp/m5tITE>
- Wand, J. N., K. W. Shotts, J. S. Sekhon, Walter Mebane, M. C. Herron, and Henry E. Brady. 2001. "The butterfly did it: The aberrant vote for Buchanan in Palm Beach County, Florida." *American Political Science Review* 95(4): 793-810.
- Wang, Tova Andrea. 2012. *The Politics of Voter Suppression: Defending and Expanding Americans' Right to Vote*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- Weghorst, Keith R. and Staffan I. Lindberg. 2011. 'Effective opposition strategies: Collective goods or clientelism?' *Democratization* 18(5): 1193-1214.
- Weidmann, Nils B. and Michael Callen. 2011. *Violence and Election Fraud: Evidence from Afghanistan*
- White, Stephen. 1985. "Non-competitive elections and national politics: The USSR Supreme Soviet elections of 1984." *Electoral Studies* 4(3): 215-29.
2011. "Elections Russian-Style." *Europe-Asia Studies* 63(4): 531-56.
- Wigell, M. 2008. "Mapping 'hybrid regimes': Regime types and concepts in comparative politics." *Democratization* 15(2): 230-50.
- Wilking, Jennifer R. 2011. "The portability of electoral procedural fairness: Evidence from experimental studies in China and the United States." *Political Behavior* 33(1): 139-59.
- Wilkinson, Steven. 2006. *Votes and Violence: Electoral Competition and Ethnic Riots in India*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Willis, Justin and Atta el Battahani. 2010. "'We changed the laws': Electoral practice and malpractice in Sudan since 1953." *African Affairs* 109(435): 191-212.
- Wilson, Kenneth. 2012. "How Russians view electoral fairness: A qualitative analysis." *Europe-Asia Studies* 64(1): 145-68.
- Wlezien, Christopher and Stuart Soroka. 2012. "Political institutions and the opinion-policy link." *West European Politics* 35(6): 1407-1432.
- Wong, Chin-Huat, Chin James, and Othman Norani. 2010. "Malaysia: Towards a topology of an electoral one-party state." *Democratization* 17(5): 920-49.
- Young, John Hardin. 2009. *International Election Principles: Democracy and the Rule of Law*. Chicago: American Bar Association.
- Ziblatt, Daniel. 2009. "Shaping democratic practice and the causes of electoral fraud: The case of nineteenth-century Germany." *American Political Science Review* 103(1): 1-21.

Index

- absolute monarchies, 3–4
- Ace Project, 27
- Affordable Care Act (U.S.), 180
- African Charter on Human and People's Rights, 6
- African Union, 27, 41
- agenda-setting theory
 - of political legitimacy, 118
 - for public knowledge about electoral malpractices, 98
 - for regimes, 170
- Aliyev, Ilham, 4, 9
- American Convention on Human Rights, 6
- The American Voter*, 92
- Amnesty International, 27
- ANDFREL. *See* Asian Network for Free Elections (ANDFREL)
- Annan, Kofi, 4
- Arab uprisings, 81
- Armenia, political activism in, 152
- Asian Network for Free Elections (ANDFREL), 27
- al-Assad, Bashar, 117–18
- Association of European Election Officials, 27
- Aung San Suu Kyi, 81
- autocracies. *See* electoral autocracies
- Azerbaijan
 - electoral autocracies in, 4
 - electoral malpractice in, 9
- Benoit, Kenneth, 171
- Birch, Sarah, 42, 52–53, 55, 56, 134
- Blair, Tony, 173
- Boix, Carles, 171
- Bush, George W., 15. *See also* 2000 presidential election, in U.S.
- campaign communications, global norms for, 30–31
 - UNESCO and, 31
- campaign finance. *See* political finance regulation
- Canada, electoral malpractice in, 5
- Canadian International Development Aid (CIDA), 27
- Carter Center, 23, 26, 41, 203
- Chemical Weapons Convention, 22
- Churov, Vladimir, 183
- CIDA. *See* Canadian International Development Aid (CIDA)
- Citizens United vs. FEC*, 180
- Civil Rights Act (U.S.), 35
- CNTS. *See* Cross-National Time-Series (CNTS)
- Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters, 6
 - global norms for electoral integrity, 24
- Collier, Paul, 155
- Colomer, Josep, 171
- colored revolutions, 17
- Commonwealth Secretariat, 27
- Comparative Study of Electoral Systems, 134
- competitive authoritarian, 3. *See also* electoral autocracies
- Competitive elections, 7–8
- Conference on Security and Cooperation in Europe (CSCE), 24
- conflict, elections as influence on, 145–46

- consolidated democracies, 150–51
- convenience voting, 198
- Convention of the Prohibition of Anti-Personnel Mines, 22
- Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women, 29
- Corrupt and Illegal Practices Act (U.K.), 88
- corruption, political, under electoral autocracies, 4
- Cote d'Ivoire, electoral violence in, 152–53
- Council of Europe, 27
- Cross-National Time-Series (CNTS), 78
- CSCE. *See* Conference on Security and Cooperation in Europe (CSCE)
- culture
 - EMBs and, 89
 - global norms for electoral integrity influenced by, 22–23
 - PEI data, biases influenced by, 50
 - political legitimacy and, 114–15
- Dalton, Russell, 195
- Davenport, Chris, 19
- The Declaration of Principles for International Election Observation*, 41
- democracy
 - competitive elections as part of, 7–8
 - consolidated, 150–51
 - electoral autocracies compared to, 175
 - electoral integrity a facet of, 7–8
 - electoral malpractice within, 4–5
 - failed elections and, 128–31
 - Freedom House classification of, 42, 53
 - polyarchy as framework for, 37
 - in post-Communist Europe, 176–77
 - power-sharing theories of, 155
 - by regime, 20
 - during regime transitions, 130
- democratic values
 - electoral integrity and, 37–38
 - electoral malpractice and, 37
 - vote choice and, 37
 - voting act, 37
- Department for International Development (DFID), 27
- direct elections, 79
- domestic peace, from electoral integrity, 19
- Easton, David, 14–15, 117, 118
- education. *See* formal education, perceptions about electoral integrity and
- Egypt
 - Arab uprisings in, 81
 - electoral malpractice in, 81
 - electoral management in, 87
- elected parliaments, 78
 - electoral malpractice in, 78–79
- Election Observation Handbook*, 24
- elections. *See also* conflict, elections as influence on; electoral violence
 - direct, 79
 - in Egypt, 87
 - in elected parliaments, 78–79
 - expansion of, 28, 78–81
 - failed, 128–31, 132
 - flawed, in consolidated democracies, 150–51
 - without functioning national legislature, 78
 - gender equality and, 28–30
 - in Haiti, 88
 - in India, 87
 - indirect, 79
 - losers of, political legitimacy for, 120–21, 139
 - mandate theory of, 37
 - non-elected parliaments, 78
 - political legitimacy from, 115–16
 - quality of, political participation influenced by, 137–41
 - timing of, 19–20
 - winners of, political legitimacy for, 120–21, 139
- Electoral Assistance Commission, 178–79
- electoral authoritarian, 3
- electoral autocracies, 3–4
 - absolute monarchies compared to, 3–4
 - in Azerbaijan, 4
 - electoral democracies compared to, 175
 - flawed elections in, 151–53
 - in Kazakhstan, 4
 - political concessions in, 151–53
 - political corruption under, 4
 - in Russia, 4
 - state repression in, 151–53
 - in Zimbabwe, 4
- electoral campaigns, deregulation of campaign finance laws, in U.S., 5
- electoral cycles
 - electoral integrity and, 33–34
 - evidence methodology for electoral integrity, 64
 - main stages of, 33–34
 - malpractice and, 34
- electoral experts, 48–49
- electoral forensics, 71

- electoral fraud
 - under Civil Rights Act, 35
 - legal conceptions of, 35–36
- electoral integrity. *See also* evidence
 - methodology, for electoral integrity;
 - global norms, for electoral integrity
- accountability strategies for, 204
- alternative conceptualizations of, 35–38
- capacity-building for, 202–3
- conceptual development of, 8–10, 21
- confidence in, 118–19
- constitutional regulations for, 203–4
- democracy as result of, 7–8
- democratic values and, 37–38
- domestic peace as result of, 19
- electoral cycles and, 33–34
- electoral fraud and, 35–36
- electoral maladministration and, 36–37
- electoral manipulation and, 8
- electoral violence and, 18–19, 155–57
- failures of, 197–99
- formal education and, 96–97
- global comparative framework for, 31–33
- global norms for, 204–5
- human rights and, 5–6, 204–5
- international conventions for, 22–23
- international monitoring missions for, 200
- international principles of, 39
- in Kenya, 18
- legal regulations for, 203–5
- micro-level analysis of, public awareness of, 104–7, 108
- by nation, scores for, 84–85
- natural and field experiments for, 69–71
- NGOs and, 26–27, 205
- in Nigeria, 18, 154
- oversight strategies for, 204
- policy strategies for, 199–205
- political activism and, 12, 16–17, 143
- political legitimacy and, 12, 14–16, 121–28
- political participation influenced by, 136–37, 140
- public opinion of, 12, 13–14, 105
- regime responses to mass discontent and, 12
- in Russia, 15, 181–83
- security issues influenced by, 17–20
- systems support approach for, 15–16, 118, 129
- technical assistance for, 202–3
- theory of, 10–13
- timing of elections and, 19–20
- with transitional governments, 19
- during 2000 presidential election, in U.S., 17
- UN General Assembly guidelines, 24–26
- Universal Declaration of Human Rights
 - standards for, 23, 39
 - universal standards for, 22–23
- Electoral Integrity Project, 10
- electoral maladministration, electoral integrity
 - and, 36–37
- electoral malpractice
 - in Azerbaijan, 9
 - in Canadian elections, 5
 - citizen perception of, 12, 13–14
 - citizen trust influenced by, 6–7
 - CNTS dataset information, 78
 - common examples of, 81–86
 - within democracies, 4–5
 - democratic values and, 37
 - development of societies and, 86–88
 - in Egypt, 81
 - in elected parliaments, 78–79
 - in elections and, expansion of, 78–81
 - electoral cycles and, 34
 - electoral violence influenced by, 154, 159–63, 164–65
 - in fragile states, 7
 - in France, 5
 - in Germany, 5
 - human rights and, 5–6
 - ICCPR and, 75–76
 - IEM and, 42, 52–53, 55
 - instrumental consequences of, 6, 11
 - international influences on, 75–78
 - in Kenya, 18
 - long-term consequences of, 5–8
 - through media, 88–89
 - by nation, scores for, 84–85
 - NELDA dataset for, 51–52, 82–83
 - in Nigeria, 18
 - partisan cues about, 97–98
 - in peace-building states, 86–88
 - PEI data for, 83–86
 - political activism and, 12, 16–17, 142
 - political communications for, 96
 - political finance regulation and, 88–89
 - political legitimacy and, 12, 14–16
 - political participation and, public opinion
 - of, 134
 - public opinion of, 105
 - in Russia, 182–83
 - in Spain, 5
 - types of, 134–35
 - in U.K., 5

- electoral malpractice (*cont.*)
 Universal Declaration of Human Rights
 and, 75–76
 within U.S. elections, 4–5
 virtual circle thesis for, 96
 through voting technologies, 88–89
- Electoral Management Bodies (EMBs),
 86–87, 199
 cultural diversity and, 89
 in Egypt, 87
 in India, 87
- electoral monitoring, 28
- Electoral Reform Society, 151
- electoral violence
 conceptual framework for, 148–53
 in Cote d'Ivoire, 152–53
 distribution of, 157–59
 drivers of, 157–63
 elections as trigger for, 18–19
 electoral integrity and, 18–19, 155–57
 electoral malpractices as influence on, 154,
 159–63, 164–65
 ethnicity as influence on, 157
 evidence for, 153–55
 geographical factors for, 157
 indices for, 153–55
 measurement methodology, 147
 as mobilization tool, 146
 NELDA datasets for, 155–57
 null hypothesis for, 155
 political participation influenced by, 146
 post-election, in Kenya, 146–47
 power-sharing theories of democracy
 and, 155
 quality of elections and, 154–55
 rational choice perspective for, 148
 regime type as influence on, 154
 research design on, 153–55
 state-sponsored, 146
 structural perspective for, 148–49
 theoretical framework for, 148–53
 tit-for-tat coercion and, 146
- Elklit, Jørgen, 49
- EMBs. *See* Electoral Management Bodies
 (EMBs)
- ethnicity, electoral violence and, 157
- European Network of Election Monitoring
 Organizations, 27
- evaluation feedback loop, 170
- evidence methodology, for electoral integrity.
See also Perceptions of Electoral
 Integrity (PEI)
- alternative methods and techniques,
 47, 69–71
 as authoritative, 56
 CNTS dataset, 78
 conceptual validity of, 54–55
 cross-national data for, 43–47, 56–58,
 60, 61–63
 electoral cycle approach, 64
 with electoral forensics, 71
 evaluation of, 54–59
 expert evaluations of, 41–54
 Freedom House dataset, 42, 53
 global criteria for, 42–48
 IEM dataset, 42, 52–53, 55, 56
 IFES surveys, 27, 61
 measurement error in, 54
 measurement levels, 55
 with natural and field experiments, 69–71
 NELDA dataset and, 42, 51–52, 82–83
 through public opinion, monitoring
 of, 61–68
 QED dataset, 42, 53–54, 55, 56
 reform debates and, 68
 regime transitions and, 69
 reliability criteria, 55
 robustness of survey indices, 66–68
 scope of coverage, 55–56
 state repression and, 68–69
 with WVS, 64–66
- expertise, definition of, 49
- failed elections, 128–31, 132
- fallacy of electoralism, 7, 191
- finance regulation. *See* political finance
 regulation
- flawed elections
 in consolidated democracies, 150–51
 in electoral autocracies, 151–53
- forensics. *See* electoral forensics
- formal education, perceptions about electoral
 integrity and, 96–97
- Fox, Vincent, 153
- fragile states, electoral malpractice in, 7
- France, electoral malpractice in, 5
- fraud. *See* electoral fraud
- Freedom House, 26
 classification of electoral democracies,
 42, 53
- Gallup International Polls, 66–68
- Gbagbo, Laurent, 152–53
- gender. *See also* women

- Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women, 29
- equality, in elected offices, 28–30
- under Universal Declaration of Human Rights, 29
- GEO. *See* Global Electoral Organization (GEO)
- Germany, electoral malpractice in, 5
- Ghana
 - NGOs in, 104
 - public knowledge about electoral malpractices in, 103–4
- Global Electoral Organization (GEO), 27
- global norms, for electoral integrity
 - for campaign communications, 30–31
 - under Code of Good Practice in Electoral Matters, 24
 - conceptual definition of, 22
 - CSCE standards for, 24
 - cultural diversity and, 22–23
 - with electoral monitoring, 28
 - evolution of, 26–31
 - expansion of elections under, 28
 - gender equality in elected office and, 28–30
 - ICCPR standards for, 23–24
 - life cycle theory for, 26–28
 - limits of, 23–26
 - local internalization stage of, 27–28
 - NGOs and, 26–27
 - norm advocacy stage for, 26–27
 - norm cascade stage of, 27
 - political finance regulation influenced by, 30
 - role in politics for, 22
 - scope of, 23–26
 - state-level endorsement of, 22–23
 - under UN General Assembly, 24–26
 - Universal Declaration of Human Rights and, 22
 - voting rights for women, expansion of, 28–30
- Global Programme for Electoral Cycle Support (GPEC), 202
- Gongadze, Georgiy, 184
- Gore, Albert. *See* 2000 presidential election, in U.S.
- GPEC. *See* Global Programme for Electoral Cycle Support (GPEC)
- Haiti, elections in, 88
- Harare Commonwealth Declaration, 6
- Hasanli, Jamil, 9
- Help America Vote Act (HAVA) (U.S.), 150–51, 174, 177
- Electoral Assistance Commission and, 178–79
- Hoeffler, Anke, 155
- Hogarth, William, 88
- human rights
 - electoral integrity and, 5–6, 204–5
 - electoral malpractice and, 5–6
- Human Rights Watch, 27
- hybrid regimes, 175–76
- Hyde, Susan, 42, 51–52, 82–83.
 - See also* *National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy* (NELDA)
- ICCPR. *See* International Covenant for Civil and Political Rights (ICCPR)
- ICRG. *See* International Country Risk Group (ICRG)
- IDEA. *See* International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (IDEA)
- IEA. *See* International Association for Evaluation of Educational Achievement (IEA)
- IEM. *See* *Index of Electoral Malpractice* (IEM)
- IFES. *See* International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES)
- Index of Electoral Malpractice* (IEM), 42, 52–53, 55, 56
- Index on Censorship, 27
- India, electoral management in, 87
- indirect elections, 79
- Inglehart, Ronald, 117
- Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI), 153
- International Association for Evaluation of Educational Achievement (IEA), 93
- International Country Risk Group (ICRG), 135
- International Covenant for Civil and Political Rights (ICCPR), 205
 - electoral malpractice and, 75–76
 - global norms and, standards for, 23–24
- International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, 6
- International Covenant on Economic, Social and Cultural Rights, 6, 205
- International Foundation for Electoral Systems (IFES), 27, 61, 202
- International Idea, 26

- International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (IDEA), 202
- Jonathan, Goodluck, 18, 103, 154
- Kazakhstan, electoral autocracies in, 4
- Kelley, Judith, 42, 53–54, 55, 56
- Kenya
 civil disobedience in, 18
 electoral integrity in, 18
 electoral malpractice in, 18
 post-election violence in, 146–47
- Kibaki, Mwai, 18, 146–47
- Kuchma, Leonid, 184
- Kyrgyzstan, public knowledge about electoral malpractices in, 103
- Lijphart, Arend, 155
- Lindberg, Staffan, 7, 55
- Lipset, Seymour Martin, 14
 on political legitimacy, 114
- loser of elections, political legitimacy for, 120–21, 139
- Maastricht Treaty, 22
- mandate theory, of democratic elections, 37
- Marinov, Nicholas, 42, 51–52, 82–83.
 See also National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)
- media. *See also* political communications, for electoral malpractices
 electoral malpractice through, 88–89
 political legitimacy influenced by, 116–17
- Mexico
 political activism in, 17, 153
 PRI in, 153
- military regimes, 80–81
- Milošević, Slobodan, 185
- Mironov, Sergey, 181
- monarchies
 absolute, 3–4
 non-elected leaders and, 80
- Mubarak, Hosni, 87
- Nairobi Forward-looking Strategies, 29
- National Democratic Institute for International Affairs (NDI), 202–3
- National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*, 42, 51–52
 dichotomous approach to regimes, 51
 electoral malpractice criteria and, 51–52, 82–83
 for electoral violence, 155–57
- natural and field experiments, for electoral integrity, 69–71
- Nazarbayev, Nursultan, 64
- NDI. *See* National Democratic Institute for International Affairs (NDI)
- negative media, political legitimacy influenced by, 116–17
- NELDA. *See National Elections across Democracy and Autocracy (NELDA)*
- Nieto, Enrique Peña, 153
- Nigeria
 electoral integrity in, 18, 154
 PDP in, 18
 public knowledge about electoral malpractices in, 103
- non-elected leaders, 79–80
- monarchies and, 80
- non-elected parliaments, 78
- non governmental organizations (NGOs).
 See also specific NGOs
 in Ghana, 104
- global norms for electoral integrity and, 26–27, 205
- political finance regulation influenced by, 30
- OAS. *See* Organization of American States (OAS)
- Odinga, Raila, 18, 146–47
- Orange Revolution, in Ukraine, 98, 183–86
- Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE), 27, 41
 in Russia, 182
 in Ukraine, 185–86
- Organization of American States (OAS), 27, 41
 political finance regulation and, 30
- OSCE. *See* Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE)
- Quattara, Alassane, 152–53
- partisan cues, about electoral malpractice, 97–98
- PDP. *See* People's Democratic Party (PDP)
- peace-building states, 86–88
- PEI. *See* Perceptions of Electoral Integrity
- People's Democratic Party (PDP), 18
- Perceptions of Electoral Integrity (PEI), 41, 42, 48–50, 56–59, 207–14
 cultural biases in, 50
 electoral experts in, 48–49
 for electoral malpractice and, 83–86
- political activism
 in Armenia, 152
 electoral integrity and, 12, 16–17, 143

- electoral malpractices and, 12, 16-17, 142
- in Mexico, 17, 153
- political participation and, 140-41
- regime transitions and, 176-77
- in Russia, 17, 152
- in U.K., 151
- political communications, for electoral malpractices, 96
- in virtual circle thesis, 96
- political corruption. *See* corruption, political, under electoral autocracies
- political finance regulation
 - Citizens United vs. FEC* and, 180
 - electoral malpractice and, 88-89
 - global norms for electoral integrity and, 30
 - NGOs as influence on, 30
 - OAS and, 30
 - in U.S., deregulation of, 5, 180
- political knowledge
 - about electoral malpractices, 92-93
 - IEA survey on, 93
 - lack of improvement of, among U.S. citizens, 93
- political legitimacy
 - agenda-setting theory of, 118
 - attitudinal dimensions of, 114-15
 - attitudinal evidence of, 117-21
 - components of, 15
 - cultural dimensions of, 114-15
 - elections as influence on, 115-16
 - electoral integrity and, 12, 14-16, 121-28
 - failed elections and, 128-31, 132
 - lack of, 116
 - for Lipset, 114
 - losers of elections and, perceptions of, 120-21
 - negative media as influence on, 116-17
 - origin theories for, 116-17
 - system support approach to, 118, 129
 - theoretical framework for, 114-17
 - theory of social capital and, 117
 - after 2000 presidential election, public questions about, 130-31
 - violence and, 115
 - winners of elections and, perceptions of, 120-21
 - WVS for, 119-20
- political participation
 - cost and benefits of voting and, 133-34
 - electoral integrity as influence on, 136-37, 140
 - electoral malpractice and, public opinion of, 134
 - factors for, 133, 135-36, 139-40
 - ICRG measures and, 135
 - increased voting regulations as influence on, 143
 - interpretation of, 136
 - political activism and, 140-41
 - quality of elections influenced by, 137-41
 - in U.S., restrictions against, 179-80
 - violence as influence on, 146
- polyarchy framework, for democracy, 37
- post-Communist Europe, democracy in, 176-77
- power-sharing democracies, 155
- EMBs and, 155
- PRI. *See* Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI)
- Prokhorov, Mikhail, 181
- public knowledge, about electoral malpractices. *See also* political knowledge
 - agenda-setting model for, 98
 - in *The American Voter*, 92
 - civics test approach to, 92-93
 - through direct experience, 95-96
 - evidence of, 98-107
 - through formal education, 96-97
 - in Ghana, 103-4
 - in Kyrgyzstan, 103
 - limited observable information as influence on, 94
 - mass-elite congruence of, 98-100
 - through matching disaggregated judgments, 100-4
 - micro-level analysis of, for electoral integrity, 104-7, 108
 - in Nigeria, 103
 - partisan cues about, 97-98
 - through political communications, 96
 - as poorly informed, 92
 - public concern about, 107-9
 - rational, 92-94
 - rational assessments of, 94-98
 - in Ukraine, 100, 103
 - through WVS, 98
 - in Zimbabwe, 102-3
- public opinion
 - on electoral integrity, 12, 13-14, 105
 - evidence methodology through, for electoral integrity, 61-68
 - as poorly informed, 92-94
 - rational, 92-94
 - in Russia, of electoral integrity, 15
 - "top of the head," 93
 - voting behavior and, 92

Putin, Vladimir, 181

Quality of Elections Data (QED), 42, 53–54

rational choice theory, 172–73

for electoral violence, 148

regime transitions, 169. *See also* Nigeria;
Russia; Ukraine

revolutionary uprisings and, 176–77

regimes, electoral integrity and

agenda-setting stage for, 170

democratization by, 130

electoral reform within, 172

evaluation feedback loop for, 170

hybrid, 175–76

implementation stage for, 170

institutional equilibrium and, 170–72

institutional stasis for, 169

policy-making stage for, 170

rational choice theory and, 172–73

reform concessions for, 169, 170–75

state repression by, 169

status quo for, 170–72

in US, 177–81

Reporters without Borders, 27

Reynolds, Andrew, 49

Rothstein, Bo, 116, 117

Russett, Bruce, 19

Russia

electoral autocracies in, 4

electoral fairness in, public perception of, 15

electoral integrity in, 15, 181–83

electoral malpractices in, 182–83

OSCE monitoring in, 182

partial political concessions in, 181–83

political activism in, 17, 152

state repression in, 68–69, 176, 181–83

Sarkozy, Nicholas, 5

Schedler, Andreas, 33–34

Spain, electoral malpractice in, 5

State Duma. *See* Russia

state repression

in electoral autocracies, 151–53

evidence methodology for electoral
integrity, 68–69

by regime, electoral integrity and, 169

in Russia, 68–69, 176, 181–83

system support approach, 15–16, 118, 129

Take Back Parliament, 151

theory of social capital, 117

transitional governments, electoral integrity
with, 19

Tsvangirai, Morgan, 4, 102

2000 presidential election, in U.S.

electoral integrity issues during, 17

HAVA after, 150–51

questions of political legitimacy after,
130–31

voter fraud during, public perceptions of, 97

Tyler, Tom, 15

Tymoshenko, Yulia, 184

U.K. *See* United Kingdom (U.K.)

Ukraine

Orange Revolution in, 98, 183–86

OSCE monitoring in, 185–86

public knowledge about electoral
malpractices in, 100, 103

regime transitions in, 69

UN General Assembly, electoral integrity
guidelines of, 24–26

UNDP. *See* United Nations Development
Programme (UNDP)

UNESCO. *See* United Nations Education,
Science and Cultural Organization
(UNESCO)

United Kingdom (U.K.)

Corrupt and Illegal Practices Act in, 88

electoral malpractice in, 5

political activism in, 151

United Nations Development Programme
(UNDP), 27, 203

United Nations Education, Science and
Cultural Organization (UNESCO), 31

United States (U.S.). *See also* 2000
presidential election, in U.S.

Affordable Care Act in, 180

ballot box maladministration in, 180

campaign spending in, 5, 180

Civil Rights Act, 35

electoral malpractice in, 4–5

electoral reform strategies in, 181

HAVA in, 150–51, 174, 177

increased voting regulations in, 143

partisan gerrymandering in, 180–81

political knowledge in, lack of improvement
for, 93

political participation in, restrictive
requirements for, 179–80

presidential elections in, 177–81

reform debates and, 68

voter eligibility requirements in, 179

- voter fraud legislation in, 97
- Voting Rights Act in, 174
- Universal Declaration of Human Rights
 - campaign communication guidelines under, 30–31
 - electoral integrity standards under, 23, 39
 - electoral malpractice and, 75–76
 - gender equality under, 29
 - global acceptance of, 22
 - voting rights under, 6, 29
 - women under, equal rights for, 29
- US-AID, 27
- violence. *See* electoral violence
- virtual circle thesis, 96
- vote choice, 37
- voter fraud legislation, in U.S., 97
- voting act, 37
- voting behavior
 - cost and benefits of, 133–34
 - public opinion and, 92
- voting rights
 - Universal Declaration of Human Rights and, 6, 29
 - for women, expansion of, 28–30
- Voting Rights Act (1965) (U.S.), 174
- voting technologies, electoral malpractice with, 88–89
- Wilkinson, Steve, 146
- winners of elections, political legitimacy for, 120–21, 139
- women
 - Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women, 29
 - under Universal Declaration of Human Rights, 29
 - voting rights for, expansion of, 28–30
- World Plan of Action, 29
- World Values Survey (WVS), 64–66
 - electoral context in, by nation, 215–22
 - for political legitimacy, 119–20
 - on public knowledge about electoral malpractices, 98
- Yanukovich, Viktor, 98
- Yunukovych, Victor, 184
- Yushchenko, Viktor, 184, 185
- Zaller, John, 93
- Zhirinovskiy, Vladimir, 181
- Zimbabwe
 - electoral autocracies in, 4
 - public knowledge about electoral malpractices in, 102–3
- Zyuganov, Gennady, 181, 183

"Why Electoral Integrity Matters is a wide-ranging study that is essential reading for anyone interested in electoral integrity. Pippa Norris draws together an impressive array of evidence to provide a comprehensive analysis of the consequences of problem elections. This insightful volume will undoubtedly prove to be a seminal work in the burgeoning study of electoral conduct."

– Sarah Birch, University of Glasgow

"Electoral integrity is now a household word in election assessment parlance, but it has been unclear what it means and how it matters. Countries vary considerably in their level of electoral integrity, which subsequently impacts on democratization. Professor Norris's new book analyzes the concept thoroughly and demonstrates convincingly how and why electoral integrity matters. It is a must for all who are genuinely interested in election-related issues and their role in the world of today."

– Jørgen Elklit, Aarhus University and University of Cape Town

"There are numerous international commitments and global norms related to elections. Pippa Norris convincingly argues that we should take them seriously and use them as the basis for evaluating elections. Failing to do so can undermine political legitimacy and public confidence in the process. A must-read."

– Thad Hall, University of Utah

PIPPA NORRIS is the McGuire Lecturer in Comparative Politics at the John F. Kennedy School of Government, Harvard University, and Laureate Fellow and Professor of Government and International Relations at the University of Sydney.

Cover image: The Election: Canvassing for Votes.
Courtesy of © Beryl Peters Collection / Alamy.

Cover design by Holly Johnson

CAMBRIDGE
UNIVERSITY PRESS
www.cambridge.org

ISBN 978-1-107-05280-2

